

Glenn K. Fluegge
**Johann Gerhard (1582–1637) and the
Conceptualization of *Theologia* at the
Threshold of the »Age of Orthodoxy«**
The Making of the Theologian



Oberurseler Hefte Ergänzungsband 21





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Glenn K. Fluegge

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Dedication

To my unsung heroine, my tireless companion, my beloved wife, Susan.

This would not have happened without you.

Te amo

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Preface

This study was born out of the classroom, from nearly two decades of engaging students from many different parts of the world in what has come to be called ‘theological education.’ Of course, that experience gave rise to the endless search for more effective ways of educating students theologically. And that, in turn, has led to participation in the wider conversation about theological education in general. Indeed, Edward Farley ([1983] 2001:3) was right some three and half decades ago when he quipped, ‘Complaints about theological education are as old as theological education itself.’ While the plethora of literature on the *methodus studii theologici* in the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries and on the *encyclopedia theologica* of the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries attest to the truth of this statement, there seems to be a growing foreboding sense of aimlessness and groundlessness in today’s theological education that surpasses that of years past.

As church historian Richard Muller (1991:20) pointed out already two and half decades ago, despite the profusion of theological education systems being employed both at home and abroad, the contemporary problem continues of a ‘certain intellectual and spiritual distance between dogmatic system and Christian piety or the Christian pulpit.’ The modern dichotomy between theory and practice, inadvertently and somewhat ironically initiated by the eighteenth century Pietists (Farley [1983] 2001:61, see also pp. 49–72; cf. Muller 2003:120–121) and exacerbated and conventionalized by the Deweyan Pragmatism of the United States, continues to be the center of conversations about theological education. Consequently, the study of theology is often reduced to the acquisition of mere professional skills or, to a lesser extent, the cultivation of mere personal spirituality. In both cases, such a narrowing of the theological endeavor renders the knowledge component of *theologia* virtually irrelevant. Of course, the opposite is at times also the case whereby the learning of theological knowledge is divorced from personal spirituality and professional practice.

In the search to regain some semblance of bearing for the future, many scholars are looking backwards into the past (e.g., Farley [1983] 2001; Muller 1991; Hütter 2000) – not because of some desire to anachronistically relive the past, but because understanding where we have trod may help us plot a way forward. Such a venture is not risk free. The tendency to imitate an idealized past in the search for direction in the present has often led to shallow, cursory solutions (e.g., adjusting the list of courses, increasing required field work, changing teaching methods). As important as these solutions may be for addressing immediate problems and particular contexts, they are, after all is said and done, exactly that – responses to immediate problems and particular contexts, and therefore inherently fleeting and temporary. Ironically, as Farley ([1983] 2001:3–6) has pointed out, these problems are actually only surface symptoms of what may be a much deeper underlying prob-

lem only to be found at the level of presuppositions upon which theological education is built.

In pondering the many and varied presuppositional influences on theological education, it seems that one stands out above them all – the concept of ‘theology’ itself. How does our understanding of the very concept of theology shape our approach to theological education? After all, the question of how to study theology is steeped in that seemingly simple, yet surprisingly evasive, question: What is theology in the first place?

This study, then, is not primarily about theological education, per se, but is an attempt to get at that fundamentally important question about the nature of theology. Of course, in doing so, it is also about theological education because any investigation into the *nature* of theology necessarily leads one to ponder how one might appropriate or *study* that theology. In other words, the question regarding theology can never be separated from the question of how the theologian is made¹ – hence the title of this book. It is also the underlying reason for the last chapter.

That question about the nature of theology has been answered in a surprisingly wide variety of ways over the ages and, consequently, has led to significantly different approaches to carrying out the theological task. A study such as this could pick up the history of that rather elusive term *theologia* at nearly any point in the two thousand year history of the Christian Church. There have been times throughout that history, however, when the debate over the nature of theology has surfaced more so than at other times. For example, in the first few centuries after the Church’s birth, Augustine delved into the nature of the theological task in his *De doctrina christiana*. Some eight hundred years later, Thomas Aquinas addressed the same topic in his magnum opus, the *Summa theologiae*, reflecting and further provoking throughout the late Middle Ages a lengthy debate over the true nature of theology. That same debate was again picked up by Protestant and Roman Catholic theologians in the seventeenth century, that period of time that has been dubbed rather disparagingly the ‘Age of Orthodoxy.’ And the list could go on.

This study focuses on this ‘Age of Orthodoxy’ and hones in on one influential theologian within the Lutheran confession of faith. One of the reasons, as will become clear below, is that Johann Gerhard (1582–1637) is somewhat of a transitional figure within Christianity and especially within Lutheranism. His service as ecclesiastical superintendent and then university professor of theology during the first decades of the seventeenth century was during a time of transition in the theological culture of German Lutheranism, occasioned by the reintroduction of Aristotelian thought into the theological conversation of that time. In fact, it was that very Aristotelian thought that formed the framework for and enabled an ongoing conver-

1 I first encountered this idea in a short article on theological education according to Martin Luther: ‘*Oratio, Meditatio, Tentatio*: What Makes a Theologian?’ (Kleinig 2002). That it has shaped the title of this book reveals Gerhard’s keen desire to follow in Luther’s footsteps on this very topic.

sation directly addressing the very question that lies at the heart of this study: What is theology?

In one way or another, that conversation revolved around the relation between theology and piety (i.e., personal spirituality including faith and the life lived in faith). Is the study of theology essentially the same as the pursuit of piety or are they two separate endeavors? In other words, what does theology have to do with faith? This is an ever relevant question, as evidenced by the current debate over whether the university should offer courses in 'religious studies' or 'theology.' During Gerhard's time, no one was even remotely suggesting a course of studies like one might find in the 'religious studies' departments of some universities today. Regardless, while there were some who nearly equated theology and piety (e.g., Johann Arndt), there were others who viewed them as distinctly separate endeavors (e.g., Georg Calixt). Most fell in between these extremes, with some leaning more toward the former and others more toward the latter.

This question and the conversation it occasioned were accompanied by other trends within Lutheranism. One of those trends, which has been documented by recent research (see, e.g., Schorn-Schütte 1996, 2000, and the series of essays treating this topic in Dixon & Schorn-Schütte 2003), was the increasing professionalization of the clergy, which naturally coincided with a rise in the theological education level of pastors. There was a necessary correlation between the two. The increasing education of the Lutheran (and Protestant) clergy was due in great part to the fact that pastors were now chiefly responsible for the interpretation of Scripture and the preaching of that Word, rather than focused on the mere facilitation of prescribed rituals (Dixon & Schorn-Schütte 2003:11). So, although it did vary from one territory to the next, a university education with at least some time spent in the post-graduate theology faculty was increasingly common among the clergy as more and more congregations sought better educated pastors.

It is understandable within this context that the concept of theology would also undergo a parallel shift toward increasingly being viewed as an academic discipline within the academy or university setting. Although certainly none of those involved in the conversation would offhandedly dismiss faith as unimportant when studying theology, treating theology as an academic discipline did call into question its relation to faith and piety. Of course, the 'shift' or 'transition' referred to here was far from an abrupt change in direction. It was gradual and more a matter of emphasis than outright assertion. Yet one can detect that emphasis through subtle changes in the way that one spoke about theology. For instance, since other university disciplines were often classified as *habitus* per Aristotle's intellectual virtues, identifying theology as a *habitus* clearly indicated that it, too, was an academic discipline. Another clear indication was the orientation of theology's practical goal. Was theology a matter of personally 'coming' to faith or a matter of 'leading' others to faith? Although subtle, the latter way of talking about theology revealed a more professionalized view of theology that was also more academically inclined. Of course,

shifts throughout history often bring about tension and eventual conflict and this shift was no different. Some feared greatly that viewing theology as a university academic discipline would inevitably drive a wedge between it and faith and piety. And they protested adamantly.

Johann Gerhard and his thoughts about theology are situated squarely in the middle of this shift and the controversies it occasioned. He is, thus, a very transitional figure. His response to the central question of this book reveals a theologian who is pulled in two directions, sensitive to the past, but also attentive to the future, and he incorporates both ways of understanding theology into his own concept of it and into his advice regarding its study. This book seeks to offer a more nuanced understanding of Gerhard's transitional concept of theology that includes in a rather innovative way both the intellect and the will and to investigate its connection to other important aspects of the theologian's life, such as faith, piety, theological study, and pastoral ministry.

As we explore these themes, a few caveats are worth heeding. One of my underlying concerns in this study has been to call into question what I consider are inaccurate and unfair caricatures of the theologians of the so-called 'Age of Orthodoxy' and to promote a more accurate interpretation of what these theologians were about. Surely the responsive nature of Gerhard's statements on theology belies the caricature of seventeenth century theologians as sterile and uncreative. It is also worth clarifying, however, that the 'shift' as talked about in this study and to which Gerhard responds does not at all refer to the supposed shift from the vibrant and creative theology of Luther to the allegedly dull and unresponsive theology of those later theologians who followed the reformer, whether it be Gerhard or others. In the century after Luther, theological treatises, admittedly quite voluminous at times, were an accepted and helpful way of conversing about theological topics that were held to be of the utmost importance. These treatises must be considered alongside works of other genres of literature, often devotional in nature, that reflect a deep concern for personal piety and pastoral care. Even the theological treatises reflect a serious desire to heed what had been inherited from their theological forebears while creatively interacting with contemporary political, social, and ecclesiastical issues (see, e.g., the series of essays in Friedrich, Salatowsky, & Schorn-Schütte 2017).

Moreover, the shift from a personally oriented to a more professionally oriented definition of theology (from *auto-praxis* to *allo-praxis*) should not be interpreted as a shift from a practically oriented theology to one of ivory towers and lofty ideas that had little to do with the common person. This lingering misconception has discolored the 'Age of Orthodoxy' in less than accurate ways, as an increasing number of scholars are beginning to recognize. What may lie behind this misconception is the persistent idea, so very common in contemporary thought, that Christianity (and all religions) falls in the domain of personal feelings and is therefore

devoid of any substantive knowledge and information.² Such a view of Christian theology would find no place for it in the university curriculum. Within this mindset, it becomes very difficult to understand how treatises on doctrinal knowledge could be considered in any way practical.

The historical reality is that Lutheran theologians, in contrast to some theologians of other confessions, were almost all agreed that theology was a practical endeavor. In other words, they agreed that one did not study theology purely for the sake of attaining theological knowledge, but one attained that knowledge for a practical purpose. The aforementioned shift was in regard to the *orientation* of that practical purpose as expressed in their definitions of theology, that is, from one practical purpose (salvation of oneself) to another (salvation of others). Of course, those before the shift were very much concerned with pastoral care just as those after the shift were concerned with personal piety. Luther, whose own concept of theology was decidedly *auto*-oriented, was very attentive to the question of pastoral care. In fact, his concern for the salvation of his parishioners at Wittenberg seems to have been one of the underlying motivations for the *95 Theses*, the very spark that set off the entire Reformation.

Nonetheless, the ideal (e.g., definitions of theology) ought not to be so readily separated from the actual (pastoral and church practice). The gradual shift in emphasis in the conceptualizations of theology throughout the late sixteenth and seventeenth centuries is not insignificant. Many feared the practical repercussions that this shift would bring about in the long-term when it came to church practice and pastoral formation. Not only did their resistance to this shift give rise to serious controversies but their concerns were later picked up by forerunners of the Pietist movement (Friedrich 2004:314–115). Moreover, in important ways these doctrinal statements give us a glimpse into how theologians perceived themselves, their task, and their place within the larger society (cf. Nieten 2006:3, 8). As mentioned earlier, they reflect and contributed to actual social changes and movements, such as the emergence of the clergy as a professional class. The *actual* impact and effect that these statements of the *ideal* had within their historical setting render a close analysis of their content all the more valuable (see Appold 2004:7–8). Hence, more fully understanding Johann Gerhard's carefully crafted statements about the nature of theology provides a helpful complement to existing and future studies on the early modern Protestant clergy.

Of course, one would hope that any historical study such as this goes beyond merely clarifying and elucidating historical facts or even amending certain misconstruals of Gerhard's thinking, important as both of those are. Surely there are benefits for the present and future as well. Indeed, one of the underlying implications is that a study such as this provides what the prominent historian John Lewis Gaddis

2 See *The Idea of a University* (Newman 1907) for an excellent discussion and defense of theology as knowledge in response to contemporary views to the contrary.

(2002:4) has called an 'expanded horizon' for those currently involved in the theological education endeavor. The grinding daily routine and pressing academic responsibilities tempt the theological educator to focus on immediate experiences in striving to understand the predicament of and possible solutions for the study of theology. The problem is that such direct experience is always severely limited. As mentioned earlier, it very seldom leads to deep understanding and, thereby, to enduring solutions. One needs to step back, to regain perspective, and to take a new look from afar. History provides this occasion because it 'lifts us above the familiar to let us experience vicariously what we can't experience directly: a wider view' (Gaddis 2002:5).

Although this study has focused rather narrowly on the thinking of one individual in the seventeenth century and delved deeply into only one aspect of his theology, precisely by doing so it attempts to provide such a 'wider view.' It invites the theologian and the theological educator to venture beyond the limited experience of the present theological education situation and to delve into the unfamiliar landscape of the past – specifically into the thinking of Johann Gerhard who, as senior theology professor at Jena, also faced equally important and pressing questions about theological education. One of those was that deceptively simple, yet enduring, question: What is theology in the first place? The extent to which Gerhard has perhaps offered a way forward in the midst of today's current conversation regarding the relation between doctrine, faith, personal spirituality, and professional practice in what has come to be known as 'theological education' is a question for the reader. It is, at least, worth pondering.

In any case, through Gerhard the theological educator of today is introduced to the theological thinking of another epoch. Horizons are expanded and presuppositions challenged about how theological education could, or perhaps even should, be done. Far from irrelevant and archaic, the research presented here constitutes in many ways a plea for continued dialogue with the theologians (and, therefore, theological educators) of an oft forgotten age as we ponder together how one goes about 'making' the theologian.

Undertaking a study such as this is never a solitary venture, despite what the title page might indicate. I am so very well aware of this. To express the depth of my gratitude to the full breadth of people involved is certainly far beyond the scope of this short preface. Nonetheless, at least a few words are in order

In some ways this book bridges three continents. It is the revised version of a study accepted as a doctoral dissertation by the Theology Faculty of the University of Pretoria in South Africa. Although I started it on the African continent, the vast majority of the research and writing took place in the United States. Prof. Dr. Werner Klän, rector of the *Lutherische Theologische Hochschule* in Oberursel, Germany, was kind enough to serve as my doctoral supervisor and, afterwards, as the editor for the book series in which this book now appears. From our first informal conversations in South Africa to the final revisions of the dissertation and now the

book, his endless encouragement and support have been indispensable. Likewise, my former professor and current mentor, Prof. Dr. Robert Kolb was and continues to be a valuable source of advice and encouragement, as well as a seemingly endless source of knowledge and wisdom when it comes to early modern Lutheranism.

Two individuals have worked tirelessly to ‘unlock’ the German and Latin writings of early modern theologians such as Johann Gerhard for those of us Anglophones. Many thanks go to both of them: Elmer Hohle and the late Richard Dinda. Their gracious and eager willingness to offer advice regarding particularly difficult Latin texts, to help with translations, and to share unpublished manuscripts made the perusal of original sources all the more feasible.

I owe thanks to my many colleagues at Concordia University Irvine for their encouragement and many a helpful conversation that fed into the pages that follow. Special thanks are due to Steve Mueller, dean of Christ College, for helping me arrange my work load to make room for the necessary researching and writing. I wish to also thank Axel Wittenberg of Neumünster, Germany, for his selfless help in penetrating some of Gerhard’s manuscripts in Old German.

My deepest heartfelt gratitude goes to my dear wife, Susan, who patiently and lovingly put up with an absent and preoccupied husband for many a long night and yet remained a stalwart source of encouragement and inspiration. The many sacrifices she has made on my behalf have not gone unnoticed. Similarly, I would like to thank my children, Samuel, Abigail, Caleb, Jesse, and Eliana, for their patient understanding of a father whose time has often been more preoccupied with a man from four hundred years ago and less engaged with them in the here and now.

Finally, I am sure Johann Gerhard would join me in saying: *Soli Deo Gloria!*

About this Book

Dominating the Wittenberg Reformation was the concern for good pastoral care. Luther, Melanchthon, and their colleagues drafted their plans and appeals for reform in response to the crisis of pastoral care that had driven late medieval theologians and preachers to seek ever cheaper ways of marketing the commodity of grace. Luther broke the mold and changed the paradigm for thinking about pastoral care by discarding and condemning the old system based upon a view of humanity that required human beings to perform good works in order to maintain and secure God's favor, even in the thinking of those who believed that God's prevenient grace initiated the restoration of human relationships with God.¹

The Wittenberg solution included a redefinition of being Christian that laid aside the dependence on human performance, particularly in ritual forms, in sacred, religious activities. This new delineation of the Christian's existence emphasized that God approaches sinners and does so as a Creator who re-creates sinners into children of God through speaking. The Word of God had initiated all that exists in Genesis 1. That same Word also initiated the Christian life, from rebirth through baptism or some other form of the gospel promise to the motivation and instruction of living out the implications of trusting God's word of forgiveness and new life, centered on what God is saying to his people. Key for this process in Luther's mind was the conveying of the message of Scripture to the people of God and to those outside the faith. Although Luther believed that all the baptized were called to be speaking God's Word to others, key for this conveying was the public office of the pastoral ministry. Therefore, the Wittenberg Reformation was, among other things, a reformation of theological education and the curriculum of the faculty of theology. Biblical interpretation dominated the new curriculum that gradually emerged in the 1520s and became established formally in 1533.²

As historical developments occur and there emerge the new needs of the church and new perceptions of how pastoral ministry and its foundations in theological education should function, new issues in theological education and new thinking about the goals and methods of theological education also emerge. In the changing world of the early seventeenth century Johann Gerhard provided leadership for Lutherans in the German-speaking lands and beyond in a number of ways. Once metaphysics had become an important tool for seeking and expressing theological truths, a new quest began to define the precise nature and goals of the theological

1 On Luther's redefinition of being Christian, see Robert Kolb, *Martin Luther and the Enduring Word of God. The Wittenberg School and its Scripture-Centered Proclamation* (Grand Rapids: Baker Academic, 2016), 1–10; on the attempts to make pastoral care effective under the medieval system of gaining merit, see Bernd Hamm, *Abläss und Reformation. Erstaunliche Kohärenzen* (Tübingen: Mohr Siebeck, 2016).

2 Walter Friedensburg, *Urkundenbuch der Universität Wittenberg 1* (Magdeburg: Historische Kommission, 1926):155; cf. Kolb, *Luther and the Enduring Word*, 242–244.

task and for setting forth the presuppositions that governed its practice. Gerhard could not avoid injecting his own person and perceptions into this quest. Personally, he combined a firm command of the highest scholarly methods of the day, an ecumenical vision that brought him into conversation and often critical exchange with representatives of other churches and traditions, and a deep personal piety. Born of his pious upbringing, his illness, and his intensive engagement with Scripture, formed by his belief that God was addressing him directly from its pages, his approach to theology was anchored in his trust in Jesus Christ. This trust and its view of the world exhibited itself as he taught and reflected upon his calling as teacher of God's Word. This combination led him to ponder 'what makes a theologian' in some new ways as he built upon and within the Lutheran tradition of preparing pastors for the service of God's Word in the congregations.

In the wake of the Enlightenment, and into the late twentieth century, Gerhard's period, frequently labeled 'Orthodoxy,' was often criticized, often by those who emphasized the necessity of keeping theology strictly within the bounds of scholarship set by other disciplines. If the criticism did not charge seventeenth century Lutherans with being too scholarly, it at least expressed its distaste for their being scholarly within the scholarly horizons set by the time, horizons determined by the Aristotelian inheritance of almost two millennia of scholarship. Some critics charge the 'Orthodox' of the seventeenth century with not being strict enough in their attempts to convey theology strictly as a scholarly discipline, displaying too much of their own piety – although these critics also complain of computer experts who wrote manuals they could not understand, of physicians who 'had no heart,' or of attorneys whose mastery of the letter of the law overpowered their sense of justice. Others have missed the warmth and vitality of Luther in the seventeenth century dogmatic works. What many of these critics missed in their reading of theologians from Leonhardt Hutter and Jakob Heerbrand to Ernst Valentin Löschner and David Hollaz was precisely how many of them combined the scholarly standards and agendas of their day with a faith and piety that directed theology to its true end in the practice of the faith and of the pastoral office. Johann Gerhard modeled this combination for those who came after him.

Glenn Fluegge brings more than two decades of experience in theological education on two continents, Africa and North America, into dialogue with the experiences that Gerhard gained on a third continent, Europe, nearly four hundred years ago. His cross-cultural sensitivities, cultivated by his work in western and southern Africa, serve him well in plumbing the depths of thinking of the tasks of preparing servants of the Word in our 'post-Constantinian' age on the basis of insights from the 'Constantinian' seventeenth-century context. For at its foundation the disposition that parishioners desire from the servant of the Word remains the same in every age at its core, even as its outward features take on new aspects and attributes.

Fluegge shows how Gerhard went far beyond the early attempts in Wittenberg, especially those of Melancthon, to use the Aristotelian concept of '*habitus*' to

describe the disposition necessary for the practice of the calling of the minister of God's Word. As is the case with all human beings, the actions of parish pastors grow out of their attitudes, which emerge from their character, which is formed by, as Luther designated, the 'god(s)' people have, that in which they place their trust. The servants of God's Word put into action the ideas they have about the reality of God and what it means to be human with the tools given them, both natural talents and theological learning. The way they practice the trade for which their theological education has prepared them reflects the attitudes they have toward God, other human beings, and all that God has created. Those attitudes have grown out of the character – the sense of how they are to view the world and operate within it – that is formed by that in which they put their trust. Trust in Jesus Christ as Lord and Savior, as liberator and life-restorer, molds a temperament and disposition, a personality and character, that generates attitudes that, in turn, produce the actions which convey who Christ is and what he has done for humankind that frames and informs the words which the pastor takes from Scripture to give to his parishioners.

As Fluegge explores how Gerhard viewed the disposition or *habitus* that constitutes the theologian, whom he was aiming to produce for the parishes of his Thuringia, readers come to see what it means that God makes theologians and how he uses professors and parishioners to complete the task. As we consider the challenges and besetting questions regarding the preparation of pastors and the practice of their calling in the twenty-first century, Gerhard is one of those individuals whose thinking rewards further contemplation and imaginative absorption, not only for Lutherans but for the larger Christian community, whom he was addressing as he engaged Roman Catholic, Reformed, and other theological voices in his day. Fluegge's study makes possible a conversation with the potential of great profit for the church in this day with his skillful listening and sprightly presentation of Johann Gerhard's vision, a vision that should command the attention of Christians around the world today.

Robert Kolb
Wolfenbüttel, the Festival of the Holy Trinity 2017

Introduction

This book is concerned with that deceptively simple question: What is theology? On the one hand, it appears quite uncomplicated. As many an elementary theological textbook has mentioned, the Latinized Greek word ‘*theo-logia*’ essentially means ‘speech about God.’ And as the late Gerhard Forde (1997:10) was quick to point out, ‘All of us are theologians in one way or another. Being a theologian just means thinking and speaking about God.’ On the other hand, as helpful as that succinct definition might be, an etymological analysis seldom reveals the underlying nuances and complexities of a word. And, indeed, this would seem to be the case with ‘theology.’ Of all those ‘doing theology’ the great variety of approaches within the Christian tradition both past and present would at least seem to belie it merely being a simple matter. As a matter of fact, the concept of *theologia* has experienced quite a few significant shifts in meaning over the last two and half millennia – from originally denoting the Greek mythical stories of the gods (cf. Bayer 2007:3–9), to referring to the mystical knowledge of the one true God, to identifying a disposition of the human soul, to its commonly accepted definition today as a deposit or collection of Christian truths, or as is perhaps more often the case, as a set of learned skills and techniques specifically aimed at the pastoral ministry (Farley [1983] 2001:49–98). So the question of the nature of theology is ever pertinent. But how do we get at that question and its rather elusive response?

1. Background

1.1 Age of Orthodoxy

It is far beyond the scope of this study to undertake the gargantuan task of tracing the nature of *theologia* and its consequent study throughout the history of Christianity.¹ As helpful as such studies are, their breadth seldom allows for the depth that we are looking for here. In order to examine the concept of *theologia* at the deeper and more nuanced level of presuppositions, a more feasible strategy would limit its focus to one particular era, and, furthermore, to one particular individual. And that is the approach adopted here.

This study limits its field of research to what is most commonly referred to as the age of ‘Orthodoxy,’² especially within Lutheranism.

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- 1 For such an overview, though mostly focused on Roman Catholic theology, see Congar 1968; for a more focused study on theology’s Medieval shift towards an academic discipline, see the more recent and helpful overview by Evans 1980; for a broad survey of the history of the study of theology, though mostly focused on the literature associated with it, see both volumes of Briggs 1916.
 - 2 This is a contested term and one that I use with hesitation because of reasons similar to those identified by Kolb (2006:431). The term ‘orthodoxy’ often carries the connotation of ‘dead’ and

Although there is not yet agreement on the chronological limits of this historical period, nor even on its terminology (see the helpful summary in Kolb 2006:431–434), of particular significance for this study is the fact that it occurred after the Reformation period and before the age of Enlightenment. Both were eras of tremendous widespread transition, perhaps remarkably so with respect to the commonly accepted understanding of the nature of *theologia* and its study. A focus on the period between the two will allow a look at the situation after the dust has settled from the rather turbulent years of the Reformation but before the radical changes that took place during the Enlightenment. Theologian and historian Robert Kolb (2006:430) has called this the ‘wide field of Lutheran Orthodoxy’ and he invites researchers to ‘venture onto this turf, much more fascinating than it is rumored to be, and perhaps even to stake out a claim to the many vacant lots still available.’ This study aims to make at least a small contribution to this ongoing effort.

1.2 Johann Gerhard

The age of Lutheran Orthodoxy, depending on the definition, spans a time frame of almost two hundred years. Such a wide scope would not allow us to dig deep enough to gain insight into deeper underlying themes and patterns that might very well be overlooked in a cursory overview stretching over two centuries – the narrower the study, the deeper the study. Such a deep study, albeit focused on one individual, will shed light generally on the time in which that individual lived. In other words, he will serve as a window allowing us to catch a glimpse of the broader context of the times.

Of course, this is only true if the individual is representative of his time. Johann Gerhard (1582–1637) is such an individual. Standing as a bridge between what Preus (1970:44–46) has labeled ‘the golden age of Orthodoxy’ and ‘high orthodoxy,’ Gerhard is a ‘link between two eras,’ a transitional figure holding on to older trends while adapting to new ideas (Appold 1998:23; see also Appold 2008:95–97). Kolb (2006:432) identifies him as a ‘kind of signpost for the beginning of “high orthodoxy”’ and Scharlemann (1964:8) viewed him more than any other theologian of his time as a ‘point of convergence’ of the various patterns of thought in his day.

After Martin Luther (1483–1546) and Martin Chemnitz (1522–1586), Johann Gerhard came to be recognized as the third preeminent theologian of the Lutheran Reformation, even during his own lifetime (cf. Fischer [1723] 2000:98–99).³ He

‘boring’ accompanied by a marked lack of creativity in the life of the church. This could not be further from the truth. As we will see below, Gerhard was a prolific writer of many genres of literature beyond that of ‘dogmatics,’ a pastor very concerned for the pious Christian lives of his parishioners, and a professor who was as equally concerned with the pious and pastoral cultivation of his students as with their dogmatic knowledge.

3 In 1635 Michael Walther wrote the following in a letter to Gerhard’s successor, Salomon Glassius (1593–1656): ‘That heavenly David, Christ Jesus, has from the beginning of the time of a very necessary Reformation seen and nourished more theologians of this sort in the orthodox Church,

was a prolific writer on a wide array of theological subjects ranging from his *opus magnum* of nine large quarto volumes (later published in twenty-three volumes), *Loci theologici* (1610–1625) to his pastoral devotional writings such as *Meditationes sacrae* (1606). The former was and still is celebrated as one of the greatest systematic writings in Lutheran history. More than two hundred years after Gerhard's death, C. F. W. Walther, a scholar on Lutheran Orthodoxy, described his *Loci* as the 'most glorious, most complete work in this field that has ever been achieved within Christendom, and until the Last Day it will probably remain the model for all who labor in this field' (as quoted in the editor's introduction to Gerhard [1625] 2009:xvii). The latter writing became immensely popular throughout Europe (even across confessions), was reprinted some 242 times, and translated into nearly every European language. Besides Arndt's *True Christianity* (1605/1610), it was the most successful Lutheran writing at the time in all of Europe.

Others have undertaken the task of recording the life of Gerhard.⁴ Such lies outside the task of the current study; nonetheless, a brief sketch is in order. Gerhard was born of noble lineage on October 17, 1582 in the town of Quedlinburg in northern Saxony. He grew up in that town and attended school there studying humanities (including languages). His father, Bartholomew Gerhard, was the treasurer of that city until the bubonic plague took his life in 1598. At the age of fifteen, Gerhard too fell dreadfully ill from that same plague but ended up recovering. During that time he was pastored and mentored by Johann Arndt (1555–1621), who was the current pastor at Quedlinburg. The two would remain in close life-long contact and friendship. In 1598 Gerhard left to continue his studies at the lyceum in Halberstadt. After completing his humanity studies, he entered the University of Wittenberg in 1599 and studied the ordinary undergraduate studies in philosophy (i.e., history, logic, ethics, mathematics, physics, and anthropology), after which he took up the study of medicine. In 1603, following the advice of Johann Arndt, he made a decision to honor a previous vow he had made at the age of fifteen during his dreadful illness and subsequently enrolled at the University of Jena to study theology. That same year he received his master's degree and began to give private lectures in philosophy. At the end of that year he again fell so ill that he wrote his last will and testament expecting to die. He recovered a few weeks later, but that testament included a confession of faith which would later serve as the outline for his *Loci*

truly courageous and very learned. Three of them, however, have without any doubt taken first place ahead of all the rest. There is no one who can reach easily their singular gifts and activities, namely, our countrymen Luther, Chemnitz and Gerhard.' (Fischer [1723] 2000:98–99)

- 4 The most detailed biography of Gerhard's life that I know of is Erdmann Rudolph Fischer's *Vita Ioannis Gerhardi* from 1723. An English translation entitled *The Life of John Gerhard* ([1723] 2000) is now available. Despite Fischer's rather flattering portrayal of Gerhard, the work appears quite well-researched (note the title and preface, pp. 1–11) and, therefore, remarkably reliable. A shorter summarized, yet still accurate, German version was written by Boettcher (1858): *Das Leben Dr. Johann Gerhards*. Other sketches in English of his life and works include Schmeling (2011) and Scharlemann's (1964:37–43) shorter overview.

theologici. He left the University of Jena for a time to attend the University of Marburg and study under the famed Balthasar Mentzer, with whom he remained lifelong friends. When that university reverted to Calvinism, he returned to Jena in order to finish his studies, receiving his doctorate in 1606. At that point, he turned down several other teaching opportunities to become the ecclesiastical superintendent of Heldburg. Part of his task was to organize regular theological disputations at the new gymnasium at nearby Coburg. During his time at Heldburg he married a young woman in 1608, but she died in 1611 shortly after the death of their only child. He married again in 1614 and his second wife bore him ten children. She and six of their children outlived him. He continued in this role for nine years, until 1615 when he was offered and accepted a call to serve as ecclesiastical regional superintendent at Coburg. A year later in 1616, Gerhard was offered and accepted a professorship at his alma mater, the University of Jena. He remained at the University of Jena until an illness took his life in May of 1637. While a professor at Jena, Gerhard's reputation was such that he received (and declined) some twenty-two calls to other positions and many sought after his advice as they had Luther's a century earlier (Preus 1970:52–53).

Gerhard's prolific writing career spanned his entire professional life, both as a pastor and ecclesiastic administrator and as a theology professor. As such, he writes from a somewhat unique perspective. As we proceed to examine in some depth some of these writings, we will attempt to place them in their context within this biographic framework.

2. Statement of Problem

2.1 Need for Microhistories

Oswald Bayer (2007:9) has pointed out that any understanding of *theologia* has to eventually deal with the 'relation and tension between faith and knowledge, spirituality (*pietas*) and scholarship (*eruditio*), the affects ... and the intellect, the heart and the head.' He further contends that Luther essentially equated his new understanding of *theologia* with faith, but through the use of his renowned *Trias* (*oratio*, *meditatio*, *tentatio*) the reformer was able to unite the two extremes into what he called the passive life (*vita passiva*) (Bayer 2007:24). That tension continued throughout the history of Lutheranism. In their advice on how to study *theologia*, Lutheran theologians, including Gerhard, assigned various roles to Luther's *Trias*.

The middle of the eighteenth century witnessed momentous changes in the arena of theological studies and, for the first time, Johann Lorenz von Mosheim (1693–1755) openly challenged the legitimacy of applying Luther's threefold theological method to academic theological studies. Mosheim and his later contemporary, Johann Salomo Semler (1725–1791), steered the study of theology in the direction of

becoming more ‘scientific’⁵ (i.e., academic, scholarly) in order to render it more acceptable to an enlightened society. The idea of *Wissenschaft* (*scientia*) in the modern sense of the term was popularized by the great German scientist Alexander von Humboldt (1769–1859) and made its way into the study of theology (Lutheran and Reformed) through individuals such as Friedrich Schleiermacher (1768–1834) (cf. Wischmeyer 2005:250–254). Through Schleiermacher’s *Brief Outline of Theological Study* (1811) the idea of theological study as ‘theological encyclopedia,’ which had already become popular half a century earlier, was given its conceptual grounding and justification. *Theologia* permanently shifted in meaning from a *habitus* to a collection of ‘sciences’ or what we might call ‘academic disciplines’ aimed at the education of clergy. As a result, according to Farley ([1983] 2001:73–98), since the beginning of the nineteenth century, theological studies have become progressively more “scientific” and, consequently, increasingly separated into distinct autonomous disciplines, each with its own method, means, and end.

This metanarrative stretching over several hundred years between the Reformation on the one end and the Enlightenment (and modernity) on the other proves helpful and such surveys have a necessary place in historiography. Notwithstanding, they depend on and are only as accurate as more focused narratives. And that is precisely the problem. As mentioned above, early modern Lutheranism in the ‘Age of Orthodoxy’ remains ripe for additional research in order to fill in the significant gaps that ‘cry out for study’ (Kolb 2006:429, 438). There is, therefore, a persistent need for ‘microhistories’ to clarify, adjust, and augment the existing macrohistories of early modern Lutheranism and Protestantism. Such microhistorical analyses will not content themselves with an overview from a distance, but will hone in on one particular individual, focus attention on one specific area of that person’s thought, and delve into the texts that he or she has left us. One of those historical figures who begs further attention is Johann Gerhard (cf. Steiger 1996:321) and, since he is posed at a transitional place in the larger post-Reformation Lutheran metanarrative, honing in on him and his thinking with regard to *theologia* will contribute significantly to the ongoing task of clarifying and sharpening the parameters of that metanarrative.

5 The Latin term and concept of *scientia* is always difficult to render into acceptable English (see the ‘Translators’ Preface’ to Bayer 2007:xx–xxi). I have chosen a straightforward translation using the common English term ‘science’ or ‘scientific’ with the following important caveat: Those terms as used in this study do *not* refer to the natural or physical sciences, but rather to the neo-Aristotelian concept of *scientia* and correlate to the early modern German idea of ‘Wissenschaft’ or, when applied to theology, ‘wissenschaftliche Theologie.’ At times I also use the terms ‘academic discipline’ and ‘academic theology’ more or less interchangeably with ‘science’ and ‘scientific theology’ respectively.

2.2 Need for Correctives

Such clarification is much needed because some less than accurate metanarratives are rather deeply entrenched in modern thinking. Therein lays one of the problems that have, generally speaking, plagued the study of the history of 'Orthodoxy.' The original 'recorders' of this history were scholars (e.g., Gottfried Arnold) heavily influenced by Pietism and consequently ultracritical of the 'Orthodox' theologians. These critical ideas were then passed on and replicated by later generations of historians, many of whom neglected reading the primary sources convinced that there was nothing of value to be discovered.⁶ The 'Age of Orthodoxy' was and, to a certain extent, continues to often be condemned and/or brushed aside as dry, dead, stubborn, and unnecessarily polemical and systematic, an age that regrettably lost the dynamism and spirit of the original reformers. The tendency of the 'Orthodox' theologians of the seventeenth century to employ Aristotelian categories has attracted accusations of intermingling philosophy with theology and betraying the fundamental principles of Luther, Melancthon, and the other reformers – hence the stigma behind the label 'protestant scholasticism.' And perhaps more than anything else, the 'Age of Orthodoxy' has often been accused of 'dogmatism' at the expense of personal piety or pastoral care and concern. The last is particularly surprising in light of, for example, Gerhard's numerous pastoral and devotional works such as *Meditationes sacrae* (1606), *Exercitium pietatis* (1612), *Enchiridion consolatorium* (1611), and his five volume work on *Schola pietatis* (1622–1623), with the aim of teaching Christians the purpose, virtue, and methods of acquiring piety. Gerhard was also an active churchman, as was normal at the time, and he published several collections of sermons.⁷ Fortunately, there is a growing number of voices over the past decades that have challenged the less than appreciative views on Orthodoxy and offer more favorable evaluations that seek to interpret the age within its own context (see, e.g., Preus 1970; Steiger 1996b; Appold 1998; Muller 2003). Nonetheless, old voices are sometimes difficult to silence.

Any study of Gerhard faces another challenge. As Steiger (1996b:334–335) puts it: How does one reconcile 'Gerhard, the dogmatician' with 'Gerhard, the pastor and mystic?' In other words, how does one investigate Gerhard's writings without pitting the Gerhard of the *Loci theologici* against the Gerhard of the *Meditationes sacrae*? In a recent dissertation, Kent Heimbißner (2001:10–18) identified four different ways in which Gerhard has historically been interpreted (the 'forget Gerhard' position; Gerhard the 'dead orthodoxist'; Gerhard the proto-pietist; Ger-

6 Preus (1970:19–21), Steiger (1996:320–321), and Appold (1998:1–2) likewise bemoan this tendency among historians.

7 Some of these collections are currently available in English: *Postilla: An Explanation of the Sunday and Most Important Festival Gospels of the Whole Year*, vols 1 ([1613] 2001) and 2 ([1613–1616] 2007). He also published a collection of devotional sermon contemplations entitled *An Explanation of the History of the Suffering and Death of our Lord Jesus Christ* ([1622] 1998).

hard the inconsistent)⁸, all of which, in his opinion, are legacies of Pietism attempting to ‘present itself as the necessary corrective.’ In his estimation, none of them truly come to grips with how Gerhard himself wishes to be interpreted. The present study shares the same concern, though for our purposes we might whittle it down to two major approaches. The first approach has tended to view Gerhard as concerned with faith and piety (as opposed to dogma and pure doctrine) and has been inclined to see him as a ‘proto-pietist,’ while the other has tended to view him as concerned with dogma and pure doctrine (as opposed to faith and piety) and has been inclined to see him as a ‘dead orthodoxist.’

Curiously, these views, as we shall see, also align surprisingly well with tendencies during Gerhard’s own lifetime to consider *theologia* as either ‘personal faith’ (and faith *praxis*) or as an ‘academic discipline’ (and professional *praxis*). The former was on its way out of use, while the latter was on its way in. That Gerhard’s own concept of *theologia*, as well as his advice regarding its study, is noticeably marked by these conflicting views naturally accounts for the later conflicting interpretations of his place in history. In retrospect, it seems that interpretations of Gerhard have historically often fallen prey to historiographical oversimplification, overlooking the precise relation that Gerhard posits between spirituality (*pietas*) and scholarship (*eruditio*). Consequently, analyzing that precise relation will go far in reconciling interpretations of Gerhard that have historically been at odds. Suffice it to say for now that our conclusions will lead us to not only reconcile faith and doctrine, but also harmonize Gerhard the dogmatician and Gerhard the pastor into one person as he would have so desired.

3. Statement of Purpose & Research Questions

As a man between eras and a bridge of sorts between the first and second waves of ‘orthodoxy,’ Johann Gerhard possessed a certain proclivity for integrating the old

8 On the one hand, Heimbigner (2001:11, 13–14) gives an example of ‘Gerhard the “dead orthodoxist”’ interpretation as found in *A History of Christianity* by Kenneth Scott Latourette, who reserved two paragraphs for Lutheran Orthodoxy in his two volume work: ‘In Lutheran circles increasing emphasis was given to dogma. The trend was towards making faith consist in intellectual assent to creedal statements. Theological discussion, a kind of Protestant scholasticism, tended to take the place of what faith meant to Luther, a commitment of the entire man, of which intellect was part but only a part. In the seventeenth century there came, as we shall see, a reaction in the form of Pietism. It stressed emotion, the commitment of the will, and conversion, and, while usually assenting to the historic confessions, made little of them.’ On the other hand, he gives an example of the ‘Gerhard the proto-pietist’ interpretation as found in Theodore Tappert’s introduction to his translation of Spener’s *Pia Desideria*: ‘The dominant emphasis on an intellectually formulated and exclusively delimited “pure teaching” was accompanied by other, although for the time being more subdued, currents. The great systematic theologian John Gerhard (1582–1637) accommodated himself to the prevailing orthodoxism, complaining privately in his correspondence about the need for reform, and cultivated a mystical religion which was borrowed from the late Middle Ages and was expressed in his *Sacred Meditations*.’

with the new, faithful to the legacy of the reformers, yet responsive to contemporary concerns. That Gerhard's concept of *theologia* represents a synthesis of the old and the new has been suggested by others (e.g., Bayer 2007:12; Steiger 1997:146; Friedrich 2004:269, fn. 124; Niden 2006:213; Sparr 1992:80–81). There remains a need, however, to determine *precisely* how they are related, since such a synthesis could be said of any number of theologians at the time whose conceptualizations of *theologia* differed significantly from that of Gerhard. The purpose of this study, then, is to conduct a deep analysis of the nature of *theologia* and its consequent study according to Johann Gerhard in order to ascertain precisely how they reflect his transitional role in history. As such, it seeks to offer a microhistorical analysis of his definition of *theologia*, examining it closely from various angles in order to understand his concept of *theologia* in relation to other aspects of his thinking such as Scripture, faith, piety, theological study, and ministerial practice.

The following questions guide our analysis: What is the theological *habitus*? How are *theologia*, *fides*, and *pietas* related? And, how are the 'personal' and 'professional' orientations of *theologia* related? The research required to respond to these questions, in turn, involves in particular two preliminary sub-questions: How is the theological *habitus* θεόδοτος (God-given)? And, how is *theologia* mostly *practica* (practical)? The responses to the above questions allow us opportunity to corroborate our findings with a final question: How is Gerhard's concept of *theologia* evinced in his advice regarding theological study?

4. Methodology

4.1 Research Method & Validation

This study adopts a linguistic approach to historiography employing a thorough document analysis of key texts from Gerhard's corpus of writings. Several considerations justify this approach. First and foremost, exploring Gerhard's *thoughts* concerning *theologia* requires that we encounter Gerhard where he wishes to be encountered, that is, in his public and published writings. Granted, such writings may only depict the *ideal* of *theologia* and its study, but that is precisely what we are after here – Gerhard's understanding of *theologia* and his thoughts concerning its relation to other aspects of the theologian's life. Other studies, for example, may complement the present study by investigating the actual implementation of Gerhard's ideas at the University of Jena. Valuable as those would prove to be, they lay outside the purview of this study. Secondly, although it may appear at times tedious and laborious to some, the author believes that for a *deep* understanding of Johann Gerhard's concept of *theologia*, especially at the level of presuppositions and nuances that we envision here, it requires the close scrutiny and even thorough exegesis of carefully selected passages from his key writings (see similar opinion of Ap-

pold 1998:7). Thirdly, studying Gerhard, like other seventeenth century theologians, may be unfamiliar territory to many a modern reader whose impressions of the era may be more shaped by the existing macrohistorical metanarratives and less informed by the texts themselves. What Appold (1998:vii) has said regarding Abraham Calov still applies even to the likes of Johann Gerhard: 'Attention to detail must take precedence over desire for quick generalizations.' In fact, in order to familiarize the reader with Gerhard's own thoughts and writings and, at the same time, avoid less than accurate caricatures imposed upon him, this study incorporates an ample number of direct quotations from primary sources, while attempting to accompany such quotations with adequate analyses.

An obvious disadvantage of any document analysis is that it is necessarily prone to the subjective interpretation of the researcher. This study embraces this reality and begins with no illusions of neutral objectivity or existential distance from the texts. This being said, it also declines to sink into the 'mire' of subjectivism or relativism whereby any arbitrary meaning can be attributed to any text (Bradley & Muller 1995:48; see also pp. 48–60). Rather, following the thinking of Hans-Georg Gadamer (1989:268–270), the author expects and recognizes personal 'fore-conceptions' and 'fore-meanings' (i.e., personal 'prejudices') as a necessary part of the understanding process and that expectation is *intentionally* incorporated into the research methodology by providing ample opportunity for such personal 'prejudices' to be continually and repeatedly checked and, if necessary, as is often though not always the case, to be revised and replaced (see Heidegger's 'fore-structure of understanding' as explicated by Gadamer 1989:268–273). Taken as indispensably important, however, is that we encounter the texts themselves (which is the very manner in which Gerhard wishes to interact with us) and allow that our prejudices be tested by those very texts. In this way, historical understanding always becomes what Gadamer (1989:305) has described as the 'fusion' of two horizons – that of the past and that of the present.

In many ways, this process could be likened to the interaction of two cultures (i.e., that of Gerhard and that of our own). Indeed, the similarities between historical research and the interaction of present day cultures suggest that the study of history may actually constitute one of the greatest 'cross-cultural' experiences. So, for example, although it would be impossible to divorce ourselves from our own home culture and fully and completely adopt that of another, growing in our understanding of that foreign culture necessarily entails continuous interaction with the other (i.e., with the texts of Gerhard) and, as much as possible, immersing oneself into that foreign culture (i.e., the thought world of Gerhard). It also requires a humble realization that we undoubtedly have numerous unknown 'blind spots' that only become known as we 'bump up' against the culture of the other. Throughout, the process involves a sincere and continuous effort to 'put *ourselves* into the shoes' of the other, all the while recognizing that it is still *ourselves* in the other's shoes – we do not somehow cease to exist (see Gadamer 1989:304).

Consequently, this study incorporates into its methodology opportunities to check the validity of one's understanding of Gerhard's texts by analyzing his theological ideas within four concentric contextual spheres, though not necessarily in this specific order, nor always to the same extent: 1) Textual context; 2) literary context; 3) contemporary context; and 4) historical context.

Textual context. Texts are often carefully examined in their grammatical and syntactic contexts. This is especially the case for those texts of particular importance such as Gerhard's final definition of *theologia*, a carefully formulated statement succinctly summarizing his previous thoughts about the nature of theology, both within and without the *Prooemium de natura theologiae*. Such a loaded statement is open to any number of interpretations and calls for a careful and close textual analysis. This notwithstanding, texts are also examined in their immediate textual context and in the context of the writing as a whole. In so doing, the purpose, occasion, language, genre, and intended audience are often taken into consideration.

Literary context. These same texts are also analyzed in the context of Gerhard's other writings that treat similar or related topics. An effort has been made to select texts from different genres so as to provide a more complete picture of Gerhard and his thoughts in various venues. In doing so, continuity and consistency of thought (and vocabulary) are assumed *unless there is an express reason not to*. When there is a warranted reason to expect variation (e.g., due to a different audience or genre), the challenge is to analyze the logical and theological connections between the variations and, if possible, to benefit from those variations to form an even better understanding of the *whole* of Gerhard's thinking. Discrepancies, then, become more helpful, than detrimental, to the research process. This proves important, for example, when studying the definition of *theologia* as presented in the *Prooemium de natura theologiae* versus that in the *Methodus studii theologiae* (see chs. 5 and 6 below). Finally, this literary context also includes the wider theological and systematic context – in other words, Gerhard's wider system of thought. So, for example, Gerhard's thoughts about *theologia* necessarily relate to his thoughts about 'faith' and about 'good works,' hence requiring research into the respective *Loci* treating those topics.

Contemporary context. Attention is frequently given to the immediate contemporary context within which the different texts were written. This includes the biographical context of Gerhard's own life situation during the time of the writing, but it also includes the ecclesiastical, social, political, and institutional (university) contexts as well. Of particular interest for this study is the intellectual culture in which Gerhard's language and thoughts are embedded. A consistent theme throughout the following pages is that the philosophical framework of thought at the turn of the seventeenth century was markedly different than that of today and those differences merit special attention to avoid anachronistically misunderstanding Gerhard. Paying attention to this sphere of contemporary context often deepens insight into Gerhard's

purpose and choice of genre, structure, and vocabulary. It also aids in developing valid connections between different writings.

Historical context. Finally, both the texts and the ideas contained therein are explored within the wider historical context, specifically tracing back to the Reformation (and beyond), but also, at times, in comparison to certain theologians that followed Gerhard. In this larger context, one can, for example, better understand the usage of Aristotelian terminology and the influence of Luther and Melancthon on Gerhard's thoughts.

4.2 Research Steps

The exploratory nature of this study reflects, to a certain extent, the dialogic approach of the methodology described above. That research process involves repeated encounters with certain key texts from various angles (see above the description of the concentric contextual spheres) and to varying degrees of depth. This is notably the case with Gerhard's fundamentally important definition of *theologia*, but with other texts as well.

This approach inevitably leads to some repetition, but it is far from pointless repetition. On the contrary, the process intentionally entails an increasingly more focused reading and re-reading of those key texts in order to hone in on a more precise understanding of important themes and ideas that emerge as the process moves forward, while at the same time bringing to bear on those texts insights garnered previously in the study. The following research steps reflect this exploratory research design:

Step One. With the heading τὸ ἔστω (what it is), Gerhard sets out in the *Prooemium de natura theologiae* (Preface on the Nature of Theology, §§ 8–12) to answer that question: What is *theologia*? Those paragraphs revolve around his main assertion that *theologia* is a *habitus* (see especially § 10). Gerhard was one of the first Lutheran theologians to contend for a theological *habitus* and he, along with others such as Balthasar Meisner, paved the way for subsequent generations of Lutheran theologians. Any attempt to understand *theologia* as Gerhard conceived of it must first explore his use of *habitus* to describe *theologia*. This involves, first of all, an investigation of the historical context of *habitus* within Lutheranism, particularly focusing on its use by Philipp Melancthon and Martin Luther. Then follows a survey of the contemporary context of its reintroduction into Lutheran theological thought, culminating in an examination of Gerhard's use of the term in select writings and finally within the *Prooemium de natura theologiae*. This research into Gerhard's use of *habitus* constitutes the first research step.

Step Two. Using the Aristotelian concept of *habitus* to define *theologia* inevitably introduced two major potential problems into Lutheran theology. First, it minimized the sinful corruption of human beings and opened the door to theological synergism. Secondly, it inadvertently set up *theologia* as a scientific discipline

and risked divorcing it from faith and piety. Consequently, in these same paragraphs (§§ 8–12) of the *Prooemium de natura theologiae*, apart from identifying it as a *habitus*, Gerhard employs two other fundamentally important terms to describe *theologia* that specifically address these potential problems. He specifies that *theologia* is a *habitus* θεόσδοτος, explicitly refuting the problem of synergism, and clarifies that it is mostly *practica*, directly addressing the second problem. Both of these concepts – θεόσδοτος and *practica* – are integrated into his final summative definition in the last paragraph of the *Prooemium de natura theologiae* (§ 31). Each is loaded with meaning, nuances, and connotations shaped by both historical context and Gerhard's own theological and philosophical thought. That the terms are historically laden goes without saying and that history must be studied, if for no other reason than that Gerhard was cognizant of their historical uses and definitions when he decided to use them. And he says so as much. However, to stop there would seem to do Gerhard an injustice and fail to understand him on his own terms. A considerable effort must also be made to investigate how Gerhard adapted and used those terms in his own specific way to qualify his particular understanding of the theological *habitus*. In many ways, they help clarify the uniqueness of Gerhard's concept of *theologia*. This investigation constitutes the second research step.

Step Three. These essential preparatory steps allow a deep analysis of Gerhard's summative definition of *theologia* as found at the end of the *Prooemium de natura theologiae* (§ 31). That close examination entails a structural analysis of the rather complex definition and an analysis of the relation between its different parts. This final analysis gives us opportunity to draw together the different strands of Gerhard's thinking thus far discovered and offer a more comprehensive understanding of Gerhard's thoughts regarding the nature of *theologia*. This results in substantive conclusions regarding the *concept* of *theologia* and forms the third research step.

Step Four. *Theologia*, however, does not wish to be merely analyzed formally as a static concept, but invites an investigation of its phenomenological implementation; that is, it wishes to be studied as it is experienced and carried out. Hence, the final research step is the examination of Gerhard's *theologia* as it is carried out in the study of *theologia* according to the *Methodus studii theologici*. The goal of this final step is to explore Gerhard's advice with regard to the study of *theologia*, but furthermore to corroborate the findings and conclusions drawn previously regarding his concept of *theologia*, adjusting and sharpening them as needed.

4.3 Source Selection

In order to gain a clearer and fuller profile of Johann Gerhard, an exerted effort is made to consult a wide variety of sources from a wide variety of genres. Notwithstanding, with such an erudite scholar and prolific writer as Gerhard, an exhaustive study of his writings is beyond the purview of this paper. It then proves necessary to

limit the scope of those sources to be consulted. Gerhard specifically explains and defines *theologia* using Aristotelian categories in the *Prooemium de natura theologiae* in the last volume of his *Loci theologici* (1625). This then serves as the center of our research. He also defines *theologia* in the *Methodus studii theologici* (1620), which serves as another significant source especially because of its description of the implementation of *theologia*. Due to the importance of biblical interpretation and the doctrine of illumination in the theological endeavor, the *Tractatus de legitima scripturae sacrae interpretatione* (1610) is consulted frequently as well.⁹ Other literature has been drawn in, per the research method as presented above, specifically in those cases where Gerhard mentions or alludes to his concept of *theologia* (e.g., certain prefaces, dedicatory letters) or where there is direct support of a concept under investigation. The rationale and justification for the selection of those sources is presented below and need not be reiterated here.

4.4 Terminology

The term ‘theology’ (θεολογία, *theologia*) was rarely used in the first eleven centuries of Christianity and has since undergone significant shifts in meaning (see, e.g., Farley [1983] 2001:29–48; Wallmann 1961:11–29). That term as we currently use it may be very different from that employed by those during and after the Reformation. To avoid any misleading confusion, we will simply utilize the Latin term *theologia* throughout this paper. For that matter, the term ‘theological education’ is also a relatively new expression and one that would have sounded uncannily strange to the ears of theologians throughout the first nineteen centuries of the Church’s existence. Before the phrase ‘theological education’ became vogue in the twentieth century, the term ‘theological encyclopedia’ dominated conversations about theology and its method. Much more common in the years after the Reformation, however, was the term *studium theologiae* (study of theology) or *studium theologicum* (theological study). This paper prefers these older and less anachronistic terms.

5. Review of Relevant Secondary Literature

Despite the need for continued research on the ‘Age of Orthodoxy’ in general and on Johann Gerhard in particular, some significant research has already been done and the current study is indebted to it. The monograph that relates most directly to the topic at hand was produced over half a century ago, but still normative in any Gerhard research. *Der Theologiebegriff bei Johann Gerhard und Georg Calixt* by

9 This study intentionally avoids drawing too heavily from Gerhard’s *locus De scriptura sacra* (*Exegesis* 1, 1625) because of pending research on its alleged suspicious parallels to earlier work on the same topic (*Disputatio de sacra scriptura*) by Anglican theologian William Whitaker (1547–1595) (see unpublished ongoing work by Steve Parks [n.d.], ‘Lutheran Orthodoxy’s Reformed Connection: Johann Gerhard’s Source for His Doctrine of Scripture’).

Johannes Wallmann (1961) analyzes the concepts of *theologia* in the thinking of both Gerhard and Calixt, leading him to trace a Melancthonian line of thought through Calixt to Semler and a second line of thought from Luther, through Gerhard to Spener. Perhaps most helpful for our purposes here is that he identifies Gerhard's *theologia* as 'faith-knowledge' (*Glaubenserkenntnis*). Wallmann's study remains foundational and the current study follows its general contours, but builds on that foundation, taking into consideration more recent research, to provide further clarity in certain areas and expand on his ideas. Although Wallmann would place Gerhard's concept of *theologia* in line with that of the eventual Pietists, his understanding of Gerhard is quite nuanced in this regard and he refrains from simplistically equating Gerhard's thought to that of the later Pietists. In any case, this study's analysis of the relation Gerhard posits between *theologia* and *pietas* intends to offer a complement to Wallmann's conclusions.

Bengt Häggglund's (1951) monograph, *Die Heilige Schrift und ihre Deutung in der Theologie Johann Gerhards*, also remains a foundational normative source addressing Gerhard's doctrine of the verbal inspiration of Scripture. Häggglund provides an insightful analysis of the Aristotelian philosophical background of Gerhard's thinking and, at times, sharply contrasts it with modern presuppositions. This proves particularly helpful in interpreting Gerhard in a way that avoids imposing on him what he would deem false dichotomies. Similar to Wallmann, Häggglund's work is also fundamentally important for the current study, especially in examining Gerhard's concept of the θεόσδοτος (God-given) quality of *theologia*, the Scriptural foundations of *theologia*, and his theory of cognition. In many ways, this study builds on the seminal works of Häggglund and Wallmann and can be viewed as in dialogue and interaction with both of them.

There are, however, several other works of varying degrees of relevance. Marcel Niden (2006) has offered an exceedingly helpful and first-of-its-kind survey of the literary genre of 'instructions for theological study': *Die Erfindung des Theologen*. Although focused on the University of Wittenberg, it does offer a tangential overview of Gerhard's *Methodus studii theologici* and presents a brief analysis of the Jena professor's concept of *theologia* in comparison to that of Meisner and others. It proves helpful in positioning Gerhard in the grander scheme of theological study at the time. In addition, Niden (2003) has written a short, yet significant, chapter treating Gerhard's advice about theological study: 'Theologie – Rechtfertigung des Theologen? Anmerkungen zur "Methodus studii theologici" Johann Gerhards von 1620.' One of the few works treating both the nature and study of *theologia* in relation to one another, this chapter insightfully underscores the importance of theological study for the personal faith edification of the theologian, a significant theme taken up in the last chapter below. From the hand of Markus Friedrich (2004) comes a very thorough and well documented work, *Die Grenzen der Vernunft*, essentially tracing the conflict and tension at the turn of the seventeenth century among Lutheran theologians regarding 'reason and faith.' Friedrich is one of the

first to explore the conflict that erupted between those who viewed *theologia* as faith-*praxis* and those who viewed it as an academic discipline, tracing it back to the Hofmann controversy and through the ‘*habitus* controversy.’ Although he mentions Gerhard only in passing, it helps provide the historical backdrop against which Gerhard formulated his definition of *theologia*. Martti Vaahtoranta’s (1998) exhaustive work, *Restauratio imaginis divinae*, examines the idea of man’s union with God in Gerhard’s theology. Particularly interesting for our purposes is the relation he poses between Gerhard’s ways of viewing faith as spiritual union with Christ and as a psychological quality – an unavoidable tension in Gerhard’s theology if not understood correctly. Johann Anselm Steiger’s (1997) concern that Gerhard be interpreted as both pastor and dogmatician in the full context of his written works (and not merely his dogmatic works) is compellingly argued in *Johann Gerhard: Studien zu Theologie und Frömmigkeit des Kirchenvaters der lutherischen Orthodoxie*. That and a series of journal articles also by him helps put Gerhard in a light that risks otherwise being eclipsed. Chi-Won Kang (2001) has added a helpful survey of Luther’s *Trias* as used in early modern Lutheranism: *Frömmigkeit und Gelehrsamkeit: Die Reform des Theologiestudiums im lutherischen Pietismus des 17. und des frühen 18. Jahrhunderts*. Included is a helpful summary of Gerhard’s own use of it. Finally, Kenneth Appold’s (1998) monograph on *Abraham Calov’s Doctrine of Vocatio in its Systematic Context*, although focused on Calov, is surprisingly helpful because of the comparative analysis it offers between Calov and Gerhard.

This is, of course, far from an exhaustive list, but does constitute the major titles of secondary literature that significantly shape the following study.

6. Structure

The chapter outline of the current study follows the structure as outlined above. Chapter one investigates the concept of *habitus* in its historical context focusing specifically on its use by Philipp Melancthon and Martin Luther. Chapter two explores the concept of *habitus* within Gerhard’s contemporary context and then analyzes his use of it in selections of his own writings. Chapter three examines Gerhard’s qualification of *theologia* as a *habitus* θεόσδοτος and the implications thereof, especially his doctrine of illumination. Chapter four delves into his use of the term *practica* and explores the relation between *theologia* and faith and piety. Chapter five is the pivotal chapter of the present work and provides a summative deep analysis of Gerhard’s final definition of *theologia* as presented in the *Prooemium de natura theologiae*, drawing several conclusions along the way. The sixth and final chapter examines the implementation of Gerhard’s concept of *theologia* as it is carried out in the study of *theologia* in the *Methodus studii theologici*, testing and corroborating the conclusions drawn in the previous chapter.

I *Habitus* in the Historical Context of the Reformation

1. Introduction

In the *Prooemium* (*Preface*) to his *Loci theologici*¹, published in 1625 after the completion of his multi-volume work, Gerhard undertook the task of writing a dogmatic prolegomenon expounding *On the Nature of Theology*.² The development of prolegomena was still in its incipient stage among Lutheran theologians as evidenced by the *Loci theologici* of Matthias Hafenreffer (1561–1619). Published in 1603, Hafenreffer's preliminary remarks arranged around Luther's famous *Trias* of *oratio*, *meditatio*, and *tentatio* treated how one should study theology (cf. Kang 2001:102–110). It constituted one of the first Lutheran attempts at a prolegomenon, but it attempted no exposition on the nature of theology (cf. Preus 1970:108). Other Lutheran theologians, such as Balthasar Meisner (1587–1626) in the first volume of his *Philosophia sobria* (cf. part 2, ch. 2) of 1612, did take up the question of the nature of theology, but Gerhard was purportedly the first to specifically address that question in a separate section as a preface. Although Gerhard's comments in the *Prooemium* are comparatively brief comprising only a few quarto pages and will be greatly expanded on by subsequent Lutheran theologians (e.g., Calov, Hollaz, Quenstedt), almost all will follow the basic content and contours originally set down in the *Prooemium* (Preus 1970:109). As such, Gerhard's *Prooemium* remains a significant contribution to the development of Lutheran theological thinking.

In typical Gerhardian fashion, the *Prooemium* is divided into *onomatology*, treating the etymology and meaning of the word *theologia*, and *pragmatology*,

1 Henceforth *Loci*. After Gerhard had completed his *Loci theologici*, he went back and published in 1625 four additional *loci* and the *Prooemium de natura theologiae*. These additional *loci* were not meant to replace previous *loci*, but to serve as a supplement to *loci* that had been published in 1610. He gave them the title: 'Exegesis, or a more copious explanation of certain articles of the Christian religion.' Consequently, they are often referred to as his 'Exegesis' *loci* and are referenced throughout this study as simply 'Exegesis.' For a brief, yet helpful, survey of the history and arrangement of Gerhard's *Loci*, see the editor's introduction to the English edition published by Concordia Publishing House (e.g., Gerhard [1625] 2009).

2 *Prooemium de natura theologiae* (henceforth *Prooemium*). There are four Latin editions of Gerhard's *Loci Theologici*: The Jena edition published during Gerhard's lifetime (1610), the Frankfurt/Hamburg edition edited by Gerhard's son, Johann Ernest Gerhard (1657), the Cotta edition (1726), and the Preuss edition (1863). Unless otherwise noted, all references to or citations of Gerhard's *Loci theologici* in Latin, including the *Prooemium*, are from the Preuss edition ([1610–1625] 1863–1885). The enumeration of the *loci* varies depending on the edition. To avoid confusion, I have followed the enumeration also of the Preuss edition and for the sake of clarity have also attempted to specify the title of the *locus* in question. In order to normalize translations, unless otherwise indicated, I have attempted to follow the translation of the English edition translated by Richard J. Dinda and currently in the process of being published by Concordia Publishing House (Gerhard [1610–1625] 2009–).

dealing with the nature of *theologia* and treating such topics as the genus, divisions, causes, form, goal, effect, object and ultimately the final definition of *theologia*. These divisions and categories were, of course, common educational and academic tools that Gerhard's students would have received in their study of the *Trivium* and which would render them capable of ecumenical conversation (cf. *Methodus*, part 2, sect. 3, ch. 3; cf. Häggglund 1951:61–63). Following common scholastic procedure, Gerhard attempts to answer the question 'What is *theologia*?' by identifying its genus:

We indeed admit that, if we must assign to theology some genus from the intellectual conditions [*habitus*] that Aristotle enumerates, among them all, wisdom most closely approximates its nature. But were one to make an absolute consideration, he would define it more accurately as a "God-given habit" [*habitus* θεόσδοτος] than through a genus drawn from Aristotle's intellectual conditions. (*Prooemium*, § 10)³

In his final summative description of *theologia*, Gerhard again defines it as a *habitus* θεόσδοτος (§ 31). Among the very first Lutheran theologians to designate *theologia* as a *habitus*, Gerhard influenced subsequent generations who followed his lead. But that begs the question: What does Gerhard mean by calling *theologia* a *habitus*? Unfortunately, Gerhard does not pause in the *Prooemium* to define what he means by *habitus*, nor is he inclined to explain it in his other theological works,⁴ presumably because of its increasingly common usage in philosophical circles of his time (see ch. 2 below) and his infrequent theological use of the term (compared to later Lutheran theologians, e.g., Abraham Calov). This leaves the historian with three options, all of which would need to be pursued regardless: Examine Gerhard's use of *habitus* in his historical, contemporary, and literary contexts.

This chapter will attempt to do the first, conducting an extensive overview of the Reformation context that significantly shaped Gerhard's theological thinking.

3 *Fatemur sane, si genus quoddam ex habitus intellectualibus ab Aristotele enumeratis, theologiae tribuendum, inter omnes sapientiam ad ejus naturam proxime accedere, interim si absolute consideretur, rectius definitur per habitum θεόσδοτον, quam per genus ex habitibus intellectualibus Aristotelicis desumptum*

4 Gerhard did apparently treat the topic of *habitus* as part of the private lectures he gave as a young tutor around the time he received his master's degree (1603). The notes from those lectures are currently housed in the Forschungsbibliothek in Gotha, Germany and have recently been digitalized and made available to the wider public under the title: 'Privatvorlesungen Johann Gerhards zur Logik, Metaphysik und Confessio Augustana sowie eine theologische Thesenreihe' (Gerhard 1602–1604). The tract on logic (*Commentarius in logicam*), which contains his explication of the Aristotelian concept of *habitus*, seems to have been written in 1602 and probably before he made the career transition from medicine to theology (see Fischer [1723] 2000:28–29). The tract is over two hundred pages of hand written, abbreviated, and, at times, almost indecipherable Latin that, as far as I know, has not yet been transcribed into a more legible text. Needless to say, such a task is beyond the scope of the current study. In any case, the Reformation influence on Gerhard's use of *habitus* as surveyed in this chapter remains an indispensable foundation for the rest of the study.

The second chapter will then survey the contemporary background that influenced the professor's use of *habitus* followed by an examination of his use of the term in several of his other theological works. This first chapter will also serve as the foundation for subsequent chapters by presenting a survey of Aristotelian psychology, including the concept of *habitus*.

And this foundation is needed. Despite that fact that theology as *habitus* is well-known among (especially Lutheran) Protestant theologians and that it has made its way into many a textbook, the vast majority of the supporting explanations are less than helpful, mostly because they scarcely scratch the surface of the concept of *habitus*. This is due in part to a lack of consideration of the seventeenth century historical background that gave rise to the concept in the first place. Of course, early modern Protestant theologians such as Johann Gerhard were very much aware of that background and took great care in navigating through it.

Within Lutheranism, it is difficult to overemphasize the theological and philosophical influence of Philipp Melanchthon (1497–1560) and Martin Luther (1483–1546), the two professors at the University of Wittenberg who led the Lutheran reform movement. Subsequent generations of theologians lived, learned, and taught theology between these two foci within Lutheranism. In tracing the shifting emphases in the various 'methods' of the study of theology, Marcel Nieten (2006) clearly reveals the underlying concern of early modern Lutheran theologians to heed the heritage left by these two reformers. Although some oscillated more toward one or the other, their theological deliberations always took place in dialogue with both of them. Johannes Wallmann (1961:2–3, *passim*) identifies two 'lines' of thinking regarding the concept of theology within early modern Lutheranism. One originates with Luther and the other with Melanchthon. Although he associates Gerhard with the former and Calixt with the latter, it is noteworthy that early modern Lutheran theological thinking is always defined in reference to both. He also admits that the lines of demarcation are not always clear. In light of the paramount importance of these two prominent reformers, this first chapter is dedicated to reconstructing the historical context of their influence.

2. *Habitus* in its Melanchthonian Aristotelian Framework

As was common during his epoch, Gerhard was educated and conversed in a framework of thought greatly shaped by Aristotle, often respectfully referred to as 'the Philosopher.' In his *Methodus studii theologici*, he wholeheartedly encouraged his students to read Aristotle directly (part 2, sect. 2, ch. 3),⁵ although notably after careful warnings of the abuses of philosophy. Of course, the Aristotelian influence

5 Unless otherwise noted, all references to or citations of the Latin *Methodus studii theologici* (henceforth *Methodus*) are from the Steinmann edition (1620). English translations are my own, but I have consulted closely the unpublished English translation by Richard J. Dinda (Gerhard [1654] 2010a), who was kind enough to share it with me.

on early modern philosophy and theology was also mediated through certain contemporary instructors of certain philosophical fields of study (e.g., logic, metaphysics). Not the least important of these ‘interpreters’ of Aristotle in Lutheran circles was Philipp Melanchthon. Melanchthon, affectionately called ‘*Praeceptor Germaniae*,’ was a dedicated humanist whose commitment to *ad fontes* drove him back to Aristotle, upon whose thought he based his *Erotemata dialectices*. This book on logic was the first Protestant textbook of its sort and later generations of Lutheran theologians in the 16th and early 17th centuries cut their teeth on this immensely influential work during their preliminary liberal arts studies at the university (Preus 1970:77, 236).⁶ Günter Frank (2010:153) argues that it was ‘the most influential textbook on dialectic among Reformation scholars until the second half of the seventeenth century’ and Richard Muller (1987:227) reports that, with the possible exception of Peter Martyr Vermigli (1499–1562), it was the only major work in the Reformation era that dealt in a substantial way with ‘faculty psychology,’ of which the concept of *habitus* constitutes an integral part. Johannes Wallmann (1961:66–67) begins his exposition of Gerhard’s concept of theology as *habitus* by recalling portions of Melanchthon’s dialectic contribution and stating that through it the concept of *habitus* was handed down in the Lutheran tradition before being revived by the Italian philosopher, Zabarella. Interestingly, Gerhard, who liberally cites Luther in his writings, rarely cites Melanchthon, presumably due to the fall out after the Philippist controversies.⁷ Nonetheless, it is amply evident that his philosophical thought and psychological and epistemological theory, like that of all Lutheran theologians of his generation, were markedly influenced by Melanchthon’s ‘logic.’ Hence, Melanchthon’s comments are particularly pertinent, not only for the present chapter but for the subsequent chapters as well, in that they shed further light on the Aristotelian background of Gerhard’s thinking.

2.1 Definition of *Habitus*

Following Aristotle, Melanchthon attempts a definition of *habitus* in his *Erotemata dialectices*:

Habitus, in Greek ἕξις, is a quality developed from frequent actions in people by which people can accomplish correctly and easily those actions which are controlled and assisted by their own habit as, for instance, in the case of the painter Lu-

6 Preus (1970:236), apparently following the editor’s introductory notes in the *Corpus reformatorum* (CR 13, 507–510), indicates that a first form of the book came out in 1520 and was revised twice in 1528 and 1547. He reports that the final edition of the final revision was released in 1580, although my own cursory search of the archives revealed printings being released even later (e.g., 1591, 1603).

7 Similarly, at this same time, we see less and less frequently the curricular recommendations for the reading of Melanchthon, whereas Luther’s dogmatic writings begin to take their place among the church fathers in the study of church history (Nieden 2006:207–208).

cas [Cranach]. The art of painting is a habit, for Lucas learned to paint. After his hand became accustomed, Lucas painted those lines which his mind considered and commanded him to paint more easily and surely than other uninstructed painters did. (*Corpus reformatorum*, vol. 13, p. 535)⁸

Despite the attempted definition, Melanchthon admits a few lines later that ‘we cannot see with our eyes nor can we explain satisfactorily with our words what thing is a habit, but there is a sort of suppleness involved. You see, as wax which one’s fingers handle becomes softer, so some parts of a person become more supple with use and put on, so to speak, a sort of facility and flexibility’ (*CR*, vol. 13, p. 535).⁹ This definition must be unpacked.

The concept of *habitus* can be traced back to Aristotle’s use of the Greek word ἕξις (*hexis*) stemming from the verb ἔχω (I have, possess), which when translated into Latin renders the verb *habeo* and the noun *habitus*.¹⁰ Literally the word denotes a ‘having’ or ‘possession.’ Hence, one mundane use of *habitus* even during Gerhard’s time was that of ‘clothing’ (cf. Micraelius 1653:480) or what today might be called a ‘habit’ (e.g., A monk’s habit is a cowl). Aristotle develops the more philosophical use of this word in several different writings (e.g., *Metaphysics* 5.1022b; *Categories* 8b28–35; *Eudemian Ethics* II.i.1218b), but most lucidly for our purposes in his *Nicomachean Ethics*.¹¹

On the one hand, Aristotle believed that a person is not virtuous simply because of virtuous actions (*Eth. Nic.* 1105a29–35). Hence, a coward who unknowingly performs a brave act would not properly be called brave. Nor would a brave person, who does not do acts of bravery because, for example, he is sleeping, be labeled cowardly. On the other hand, he also believed that virtue is not a mere natural, inbred capacity or potential (*Eth. Nic.* 1103a19–25; 1106a8–12).¹² Rather, a person is

8 *Habitus, Graece ἕξις, est qualitas comparata ex crebris actionibus in hominibus, qua recte et facile homines efficere illas actiones possunt, quae a suo habitu gubernantur et iuvantur, ut, in Luca pictore ars pingendi est habitus, didicit pingere Lucas, et postquam manus assuefacta est, facilius et certius pingit eas lineas, quas mens intuetur et pingere iubet, quam alii rudes pingerent* (from *Erotemata dialectices* in the *Corpus reformatorum*, henceforth *CR*). The edition included in the *CR* is that from 1547, although there was an earlier edition published in 1534. I am indebted to the late Richard J. Dinda whose kind help and insight in translating portions of *Erotemata dialectices* are very much appreciated.

9 *Nec cerni oculis, nec verbis satis exponi potest, quae res sit habitus, sed agilitas quaedam est. Ut enim cera tractata digitis fit mollior, ita quaedam hominis partes fiunt agiliores usu, et quasi facilitatem quandam seu molliciem induunt.*

10 Of course, Aristotle himself borrowed the term from Plato and the philosophical milieu of his time. Nonetheless, the concept as it was taken up by the medieval and early modern scholastics is derived from Aristotle’s reorientation of the term (cf. Rodrigo 2011:6, *passim*).

11 Henceforth *Eth. Nic.* Unless otherwise noted, English translations of Aristotle’s *Nicomachean Ethics* are from Terence Irwin’s translation (Aristotle 1999).

12 It is helpful to note at this point that, for Aristotle, an important dichotomy exists between potentiality (δύναμις, i.e., *potentia* in Latin) and actuality (ἐνέργεια, i.e., *actus* in Latin) and that

born with a capacity for good or evil and acquires a virtuous, well-formed character that consistently gives rise to virtuous actions. Being a virtuous (or evil) person is determined by ‘something’ that a person has acquired which exists between a mere potential and a full act. That ‘something’ is what Aristotle termed a *ἕξις*, perhaps best translated into English as a ‘disposition’ or ‘state.’¹³ Brian Davies’ (1992:225–226) insightful explanation of Aquinas’ concept of *habitus* could also apply to Aristotle. He compares a *habitus* to a person’s fluency in French. A person is said to be fluent in French, not because she has the potential to speak it (as it is possible for all humans to learn human languages), nor is she fluent because she happens to speak French words (she could just be mimicking) or because she always exercises that ability (at times she may refrain from speaking it). Rather, for Aquinas (and Aristotle) a person’s fluency in French exists between potentiality and actuality, it is a ‘genuine ability which not everyone has ... which endures over time and can, as things are, be exercised in actual definite bits of behaviour.’¹⁴

How is a *habitus* developed? By frequent and repeated actions, according to Melanchthon, thus following Aristotle: ‘A state [of character] results from [the repetition of] similar activities’ (Aristotle 1999:19; *Eth. Nic.* 1103b21–22). For Aristotle, a *habitus* is not an inherited trait nor does it come about through some sort of infusion. A *habitus* is acquired through diligent and constant practice of that particular action that is to arise from the *habitus* and, therefore, through one’s own industry and effort (cf. Cicero, *De inventione*, I.xxiv.35; II.xx.30). One develops the *habitus* of bravery through performing brave acts. This constitutes ‘moral education.’ Consequently, *habitus* are difficult to obtain, but once established they are virtually permanent and extremely difficult to alter since they are conditions ingrained on the very soul (*Cat.* 8b26–9a4; *Eth. Nic.* 1105b20–22). Later philosophers will follow Aristotle’s implication and refer to them as ‘second nature.’

What is the nature of *habitus*? Aristotle classifies them in the category of ‘quality’ (*Cat.* 8b26–27). Due to later disagreements about the ‘category’ of such theological topics as faith, grace, and righteousness (see below), it will first prove helpful to offer a few comments on the Aristotelian concept of ‘categories.’ The original meaning of the Greek word κατηγορία signifies ‘predicate’ and refers to what kinds of things may be predicated of (i.e., enunciated about, attributed to) a subject (Lloyd 1968:114; cf. Ong 1958:106–107). Hence, as Aristotle explicates in his

‘change’ entails the transition from the former to the latter (*Met.* IX.6. 1048a31–1048b8; cf. Lloyd 1968:63–65). The ‘Protestant Scholastics’ reiterated this idea (Muller 1985:20–21).

13 Translations can be misleading because of the various shades of meaning of related Latin words used by Aquinas as he explicates Aristotle. A *habitus* (disposition) is more durable and stable than a *dispositio* (tendency), which in turn is more stable than an *inclinatio* (tendency), all of which are somewhat different than an *inchoatic* (predisposition) which is innate and natural, but not yet developed (Atkins & Williams 2005:280). The English word ‘habit’ is altogether misleading (Lockwood 2013:24, *passim*). Hence, I have opted to use the Latin word *habitus* and forego the translation.

14 For a helpful account of how *ἕξις* differs from other ‘psychic phenomena and faculties,’ see Lockwood (2013:24–26).

Categories, the almost unlimited predicative statements or assertions that one could say about a thing (e.g., He is short; He is shorter than she is; He is sitting) can ultimately be divided into a limited number of classes or categories. Consequently, everything that exists and is real falls into one of ten categories (although the number varies depending on Aristotle's particular writing): Substance, quantity, quality, relation, place, time, position, state, action, and affection (Lloyd 1968:113).

Following Aristotle's delineation of categories, Melanchthon defines 'quality' in his *Erotemata dialectices* as 'the form through which a substance is effective or which stimulates the senses' (*CR*, vol. 13, p. 534).¹⁵ Several ideas emerge from this deceptively simple statement, the most obvious of which is that, contrary to modern usage, a *qualitas* in ancient and scholastic usage entails much more than a mere descriptive statement about or modification of something. A quality is an accident (i.e., it does not constitute a thing's substance). In other words, it adheres accidentally to the substance of a thing. For example, 'whiteness' is an accident of a thing and not the thing itself. More importantly, however, according to the scholastics, every substance (*substantia*) is made up of two inseparable components – matter (*materia*) and form (*forma*). The form, also known as the 'formal cause' (*causa formalis*), is the organization or arrangement of the internal parts – the *materia* – that make up a substance and give a thing its determinative and defining shape. Hence, quality as a form 'accounts for why a Bach organ prelude differs much from popular folk tunes, a cultivated English Tea rose from the wild New England rambling rose ...' (Cessario 1996:128; cf. Muller 1985:123–124, 184). A substance lacking a form would be only *materia*, raw material, and would be virtually imperceptible and unrecognizable. Its 'whatness' would be called into question. In Melanchthon's understanding of Aristotle, there are four species of quality, one of which is *habitus*. Therefore, the possession of certain *habitus* is what differentiates a carpenter from a painter or a mathematician from a theologian.

2.2 Kinds of *Habitus*

There are, of course, many different kinds of *habitus*. Melanchthon sub-divides them into *habitus* of the body and *habitus* of the soul. The *habitus* of the body consist of the exercise of the body (e.g., gymnastics, dancing, throwing). The *habitus* of the soul, however, are what concern us here because it is in the soul where exist the 'sources of all actions in human beings,' one of which is ἔξις (*CR*, vol. 13, pp. 534–535, cf. *Eth. Nic.* 1105b20–06a13).¹⁶ The *habitus* of the soul are further

15 *Qualitas est forma, per quam substantia est efficax, seu, quae movet sensus*. See also his description of *forma* (*CR*, vol. 13, pp. 679–680).

16 Melanchthon follows Aristotle in enumerating three sources of action in the soul: *Fontes omnium actionum in hominibus ... haec tria sunt* ἔξις [*habitus*], δυνάμεις [*capacities; potentiae*], καὶ πάθος [*feelings; affectus*]. Aristotle proceeds to prove that virtues are *habitus* rather than capacities or feelings (*Eth. Nic.* 1105b20–06a13).

sub-divided into *habitus* of the intellect (*habitus intellectus*) and *habitus* of the will (*habitus voluntatis*) (CR vol. 13, 536).

Like the seventeenth century theologians that followed him (including Gerhard), Melanchthon drew heavily on Aristotle for his anthropology and human psychology. Thus, a human being is divided into body, the non-spiritual and physical part, and soul, the spiritual and non-physical part. The soul is further divided into faculties of the soul (*facultates animae*); two of which are the intellect (*intellectus*) and the will (*voluntas*), the rational soul and the non-rational soul (cf. *Eth. Nic.* 1102a26–03a10). The intellect accounts for understanding, reasoning, and knowledge, whereas the will accommodates the appetitive and desiderative faculties which give rise to a desire (or disgust) for what passes through the intellect. The affections and feelings (*affectiones*) are a subpart of the will, which desire the things perceived through the senses and influence choices. It is important to note at this point that, contrary to modern presuppositions regarding the inherent contrast between the ‘head’ and the ‘heart,’ the intellect and the will are neither necessarily opposed to one another nor are they two separate things, but rather differ only modally (Muller 1985:113–114, 35; cf. Lockwood 2013:22, 31).

Again in characteristically Aristotelian fashion, Melanchthon describes the *habitus* of the will as moral virtues (or immoral vices) and sets forth a list similar to that of Aristotle (CR, vol. 13, pp. 538–541; cf. *Eth. Nic.* books III–V). In contrast to Aristotle, however, he distinguishes between virtues that are ‘common to all people’ and others that are ‘characteristic of the church of God,’ among which he classifies certain virtues not explicated by Aristotle (CR, vol. 13, p. 538). Interestingly for our purposes, one such *habitus* of the will is that of faith (*fides*), more specifically defined as trust (*fiducia*) (CR, vol. 13, pp. 538–539).¹⁷

To the moral virtues must also be added the intellectual virtues. Indeed, Gerhard’s references in the *Prooemium* (§§ 10–12, 31) to *habitus* most directly (though not uniquely) relate to these *habitus* of the intellect. In fact, those references must be read in close proximity to Book VI of Aristotle’s *Nicomachean Ethics* on ‘Virtues of Thought.’ In the Aristotelian (and scholastic) frame of understanding, if there are *habitus* which dispose a person to *act* morally and properly, there are also *habitus* which dispose him to *think* rightly and properly. The acquisition of knowledge is contingent on possession of a *habitus* for knowing (Muller 1987:227). Hence, the intellectual *habitus* play an essential role in the ‘passage’ from a thing to know to one known, that is, from potentiality to actuality.

‘The Philosopher’ lays out his five-fold schema of intellectual virtues or dispositions which have intrigued philosophers for over two millennia:

Then let us begin again, and discuss these states [ἔξεις] of the soul. Let us say, then that there are five states in which the soul grasps the truth in its affirmations or de-

17 Note the corresponding *habitus* of the intellect also termed *fides* and its slightly different definition (CR, vol. 13, p. 538). See the explanation below.

nials. These are craft [τέχνη], scientific knowledge [ἐπιστήμη], prudence [φρόνησις], wisdom [σοφία], and understanding [νοῦς]; for belief [ὑπολήψει; i.e., opinion] and supposition [δόξις] admit of being false. (Aristotle 1999:87–88; *Eth. Nic.* 1139b15–18)

Intellectual *habitus* include such cognitive operations as opinion and supposition, but such constitute ‘uncertain knowledge,’ as Melanchthon explains, and cannot be ‘embraced with firm assent’ (*CR*, vol. 13, p. 536). By contrast, one arrives at ‘certain’ and ‘true’ knowledge by means of these five specific *habitus*, each of which is to be understood in a particular sense:¹⁸

1) ‘Understanding’ (νοῦς) (cf. *Eth. Nic.* 1140b30–41a10), translated into Latin as *intellectus*, is the *habitus* of intuitively grasping principles (*principia*) apart from supporting demonstration. Melanchthon refers to it as the *notitia principiorum* (knowledge of principles) by which we innately and automatically understand and ‘embrace [certain principles] with a firm assent by natural judgment without confirmation’ (*CR*, vol. 13, p. 536).¹⁹ One has basic intuitive insight and understanding of self-evident principles, for example, that two times four equals eight, that the whole is greater than the part, and that something exists or does not exist.

2) Science (ἐπιστήμη) (cf. *Eth. Nic.* 1139b15–37), translated into Latin as *scientia*, is the *habitus* of deriving valid conclusions from principles by way of demonstration. Far from the modern experiential use of the term ‘science,’ *scientia* is a specialized Aristotelian term, denoting the process of mental syllogistic analysis by which the mind infers truths from prior truths and builds or extends knowledge. Melanchthon terms it the *notitia conclusionum* (knowledge of conclusions) and affirms that ‘we agree firmly [with the conclusions] because of their clear demonstration’ (*CR*, vol. 13, p. 536).²⁰

3) Considered narrowly in its Aristotelian context (*Eth. Nic.* 1141a10–41b24), wisdom (σοφία), translated into Latin as *sapientia*, is the *habitus* of principles and conclusions, that is, *intellectus* plus *scientia*. It is, therefore, not an entirely distinct knowledge, but rather includes both intuitive understanding of principles and the ability to demonstrate conclusions from those principles. What renders it unique and merits a separate mention in Aristotle’s estimation is that it is concerned with ‘the most honorable things’ and is therefore depicted as the ‘most excellent science’ (Aristotle 1999:91; *Eth. Nic.* 1141a17–22). Later, medieval scholastics would distinguish *sapientia* as that science which deals with the supreme and highest principles or the ‘first and ultimate causes of being itself’ and which therefore can serve as the

18 In what follows, for Aristotle, see Pakaluk 2005:206–232; for Aquinas, see Reichberg 2002:*passim*; for the seventeenth century theologians, see Muller 1987:206–207.

19 *Noticia principiorum est, agnoscere principia luce mentis nobiscum nata, et firmo assensu ea amplecti, naturali iudicio, sine confirmatione*

20 *Scientia est noticia vera conclusionum, quibus propter demonstrationem firmiter assentimur*

‘architectonic science’ above the various subject-specific sciences (Reichberg 2002:138). Curiously, Melanchthon does not include *sapientia* in his list of intellectual virtues (CR, vol. 13, p. 536), presumably because of its underlying similarity with *scientia*.

4) Prudence (φρόνησις) (*Eth. Nic.* 1140a25–40b29; 1141b10–24; 1143b20–45a12), translated into Latin as *prudentia*, is the *habitus* of right reasoning with regard to doing things. Aristotle describes it as πρακτική (practical) because it is ultimately concerned with πράξις (action) (*Eth. Nic.* 1141b15–16). Consequently, in contrast to the ‘speculative wisdom’ of *sapientia*, *prudentia* is often referred to as ‘practical wisdom’ by which one’s mind is directed toward proper judgment with regard to right conduct in particular situations of life. Hence, Melanchthon reminds his readers that it is a ‘practical *habitus*’ because ‘it guides deliberations in the choice of honorable actions and of useful matters according to right reason’ (CR, vol. 13, p. 537).²¹ He then provides an example – the knowledge of civil law – as a specific kind of prudence.

5) Art (τέχνη) (*Eth. Nic.* 1140a1–23), translated into Latin as *ars*, is the *habitus* of right reason with regard to making things (ποίησις). Occasionally referred to as ‘craft knowledge,’ it denotes the skills and techniques necessary for planning and building things, or, interpreted even more widely, for bringing about any particular desired effect or result (cf. Muller 1987:207). It involves a ‘producer’ acting as the ‘principle’ (*principia*) in such a way that something (i.e., a product) is brought into being. Melanchthon labels this as ‘the true knowledge of making or fabricating, such as that of architecture’ and further down adds a translation and explanation of a Greek definition from Lucian: ‘Art is the order of propositions, certain because of the practice of things that are known, for a useful goal in life’ (CR, vol. 13, p. 537).²² His analysis of the definition reveals that art actually involves ‘sure propositions’ or ‘demonstrations,’ though differently than *scientia*. Rather than through syllogistic demonstrations, true knowledge of art becomes clearer through frequent pondering and more firmly grasped through experiencing its use. In other words, ‘practice makes perfect’ as the axiom goes. Art is furthermore distinguished by its usefulness in life.

2.3 Interconnectedness of the *Habitus*

Melanchthon poses a somewhat different ordering of these intellectual virtues and adds an additional one, which proves particularly interesting for our purposes. According to the Wittenberg reformer, the genus of the intellectual *habitus* is *notitia* (knowledge). There are four *habitus* which can claim *notitia principiorum*

21 *Prudentia est noticia vera, quae secundum rectam rationem regit deliberationes in electione honestarum actionum, et rerum utilium. Ac prudentiam vocat Aristoteles habitum practicum*

22 *Ars est noticia vera faciendorum seu fabricandorum, ut Architectonica ... ars est ordo certarum propositionum, exercitatione cognitarum, ad finem utilem in vita.*

(knowledge of principles, cf. ‘understanding’ above) and, therefore, must be considered true and certain knowledge as opposed to the uncertain knowledge of ‘opinion’: *Scientia, ars, prudentia*, and *fides* (CR, vol. 13, p. 536).²³ It is striking that he applies the ‘knowledge of principles,’ normally reserved for science and wisdom, also to art, prudence, and faith. This is partially due to Melanchthon’s broader than usually definition of *principia* which encompasses both speculative as well as practical ‘innate’ knowledge. Both are imparted to human beings by God, but the reformer insists that the latter is related to morality and divine natural law, an idea that is staunchly rejected by many cynics who reduce such knowledge to opinion (a view which Melanchthon roundly condemns) (CR, vol. 13, pp. 649–650). Additionally, he posits ‘universal experience’ as a ‘norm of certainty’ (CR, vol. 13, pp. 647–648) and gives due credence to arguments from viable ‘authority’ and ‘witnesses,’ though admittedly they are not as valid in philosophy as are demonstrations (CR, vol. 13, pp. 707–711).

The ‘*Praeceptor Germaniae*’ also deviates substantially from ‘the Philosopher’ in speaking of *fides* (faith) as one of the intellectual virtuous *habitus*. Although strongly contradicting Aristotle who labels such ‘belief and supposition’ as open ‘to being false,’ (i.e., uncertain) (Aristotle 1999:88; *Eth. Nic.* 1139b18–19), there is ample precedent among the scholastics for such a move. Thomas Aquinas classes faith together with hope and love to form what he terms the three ‘theological virtues’ that are infused by God into a person. Among seventeenth century theologians it was common to depict Christian faith as a form of certain knowledge and one of the intellectual virtues, while relegating pagan faiths to the uncertain knowledge of *opinio* (Muller 1987:207; cf. CR, vol. 13, p. 536). Interestingly, Melanchthon classes faith as both an intellectual and a moral virtue. As an intellectual virtue, it embraces all ‘knowledge of certain propositions, which we embrace with firm assent because of the affirmation of trustworthy witnesses’ (CR, vol. 13, p. 538), encompassing any proposition derived from an authoritative and trustworthy voice.²⁴ The example he provides (Alexander was king of Macedonia) highlights an historical claim which can only be known through trustworthy accounts. Christian faith, by contrast, is always finally, though notably not solely, *fiducia* (trust), a matter of the will. Hence, Melanchthon also classes *fides* further down as one of the moral virtues ‘characteristic of the church of God’: ‘Faith is the knowledge by which we embrace with firm assent the entire teaching which God has handed down to His Church and, in it, the promise of reconciliation which we grasp and through which we receive the forgiveness of sins by trust [*fiducia*] in the Son of God’ (CR, vol. 13,

23 *Genus autem habituum intellectus vocatur Noticia Quae est certa noticia? Haec species habet Noticiam principiorum: Scientiam, Artem, Prudentiam, Fidem.*

24 *Fides est noticia propositionum certarum, quas firma assensione amplectimur, propter asseverationem testium veracium, ut iudex assentitur narrationi propter testes veraces.*

p. 538).²⁵ Such a definition of faith is strange to the modern mind because of its breadth – it encompasses more than mere trust (*fiducia*). It is also curious that, at least in this context, Melanchthon establishes no clear, direct connection between faith as a mere intellectual *habitus* and faith as a volitional *habitus*. So, for example, there is no indication that Christian faith ‘builds’ on or ‘completes’ knowledge gained from secular faith. They seem to run parallel to one another, rather than intersect. They are both defined as *notitia* (knowledge), a designation for the genus of the intellectual *habitus*, but there is a significant difference that Melanchthon subtly underscores. The *finis* of mere intellectual faith is that specific propositions be embraced (note the use of *quas*). With regard to Christian faith, however, knowledge is a *means by which* something greater than mere knowledge takes place (note the use of *qua*). The *finis* of Christian faith is that the doctrine of God is embraced and the promise of reconciliation grasped so that forgiveness is received. This will become important as we later explore Gerhard’s multi-faceted definition of faith and its roots both in the intellect and in the will, as well as the ‘move’ from the former to the latter as the necessary goal and result of *theologia* (see below, ch. 5).²⁶

Melanchthon offers a helpful summary of his first three *habitus*: Prudence is the *habitus* that guides ‘actions,’ art is the *habitus* that guides ‘making,’ and science is the *habitus* that guides ‘speculation’ (*CR*, vol. 13, p. 537).²⁷ This summary gives the opportunity for a few final comments with regard to the relationships between the *habitus*. Traditionally, one distinguished between the speculative and practical intellectual *habitus*. Understanding (*intellectus*), science (*scientia*), and wisdom (*sapientia*) constitute the speculative virtues, the goal of which is the purely contemplative pursuit of truth solely for the sake of truth. The practical virtues include prudence (*prudentia*) and art (*ars*), the ultimate goal of which reaches beyond pure contemplation of truth toward the use of that knowledge for actions to be done and things to be made (see below, ch. 4, for a fuller explanation). This twofold division entails a further distinction, introduced by Aristotle (*Eth. Nic.* 1139b20–24; 1141b15–23; 1142a12–30) and emphasized by Thomas Aquinas (cf. Reichberg 2002:132–137). The speculative *habitus* are concerned with knowledge of *necessary* truths (that which cannot be otherwise, i.e., eternal truths), whereas the practical *habitus* concern themselves with the knowledge of *contingent* truths (that which can be otherwise, i.e., tasks to be done and things to be made). The former are seated in the speculative intellect and involve ‘the conformance of the mind to independently existing things,’ whereas the latter are seated in the practical

25 *Fides est noticia, qua firmo assensu amplectimur totam doctrinam a Deo traditam Ecclesiae, et in hac etiam promissionem reconciliationis, quam apprehendentes accipimus remissionem peccatorum, fiducia filii Dei*

26 For a brief history of the introduction of the medieval three-fold definition of faith into Lutheran theology and Gerhard’s place in that history, see Pelikan (1950:97–100).

27 *Ac prudentiam vocat Aristoteles habitum practicum, id est, regentem actiones, τέχνην vero habitum ποιητικόν id est, regentem fabricationes, scientiam, habitum regentem speculationes.*

intellect and consist of ‘the conformance of the thing to the human mind’ (Reichberg 2002:135). Consequently, the speculative virtues, of which wisdom is supreme, are counted as purer and higher precisely because they are solely concerned with contemplation and understanding. In fact, says Aristotle, such philosophic, theoretic (θεωρητική) study is veritably ‘divine’ – it most closely resembles the activity of the gods – and should be the highest pursuit of all human beings (*Eth. Nic.* 1177b30–78a2; cf. Book X, ch. 6–8; cf. Lloyd 1968:238–241). Contemplation constitutes the ‘highest life,’ as opposed to practical pursuits with which prudence and art concern themselves. This Aristotelian high regard for the contemplative life together with the biblical motif of σοφία often resulted in later medieval and early modern theologians regarding *theologia* as *sapientia* (intellective wisdom).

Although Melanchthon follows Aristotle (*Eth. Nic.* 1140a1–24) and distinguishes between the *habitus* of ‘actions’ (prudence) and that of ‘making’ (art), this must be further explored, for ‘making’ can also be considered an action. Thomas Aquinas offers a clarification in his *Summa Theologica*²⁸: ‘Now “making” and “doing” differ... in that “making” is an action passing into outward matter, e.g. “to build,” “to saw,” and so forth; whereas “doing” is an action abiding in the agent, e.g. “to see,” “to will,” and the like’ (Aquinas 1947:1,889; Ia IIae, quest. 57, art. 4; cf. Reichberg 2002:136, 138).²⁹ The distinction is that of the consistent orientation of the finality. While the action of ‘making’ is oriented to a thing external to the agent (e.g., buildings, books, hymns), the action of ‘doing’ remains internal to the agent (e.g., hope, faith, love, courage, industriousness). It is worth noting at this juncture that often both exist in the same operation. The distinction between ‘doing’ and ‘making’ will prove important as we explore the practical (*practica*) orientation of Gerhard’s concept of *theologia* (see below ch. 4).

Prudence is unique in yet another important way. The ‘*Praeceptor Germaniae*’ alludes to it in a subtle similarity between his definition of prudence and that of moral virtue. Seated in the rational part of the soul, it is not surprising that prudence is exercised according to right reason [*secundum rectam rationem*]’ (cf. the definition above; *CR*, vol. 13, p. 537). However, it is rather unexpected to find this same expression in his definition of the *habitus* of the will: ‘[Moral] virtue is a good *habitus* because it is a *habitus* that is inclined toward acting according to right reason [*secundum rectam rationem*], which is the rule of goodness in action ...’ (*CR*, vol. 13, p. 538).³⁰ Although seated in the will, the non-rational part of the soul, moral virtue still requires a rational operation, according to Melanchthon. Moreover, prudence, seated in the intellect, ‘guides deliberations in the choice of honest

28 Henceforth *Sum.*

29 *Differt autem facere et agere quia ... factio est actus transiens in exteriorem materiam, sicut aedificare, secare, et huiusmodi; agere autem est actus permanens in ipso agente, sicut videre, velle, et huiusmodi.*

30 *Virtus est habitus bonus, quia est habitus inclinans ad agendum secundum rectam rationem, quae est regula bonitatis in actione*

actions [*electione honestarum actionum*]’ (CR, vol. 13, p. 537). Yet choice is a volitional function of the will.

Taken together, the definitions indicate a certain likeness or connection that merits closer examination. To begin with, what constitutes a virtue and how are the intellectual *habitus* virtues? Thomas Aquinas justifies Aristotle’s claim that the intellectual *habitus* are virtues by describing a virtue as that which ‘implies a perfection of power’ (*Sum Ia IIae* quest. 5, art. 3). The intellectual *habitus* can be considered virtues because they are concerned with the full and unerring realization of the soul’s rational power. In other words, to the extent that they involve good judgments leading to the apprehension of truth (and not falsity), they are good and, therefore, to be considered virtues (cf. Reichberg 2002:132–135). However, as Aristotle implies in his discussion on ‘cleverness’ (*Eth. Nic.* 1144a25–44b1), it is entirely possible for one to be an ‘evil genius’ (i.e., use one’s speculative powers for evil purposes). Ironically, the intellectual *habitus* are not ‘virtues’ strictly speaking because they have no clear connection to the will (and the lower appetites, e.g., *affectiones*), that non-rational part of the soul that gives rise to moral virtues. So, at least, they cannot be *ethically* virtuous. That is, of course, except prudence (φρόνησις, *prudentia*). Prudence, known as ‘practical wisdom,’ is ‘right reason [*recta ratio*] about things to be done,’ that is, practical judgments that lead to a good life (*Sum Ia IIae*, quest. 58, art. 5). In a sense, although seated in the rational part of the soul, it guarantees the correspondence between the will and the intellect (and its lower appetites). Although Aristotle analyzes the intellectual virtues (*Eth. Nic.* book VI) separately from the moral virtues (*Eth. Nic.* books II–V), they are, in fact, inseparable – connected precisely through the practically wise operations of prudence (for the interconnectedness of the virtues, see Gottlieb 2009:106–111). In fact, one could even say that ethical virtue is effectually impossible without the intellectual virtue of prudence (*Eth. Nic.* 1144a29–31, 1144b13–17). The non-rational part of the soul must ‘listen’ to the guidance provided by prudence seated in the rational part of the soul (Lockwood 2013: 29–30). Perhaps in modern terms one could maintain that the *habitus* of prudence is the key by which the transfer from ‘head to heart’ takes place. This, incidentally, is an underlying preoccupation of Gerhard’s concept of *theologia*, although in the end he declines to directly identify *theologia* as prudence (see below, ch. 4).

A final concluding comment is in order. From the above description, it should be abundantly clear that the modern English word ‘habit’ does not capture the meaning of *habitus* and, in fact, carries somewhat of an opposite connotation. A routine, mechanical, quasi-addictive action done without thinking – such as smoking a cigarette or stroking one’s goatee – falls far short of what Aristotle and those who followed him (e.g., Melanchthon) envisioned. If this were not the case, then animals might be the better possessors of *habitus* than human beings, seeing as they can be better trained and conditioned than human beings through reward and punishment toward durable, consistent, and repetitive actions. Yet Melanchthon insists that *habitus* occur only in rational natures (CR, vol. 13, p. 535) – a contention that is not at all new. We find it

clearly stated well before his time, for example, by both Aristotle and Aquinas (cf. *Sum Ia IIae*, quest. 50, art. 3, ad. 2). ‘Habituation’ is far more than mindless, shallow behaviorism (Lockwood 2013:23, *passim*). Rather, when properly carried out, it inculcates into the soul of a person a certain *habitus* such that he or she rightly carries out the activities of that *habitus* depending on the right occasion and according to the specific context. Whereas the modern use of ‘habit’ denotes a deep seated tendency toward *unconscious* repetition of a certain action, a *habitus* manifests itself in different actions based on rational deliberation about the particular occasion. Hence, a person with the *habitus* of ‘kindness’ always acts in a kind way, although her specific kind actions may vary depending on the situation. On one occasion it may entail providing a meal for the homeless person and on another occasion withholding an alcohol beverage from the alcoholic. Even the *habitus* of boxing does not lead the boxer to deliver a punch to the face of every person he meets. Ironically, a true *habitus* necessarily entails *not* repeating the same action. Although *habitus* are permanent and enduring qualities, ‘their permanence is paradoxically dynamic or kinetic rather than static’ (Lockwood 2013:24). Modern dichotomies between ‘head and heart’ or ‘reason and feelings’ do not jibe well with the Aristotelian concept of *habitus*.³¹ The point is that, despite the Aristotelian analytical division between the rational and non-rational parts of the soul, an accepted axiom during the early modern era, a *habitus* in its Melanchthonian-Aristotelian context includes deliberation and decision as well as feelings and desires. Although such partitioning may be initially helpful for the sake of analysis, it is finally necessary to keep in view the integrated and interconnected whole – the ethical, thinking, acting person.

3. Reformation Concern over the Concept of *Habitus*

In addition to Melanchthon’s Aristotelian understanding of logic and human cognition, early modern Protestants such as Gerhard were also markedly influenced by a reformation concern over the concept of *habitus*, a concern most unequivocally voiced by Martin Luther. Luther’s exegetical writings had been regularly recommended for students of theology quite early in the Reformation movement (e.g., by Melanchthon), but during Gerhard’s time the entire corpus of Luther’s writings was being recommended to students as regular reading as a ‘historical’ subject alongside the church fathers (see, e.g., Gerhard’s recommendations in the *Methodus*, part 3, sect. 5, ch. 2, pp. 241–244; cf. Nieten 2006:170–171). By this time and especially since the publication and confessional use of *The Book of Concord* (1580), Lutheran theologians regularly quoted Luther as an authoritative voice and Gerhard is no exception. In fact, a perusal of Gerhard’s writings, both academic and devotional, show a strong reliance on Luther’s thought. It behooves us, then, to

31 For a refutation of the Humean divide between reason and desire, see Hursthouse (1988:203, 206–210) and Broadie (1991:70–72).

examine Luther's concern and what led up to it to gain a better understanding of the philosophical and theological waters through which Gerhard was navigating.

3.1 Pre-Reformation: Augustine and Aquinas

The language and concept of ἔξισις was common knowledge in the Roman and Greek culture during biblical times and was taken up by Christianity early in its history. The use of the term already in Hebrews 5:14 was associated with the Aristotelian concept³² and many early Christian theologians made use of the term in their writings (e.g., Origen, Augustine, Gregory of Nazianzus) (Funke 1958:131). Augustine (354–430) used the idea frequently throughout his writings (preferring the word *consuetudo* to *habitus*), but almost invariably in a pejorative sense (Prendiville 1972:29).³³ Hence, 'habit' for the Bishop of Hippo takes on the connotation of 'vice' as opposed to 'virtue.' Concupiscence binds human beings and keeps them fettered to evil inclinations by means of violent 'habit,' which in turn reproduces sinful thoughts and deeds in a vicious, unending cycle. 'Habit exacerbates the bondage to sin' (Carlisle 2014:64) and ruthlessly and relentlessly drags one back to the old desires and former way of life, even after conversion:

My will was the enemy master of, and thence had made a chain for me and bound me. Because of a perverse will was lust made; and lust indulged in became custom [*consuetudo*] and custom [*consuetudini*] not resisted became necessity ... For the law of sin is the violence of custom [*consuetudinis*], whereby the mind is drawn and held, even against its will; deserving to be so held in that it so willingly falls into it. (Augustine 1956:121; *Conf.* bk. 8, ch. 5, §§ 10, 12)³⁴

Not only do 'bad habits' drag one back into sin, but they also contaminate and pervert what would otherwise be seen as good works. According to Augustine, all true virtue stems from the love (*caritas*) of God that can only come from God. So, even seemingly virtuous deeds carried out without this love (i.e., by pagans) are, in fact, evil and sinful because they inevitably arise from sinful pride (Kent 2002:117).

Thomas Aquinas (1225–1274) undertook the task of 'rehabilitating' the Aristotelian concept of *habitus* for a more positive use in Christian theology.³⁵ He was

32 'But solid food is for the mature, for those who have their powers of discernment trained by constant practice [διὰ τὴν ἔξισιν] to distinguish good from evil' Heb. 5:14 (*English Standard Version*, henceforth ESV).

33 For an extensive treatment of Augustine's use of 'habit' in its historical and literary contexts, see Prendiville (1972).

34 *Velle meum tenebat inimicus; et inde mihi catenam fecerat et constrinxerat me. Quippe voluntate perversa facta est libido, et dum servitur libidini, facta est consuetudo, et dum consuetudini non resistitur, facta est necessitas ... lex enim peccati est violentia consuetudinis, qua trahitur et tenetur etiam invitus animus, eo merito, quo in eam volens inlabitur.*

35 For the following discussion on Aquinas, see Kent 2002:117–121; Carlisle 2013:32–39; 2014:64–67.

not by any means the first medieval theologian to make such an attempt,³⁶ but his rather lengthy section in the *Summa theologiae* on *habitus* (Ia IIae, quests. 49–89), as well as his *Disputed Questions on Virtue*, were influential enough so that all subsequent theologians deliberating on the issue ended up in dialogue with him.³⁷ Although Thomas did give credence to naturally acquired virtues (as opposed to Augustine who merely deemed them ill-disguised vices), he also emphasized that certain important virtues (e.g., the theological virtues of faith, hope, and love) are of supernatural origin, deeming them to be gifts of God divinely ‘infused’ into a person – an idea that ran completely counter to Aristotle. He was inclined to favor the positive role of the will much more than Augustine. In fact, ‘habit is that whereby we act when we will’ wrote Aquinas citing the Islamic philosopher Averroes (Aquinas 1947:1,812; *Sum Ia IIae*, quest. 49, art. 3). He adopted the definition of virtue proposed by Lombard and pieced together from Augustine: ‘Virtue is a good quality of the mind, by which we live righteously, of which no one can make bad use, which God works in us, without us [*in nobis sine nobis*]’ (Aquinas 1947:1,886; *Sum Ia IIae* quest. 55, art. 4).³⁸ But, he modestly proposed a few revisions. Notably, he took exception to the expression *in nobis sine nobis* suggesting it be removed so that the definition could apply to all virtues, those infused as well as those acquired. Later, when arguing why the virtue of love (*caritas*, charity) must reside as a *habitus* in the soul, he further alluded to what underlay his concern:

... When the Holy Ghost moves the human mind the movement of charity does not proceed from this motion in such a way that the human mind be merely moved, without being the principle of this movement ... For this is contrary to the nature of a voluntary act, whose principle needs to be in itself ... Likewise, neither can it be said that the Holy Ghost moves the will in such a way to the act of loving, as though the will were an instrument, for an instrument, though it be a principle of action, nevertheless has not the power to act or not to act, for then again the act would cease to be voluntary and meritorious, whereas ... the love of charity is the root of merit: and, given that the will is moved by the Holy Ghost to the act of love, it is necessary that the will also should be the efficient cause of that act. (Aquinas 1947:2,860–2,861; *Sum Ia IIae*, quest. 23, art. 2)³⁹

36 The idea of infused *habitus* came into Christian theology early on as a rationale and explanation for how an infant might receive grace without the necessary ‘habituation’ spoken about by Aristotle.

37 For example, far from avoiding Thomas Aquinas, Gerhard quotes him rather extensively in his *Loci*, both favorably and unfavorably. In fact, he references Aquinas some ten times in his *Proemium* alone and in his *Methodus studii theologici* (part 3, sect. 5, ch. 4) recommends reading Thomas’ *Summa theologiae* along with other scholastic writings, although with ample warning about scholastic theology in general.

38 *Virtus est bona qualitas mentis, qua recte vivitur, qua nullus male utitur, quam Deus in nobis sine nobis operatur.*

39 *Non ... motus caritatis ita procedit a spiritu sancto movente humanam mentem quod humana mens sit mota tantum et nullo modo sit principium huius motus, sicut cum aliquod corpus movetur ab aliquo exteriori movente. Hoc enim est contra rationem voluntarii, cuius oportet prin-*

The positive and contributory role of the will in this passage (e.g., voluntary, its own principle [*principium*], the efficient cause of meritorious love) is striking when compared to Augustine's rather pessimistic view of the same. In effect, however, Aquinas was attempting to find equilibrium between what he considered two non-negotiable factors – the need for divine intervention and the preservation of human freedom. As Carlisle (2013:37) aptly points out, his way forward is through the 'idea of appropriation – of "making one's own" a movement that originally lay beyond one's power.' Although 'infused' and 'superadded' to the natural power of the will, love (as well as grace and righteousness), as a *habitus*, 'works in the same way as a nature, it makes the doing of something our own, as if natural to us, so to speak' (Aquinas 2005:8; *Disputed Questions on Virtue*, art. 1, *My Reply*).⁴⁰

3.2 Reformation: Martin Luther

Trained as a monk in the Augustinian tradition, Martin Luther's theological thinking, including his thoughts regarding the idea of *habitus*, reflected that of the Bishop of Hippo in contrast to that of the Dominican friar. In fact, already early in his career (1509–1510) he went beyond the nominalist critique of the doctrine of *habitus* and rejected it completely (Schwarz 1962:39). That this theological critique of the *habitus* concept continued throughout his life reveals that it conflicted with his approach to theology on a fundamental level.

Scrawled on a scrap of paper shortly before he died, the words 'Wir sind bettler... Hoc est verum ...' (WA TR 5:168) capture the underlying reason for Luther's rejection of *habitus* as a viable theological explanation for how God works and relates to human beings.⁴¹ In his *Lectures on Romans*, Luther insists that 'the whole life [of faith ...] is nothing else but prayer, seeking, and begging ... always seeking and striving to be made righteous, even to the hour of death, never standing still, never possessing ... (LW 25:251–252; *Lectures on Romans*).⁴² The very idea at the root of ἔχειν, a 'having' or possession, runs counter to Luther's theology of the cross oriented toward the *vita passiva* (receptive life) as opposed to actions and contemplation. 'God is the active subject and ... humans simply "suffer" (*passio*) or

cupium in ipso esse ... Similiter etiam non potest dici quod sic moveat spiritus sanctus voluntatem ad actum diligendi sicut movetur instrumentum quod, etsi sit principium actus, non tamen est in ipso agere vel non agere. Sic enim etiam tolleretur ratio voluntarii, et excluderetur ratio meriti, cum tamen ... dilectio caritatis est radix merendi. Sed oportet quod sic voluntas moveatur a spiritu sancto ad diligendum quod etiam ipsa sit efficiens hunc actum.

40 Quod quidem fit per habitum; qui cum sit per modum cuiusdam naturae, operationem sibi propriam quasi naturalem reddit

41 'We are beggars. This is true.' Luther applied these words to the exceeding difficulty of truly understanding Scripture; nonetheless, on a more general level they also reveal a certain approach to theology.

42 Unless noted otherwise, all citations from Martin Luther's writings are from the American Edition of *Luther's Works* (henceforth LW). Full bibliographic information is available in the reference list.

undergo his work' (Bayer 2007:23; see also 21–24). It is not so much about 'my own having' of divine things as it is about 'God's having' (*Gotthaben*) of me (Funke 1958:194).

Luther's use of *habitus* is almost exclusively negative. Similar to Augustine, he bemoans the fact that *habitus* exacerbate sin.⁴³ Custom and habits exercised in conjunction with the sinful will defy the truth of the Word of God and make it all the more difficult to hear and heed God's voice (cf. LW 43:152–153, *A Letter of Consolation to the Christians at Halle*; LW 44:102, *Treatise on Good Works*; see also Funke 1958:187–192, 198). This is particularly true with regard to 'works righteousness': '... Anyone who seeks righteousness through the Law does nothing by his repeated actions but acquire the habit [ἔξω] of this first action, which is that God in his wrath and awe is to be appeased by works' (LW 26:404–405; *Lectures on Galatians*, 1535, Ch. 1–4). Such righteousness 'acquired by practice ... and by habit' as proposed by 'Aristotle and other philosophers ... is called a lie and an iniquity' (LW 27:219–220; *Lectures on Galatians*, 1519, Ch. 1–6). The Wittenberg reformer feared that the scholastic concept of *habitus* would undermine the very cornerstone of the reformation movement – the doctrine of justification by grace through faith. In his typical vehement fashion, he defends the recently recovered concepts of 'righteousness,' 'grace,' and 'faith,' from any intrusion by the 'sophists' (medieval scholastics) and their 'monstrous absurdities' (LW 32:246; *Against Latomus*).

Among the greatest absurdities were the idea of *habitus gratiae* (*habitus* of grace) and its related concept of *iustitia infusa* (infused righteousness). Regarding the latter, Luther clarifies that Christian righteousness is an external imputation rather than an internal quality 'adhering' to the soul:

... It is a divine imputation or reckoning as righteousness or to righteousness, for the sake of our faith in Christ or for the sake of Christ. When the sophists hear this definition, they laugh; for they suppose that righteousness is a certain quality [i.e., *habitus*] that is first infused into the soul and then distributed through all the members. (LW 26:233; *Lectures on Galatians*, 1535, Ch. 1–4; see also pp.127–128; cf. LW 25:274, *Lectures on Romans*)

The believer does not become intrinsically righteous, but one's righteousness is always extrinsic. So adamant was Luther on this point that early in his career (1519) he went as far as calling this imputed righteousness a *iustitia aliena* (alien righteousness) because it belonged to Christ (LW 31:297; *Two Kinds of Righteousness*) and in his definitive lectures on Galatians he later settled on the term *iustitia pas-*

43 Luther occasionally uses scholastic terminology such as 'quality' and '*habitus*' to describe original sin (e.g., LW 13:127–128; *Psalm 90*), but most often expresses serious misgivings about the inadequacies and misconceptions introduced by such terms, e.g., the scholastic refusal to depict original sin as sin in the proper sense of the term. See the extensive treatment of this subject in Funke (1958:187–194).

*si*va (passive righteousness), since by it ‘we only receive and permit someone else to work in us, namely, God’ (LW 26:4–5; *Lectures on Galatians*, 1535, Ch. 1–4). He distinguished this clearly from ‘active’ or ‘actual’ righteousness, by which a person already made righteous through faith responds to God’s grace with acts of love to God and neighbor (LW 31:298–299; *Two Kinds of Righteousness*; cf. Kolb 1999:457–459).

Similarly, neither can grace be an intrinsic quality. ‘Grace means the favor by which God accepts us, forgiving sins and justifying freely through Christ,’ says Luther in contrast to the definition of the scholastics who ‘teach that grace is a quality [i.e., *habitus*] hidden in the heart; if someone has it included in his heart like a jewel, God regards him, if he co-operates with his free will’ (LW 12:376–377; *Psalm* 51). Luther abhorred the semi-Pelagian connotations inherent in the doctrine of *habitus gratiae*, despite Thomas’ attempts to redeem it as a supernatural *habitus infusus*. Carlisle has accurately diagnosed the reason for this Pelagian inclination:

Despite being divinely infused, a *habitus* still requires human action in order to bear fruit, since a disposition to be virtuous has to be exercised, or actualized, by doing good deeds. The gap between potentiality and actuality, implicit in the concept of disposition, is fertile ground for the idea of spiritual merit that Luther opposes so vehemently. (2014:66–67)

There is another reason, however, that Luther astutely points out. The scholastics search for God entirely in the wrong ‘category’ (see above discussion of Aristotle’s categories):

... If you depart from this God whom we are placing in the category of relation and investigate Him in the category of substance or quantity, you will be overwhelmed by His majesty. If you search Him in the category of quality [e.g., *habitus*], you will be consumed ... Therefore stay with God in the category of relation. (LW 3:122; *Lectures on Genesis*: Ch. 15–20)

Consequently, a Christian ‘is not righteous according to substance or quality ..., [rather] he is righteous according to his relation to something; namely, only in respect to divine grace and the free forgiveness of sins’ (LW 12:329; *Psalm* 51; cf. Ebeling 1970:156–158). The former celibate monk offers a compelling comparison. Although he is an unworthy husband in all other categories, his wife serves him because he is worthy in regard to her relationship of love for him. So too, he is an unworthy person in all other categories, but God cares for him because of God’s relational love for him (LW 5:38; *Lectures on Genesis*: Ch. 26–30).

Luther discovered the importance of faith as a young monk after desperately seeking a gracious God through works of love and coming up inevitably and damningly short. His efforts were in vain until he discovered that a gracious God can only

be found when approached by faith. One is justified *sola fide*. But what is the nature of faith? In contrast to righteousness and grace, faith does actually reside ‘in the soul’ (LW 31:349; *The Freedom of the Christian*), yet Luther still expresses serious misgivings about defining it as a *habitus*.⁴⁴ Whereas his attacks against the notions of *iustitia infusa* and *habitus gratiae* are aimed at their semi-Pelagian tendency, his misgivings about *habitus fidei* (*habitus* of faith) are directed at a related, yet different enemy. What he finds intolerable is the relegation of faith to an inferior status equal to all other virtues and below that of love (*caritas*), and the depiction of faith as a formless and empty quality that must be informed and adorned by love (*fides caritate formata*) in order to be meritorious, that is, able to justify (cf. *Sum IIa IIae*, quest. 4, art. 3). Thus, he objects:

... While they [the scholastics] say that faith is the mere outline but love is its living colors and completion, we say in opposition that faith takes hold of Christ and that He is the form that adorns and informs faith as color does the wall. Therefore Christian faith is not an idle quality [i.e., *habitus*] or an empty husk in the heart ... But if it is true faith, it is a sure trust and firm acceptance in the heart. It takes hold of Christ in such a way that Christ is the object of faith, or rather not the object but, so to speak, the One who is present in the faith itself. (LW 26:129; *Lectures on Galatians*, 1535, Ch. 1–4)

Luther describes faith in various ways. Perhaps most fundamentally, it is trust in the promises of God. But more must be said about this faith, Luther insists, for in an utterly gracious way, by faith (not love!) the Christian fulfills all of the law, is filled with all the other virtues, and becomes holy, righteous, and ‘a perfectly free lord of all, subject to none’ (LW 31:344, 348–349; *The Freedom of a Christian*). It is impossible, therefore, to imagine that this faith which brings about such great

44 For the most part, he avoids employing scholastic language to describe faith altogether and appears reluctant to even attempt an explanation of how faith might reside in the mind. At one point he does acknowledge faith in passing as a ‘quality,’ although he does so in a context where the use of scholastic language is advantageous and most probably for the sake of his opponents (LW 26:132; *Lectures on Galatians*, 1535, Ch. 1–4). Note also *The Disputation concerning Justification* during which Luther denies that Scripture calls faith a work just as it also does not refer to righteousness, charity, or love as qualities. Interestingly, in this academic context, the question of the nature of faith as a quality or *habitus* remains curiously open as does the use of such language in the field of philosophy (LW 34:168–169). Based on such passages, although admittedly rare, as well as Melancthon’s clear identification of faith as a *habitus* in the *Erotemata dialectices*, which had Luther’s enthusiastic support (an earlier edition of the tract on logic had already been published in 1534 during Luther’s lifetime), one could perhaps make the argument, though with caution, that Luther’s misgivings about labeling faith as a *habitus* were (or were interpreted by others as being) more concerned with the scholastic misunderstanding and misuse of that idea than with the terminology itself. Nonetheless, most Lutheran theologians in the following generations avoided the term *habitus fidei* because of its close association with the long discredited doctrine of *iustitia infusa*. See below (ch. 2) the discussion of Gerhard’s rare and rather cryptic use of *habitus* to describe faith. See also, e.g., Abraham Calov’s reluctance to use the term to describe faith in the context of theology, though he does so quite openly in his philosophical works (Appold 1998:156–157).

things could be a mere ‘obsolete’ and ‘worthless’ quality in the soul (LW 32:239, *Against Latomus*; LW 26:147, *Lectures on Galatians*, 1535, Ch. 1–4).⁴⁵ Luther, in commenting on John 6:28–29, describes it as ‘the first, highest, and most precious of all good works’ (LW 44:23; *Treatise on Good Works*).⁴⁶ If faith constitutes an active work (cf. *actus*), then its status as a *habitus* is called into question (Funke 1958:197–198). Of course, far from promoting some sort of semi-Pelagianism, the Wittenberg reformer dares to call faith a work precisely because faith is the work of God worked by God through the believer. How? Luther’s response varies, but in the passage quoted above he describes Christ as the ‘form that adorns and informs faith.’ More than the mere object of faith, Christ is present within faith giving it its determinative and definitive shape and making it what it is (see previous comments regarding the Aristotelian idea of ‘form’). Here he is using scholastic terminology; elsewhere he describes it in more biblical language: Faith ‘unites the soul with Christ as a bride is united with her bridegroom ... It follows that everything they have they hold in common. Accordingly the believing soul can boast of and glory in whatever Christ has as though it were its own, and whatever the soul has Christ claims as his own’ (LW 31:344, 348–349; *The Freedom of a Christian*; cf. LW 26:167–169, *Lectures on Galatians*, 1535, Ch. 1–4). Similarly, Luther often associates faith with the gift of the Holy Spirit who dwells in the believer (LW 44:26; *Treatise on Good Works*).

This ‘mysterious union’ with God *sola fide* has important consequences with regard to the scholastic notion of *habitus caritatis* (*habitus* of love). This mysterious union is not the addition or amelioration of any inner disposition or quality, nor is it the augmentation of any existing power, but rather it signals the end of the former person and the rebirth and resurrection of the new person in Christ. In terms of the new life, the indwelling Spirit precludes the need of an internal *habitus* of love since it is the Spirit who gives rise to fruits of the Spirit. How? Luther is somewhat ambivalent, but indicates that the love of God as promised in the Word and resulting in the certainty (i.e., faith) of forgiveness, gives rise to ‘divine’ works of love for the neighbor (Ebeling 1970:167–168; Funke 1958:194). Faith, then, constitutes the highest good work because only *sola fide* are ‘all other works good, acceptable, and worthy,’ unencumbered by compulsion and pride, which render seeming virtues into actual vices before God (LW 44:26; *Treatise on Good Works*). In other words, only one who has become *sola fide* ‘a perfectly free lord of all’ can then become ‘a perfectly dutiful servant of all’ (LW 31:344; *The Freedom of a Christian*).

45 Consider also Luther’s comments on Abraham: ‘... Faith reconciles opposites and is not an idle quality, as the sophists say; but it has the power to kill death, to condemn to hell, to be sin for sin, and a devil for the devil to such an extent that death is not death, even if everybody’s reason should bear witness that death is present.’ (LW 4:117; *Lectures on Genesis*: Ch. 21–25)

46 ‘Then they said to him, “What must we do, to be doing the works of God?” Jesus answered them, “This is the work of God, that you believe in him whom he has sent”’ John 6:28–29 (*English Standard Version*).

4. Conclusion

In this chapter we have laid out the historical context of Gerhard's concept of *theologia* primarily shaped by the two most influential reformers within Lutheranism, Martin Luther and Philipp Melanchthon. It is difficult to overestimate their monumental influence on subsequent generations of theologians, including Johann Gerhard. Of particular interest for our purposes is their use of *habitus*, a term that Gerhard later takes up in his definition of *theologia*. Neither Luther nor Melanchthon clearly designates 'theology' as a *habitus*,⁴⁷ nor do they expressly forbid it, yet the reason would seem to have less to do with any misgivings about the term itself and more to do with the fact that the nature of theology was not a major subject of debate during their time. In fact, Gerhard, three generations later, is one of the first Lutheran theologians to directly broach the topic. Nonetheless, the first reformers' use or disuse of the notion of *habitus* greatly affected its later assimilation into Lutheran theological thinking at the turn of the century. If nothing else, this is evidenced by the conflict triggered by the reintroduction of *habitus* into regular theological conversation, as we shall see in the following chapter.

On the one hand, Melanchthon readily adopted the concept of *habitus* in his popular book on logic and his explanations therein serve as the underlying framework for our continued exploration below. In many respects, his ideas in the *Erotemata dialectices* were normative for later generations and underlay the logical and psychological thinking of theologians such as Gerhard (one cannot simply not have such theories). On the other hand, Luther viewed the term with marked misgivings and, at times, downright vehemence because of deep theological concerns over its scholastic connotations. Luther's influence in this regard was such that all subsequent conversation about *habitus* by later Lutheran theologians was permeated by a cautious aversion to synergistic tendencies. Aristotle's *habitus* simply gave too much room for the possibility of human merit in spiritual affairs. Applying the term to describe *theologia*, then, brought to the fore the underlying question of human ability and contribution in the theological endeavor and, consequently, the question about the nature of *theologia*. To what extent was it a spiritual affair? Theologians such as Gerhard were preoccupied with this question. This and how he uses *habitus* to define *theologia*, while at the same time heeding the voice of Luther, is the topic of the following chapters. Suffice it to say for now that Gerhard reveals himself to be a theologian quite adept at heeding the legacy of both reformers.

47 In fact, Melanchthon seldom even uses the term *theologia* due to its contentious scholastic roots. See ch. 4 for an overview of the use of the term *theologia* within Lutheranism.

II Gerhard's Use of *Habitus*

1. Introduction

Gerhard's use of the rather elusive term *habitus* to define *theologia* has been examined in his historical context. It remains to be further explored within his contemporary context at the turn of the seventeenth century and shortly thereafter. This will then enable us to investigate his use of the term in select writings outside of the *Prooemium*. Much of our attention will focus on Gerhard's use of it in his *Loci 16 De justificatione per fidem* (*On justification by faith*), the majority of which deals either directly or indirectly with the topic of 'faith.' Gerhard's thoughts regarding 'faith' are particularly pertinent for our study because of the close, nearly identical, relation that he establishes between it and *theologia*. In other words, it is virtually impossible to understanding Gerhard's concept of *theologia* without first understanding his ideas with regard to 'faith.' This will then prepare us to delve into the *Prooemium* itself and inquire about his decision to use the concept of *habitus* in defining *theologia*.

2. Contemporary Context

In addition to the impact of Luther and Melancthon, the thought, events, and affairs of the contemporary scene also affected Gerhard's use of *habitus* and influenced the meaning he gave to it. That contemporary scene consists of both theological and philosophical influences. A modern theologian might be led to underestimate the philosophical influences on Gerhard's thought in light of the fact that his renown derives almost exclusively from his theological contributions. This would be a mistake. Like any theologian trained in the German universities at his time, Gerhard was schooled in a classical Aristotelian education and spent his first years at the university immersed in the typical undergraduate philosophical subjects – a necessary prerequisite for further professional studies, whether it be in jurisprudence, medicine, or theology.¹ That Gerhard was particularly proficient at philosophy is evidenced by the fact that his first teaching/tutoring assignments and publications were in the subject of Aristotelian logic and politics and, shortly thereafter, in the newly emerging discipline of metaphysics.² In fact, he published two disputations, *De*

1 The undergraduate study of 'philosophy' in Gerhard's day was focused mostly on the liberal arts and differed markedly from the subject matter known by that name today. Hence, Gerhard's 'curriculum of philosophy' included courses in history, logic, ethics, mathematics, physics, and anthropology (Fischer [1723] 2001:26–27).

2 See Fischer [1723] 2010:27, 32–33, 45–46 (for the original, see Fischer 1723, ch. 3, §§ 1, 5, 11). It seems that the lecture notes for these early teaching experiences may be those recently made available under the title: 'Privatvorlesungen Johann Gerhards zur Logik, Metaphysik und *Confessio Augustana* sowie eine theologische Thesenreihe' (Gerhard 1602–1604).

vero (*On What Is True*) and *De necessitate et contingentia* (*On Necessity and Contingency*), the first of which dealt with the Hofmann conflict and the question of 'double truth' at the turn of the century. Furthermore, he published two philosophical lectures around that same time, *Theses collegii logici* and *Theses collegii politici* (Fischer [1723] 2010: 313–314; Fischer 1723, ch. 19, § 4). The point is that Gerhard was very cognizant of the philosophical conversation and climate of his time and his theological deliberations, including the use or disuse of *habitus*, take place within that contemporary scene (cf. Hägglund 1951:9–63).

2.1 Reintroduction of *Habitus* into Lutheran Theology

There is a rather conspicuous absence of the term *habitus* in Protestant theological formulations in the sixteenth century. At the turn of the seventeenth century this begins to change. Already at that time Reformed theologians such as Bartholomäus Keckermann (c. 1572–1609) were making ample use of the term. It began to surface, albeit much more slowly, in Lutheran circles shortly thereafter. In the first volume of his *Philosophia sobria*, Balthasar Meisner (1612:457; sect. 2, ch. 2, quest. 1, assert. 2) defined *theologia* as a *habitus* θεόδοτος already in 1612 and set himself apart as one of the first Lutheran theologians to appropriate the term.³ Gerhard refrains from using the term to describe *theologia* in his *Methodus studii theologici* of 1617 (published in 1620), but shortly thereafter follows Meisner and others (e.g., Mentzer, Calixt) by employing it in the *Prooemium* (though the reasons for his reluctance to include it in the *Methodus* may have more to do with the difference in literary genre than any theological hesitancy). Later seventeenth century Lutheran theologians will consistently use the term to designate the genus of *theologia* and make regular use of it in a variety of other contexts (e.g., Abraham Calov, see Appold 1998:156–158).

In light of Luther's strong misgivings regarding the theological use of *habitus*, why did Lutheran seventeenth century theologians, such as Gerhard, adopt the term in describing *theologia*? Their use of it was occasioned by the return of scholastic metaphysics into the German universities shortly after the turn of the century. The Italian philosopher Jacob Zabarella (1533–1589) is often considered the initial and primary representative of this renewed Aristotelian intellectual movement in early-modern Europe. Lutherans in the German territories resisted longer than the Reformed in other parts of Europe, but significant headway was made by Cornelius Martini (1568–1621), professor of metaphysics at the University of Helmstedt, who is usually recognized as one of the first to reintroduce Aristotelian metaphysics into Lutheran thought (Wundt 1939:240; Appold 2008:89; cf. Fischer [1723] 2000:32).

3 Friedrich (2004:301) points out that Balthasar Mentzer and George Calixt were also pioneers among Lutherans in the theological use of *habitus*.

Although the detailed history of the return of metaphysics is beyond the purview of this study,⁴ the origins of *habitus* and its intellectual pathway into German Lutheran theological thinking must be traced with a bit more precision. Upon reflection, it is not surprising that a metaphysical concern leads to epistemological questions. In fact, the science of metaphysics naturally gives rise to what might be called ‘theories of cognition,’ for the question of essence (*ens qua ens*) inevitably ushers in the question of knowableness (*scibile qua scibile*), particularly the question of how the existent and the knowable are related (Wundt 1939:231). Hence, we see an emerging genre of literature at this time bearing titles such as *Gnostologia* (e.g., Calov), *Technologia* (e.g., Timpler), *Hexilogia* or *Hexiologia* (e.g., Alsted, Timpler). This literature was an attempt to examine the science of knowledge and, since *ἐπιστήμη* were an integral part of any Aristotelian attempt to understand cognition, explanations of *habitus* abound (Wundt 1939:233; Funke 1958:237).

‘Cognition’ was a matter of deep concern in the post-Reformation world partly because of an anti-Aristotelian approach to philosophy primarily influenced by the innovative and often contentious thinking of Petrus Ramus (1515–1572; for an extensive and rather critical treatment of Ramus’s thought, see Ong 1958). Partly motivated by pedagogical concerns, Ramus taught, for example, that logic is about being and, therefore, there is no distinction between it and metaphysics. In his estimation, no essential difference existed between one’s concept of a thing and the ontological and metaphysical thing itself. Consequently, he had no need for the notion of *habitus* in his system of thinking and rejected it altogether. Ramist method with its simplistic dichotomized tables became quite popular during the sixteenth century and worked its way into Reformed theology for over a century. It never found a strong foothold in German Lutheranism primarily because of Melancthon’s enduring influence. In fact, somewhat of an intellectual ‘war’ raged between the more Aristotelian, traditional approach of Melancthon and that of Ramus, with the influence of Zabarella being the impetus for the victory of an Aristotelian approach.⁵ That Zabarella was recognized as one of the prime logicians even among German Lutherans and that Gerhard was very familiar with his work, is evidenced by Gerhard’s recommendation that theology students read him as an interpreter of Aristotle ‘because of his clarity’ (*Methodus*, part 2, sect. 2, ch. 3).

Hägglund (1951:45–46; cf. Poppi 2004:42) summarizes the Padua philosopher’s important impact on Lutheran seventeenth century theology as being two-fold: The separation between logic and the metaphysical existence of the thing and the twofold division of method into contemplative and practical.

4 For the return and influence of Aristotelian metaphysics on German (theological) thought, see Weber (1908), Peterson (1921), Wundt (1939:227–263), and Sparr (1976). For Zabarella’s influence on Lutheran theological methodology, see Hägglund (1951:45–63).

5 For the enormous influence of Zabarella on the German territories and especially on Cornelius Martini’s significant victory over the German Ramists at the end of the sixteenth century, see Pozzo (2004:183–185).

In contrast to the likes of Ramus, Zabarella insisted on a clear distinction between the conceptualization of a thing and its real ontological existence. He insisted that logic was to be strictly distinguished from the 'sciences' (*scientia*) and even the 'arts' (*ars*) and instead relegated it to an instrumental role (Zabarella 1597:5–8, 16–18; *Opera logica, De natura logicae*, bk. 1, ch. 3, 8; see Poppi 2004:42–44). With this move, the Padua logician removed the artificial insistence that the *ordo* of a thing must represent the actual thing as it occurs in nature.⁶ Rather, the *ordo* of a thing simply constitutes a way of presenting existing knowledge – for both learning and teaching – and should constitute the best way of mentally understanding the thing, even though it may not correspond to the natural ordering of the thing itself (Poppi 2004:47, 49). The *ordo* existed not outside of the observing person, but rather inside of that person by means of a *habitus animae* (of the soul):

The order of a teaching [*doctrina*] is an instrumental *habitus*, through which we are rendered apt to arrange the parts of each discipline in order that, as much as possible, that discipline might be correctly and easily learned. (Zabarella 1597:154; *Opera logica, De methodus*, bk. 1, ch. 11; cf. Poppi 2004:43)⁷

Consequently, in contrast to Ramus and similar to Melanchthon, the Italian philosopher fully integrated the idea of *habitus* into his philosophical thought. As a result, each academic university discipline (*scientia*) was considered an internal *habitus* corresponding to the external thing to be studied.

This had reverberating implications throughout theology (Appold 1998:21–29) and prepared the way for the eventual consideration of *theologia* as a *habitus* similar to other university disciplines (cf. Hägglund 1951:47–49). So, for instance, one notices that at the end of his *Prooemium* Gerhard provides a two-fold definition of *theologia* (§ 31). The first designates it as *doctrina* and the second as *habitus*. Such a two-fold description of *theologia* was common in the early seventeenth century and does not refer to any sort of dichotomy, but rather to two different ways of viewing or considering (*considerata*) the same concept.⁸ Systematically and abstractly, *theologia* as *doctrina* can be viewed as a discipline and every discipline was thought to have a corresponding disposition or *habitus* of the mind, whereby the teaching of that discipline could be readily appropriated into the human mind (cf. Hägglund 1951:47–48). Every academic discipline could then be considered a *doctrina* and a *habitus* depending on how it was viewed. Accordingly, the Reformed

6 Zabarella also distinguished between the *ordo* of a thing (the logical outline or presentation of a subject matter) and its *methodus* (the logical and deductive way in which conclusions are drawn from known principles, e.g., cause and effect). See Poppi (2004:46–49) and Hägglund (1951:49–50).

7 *Ordo doctrinae est habitus instrumentalis, per quem apti sumus cuiusque disciplinae partes ita disponere, ut quantum fieri possit, optime ac facillime ea disciplina discatur.*

8 E.g., the Reformed theologian, Francis Turretin (1623–1687), described *theologia* “systematically and objectively as a discipline [*disciplinae*] or subjectively as a disposition [*habitus*] resident in the intellect” (Muller 1986:196; cf. also the example of Wollebius given by Muller 1987:228).

professor of philosophy, Clemens Timpler (1563–1624), in his tract on *Technologia*, distinguishes between the external liberal arts and the corresponding internal liberal arts – the former designated systems of handed-down precepts, while the latter constituted the corresponding intellectual *habitus* ([1604] 1616:1–3, 30–31; cf. Funke 1958:238–239). Timpler’s philosophical and pedagogical works were widely used by Lutherans throughout the German territories. It is important for our purposes to note, however, that in Timpler’s schema, these corresponding *habitus* were *intellectual habitus* of *scientia*. As we will see shortly, for some this proved untenable at best and scandalous at worst when applied to *theologia*. It begged the question of the difference between *theologia* and the other academic disciplines.

In addition to reviving the idea of the five intellectual *habitus*, Zabarella also emphasized the sharp distinction made between the *disciplina contemplativa* (i.e., *scientia*, *intellectus*, and *sapientia*), dealing with necessary things such as metaphysics and mathematics, and the *disciplina operatrices* (i.e., *prudentia* and *ars*) dealing with contingent things (Zabarella 1597:3; *Opera logica, De natura logicae*, bk. 1, ch. 2). The contemplative disciplines constituted the higher spheres of intellectual activity because they led to perfection of knowledge, rather than simply created things. The theoretical disciplines had their particular method, which Zabarella labeled *compositio* (composition of knowledge by means of demonstrations) and described it as starting with what is necessary and proceeding toward knowledge of conclusions. So too, the practical disciplines were to follow a method he called *resolutio* (resolution) which begins with the goal and works backwards towards the subject and means (Zabarella 1597:180–190; *Opera logica, De natura logicae*, bk. 2, ch. 6–8; cf. Hägglund 1951:51–54). Hence, when this practical schema is adapted to theology, the theologian proceeds from the final envisioned goal (e.g., God and salvation), to the subject in whom the goal is to be accomplished (e.g., humans as sinful beings), and then to the means by which it is to be accomplished (e.g., means of salvation such as election, justification, and means of grace).

Zabarella’s influence on German Lutheranism is again evidenced by the almost exclusive use of this latter method, often called the ‘analytic method,’ shortly after the turn of the century. The Calvinist philosopher and theologian, Bartholomäus Keckermann (1572–1609) is generally credited as being the conduit through which Zabarella’s thought reached German Lutheran circles.⁹ Keckermann (1614:67–69) was one of the first theologians to identify *theologia* as a *disciplina operatrix* (operative discipline) and was one of the few theologians to directly define *theologia* as a ‘religious prudence [*prudentia religiosa*] leading to salvation’ (*Systema sacrosanctae theologiae*, bk. 1, ch. 1; cf. Muller 1987:212, 219).¹⁰ Balthasar Meisner, although a persistent critic of Keckermann, and Balthasar Mentzer were among the

9 Although Appold (2008:95–96) highlights recent research that may indicate an early ‘parallel line of reception’ in the work of Daniel Cramer, philosopher at Wittenberg, and his colleague Matthias Flacius, Jr.

10 *Theologia est prudentia religiosa ad salutem perveniendi*.

first Lutheran theologians to adopt the practical approach to theology, although neither of them construes *theologia* as prudence. Others soon followed. Gerhard is a notable exception, which is somewhat strange in view of his insistence on *theologia* as *practica*. The Jena professor opts for the traditional 'synthetic' method in his *Loci theologici* (1610–1625). In 1625 while writing the *Prooemium* (§ 25) he still refers readers to his *Aphorismi succincti et selecti* (1611a, aph. 1, fols. A1–A5) where he had set out the synthetic progression of his *Loci* some fifteen years earlier.¹¹ It is noteworthy, however, that elsewhere in that same *Prooemium* he does appear to recommend the 'analytic method' (§ 28).

Despite his influence, Zabarella was a philosopher and does not treat the question of *theologia* in any of his writings. The idea of a divinely bestowed *habitus* is completely foreign to him as it would have been to Aristotle long ago.¹² In fact, in his *De speciebus intelligibilibus* (ch. 8), he is quite clear that considerable human effort must accompany the acquisition of a *habitus*: 'For our mind is born undeveloped and inept to immediately grasp the knowledge of things, therefore it is necessary to work and investigate, to learn and discover' (Zabarella, 1605, fol. 41A).¹³ From a philosophical standpoint, this 'acquired' status of *habitus* stands in line with the common philosophical understanding at the time and was the norm accepted by others, such as Lutheran professors of philosophy Georg Gutke and Cornelius Martini. Gutke emphasized the empirical origins of the *habitus* and reiterated that

understanding is an acquired, not an innate *habitus*, for we are not born astute, but [it happens] rather through instruction and effort, and our intellect is originally an empty slate so it only happens through work by means of ideas coming from outside. (as cited in Wundt 1939:246)

Sigismund Evenius, whom we will encounter below, held similar views (Salatowsky 2006:365). That the mind is merely an 'empty slate' and has the capacity to 'acquire understanding' through one's own 'diligent effort' is a notion that sharply contradicts the thinking of Augustine and Luther regarding *habitus*, precisely be-

11 Gerhard had actually already laid out the outline for his *Loci* in 1603 in *Das Testament und das Glaubensbekenntnis*, a testimony he wrote while on what he thought was his deathbed (see Steiger 1996a). In this schema he arranged the order of his *Loci* around the 'essence' and 'will' of God following the lead of Chemnitz (see below, ch. 4). It is likely, though not conclusive, that he opted for the synthetic method simply because the analytic method was completely foreign to Lutheranism at the time he laid out the *ordo* of the *loci*. By the time he had expressly identified *theologia* as more of a practical discipline (*Prooemium* § 11), which would have normally corresponded to the analytic method, he had already completed the *Loci* (see Vaahtoranta 1998:22).

12 Though see below (ch. 5) his thoughts equating the *intellectus agens* with God, leaving him open to a kind of 'divine illumination' for even everyday knowledge.

13 The passage reads: ...*nam mens nostra nascitur rudis, & inepta ad rerum cognitionem statim capiendam, ideo necesse est ut laboret, & investigat, ut discat, & inveniat; sed postquam semel rem aliquam apprehendit, si diu in eius contemplatione versetur, acquirit habitum....*

cause it was fraught with the dangers of synergism. Furthermore, it relegated *theologia* to the realm of intellectual activity and minimized the role of the will – a problematic contention for many who envisioned *theologia* primarily as faith and faith-praxis (see below). As such, resistance to the introduction of *habitus* into Lutheran theological thinking was to be expected and led to the *habitus* controversy in the second and third decades of the seventeenth century.

2.2 Inter-Lutheran Conflict over the Idea of *Theologia* as *Habitus*

Friedrich (2004:*passim*) presents a compelling case arguing that this ‘*habitus* conflict’ must be understood in the context of the Hofmann controversy at the turn of the century. Strictly speaking, that controversy took place from 1598–1601 at the newly founded University of Helmstedt between Daniel Hofmann, a theology professor, and four other professors, the most significant of whom was the philosopher Cornelius Martini.¹⁴ Hofmann, himself a former professor of philosophy, had become increasingly dissatisfied with the ‘mixing’ of theology and Aristotelian philosophy (especially metaphysics) and had made some serious and derogatory claims regarding the ‘harlot’ philosophy. He claimed that, in fact, reason was ‘naturally an enemy of God ... essentially opposed to revelation’ (Dorner 1871:111). Consequently, what is true in philosophy is necessarily false in theology and vice versa. Reason and theology are diametrically opposed to one another and this very opposition is a sign of the truth of theology. Furthermore, philosophy is a work of the flesh and is only carried out by the unregenerate, for practicing philosophy leads to damnation because it entails lying about God. Hofmann consequently contended that Aristotelian metaphysics should be excluded from the university curriculum, a claim that, needless to say, invoked the anger of the philosophy faculty. He was attacked not only by his fellow professors at Helmstedt, but also by the professors from the University of Wittenberg, who accused him of teaching the doctrine of ‘double truth.’ The affair was finally brought before the secular magistrates, who forced Hofmann to recant and relieved him of his office.

The opponents (including Jakob Martini from Wittenberg) refuted Hofmann by declaring philosophy as not another truth, but rather another ‘mode’ of arriving at a portion of the truth. This partial truth was to be corroborated by the historical evidence from Scripture. This, of course, proved problematic for theology because it relegated it to a position inferior to that of philosophy (one of mere corroboration and concerned with contingent things, e.g., history) and it limited theology to historical faith (Dorner 1871:112). Both proved unacceptable to Hofmann and his allies. Regarding the latter concern, theology as mere historical faith coincided well with the view of it as a university scholarly and academic discipline, a recent devel-

14 For the following see Dorner (1871:110–113). Also helpful in placing the dispute within its wider Reformation context is Muller (1984:341–350). For a more detailed survey of events and implications, see Friedrich (2004:19–141).

opment occasioned by the re-entry of Aristotelian metaphysics into German Lutheran thought. But Hofmann viewed theology as 'personal practice' and found scandalous any depiction of it as merely an abstract, systematic discipline (Friedrich 2004:269; see also Sparn 1992:79–82). He believed that *theologia* dealt with a personal, inward-oriented coming (*pervenire*) to faith, verses an outward-oriented leading (*perducere*) of others to faith (see below, ch. 4). The latter would inevitably result in *theologia* as a dead science (i.e., academic discipline) and ultimately bring about a *theologia non renatorum* (theology of the unregenerate). In other words, it does not necessarily take a believer to study *theologia* if it is depicted as an academic discipline *about* the Christian faith. Hofmann was abhorred at the very thought of such a scenario. By contrast, a *theologia* concerned with 'coming' to faith draws together theology, faith, and piety within the theologian himself (Friedrich 2004:269; cf. Sparn 1992:79). Such a *theologia* can *only* be engaged in by a believer and, therefore, it is necessarily a '*theologia renatorum*' (theology of the regenerate). In fact, Hofmann appears to have gone as far as essentially equating *theologia* and justifying faith (*fiducia*), a notion that was vehemently rejected by Cornelius Martini (Friedrich 2004:269).

In all their disputes, neither Hofmann nor his opponents brought up the topic of *habitus*; nonetheless, the field was ripe for such a conflict to emerge. Its impetus was a theologian by the name of Wencel Schilling, who wholeheartedly adopted Hofmann's position while studying for his Master's degree – conferred on him in 1614 – at the University of Helmstedt (for an extensive treatment of the Schilling dispute, see Friedrich 2004:142–179). The spark of this second phase of the Hofmann controversy proved to be Schilling's alleged publication of a book in 1616 in which he condemned the new metaphysical emphasis at the university and attacked Cornelius Martini and George Calixt (a recent arrival at the University of Helmstedt) for mixing philosophy and theology. Law suits ensued and by 1619 Schilling was forced to recant and expelled from the University of Helmstedt (Friedrich 2004:140–149).

The conflict is important because it proved to be the precursor for yet another related conflict which erupted a few years later in Magdeburg over the use of the term *habitus* to describe theology (for the following, see Friedrich 2004:179–222, 300–308). In his book, Schilling had also attacked Jakob Martini, whose response then brought the University of Wittenberg into the controversy. In addition, Schilling had published the book in Magdeburg and subsequently gained the support of some of the regional pastors and theologians. Within this tense setting, Sigismund Evenius, education reformer and newly commissioned rector of the gymnasium in Magdeburg, held a disputation in November of 1622 on the topic of the relationship between philosophy and theology. The theses were defended by Johannes Kotzebue, a recently

called pastor at St. Jacob in Magdeburg since about 1620.¹⁵ Prior to that, he had served for several years as the rector of the school in Quedlinburg, Gerhard's hometown (1613–1620). At the disputation was yet another Magdeburg pastor, Andreas Cramer, who had been serving at St. John in Magdeburg since 1613. It is interesting for our purposes here that Cramer was also a former rector at the school in Gerhard's hometown of Quedlinburg (1606–1613). Cramer, though not a part of the formal proceedings, entered into the debate against Kotzebue.

The theses presented *theologia* as an academic science (*Wissenschaft*) and, after the fashion of the Aristotelian metaphysics of Zabarella, they defined *theologia* as an intellectual *habitus*. As mentioned earlier, this was not an innovation. In applying to Lutheran thought Keckermann's interpretation of Zabarella, both Mentzer and Meisner had already described *theologia* as a *habitus* almost a decade earlier. Yet Evenius and Kotzebue went further in depicting *theologia* as an academic enterprise that could be carried out independent of the Holy Spirit because its goal was simply increased familiarity with the dogmatic terms and truths of the faith and because such a familiarity merely required hard work, talent, and diligence on the part of the theologian with little, if any, divine intervention (Friedrich 2004:195, 303–304). To justify their stance, Evenius and Kotzebue referenced Meisner's use of *habitus* to describe *theologia* and even mentioned Meisner's previous argument in 1612 for a *theologia non renatorum* as support for the minimal, if not nonexistent, role of the Holy Spirit in the theological endeavor (Friedrich 2004:303, fn. 50; see Meisner 1612:458; *Philosophia sobria*, vol. 1, sect. 2, ch. 2, quest. 1, assert. 2).

Cramer and his supporters objected that such a description of *theologia* distorted its very nature. To describe *theologia* as a *habitus* was to depict it as an academic discipline, similar to all others at the university. And therein lay the problem. The non-theological disciplines at the university did not in any way implicate faith. Identifying *theologia* as a *habitus*, akin to any of these other disciplines, tended to separate it from faith and faith-*praxis* (Friedrich 2004:306–308). Similar to Hofmann, Cramer abhorred such a separation. For him, nothing was given outside of faith, because, just as Christ was given through faith and dwells in the heart, true *theologia* always takes place 'in the heart of the person' (as cited in Friedrich 2004:306). He essentially equated *theologia* and faith and, as expected, also insisted that a *theologia non renatorum* was impossible. In his estimation, true *theologia* always required and involved a living and serious faith which, in turn, entailed the practice of a pious life of faith. His view of *theologia* then was diametrically opposed to speculative theology. In retrospect, Cramer's concern was first and foremost for the personal faith-*praxis* of the believing Christian versus the professional ministerial *praxis* of the academic theologian (see discussion below in ch. 4).¹⁶

15 The date is somewhat uncertain. Other records indicate a date of 1622 (see Friedrich 2004:189, fn. 52). In any case, he had only recently arrived in Magdeburg.

16 See Friedrich (2004:306–308). Friedrich (2004:322, see also pp. 317–321) does admittedly point out that, as a former rector and avid educator, Cramer was also very much concerned with 'leading'

A large part of the argument revolved around the role of the Holy Spirit in the theological endeavor. One's conception of the relationship between *theologia* and faith affects the role that one gives the Holy Spirit in *theologia*. On the one hand, because Evenius and Kotzebue defined *theologia* as an intellectual *habitus* akin to an academic discipline and were prone to separate *theologia* from faith, they felt less constrained to require the work of the Holy Spirit in the theological endeavor (Friedrich 2004:304). On the other hand, because Cramer established a close, if not identical, relation between them, his fear of synergistic human effort in the realm of justification and faith also readily applied to the theological endeavor. He was therefore very reluctant to attribute any positive role to the natural ability of the human mind (Friedrich 2004:195). As mentioned earlier, Gutke (as well as Evenius) depicted a *habitus* as dependent on the 'empty slate' of a person's mind ready for the formation of that *habitus* (Wundt 1939:246). This rather optimistic view of humanity, contrasted sharply with Cramer's much more pessimistic almost Flaccian portrayal of the same (Friedrich 2004:290–295). Far from an 'empty slate' ready to be filled, he believed that the flesh was under the devil's dominion and entirely opposed to God, and therefore, naturally opposed to any attempt at a theology that was so closely associated, if not equated, with saving faith. Hence, according to Cramer and his supporters, applying the concept of *habitus* to *theologia* risked undermining *sola fide* and opened the door to synergistic tendencies.

The *habitus* conflict went beyond the disputation of 1622. Cramer gained the support of some of pastors in the region of Magdeburg and beyond and both sides began to publish writings in defense of their respective positions.¹⁷ The issue was then taken up by both universities of Helmstedt and Wittenberg, both of which published *Gutachten* refuting Cramer's views. It is interesting and pertinent for our purposes, that, although the professors of Helmstedt and Wittenberg united in agreement (a rarity at that time) against Cramer, there were significant differences in their replies (Friedrich 2004:198). As mentioned earlier, Kotzebue had stressed the self-sufficiency of the natural abilities of a person to correctly interpret Scripture even without the help of the Holy Spirit. So it is not surprising that, despite referencing Meisner's arguments for a *theologia non renatorum*, nowhere in his

others to salvation and 'leading' them to grow in their faith as a major part of the educational process. Although in this respect he would seem to align himself with those theologians who emphasized the '*allo-praxis*' orientation of theology (see ch. 4), he sets himself apart from the likes of Cornelius Martini or Evenius by emphasizing that such '*allo-praxis*' can only be carried out by those who are truly born again.

- 17 A literary battle ensued with both sides taking the matter to the printing press. See, e.g., Kotzebue and Evenius (1623), *Enodatio quaestionis de habitu theologico, Das ist: Kurtze und Einfeltige Erörterung aus und nach Gottes Wort der new entstandenen Frage: Ob die Theologia oder Wissenschaft der heyligen Schrift, welche von tüchtigen Predigern und Lehrern erfordert wird, ein habitus oder Fertigkeit und Geschicklichkeit von göttlichen Dingen zu handeln, könne und möge genennet werden?* and Cramer (1623), *Kurtze Erinnerung vom Grunde des wahren Christenthums, darinn die Apologia Kotzeburii abgelehnet wird.*

arguments did Kotzebue appeal to a *habitus* θεόδοτος, for which Meisner had also previously advocated (Friedrich 2004:304; see Meisner 1612:454, 458; *Philosophia sobria*, vol. 1, sect. 2, ch. 2, quest. 1). Cornelius Martini and Calixt of Helmstedt were inclined to find much more in agreement with Kotzebue than the Wittenberg faculty. Though the Helmstedt professors did speak of the role of the Spirit in *theologia*, that role was somewhat obscure and much less emphasized. Rather, their tendency was to emphasize human natural abilities, and to view *theologia* as an intellectual discipline, placing a distinct separation between it and faith. The Wittenberg theology professors agreed that *theologia* could be legitimately defined as a *habitus* and, thus, as an academic discipline. However, against the Helmstedter professors, they stressed the crucial importance of the work of the Holy Spirit in *theologia*. They refused to accept that the acquisition of a *habitus* always required a pre-existing capacity or structure and instead insisted that, in the case of *theologia*, this capacity came from the Holy Spirit, who created *theologia* in the theologian (Friedrich 2004:305).

That the theologians of Gerhard's time paid considerable attention to these contemporary affairs is evidenced by, for example, Meisner's 'rectifications' between his earlier and later writings. In the third volume of his *Philosophia sobria* (1623) Meisner no longer mentions the possibility of a *theologia non renatorum* and describes *theologia* as a *habitus practicus*, rather than a *habitus mixtus*. Both of these were ideas he had previously proposed in his first volume (1612). It seems likely that these two rectifications were due, at least in part, to the *habitus* conflict with Cramer.

Gerhard is no exception. He, too, seems keenly aware of the theological dispute going on in and around his own hometown of Quedlinburg. Undoubtedly, there had been previously existing tension between Cramer and Kotzebue that can be traced back to their time in that city. Their approaches to education which they had seemingly attempted to implement at the school in Quedlinburg differed significantly. Cramer viewed the role of the school as the implementation and actualization of one's baptism primarily focused on the faith edification of the students such that 'any education outside of faith and without contributing to the strengthening of faith is of the devil' (as cited in Friedrich 2004:319, see also pp. 317–322). It is noteworthy that the poor performance of the school during his tenure as rector was apparently a source of embarrassment for Cramer (Friedrich 2004:319). Kotzebue was called as Cramer's immediate successor in 1613, but dismissed several years later around 1620 due to 'syncretistic disputes.' The accusation is somewhat vague but seems to refer to a dispute taking place at this time in Quedlinburg over the theology of George Calixt (Friedrich 2004:189, fn. 52).¹⁸ That Kotzebue was influenced by Calixt's more academic approach to theology makes sense in light of the

18 The dispute over Calixt's theology known today as the 'syncretistic controversy' is normally dated to around 1638. Friedrich, nonetheless, still interprets this as connected to Calixt's theology.

fact that he aligns himself with the Helmstedt professor only a short while later during the *habitus* controversy.¹⁹

Due to its close proximity to Magdeburg and its rather contentious connection to both Cramer and Kotzebue, it seems highly unlikely that the city of Quedlinburg and its authorities would have remained ignorant of or aloof from the controversy as described above. One can assume that they too were, at least indirectly, caught up in the mounting tension between these two ways of viewing and approaching theology and the Christian life. The Quedlinburg connection to the *habitus* controversy taking place in neighboring Magdeburg proves important for our purposes because it provides the immediate context for a dedicatory letter to the second volume of his *Schola pietatis* that Johann Gerhard addressed to two Duchesses, one of whom happened to be the Princess-Abbess of Quedlinburg. The Jena professor apparently remained abreast of the news from his hometown of Quedlinburg where his mother resided until her death in 1624 (see Fischer [1723] 2000:15). In the letter he specifically addresses the relation between knowledge, faith, and godliness, the very issues around which the Magdeburg controversy revolved. We will have opportunity below (see ch. 5) to examine the letter in some detail and will draw some specific conclusions regarding Gerhard's views in this important matter.

It suffices now to point out that Gerhard's views with regard to *theologia* are very much shaped by these inter-Lutheran controversies. As his plethora of letters indicate (Fischer [1723] 2000:416–457), he was in regular communication with theologians throughout all of Germany, including a close friendship with Meisner and the other theologians at Wittenberg, some of whom had come under attack by Cramer. As a new professor at Jena, he began giving lectures on a method of theological study (c. 1617; published in 1620) during the second phase of the Hofmann controversy and was writing the *Prooemium* (published in 1625), as well as his five volume *Schola pietatis* (1622–1623), during the *habitus* dispute (1622–c.1625). Throughout both one senses a certain sensitivity to the issues at hand. In the *Prooemium*, for example, *theologia* is decidedly *practica* and the idea of an unbelieving theologian is unthinkable, because, for Gerhard, *theologia* and faith are inseparable (cf. *Prooemium*, §§ 4, 10–12, 31; see ch. 5 below). And as we shall see below (chs. 4 & 5), Gerhard also embraces both the *pervenire* and *perducere* approaches in his definition of theology, though the precise relation between them is perhaps more nuanced than one might at first imagine.

19 For Calixt's distancing of theology from faith, see Wallmann (1961:95–123). Calixt was one of the first Lutherans to wholeheartedly embrace *habitus* as an appropriate description of *theologia*.

3. Literary Context

Having explored the historical and contemporary contexts of Gerhard's use of *habitus*, it remains now to investigate his use of the term in his own writings, that is, in its literary context both outside the confines of the *Prooemium* and then within.

3.1 Use of *Habitus* Outside of the *Prooemium*

Although not near as frequently as subsequent seventeenth century Lutheran theologians, Gerhard does make mention of the term *habitus* throughout his *Loci* and a brief survey will prove helpful.

Bellarmino had reasoned that virtues are *habitus* according to Aristotle, therefore, vices (i.e., sin) are simply evil *habitus* (*habitus mali*). Gerhard objects in his *locus On Actual Sin* (*De peccatis actualibus*) that such a definition is insufficient, for Scripture does not depict sin as merely lawless actions or 'habitus of vice [*viti-osi*], but as lawlessness, whether it adheres to human nature itself or is observed in the actions themselves' (*Loci* 10, § 10).²⁰ The depraved nature of original sin, in particular, exceeds that of a *habitus*, and could be more appropriately described as the 'seeds of the [evil] *habitus*' (*Loci* 9, *De peccato originali*, § 100). Therefore, Gerhard rejects defining sin as *habitus*, though he readily admits a certain negative use of *habitus*, similar to Luther and Augustine (see above, ch. 1). In committing actual sins, a person inadvertently develops 'habits of vice' (*habitus vitiosi*), which exacerbate the problem and further incline that person toward other sins (*Loci* 10, §§ 16, 17).

Again against Bellarmine, the Jena professor insists that repentance is neither an acquired *habitus* obtained by use and custom, nor even an infused *habitus* bestowed by the Holy Spirit and leading to the recognition and hatred of sin. Rather, repentance is 'externally enflamed from the movement and power of the Holy Spirit ... for truly Scripture clearly removes from the ability of the natural human being the power to do true and salutary repentance' (*Loci* 15, *De poenitentia*, § 25).²¹

The Lutheran concern to safeguard *sola gratia* surfaces again in discussions concerning justification. Responding to his customary Roman rival, Gerhard clarifies that 'justification does not consist in an infused *habitus* of a person, but in the free forgiveness of sin and imputed righteousness of Christ' (*Loci* 11, *De libero Arbitrio*, § 42).²² It does not 'inhere' in us through some type of *habitus*, but it is

20 *Peccatum igitur phrasi Scripturae non tantum actiones legi contrarias, nec vitiosos tantum habitus, sed in genere quavis à voluntate notat, sive ea naturae inhaereat, sive in ipsis actionibus conspiciatur.* Author's translation.

21 ... *sed forinsecus illa accenditur ex motu et efficacia Spiritu sancti ... jam vero Scriptura δύναντι agendi veram et salutarem poenitentiam naturalibus hominis viribus plane derogat* (author's translation).

22 *Justificatio nostra non consistit in habitus cuiusdam infusione, sed in gratuita peccatorum remissione et iustitiae Christi imputatione ...* (author's translation).

rather 'a relationship, that is, the remission of sins and the imputation of Christ's righteousness' (*Loci* 16, *De justificatione per fidem*, § 178).²³ Here one is reminded of Luther's concern that passive righteousness (*iustitia passiva*) be relegated to the Aristotelian category of relationship, rather than quality, to preserve the passive nature of the Christian life (*vita passiva*). Christian righteousness is reckoned to us from the outside via a relationship of love and mercy, not from the inside because of an internal quality of the soul. Any mention of *habitus* as the cause of righteousness then necessarily makes it meritorious and annuls *sola gratia*, as well as *sola fide* (*Loci* 16, § 221; cf. also §§ 213, 218–219). Similarly, Gerhard is abhorred at what he refers to as the 'papist hypothesis' which attempts to establish grace as an internal infused *habitus*. He insists that, according to Scripture, grace is diametrically 'opposed to works' and, in fact, is the 'efficient cause and even the source of good works' (*loci* 16, § 19).²⁴ To establish an internal quality, even if divinely infused, as the cause of righteousness would transform grace itself into a human work and render justification a matter of works righteousness. By definition, any attempt to make divine grace an internal human quality, even if infused, nullifies that very grace.

The question now arises as to the nature of faith, which, in contrast to grace, does reside in the soul. Gerhard's answer to this question is important in light of the related question of the relation between *theologia* and faith. A major portion of his *locus* on justification treats the topic of faith and from many and varied angles, mirroring similar concerns expressed earlier by Luther against his Roman opponents. It is telling that, for the most part, throughout these hundreds of pages he studiously avoids labeling faith as a *habitus*.²⁵ He does hesitantly entertain the possibility of describing faith as an 'infusion' (*infusio*; *fides infusa*) in that it is the 'effective work of the Holy Spirit' for both infants and adults and not acquired by a person's natural strength. Yet, he immediately cautions, 'Scripture does not use this kind of language, but says that faith is a gift of God, work of God, etc.' (*Loci* 16, § 116). He does occasionally mention the term *habitus*, but almost exclusively in order to reject the false teachings about faith so often associated with it. So, for example, regarding the question of an infant's faith conferred by baptism, he rejects Bellarmine's contention that infants have a *habitus fidei*, rather than an actual faith. Through baptism infants receive the very Kingdom of God and all that that

23 *Concedimus, justificationem non esse quiddam per modum habitus nobis inhaerens, sed esse relationem, hoc est peccatorum remissionem et iustitiae Christi imputationem* Unless otherwise indicated, English translations of *Loci* 16 are adapted from the unpublished English edition translated by Richard J. Dinda (Gerhard [1613] 1981–).

24 The passage reads: *Infusus habitus est causa efficiens et principium bonorum operum ex hypothesis Pontificiorum. Jam vero gratia in articulo justificationis opponitur operibus. Ergo non potest significare infusum habitum.*

25 Wallman (1961:73, fn. 4), who argues that Gerhard equates faith and *theologia*, observed that the peculiarity 'has not yet been worked out' as to why Gerhard would avoid referring to faith as a *habitus* while seemingly embracing the term wholeheartedly to define *theologia*.

entails – the grace of God, the forgiveness of sin and Christ himself. Then, ‘how can the act of faith be simply and absolutely denied them? How can only some idle *habitus* of faith be granted them?’ (*Loci* 20, *De sacro baptismo*, § 228; cf. *Loci* 16, § 116, point 3).²⁶ Inexplicable it may be, but ‘we simply submit that infants truly believe ...’ (*Loci* 20, § 229) and such belief is anything but inactive. It seems here that Gerhard is rejecting in particular the contention that infants be denied actual faith simply because their faith is not active in producing visible acts of love. The error, then, is that the ‘Papists’²⁷ label faith a *habitus* in order to minimize its importance and make its effectiveness dependent on love.

The concern seems twofold: Depicting faith as a formless, idle *habitus* that requires love (*caritas*) to be active and alive (cf. Luther’s earlier comments in this regard) and employing misleading non-biblical language to describe central biblical ideas. Both concerns reflect the influence of Luther (and Melancthon).

With regard to the former, the Jena professor ‘absolutely’ denies that love is the form of faith and rejects any distinction between unformed and formed faith (*Loci* 16, § 118). ‘Faith is not some torpid inactive quality which love must first arouse, stir up and animate,’ but on the contrary, he argues, ‘it is a living and effective thing’ (*Loci* 16, § 121).²⁸ In fact, the Scriptural idea that true living faith produces works of love indicates that love is an effect of faith and, thereby, it would be far more accurate to conclude that ‘faith is the form of love than love the form of faith’ (*Loci* 16, § 121; see also §§ 122–123).²⁹

Hence, the first concern is laid to rest, but what about the second? Curiously, the attempt to make the case against the ‘papist’ claim of unformed faith leads Gerhard into some strikingly non-biblical language. The reason seems to be that he finds himself obligated to use the language and psychological categories of philosophy in order to refute the opponents’ philosophical claims. So, for example, at one point he adopts the scholastic ‘hypothesis’ that faith and love are distinct virtues located in distinct parts of the soul in order to show that love, located in the will, cannot be the form of faith, located in the intellect (*Loci* 16, § 121).³⁰ That he refers to faith as a virtue is unusual for Gerhard, since virtues are precisely *habitus* according to Aristotle. Yet, even in this argument, Gerhard has still avoided directly

26 *Sed cum infantes teste Christo recipiant regnum coelorum, hoc est, gratiam Dei, remissionem peccatorum & vitam aeternam, cum Christum apprehendant ad salutem, non quidem more adultorum, sed pro suo captu & modulo nobis inexplicabili, quomodo fidei actus simpliciter & absolute illis denegari poterit? Quomodo otiosus aliquis fidei habitus illis tantummodo tribuendus?* (Author’s translation)

27 Gerhard often refers to his Roman Catholic opponents as ‘Pontifici’ which I often translate ‘Papists’ following the lead of Richard J. Dinda.

28 *Fides non est torpida et otiosa quaedam qualitas, quae per caritatem prius excitanda, movenda et animanda sit, sed res viva et efficax*

29 *... ergo dicendum potius foret, fidem esse formam caritatis, quam caritatem formam fidei.*

30 To be sure, Gerhard demonstrates repeatedly in this same *locus* that faith is neither solely in the intellect, nor solely in the will, but rather exists in both (see, e.g., § 75).

identifying faith as a *habitus*. There is one clear exception to his refusal to do this and it gives insight into the use and disuse of the term. In section 123 of *locus* 16, Gerhard's hand-written notes in the margin clearly refer to faith as a *habitus*:

Finally, note first that every *habitus* consists of its own form, and on the contrary, no *habitus* consists of two forms. *Every faith is a habitus*. Therefore, it consists of its own form. How then is it unformed if it has form? ... Second, one of those things which cannot be said about themselves cannot form another. Disparate *habitus* cannot be said about themselves. Therefore one of them cannot form the other. ... Third, that which is formed by something else is raw material. Faith is not raw material because its *habitus* is formed by itself and it acts or works; it is not worked on ... (§ 123, italics mine).³¹

These handwritten notes were included by his son in the Hamburg/Frankfurt edition (1657) of Gerhard's *Loci* and subsequently made it into both the Cotta and Preuss editions.³² Another allusion to faith as *habitus*, though not as clear or purposeful, is in the same *locus*, section 74 (cf. Schröder 1983:74–75).³³ This reference is again hand-written notes in Gerhard's personal copy, but this time Meisner is clearly identified as the source. Similar to the notes in the margins of section 123, this reference is again highly philosophical in nature and refutes a 'papist' argument against defining faith as confidence or trust, which Gerhard most surely does.³⁴

31 *Denique nota 1. omnis habitus constat forma sua propria. Omnis fides est habitus. Ergo constat forma sua propria. Quomodo igitur quaedam est informis, si habet formam?... 2. Quae de se non possunt praedicari, illorum unum non potest informare alterum. Habitus disparati de se non possunt praedicari. Ergo illorum alter non potest alterum informare ... 3. Quod per aliud informatur, est materia. Fides non est materia, quia formatus per se habitus et agit seu operatur, non patitur*

32 For an explanation of the various editions of Gerhard's *Loci*, see above ch. 1, fn. 2.

33 Richard Schröder (1983:71–80) has also highlighted this passage as an example of Gerhard's depiction of faith as a *habitus*. He also underscores the apparent conflict between two prevailing descriptions of faith – as a spiritual union with Christ (cf. Luther) and as a psychological, internal quality and *habitus* (cf. Melancthon's *Erotemata dialectices*). The conclusions Schröder draws regarding Gerhard's ill-fated decision to describe faith with Aristotelian concepts (e.g., *habitus*) are markedly different than what is presented here. I am much more inclined to follow the conclusions of Vaahtoranta (1998:212–267) who attempts to explain how the two descriptions of faith are not necessarily opposed, but complement one another. For a fuller explanation, see ch. 5 below.

34 Bellarmine had argued that faith could not be defined as 'confidence' (*fiducia*) because such 'confidence' would exist in the will and, in his estimation, faith only existed in the intellect. Gerhard held that faith did indeed exist in the intellect, but he insisted that it also existed in the will as 'confidence' (see below discussion of Gerhard's conceptualization of faith, ch. 5). To make his point, he advances the philosophical argument (via Meisner) that faith can exist in both the intellect and the will simultaneously: 'The *subjectum quod* or adequate subject of faith (which possesses a thing adequately) is man. The *subjectum quo* or primary subject (the means by which a thing is possessed) is twofold, namely, partly the intellect and partly the will of man. The one subject is one of adhesion, the other is of perfection. The former is always substance, and in fact to it alone do the accidentals adhere. *The latter can be qualities and faculties to which as subjects are some-*

Gerhard seemingly avoided the term in his publically distributed work, but presumably included it in his personal lectures on the *Loci*.³⁵ One senses a certain caution, while, at the same time, a certain acquiescence to the use of the term, especially in philosophical contexts of debate. Note that Gerhard's express purpose in these few paragraphs (117–123) is to argue against his opponents using their own words and ideas, a strategy he often employs in his polemical writings and ultimately adopted for his four volume *Confessio catholica* (1634–1637). This coincides with what Gerhard calls the 'deconstructive' (ἀνασκευαζτικός) use of philosophy (*Methodus*, part 2, sect. 2, ch. 1, pp. 105–107). Only later, he assures the reader, will he focus on the Scriptural support (*Loci* 16, § 121; though, ironically, even this 'non-scriptural' section contains ample references and quotes from Scripture). Nonetheless, one cannot simply dismiss these references as attempts to prevail over his opponents on their own terms. Gerhard refutes misleading ideas associated with faith as *habitus* and, yet never really and directly refutes the idea of it actually being a *habitus*. Moreover, at least one of his arguments indicating faith is a *habitus* originates from a close Lutheran comrade, Balthasar Meisner, and not from his opponents. In any case, there appears to be a certain underlying presumption that faith *could* be depicted as a *habitus*.

These rather cryptic allusions to faith as *habitus* seem to reflect a commonly accepted practice in some (more cautious) Lutheran circles: Acceptance of the term as a viable philosophical description of faith, while avoiding it as a theological explanation of the same. Words have connotations based on their respective historical and contemporary contexts and *habitus* was apparently too closely affiliated with scholastic (and other controversial) notions that would undermine theological mainstays of the reformation, albeit not necessarily in the philosophical realm. One finds this curious practice already in the reformation era. For example, we might recall Melancthon's unhesitant philosophical use of the term in his *Erotemata dialectices*,³⁶ and yet Luther's rejection of it in his theological context (see above, ch. 1).³⁷ Perhaps even more tellingly, although he does refer in passing to faith as a *habitus* in the 1535 edition (e.g., *CR*, vol. 21, pp.422, 444; *contra* Wallmann

times attributed habitus and virtues because they are thereby completed and made practical to do Such a primary subject of faith or of adhesion is the rational soul or the human heart as Scripture says. Furthermore, it has two subjects of perfection, the intellect, which is instructed and perfected through knowledge and assent, and the will, which is instructed and perfected through confidence. Cf. Meisner.' (§ 74, italics mine; cf. § 75)

35 A conjecture, no doubt, yet the marked absence elsewhere of a reference to faith as *habitus* suggests a certain cautious intentionality.

36 Note that Melancthon's original position at the University of Wittenberg was that of professor of the Greek language. In addition, he regularly taught logic, a subset of the wider subject of philosophy, in what today might be called undergraduate studies. Only later did he teach and become well known for his theological lectures.

37 Note, however, Luther's seeming openness to the term in the more philosophical arena of disputation (see above, ch. 1, fn. 44).

1961:102–103, fn. 4),³⁸ Melancthon avoids the term in his discussions about faith in the final edition of his chief theological work, *Loci communes theologici*, and focuses primarily on defining it in its biblical context.³⁹ A century later, Calov, even more so than other Lutheran theologians in the generation following Gerhard, uses the term *habitus* amply throughout his writings. In his philosophical work (e.g., *Metaphysica divina*, *Scripta philosophica*) he describes the biblical story of humanity by a succession of *habitus* – from the *habitus positivus justitiae* (before the Fall), to the *habitus privatus* (after the Fall), and then to the *habitus fidei* (state of grace through faith) (see Appold 1998:156). Interestingly, although readily accepted as a valid term in his philosophical writings, Appold (1998:156–157, fn. 68) points out that Calov avoids the use of *habitus fidei* in his main theological work, *Systema locorum theologicorum*, and attributes this to the underlying concern that, to Lutheran theologians of his time, such an habitual classification of faith would be inevitably affiliated with the Roman Catholic doctrine of infused justification. Calixt of Helmstedt, on the other hand, makes frequent use of the term in theological contexts, a fact to be expected in light of his and his colleagues' much more positive view and use of philosophy in the realm of theology (1961:102).⁴⁰

Far from an exhaustive list, the preceding discussion intended to highlight a few key occurrences of the term *habitus* outside of the *Prooemium* and, thereby, give a broader picture of Gerhard's use of it. That brief survey reveals an affinity for Lu-

38 In the 1535 edition of his *Loci communes*, Melancthon stresses that faith includes *fiducia* in addition to *notitia* and at that point adds that it also includes the '*habitus* or action of the will by which it wills and receives the promise of Christ [*et voluntatis seu habitum seu actionem, qua vult et accipit promissionem Christi*]' (CR, vol. 21, p. 422). It is interesting that in this 1535 edition of his *Loci communes* and in his *Erotemata dialectices*, Melancthon's *habitus* of faith is expressly oriented toward the will, whereas Gerhard's theological *habitus* is expressly oriented toward the intellect (see below, ch. 5).

39 In the 1559 edition of his *Loci communes*, Melancthon treats faith in *locus* 8 ('On Grace and Justification') and in an appendix of 'Definitions of Many Terms that Have Been Used in the Church' (Melancthon [1559] 2011:150–159, 507–508, 513). The 'Definitions' were appended to all editions of the *Loci communes* after 1553. In neither place does he mention the term *habitus*. Wallmann (1961:102–103, footnote 4) points out, however, that part of Melancthon's rather lengthy final definition mentions that 'faith is also the virtue/power of laying hold on the promises and applying them to oneself [*Estque fides virtus apprehendens et applicans promissiones*]' ([1559] 2011:158; CR, vol. 21, p. 751). Virtues were, by definition, *habitus* in the Aristotelian schema. One must additionally point out that from 1553 onward (when the 'Definitions' were appended to all subsequent editions of his *Loci communes*) Melancthon treats the *notitiae habituales* in the appendix and, again, refrains from describing faith as a *habitus*. He admits that 'the obscurity concerning habits is great,' but mentions that, in the reborn, "virtue" can be called either the Holy Spirit Himself or an emotion that springs from Him. You see, the Creator must be distinguished from creation ...' ([1559] 2011:530–531). To what extent the 'synergistic controversy' of the latter half of the sixteenth century affected subsequent use of the term *habitus fidei* is beyond the scope of this paper.

40 The extent to which the use of *habitus fidei* served as a 'litmus test' for 'orthodoxy' or, at least, for a traditional and proper understanding of the relation between theology and philosophy is beyond the confines of this paper and remains to be investigated.

ther's antithetical use of the term and for his complete rejection and often sharp criticism of its positive use to describe such biblical ideas as justification, grace, and faith. The reasons for such reluctance appear similar to those of Luther: Fear of synergism in the realm of salvation that might reduce the magnitude and certainty of the Gospel *sola gratia*. It may be for this reason that Gerhard avoids using the term in his less dogmatic works. These works did not require the common Aristotelian framework within which ecumenical dialogue and debate took place. Hence, the *Methodus*, considered an 'in-house' document meant for Lutheran students of theology, does not define *theologia* as a *habitus*. This would seem to be less due to any purported fundamental change in Gerhard's view of *theologia* and more due to the literary genre and circumstances of his *Methodus*. Finally, it should also be pointed out that Gerhard's reluctance to use the term in theological discussions about faith has less to do with his belief that faith simply cannot be a *habitus*, and more to do with his cautious reluctance to use a term that would so easily be misunderstood because of negative connotations associated with it. This becomes important in light of Gerhard's use of *habitus* to define *theologia* and his thoughts regarding the relation between it and faith.

3.2 Use of *Habitus* in the Prooemium

After dealing with the *onomatology* of *theologia* and examining the word itself, Gerhard begins to analyze the nature of *theologia* in a section he labels *pragmatology*. The first order of business, after a brief demonstration proving that it actually exists, is to address the question: Then, what is it? If it exists, then in the typical scientific manner of the time, one should be able to identify its *genus*. Without delay, Gerhard immediately engages in a discussion under which lies the assumption that he clearly states in paragraph 10: *Theologia* is a *habitus*. He never directly explains or even justifies this assumption, but promptly launches into the debate over the kind of *habitus* it might be. Before continuing, however, a few comments are in order regarding this assumption. Why does Gerhard employ this term to precisely define *theologia* although he has not done so in other writings?

We have already laid out the historical and contemporary contexts which certainly played a decisive role in Gerhard's seemingly presumptive use of the term. They need not be further explored here. There were no doubt other factors involved.

One must avoid oversimplifying an exceedingly complex situation. The willingness to face great hardship and even death reveals that theological decisions at this time cannot be flippantly attributed to political motivations, but involved deep personal convictions. However, as Appold (2008:67, *passim*) has pointed out, certain institutional factors also played a larger role in the academic and theological

life of the university than one might initially think.⁴¹ Appold's focus is on the shifting meaning of *theologia* as '*practica*' and he does not specifically address the issue of it as a *habitus*. Nonetheless, his is a helpful reminder that university professors owed their allegiance (and very often their livelihood) to the state. And, although exhibiting a surprising amount of resilient academic freedom (cf. Appold 2008:92–94),⁴² professors were often requested and expected by the prince to be the theological voice of the territory and defend and propagate the interests of the state. Against the '*cuius regio, eius religio*' background of the Peace of Augsburg of 1555, a defense of the Lutheran faith was at the same time a defense of the state.

Such a defense required, first of all, a common language and method. So, it is hardly surprising that the early modern debate over the *genus theologiae* generally followed the contours of its medieval precedent, especially as it was shaped by Aquinas' *Summa* (Muller 1987:206). This does not mean that Gerhard agreed with Aquinas' conclusions and, in fact, he argues emphatically against Aquinas' contention that *theologia* is a *scientia*. Nonetheless, the early modern Aristotelian framework provided a common venue for ecumenical dialogue among friend⁴³ and foe alike and at a surprising depth (Muller 2003:28, 46). So, Gerhard is obligated to at least engage certain questions and consider certain topics and their related terminology in order to even participate in the conversation. And he must do that in order to accomplish the purpose of his *Loci theologici*. According to the subtitle, they were expressly written 'both for affirming the truth and for destroying the falsehood of some who contradict it.'⁴⁴ In the 'Dedicatory Epistle' of his first volume published in 1610, Gerhard bemoans the fact that sickness and infection afflict the Church and then commends his 'own little contribution' to the reader: 'Here and now, with all force, we must stand in the way of [the heretics'] raving. Here and now, the healing hand must be applied, and with as much zeal as possible that poisonous crop must be crushed underfoot at the first weed' ([1610] 2009:4). *Theologia* had been traditionally identified (at least by analogy) with one or more of Aristotle's *habitus*

41 See also Niden (2006:98–132) for a helpful summary of state and university relations in Saxony in the latter half of the sixteenth century, a situation that strongly influenced the University of Jena, which was founded as a bastion of Lutheran orthodoxy during the years when Wittenberg had grown lax. For example, Fischer ([1723] 2000:109) indicates that Gerhard consulted with professors from the University of Wittenberg on many matters.

42 Schorn-Schütte (1996:390–410; 2000:29–36) has challenged the traditional thesis that early modern Protestant clergy were simply 'agents of the state' by investigating (for at least certain territories) the social and political status of the Protestant (and Catholic) clergy as an emerging social group with a certain amount of theological influence and leverage over the state.

43 As mentioned earlier, both Gerhard's good friend, Balthasar Meisner, and his mentor, Balthasar Mentzer, had previously used the term. Meisner had already called *theologia a habitus theosdotos practicus* in his *Philosophia sobria*, vol. 3, of 1623 two years before Gerhard published the *Prooemium*, as well as in his *Praecognitorum theologicorum disputatio I* (see Niden 2006:192, fn. 108).

44 The full title reads: *Loci theologici cum pro adstruenda veritate tum pro destruenda quorumvis contradicentium falsitate per theses nervose solide et copiose explicati*.

since the High Middle Ages and that debate returned with renewed fervor at the turn of the seventeenth century. In an expressly polemical writing such as this, Gerhard could not afford to ignore it.

There were other non-theological factors at play. In addition to inter-university institutional pressure, there was also a certain intra-university pressure. Individual disciplines inadvertently found themselves vying for position at the university and were obligated to justify their existence by analyzing the nature of their respective subject matter and proving that it constituted some kind of knowledge.⁴⁵ Granted, one must be careful again of over-emphasizing the role of this influence on theological decisions, since Gerhard has much to say about the dangers of the ‘academization’ of *theologia*.⁴⁶ Yet, it is no coincidence that the *habitus* conflict in the 1620s eventually evolved into a dispute between university professors and certain Magdeburg pastors, with the former unanimously, though not harmoniously, defending the use of *habitus*. To do otherwise would have put their discipline at risk of extinction, as is the case with the subject of ‘theology’ in many modern universities today.

According to the early modern Aristotelian framework of the day, if it was to be a viable university discipline, *theologia* had to be a kind of knowledge that could exist in the mind, and any kind of knowledge required, in turn, a prior *habitus* in the mind so as to allow for the acquisition of that knowledge (see ch. 1 above). The relation between university disciplines and *habitus* had even been mapped out by such metaphysicians as Clemens Timpler (1563–1624), who held that individual university disciplines (*ars liberalis externa*) corresponded to *habitus* existing in the mind (*ars liberalis interna*) ([1604] 1616:2–3; see also Funke 1958:238). If *theologia* was to exist and have a place at the university, then it most certainly had to also exist as a *habitus* in the mind.

Additionally, a sure way to prove the existence of a thing (i.e., *theologia*) was to classify it among the ten Aristotelian metaphysical categories. Classifying *theologia* in the category of quality (as a *habitus*), therefore, guaranteed its real existence, for even those things which are really in the mind (e.g., dispositions of understanding such as *habitus*) were thought to really exist (Häggglund 1951:29). Of course, it was also important to point out that *theologia* did not just exist in God’s mind, what Gerhard and others labeled as *archetypal* (αρχέτυπος) theology, but could and did exist in the human mind (*Prooemium*, § 15). The latter was known as *ectypal* (ἐκτυπος) theology (§§ 16–17) and Gerhard and his fellow theology professors were involved in the art or discipline of teaching this latter kind of theology.⁴⁷

45 E.g., we see a similar concern on the part of Zabarella to defend the place of natural philosophy in the arts curriculum for medical students (see Mikkeli 1997).

46 See below Gerhard’s rejection of *theologia* as *scientia* (ch. 3) and the discussion about *theologia* as *practica* (ch. 4).

47 *Ectypal* theology is further subdivided into ‘theology of the blessed’ (*theologia beatorum*; ‘theology of those who are already in heaven’) and ‘theology of the wayfarers’ (*theologia viatorum*; ‘theology of those still on this earth’) (*Prooemium*, § 16). The latter Gerhard defines as ‘the divine

This is not to say that Gerhard's use of *habitus* in the *Prooemium* was merely motivated by an instinct for survival within the institution or an obligation to acquiesce to the interests of the state. Gerhard's own words preclude such a simplistic conclusion. In his own mind, *theologia* as a kind of knowledge and, therefore, as a *habitus* is a purely theological and scriptural conclusion. In fact, Gerhard had already argued that biblical synonyms include θεοσοφία ('true knowledge of God'), 'the knowledge of salvation,' 'the hidden wisdom,' 'the knowledge of the glory of God in the face of Jesus Christ,' 'the knowledge of God,' and, finally, 'the knowledge of the truth that accords with godliness' from Titus 1:1, which Gerhard declares to be 'the most beautiful and fullest paraphrase' of *theologia* (*Prooemium*, § 5). Furthermore, he can refer to the *ectypal* theology that exists in the man Christ as *habitualis sapientia* (habitual wisdom) because such theology in the mind of Christ includes the 'most perfect knowledge of God and of divine matters' (*Prooemium*, § 15). Due to the abundant biblical references to 'wisdom' and 'knowledge,' it was increasingly accepted in Gerhard's time, especially since the reintroduction of Aristotelian metaphysics into theological conversation,⁴⁸ that *theologia* was a type of knowledge and, therefore, should naturally be considered an intellectual *habitus*.⁴⁹

4. Conclusions and Implications

The contemporary context of Gerhard's use of *habitus*, a century after Luther's ninety-five theses, reveals a Lutheran theological culture in transition, occasioned by a renewed interest in Aristotelian metaphysics. Those two factors led many to examine the precise nature of *theologia* and to attempt to define it. Increasingly, then, *theologia* was conceptualized and defined according to Aristotelian thought as an intellectual *habitus*. There were, of course, serious opponents to the use of this innovative term. The greatest concern was that defining *theologia* in such a way essentially identified it as a university academic discipline, a matter of grave concern for those who, following in Luther's footsteps, considered it closely related, if not identical, to faith. In many ways, the introduction of *habitus* into Lutheran theological thought at the turn of the seventeenth century signaled a gradual shift in the conceptualization of *theologia*. The *increasing* use of *habitus* to define *theolo-*

wisdom or the knowledge of divine matters that God has communicated to humans in this life [*sapientia divina sive notitia rerum divinarum hominibus in hac vita a Deo communicate*]' (§ 17).

48 For the implications of this return of metaphysics for the concept and use of *habitus* in theology, see especially Sparr 1976:30–35.

49 It is worth noting here that Gerhard argues at length in his *locus De justificatione per fidem*: 'That faith is knowledge [*notitiam*] ...' (*Loci* 16, §§ 68–69). Of course, as we shall see, in addition to knowledge (and assent) in the intellect he also viewed faith as *fiducia* existing in the will. See ch. 5 below for a more nuanced understanding of this relation.

gia corresponded to an increasingly secularized⁵⁰ concept of *theologia* or, at least, that was the fear. Put otherwise, one feared that the academization of *theologia* (cf. Nieten 2006:238–239) would translate into its despiritualization. And treating *theologia* as an intellectual *habitus* was a blatant sign of its academization. If *theologia* was an intellectual *habitus*, then how was it related to God's Word, to the Holy Spirit, to faith, and to piety, those elements that had always distinguished *theologia* from other academic pursuits?

Theologians set out to respond to these questions within the framework handed down to them by the reformers. This chapter presented two such responses – that of Evenius, Kotzebue, and the Helmstedt professors and that of Hofmann, Cramer, and certain other Magdeburg pastors. Although not directly involved in the *habitus* controversy in Magdeburg, Gerhard was no doubt paying close attention to the conflict that was escalating near his own hometown. In other words, the contemporary context and the questions it brought to the fore form the background against which Gerhard eventually crafts his definition of *theologia*. In fact, one could view his concept of *theologia* as we will come to understand it in the following chapters as a direct response to or interaction with this *habitus* controversy and the theological conversation it occasioned.

Of course, in the end, Gerhard does adopt a habitual definition of *theologia* and, as such, seemingly aligns himself with a more academized conceptualization of *theologia*. And, to an extent, this is true. For example, a subtle difference in emphasis exists between Gerhard's theological *habitus* and Melancthon's *habitus* of faith. Although Melancthon's habitual understanding of Christian faith in the *Erotemata dialectices* does depict it as knowledge (see above, ch. 1), in classifying it explicitly as a *volitional habitus*, he clearly wishes to emphasize fiducial trust – that aspect of the Christian faith traditionally associated with the will (see below, ch. 5, for a more nuanced description of 'faith'). And, in fact, in the 1535 edition of his *Loci communes* (e.g., CR, vol. 21, p. 422), Melancthon explicitly refers to faith as involving a *habitus* of the will, an idea that drops out in later editions presumably because of the disconcertment it caused. By contrast, Gerhard's theological *habitus* underscores the *cognitional* aspect of *theologia*. He wishes to emphasize that *theologia* can be referred to as a *habitus* because it involves *knowledge*. In this, one detects in Gerhard's description of *theologia* that same intellectual shift in the conceptualization of *theologia* that was becoming increasingly common at the turn of the seventeenth century and that underlay the *habitus* controversy of the 1620s. One might also note that, in this shift of emphasis, Gerhard has heeded Luther's

50 This term as used here does not carry the modern connotation of a shift toward nonreligious values and institutions. Such an idea would be manifestly foreign to seventeenth century Europe. Rather, the term is used here to describe a trend away from a more spiritualized understanding of *theologia* and toward an approach that placed greater emphasis on natural human capabilities in the theological endeavor.

theological misgivings about a volitional *habitus fidei* (*habitus* of faith) and, at least to a certain degree, succeeded in avoiding it.

However, this is only part of the picture and the subsequent chapters will add to it considerably. Gerhard is very well aware that taking up the Aristotelian concept of *habitus* to define *theologia* has introduced two potentially dangerous problems into his concept of *theologia*. First of all, it underestimated the sinful corruption of the human mind caused by the Fall and placed entirely too much confidence in the natural abilities of the theologian. In so doing, it ushered in a kind of theological synergism by which one could conceivably make headway in spiritual matters completely apart from God's intervention. This was precisely Luther's original concern over the use of *habitus* in theology and, thus, traces all the way back to the Reformation. It was also taken up by Cramer and others. But they also expressed concern over another problem that was unique to their context in the seventeenth century (cf. Friedrich 2004:306). This second problem was that mentioned above and Gerhard was keenly aware of it. Defining *theologia* as *habitus* inadvertently set it up as an academic discipline and potentially divorced it from faith and piety.

Consequently, Gerhard qualifies his theological *habitus* with two fundamentally important terms that directly address these potential misunderstandings. *Theologia* is specifically a *habitus* θεόσδοτος and it is mostly *practica*. By qualifying his theological *habitus* as θεόσδοτος Gerhard explicitly refutes the problem of synergism and by describing *theologia* as *practica* he addresses the problem of a *theologia* removed from faith and piety (see *Prooemium*, §§ 8–12). Gerhard's theological *habitus* simply cannot be understood without these important qualifications adjoined to it. For this reason, the next step in our research is to delve rather deeply into each of them. Chapter three will address the former, while chapter four will treat the latter, though because they are interrelated, there will be considerable overlap.

III *Theologia as Habitus Theosdotos*

1. Introduction

Any investigation of Gerhard's use of *habitus* will inevitably encounter his adamant qualification that it is a *habitus* θεόσδοτος. Hence, this chapter will focus on Gerhard's use of *habitus*, but especially in light of its peculiarity as a God-given *habitus*. As mentioned earlier, Gerhard was not the first Lutheran theologian to employ this qualifying term (see, e.g., Meisner 1612:458; *Philosophia sobria*, vol. 1, sect. 2, ch. 2, quest. 1, assert. 2), but his use of it affords us the opportunity to delve more deeply into his theological thinking in areas that shed light on his final definition of theology (cf. *Prooemium*, § 31) and highlight certain emphases unique to him. It will also aid in understanding Gerhard's concept of *theologia* with more precision in relation to the more extreme positions of what we might call the academization and the spiritualization of *theologia* as described thus far.

Further forays into the Aristotelian background against which Gerhard worked will again be necessary, for not only did the theological and Scriptural tradition shape his thinking, but also the philosophical milieu of his time (Hägglund 1951:218). Although our research efforts are grounded in Gerhard's *Prooemium*, we will also consider select writings from his other dogmatic (and systematic) and pastoral (and devotional) works that shed extra light on the present topic.

2. Gerhard's Qualified Use of *Habitus*

2.1 Objections to Aristotle's *Habitus*

Since it was knowledge, it was assumed by the theological (university) community of Gerhard's time that *theologia* was analogous to one (or more) of Aristotle's five intellectual *habitus*. It could not be a *habitus opiniandi* (*habitus* of opining based on opinion) because only false pagan or mythical theology was relegated to this category since it had no scriptural authoritative basis (Muller 1987:207, 228; see also Melancthon's *Erotemata dialectices*, CR vol. 13, p. 536). Whether or how it was also a *habitus credendi* or *habitus fidei* (*habitus* of believing) was open for debate, but the primary question since the High Middle Ages revolved around the five intellectual *habitus*.

In paragraph eight of the *Prooemium*, the Jena professor sets out to 'discover the genus nearest to the species of *theologia*,' already expressing doubt that any of Aristotle's *habitus* might prove capable of adequately defining it. He immediately advances four arguments against Aquinas' contention that *theologia* is a *scientia*. The first of these arguments is particularly revealing for our purposes. As mentioned earlier, *scientia* (ἐπιστήμη) requires that conclusions be drawn (known) by means

of reasoning from first principles. Yet, Gerhard objects, ‘believing and knowing for a fact are different, for the certainty of knowing for a fact depends on internal and inherent principles, while the certainty of faith depends on external principles, namely, on the authority of the one who is revealing’ (§ 8).¹ In both, one seeks certainty. In *scientia*, one achieves certainty by depending on one’s own humanly acquired skills of reasoning. In faith, one’s certainty relies on an external authority, namely, God who reveals divine truth. In this context, Gerhard writes a profound statement: ‘... *theologia est doctrina fidei*’ (§ 8).² The added references of John 20:31³ and 2 Corinthians 5:7⁴ refer as much to every Christian as they do to educated theologians of the university or even pastors of the parish. That Gerhard defines *theologia* as a ‘doctrine of faith,’ has important implications for his final definition of *theologia* (§ 31). The other three arguments similarly draw further distinctions between *scientia* and *theologia*, all of which emphasize the unique faith-like character of *theologia*.⁵ ‘*Theologia*, then, is not a science [*scientia*]’ (§ 8) in the Thomistic sense (ἐπιστήμη), although it is knowledge in the sense of *notitia* or γνῶσις (*Loci* 16, § 69; cf. Preus 1970:110).⁶

Is, then, *theologia* wisdom (*sapientia*)? Gerhard has already referred to *theologia* as wisdom in the *Methodus* (part 1, ch. 2, pp. 18–20) and elsewhere in the *Prooemium* (e.g., §§ 17, 26). His comments about σοφία and θεοσοφία as biblical and ancient synonyms for *theologia* reveal his affinity for the term (*Prooemium*, § 5). So it is no surprise when he readily concludes: ‘We indeed admit that, if we must assign to theology some genus from the intellectual conditions [*habitus*] that Aristotle enumerates, among them all, wisdom most closely approximates its nature’ (§ 10).⁷ Previously, he had given the more formal reasons for this judgment (§ 9). Those reasons are telling for what they include and for what they lack. They include the philosophical rationale for wisdom as the highest of the intellectual *habitus*. This rationale tended to coincide well with certain attributes of *theologia*. For

1 *Credere et scire sunt maxime disparate, scientiae enim certitudo ab internis et inhaerentibus principiis, fidei vero ab externis, videlicet ab auctoritate revelantis pendet*

2 ‘Theology ... is the teaching of faith.’

3 ‘... But these are written so that you may believe that Jesus is the Christ, the Son of God, and that by believing you may have life in his name’ (ESV).

4 ‘For we walk by faith, not by sight’ (ESV).

5 Christ, as the subject of *theologia*, can only be sought (by faith) through revelation. Understanding is not the principle but the goal of *theologia*, for ‘we believe that we may understand ...’ (quoting Augustine). And, finally, *scientia* may lead to false conclusions if based on faulty principles or reasoning, while faith based on God’s revelation cannot be false (§ 8).

6 ‘We must also distinguish between γνῶσις and ἐπιστήμη. The former indicates knowledge in general about a matter, whatever that knowledge may be. The latter includes at the same time knowledge in particular of things precisely necessary through a priori proofs. Faith is not ἐπιστήμη but γνῶσις.’ (*Distinguendum etiam inter γνῶσιν et ἐπιστήμην: Illa notat cognitionem rei in genere qualiscunque sit; haec simul cognitionem in specie rerum duntaxat necessariorum per demonstrationes a priori. Fides non est ἐπιστήμη, sed γνῶσις.*) (*Loci* 16, § 69).

7 *Fatemur sane, si genus quoddam ex habitus intellectualibus ab Aristotele enumeratis, theologiae tribuendum, inter omnes sapientiam ad ejus naturam proxime accedere*

example, Aristotle had described wisdom as the 'greatest of all knowledges' that knows with certainty 'all things' and 'the most difficult things,' that knows 'the cause of causes' (§ 9). It exists for its own sake and 'regulates' or norms other things rather than be 'regulated' (§ 9). Gerhard exclaims: 'But these conditions fit theology!' (§ 9) The discussion thus far reflects the first pages of the *Methodus* (preface, pp. 5–12) where the newly hired Jena Professor sets before his students arguments for the superiority of *theologia* above all other disciplines.

But Gerhard seeks to establish the parallel between *theologia* and *sapientia* with a bit more precision beyond their obvious superiority to other forms of knowledge. He must connect wisdom to God and bring out its faith-like characteristic. The only way he can do so is by setting Aristotle aside and referencing Plato's comments that 'all human wisdom lies in this one thing: to know and worship God' (§ 9). Later in the *Prooemium* he will declare that the end of *theologia*, or what he explicitly refers to as 'theological wisdom' (*theologicam sapientiam*), is the 'glorification of God' so 'that they may know Him rightly and honor, worship, and invoke Him in this life and in the life to come' (§ 26). The parallel is intentional, but notice that Gerhard has had to leave Aristotle in order to bring in the idea of faith (unclear and incomplete as it is). He is also obligated at this precise point to invoke Augustine that 'theology is the only devout, true, and divine wisdom' (§ 9). Here we see already that Aristotle's genera, even that of wisdom, is simply not adequate. In addition, Gerhard refrains from mentioning that both Aristotle and Plato are speaking of a purely contemplative wisdom (*sapientia contemplativa*) as opposed to a practical wisdom (*sapientia practica*), which Gerhard will prefer (see §§ 11–12).

Hence, Gerhard makes it clear in the following paragraph that, though it may be the closest match, even Aristotle's genus of 'wisdom' falls short of truly capturing the essence of *theologia*.⁸ What is lacking in the previous justifications for equating *theologia* and wisdom is significant. Not included is the important characteristic of *theologia* that its wisdom comes from God and by His power and is not acquired by any human resources or ability. It is a knowledge (or wisdom) bestowed by God on a person through the Holy Spirit's illumination of that person's mind (§ 31). In this regard, one sees a parallel with Gerhard's earlier concerns regarding *scientia*. *Sapientia*, similar to *scientia*, is entirely too dependent on human natural ability and therefore unable to fully capture the essence of *theologia*. So it comes as no surprise that when making an 'absolute consideration' Gerhard cannot accurately define *theologia* according to 'wisdom' or any of Aristotle's intellectual *habitus* (§ 10). He wishes to refute the idea, promoted by some (e.g., Calixt, Cornelius Martini), that *theologia* could be obtained by force of mere human power and ability (§ 10; cf. Kang 2001:119; Wallmann 1961:73). This was the fear of Cramer and his Magdeburg supporters and Gerhard heeds their concern.

8 Consequently, Gerhard's occasional references to 'wisdom' (e.g., in the *Prooemium* and *Methodus*) are best viewed as more in line with Scripture and the early church fathers than with Aristotle's *habitus*.

However, there appears to be another related concern that scholars have often overlooked.⁹ Gerhard establishes a very close, if not identical, relation between *theologia* and faith. None of the available intellectual *habitus* harmonize particularly well with a *theologia* that is so closely related to and dependent on faith it can be called a *doctrina fidei* (§ 8).¹⁰ If Gerhard's view of the faith of *theologia* is not simple 'historical faith' (see Wallmann 1961:126), then how can faith, traditionally a *habitus* of the will, be an integral part of, if not identical with, an intellectual *habitus*? As we shall see, Gerhard's idea of *habitus* θεόσδοτος is an attempt to bridge this gap.

2.2 Renovation of *Habitus*

Gerhard has adopted the use of *habitus*, but exercised great care to distance his concept of *theologia* from what current philosophical thought had to offer. The intentionality and discretion that underlie Gerhard's 'shift'¹¹ in terminology should also caution the historian from automatically viewing this as a shift in his conceptualization of *theologia*. Unless compelling evidence indicates otherwise, it would seem wise to interpret Gerhard's use of the term as a renovation of the term itself – 'redefining' it according to his previous thoughts about *theologia*¹² – rather than a fundamental shift in conceptualization.¹³ In fact, Gerhard not only underscores the validity of this approach, but even advises it in his explanation of the 'instrumental' (ὀργανικός) use of philosophy: 'The safest thing therefore is to solely and especially heed the terminology of the Holy Spirit [in Scripture], and then finally only later to add an explanation of the terminology by way of comparison according to philosophy (*Methodus*, part 1, sect. 2, ch. 1, p. 98).'¹⁴ This explains Gerhard's affinity for 'wisdom' and 'doctrine' as appellations for *theologia* in other writings and, fur-

9 For an exception, see Appold (1998:65) who relates Calov's de-emphasis of θεόσδοτος to his separation of theology and faith, in stark contrast to Gerhard.

10 Note, however, Melancthon's inclusion of *fides* among the intellectual *habitus* (see ch. 1). Notwithstanding, this will not resolve Gerhard's dilemma, because Melancthon's intellectual faith is not the saving faith that Gerhard so closely associates with *theologia* (see below common misunderstandings of Gerhard's concept of *theologia*, ch. 5).

11 Although only two instances of it in the *Prooemium* (§ 10, 31) do not really constitute a 'shift.'

12 Outside of the *Prooemium*, Gerhard's most explicatory thoughts on *theologia* can be found in the 'preface' to the *Methodus*. Other references to *theologia* are dispersed throughout his works, for example, the 'Dedicatory epistle to Balthasar of Wangenheim' in *Aphorismi succincti et selecti* (1611) and the 'Dedicatio' of his *Meditationes sacrae* (1606).

13 One should also note that nowhere does Gerhard admit to any change in the way he viewed *theologia*, nor has research uncovered him expressing a desire to do so. This paper, then, has adopted this wiser course. This is not to say that Gerhard's thoughts about the concept of *theologia* do not develop and mature. A certain development and deepening of thought is to be expected throughout the life of such an erudite scholar. It should also be noted that different genres of literature will highlight different nuances of his thoughts.

14 *Tutissimum igitur est Spiritus Sancti nomenclaturam unice vel praecipue attendere, ac postea demum collationis grati a philosophicam terminorum explicationem conjungere.*

thermore, why he identified 'wisdom' as its closest genus. It also justifies his renovation or adaptation of the word *habitus* to his particular concept of *theologia* (Wallmann 1961:127). Theology 'does not reject but takes [philosophy] into its humble service' (*Prooemium*, § 23). In underscoring this 'ministerial' use of philosophy, the former lecturer in logic clarifies that 'the theologian may explain and adapt [the philosophical term] a little differently, free it from every imperfection and therefore interpret it according to the principle of his own science, namely, according to Scripture ...' (*Methodus*, part 1, sect. 2, ch. 1, p. 97).¹⁵

Having put aside the old, Gerhard creates a *habitus* especially fitting for *theologia*: 'But were one to make an absolute consideration, he would define it more accurately as a "God-given habit" [*habitus θεόσδοτος*] than through a genus drawn from Aristotle's intellectual conditions' (*Prooemium*, § 10).¹⁶ This expression, in one form or another, will become a mainstay in Protestant, and especially Lutheran, definitions of *theologia* throughout the period of Orthodoxy. As mentioned earlier, the term itself did not originate with Gerhard. It is tempting then to assume that he borrowed the expression from other contemporary theologians without giving it much thought. And, in fact, Gerhard, like other prolific writers of his time who worked off of notebooks of *loci* gathered over time, often availed himself of the ideas and language of others (though most often with extensive references). There can be no doubt that he was influenced by, for example, Meisner's definition of *theologia*, which had included *θεόσδοτος* already as early as 1612 (see above). There is no doubt that he is seeking to join an existing conversation.

Notwithstanding, this does not appear to be a thoughtless move on his part. Only a few years earlier as a new professor at Jena, he had written about the 'God-taught theologian' (*θεοδιδάκτος theologus*) (*Methodus*, part 1, intro., p. 14). And, in fact, his reference to John 6:45 in this same paragraph of the *Prooemium* as a defense of *θεόσδοτος* reveals that, in Gerhard's mind, the two are related.¹⁷ Both terms are quasi-biblical. Yet, *θεόσδοτος* more clearly reflects the language he had earlier suggested for describing faith – 'gift of God' or 'work of God' (*donum Dei*, *opus Dei*; *Loci* 16, § 116) – establishing once again the clear and close connection between *theologia* and faith. Furthermore, it allows him to underscore to a greater degree the transcendent nature of *theologia* that surpasses natural human learning (a feat that *θεοδιδάκτος* does not necessarily accomplish!).

Ironically, the Greek term most likely originated from the Philosopher himself, though in a purely antithetical way. Aristotle surmises that if the gods were to give a

15 ... tamen theologo licet [terminus philosophicus] paulo aliter explicare, accommodare, ab omni imperfectione eum liberare, adeoque; juxta proprium scientiae suae principium, nempe Scripturam

16 ... interim si absolute consideretur, rectius definitur per habitum θεόσδοτον, quam per genus ex habitibus intellectualibus Aristotelicis desumptum

17 'It is written in the prophets: "And they all will be taught by God [διδακτοὶ θεοῦ] ..."' (Jn 6:45, author's transl.).

gift to human beings, then it would probably be god-given happiness (εὐδαιμονίαν θεόσδοτον). But, he concludes shortly thereafter, that it cannot be so, since happiness accords with natural, humanly acquired virtue (*Eth. Nic.* 1099b12–14, 21–28). Much to the chagrin of his comrade in the philosophy department at Jena (Wallmann 1961:72), Gerhard employs a term that was offhandedly dismissed by Aristotle as improbable, at best, and most likely impossible.

It is ironic because Gerhard saw the opposite as impossible. In his view, achieving *theologia* by human effort and ability was impossible. It could only be acquired if freely bestowed by God. As Wallmann (1961:74) aptly sums it up, the expression *habitus* θεόσδοτος was ‘a protest against a rational secularization of the concept of theology.’ Hence, in the midst of an ensuing conflict over the use of *habitus*, Gerhard qualifies the contentious term with a Greek word that highlights God’s necessary power and intervention when that *habitus* is to be conferred on a person. What *scientia* directly opposed and *sapientia* struggled to express, Gerhard’s *habitus* θεόσδοτος was able to appropriately articulate.

This begs the question: Precisely how is *theologia* θεόσδοτος?¹⁸ Most obviously, there was general agreement among Protestant theologians that God is theology’s ‘principal efficient cause’ working through the ‘instrumental cause’ which is Holy Scripture (*Prooemium*, § 18). God bestows the *habitus* through his sacred Word. Hence, θεόσδοτος was commonly used by Lutheran theologians to emphasize the sufficient and unique principle (*principium*) of *theologia*: Holy Scripture as the divine Word of God. Simply put, *theologia* is θεόσδοτος in that Scripture constitutes its exclusive source and is also God-given (Appold 1998:65).

With this limited definition of θεόσδοτος, however, one could easily hold to the possibility of a theology of the unregenerate, as Meisner had. Yet to be addressed was the question of how one acquired the *habitus* via Scripture. Gerhard’s understanding of θεόσδοτος is therefore much broader and attempts to address this very question, that is, the question of the divinely bestowed operation by which one understands Scripture. Consequently, for the Jena professor, not only is Scripture God-given, but likewise the mental operation that allows one to understand Scripture: ‘... *Theologia* ... [is] kindled in wayfaring man by the light of grace revealed in the Word ...’ (*Prooemium*, § 17).¹⁹ Hence, to better grasp Gerhard’s thoughts in regard to θεόσδοτος, we must delve further into his ‘doctrine of illumination.’

18 Appold offers an insightful discussion of what Calov meant in using the term *habitus* θεόσδοτος (1998:62–66). The comparison and, especially, contrast between his and Gerhard’s interpretation of the term are intriguing and helpful in underscoring important aspects of Gerhard’s concept of *theologia*.

19 ... in hominibus viatoribus ex lumine gratiae in verbo patefacto accensa

3. Gerhard's Theory of Cognition

The difficult task of the historian is to reduce as much as possible the inevitable divergent paths taken by history and historiography as soon as the event happens. This task is rendered all the more difficult by the fact that the very worldview (e.g., underlying philosophical assumptions) of the historian is often different than, if not at odds with, that of the historical period he or she wishes to study. This is also true for the period of Orthodoxy and any attempt to understand Gerhard. Fundamental disparities in philosophical approaches exist between Gerhard's time and the modern era, not to mention today's post-modern era. Some of the basic contours of these differences were presented in chapter one, but further investigation is called for. In his insightful monograph on Gerhard's doctrine of Scripture, Hägglund (1951:37, cf. pp. 9–10) explores in some detail Gerhard's depiction of how the human mind interacts with Holy Scripture as the Word of God and emphasizes the 'rather sharp boundary' that exists between seventeenth century Aristotelianism and the modern empiricism and rationalism that emerged during the eighteenth century. Hence, it is now our task to examine what might be called the early modern Aristotelian 'theory of cognition' (*Erkenntnislehre*) that undergirded Gerhard's thoughts regarding the mental operation that takes place when the human mind encounters Holy Scripture.

3.1 Aristotelian Background

Plato believed that abstract, real 'Forms' are separate and distinguished from and must be sought apart from particular occurrences of things. One must be rather suspicious of the senses, for one encounters the Forms directly through the intellect as the mind participates in the world of Forms. Aristotle agreed with Plato that Forms do necessarily exist (an idea that modern empiricism has rejected). However, in sharp contrast to Plato, he insisted that the Form of a thing only exists entangled in the thing itself and can never be separated from that individual thing. Hence, one can only ascertain the Form through perceiving the particular thing through the senses. Knowledge, defined as understanding of Forms,²⁰ gets in the mind as a person perceives a particular thing through the senses, remembers related things through memory, and those memories of the same thing then produce an experience which, in turn, gives rise to knowledge (cf. *Met.*, bk. 1, part 1; *An. Post.*, bk. 2, part 19). Aristotle is somewhat vague as to how this process of cognition actually happens, but does offer an illustration toward the end of his *Posterior analytics*. It

20 Simple observation or perception of a particular thing does not constitute 'knowledge.' Observing that a brown and green thing is sticking out of the ground is not knowledge until one understands that it is a tree. Similarly, a physician is not knowledgeable because he observes that a woman has a fever, but he develops 'knowledge' when he begins to understand the symptoms and causes of that fever by studying several cases.

is like a battle, he says, where one side is fleeing until one soldier takes a stand, then another stands with him, then another, and increasingly so until the entire army is again rallied. Knowledge then is a matter of the soul/mind ‘undergoing’ this process. It happens by way of ‘induction’ (ἐπαγωγή) by which the mind has an innate ability to abstract the universal Form from the particular thing (*An. post.*, bk. 2, part 19). It is important to note the quasi-passive operation and language as Aristotle describes it.

This typical Aristotelian thinking was taken up by seventeenth century theologians who interpreted it in their own particular way. Gerhard, in particular, used it to bolster his own theological views (for the following, see Hägglund 1951:16–45).²¹ Wundt (1939:23) paraphrases the thoughts of Cornelius Martini with a fundamentally important statement that sums up early modern Aristotelian theories of cognition. He states that according to these theories ‘our mind does not measure the thing, but is measured by the thing.’ The outer objective thing was primary and the subjective thinking mind secondary (Hägglund 1951:41–42). The individual thing, existing outside of the senses and yet perceptible by the senses, was the ‘ground and starting point’ for all true and real knowledge (Hägglund 1951:17–18). In this schema, there was no need to either fear or doubt the reliability of those outer things, or to seek true understanding by going around or behind them. Rather, cognition was thought to arise from the very material things as they were perceived by the senses. Hence, according to the popular dictum often quoted by Aristotelians: ‘Nothing is in the intellect that was not first in the senses’ (Hatfield 1986:46; cf. Salatowsky 2006:365).²² The forms (*forma*) were thought to be detected by the intellect, but never apart from the outer things (*materia*) to which they were inseparably and continuously bound. Cognition did not happen in the world of rational thought divorced from the particular things and the sensory data arising from them. To the contrary, although the intellect was involved in ‘abstracting’ the universal form from the particular, ‘the intellect only had an imitative and clarifying function’ and was initially and primarily more receptive than active (Hägglund 1951:42–43).²³

21 The extent to which the Aristotelian philosophical framework actually influenced his theological thought or merely served as a convenient and helpful way of apologetically defending and explaining previously formulated thinking is an interesting question but one that ultimately lies outside the scope of this study. In any case one should bear in mind that Gerhard (along with many of his colleagues) was very concerned with and viewed his theological contributions as faithful representations of the Reformation era. Additionally, the minimal use of philosophy in Gerhard’s influential devotional works should be a significant factor in the discussion. Those works reveal striking similarities to the theology of Luther (see, e.g., Steiger 1996b:334; 1997:66–67, *passim*).

22 *Nihil enim est hic in intellectu, quod prius fuerint in sensu*. The popularity of this expression within early modern Lutheranism is underscored by its use in the university reports against Rahtmann (ed. Gröbel 1671:178).

23 Although, see discussion below of the role of the ‘active intellect’ in cognition.

Most all of this may sound strikingly strange to the ears of the modern person since it is diametrically opposed to contemporary approaches to cognition. It appears counter-intuitive to relegate our minds to a quasi-passive role and allow that they 'be measured' by things outside of us. Much of this is due to the dominating influence of Immanuel Kant since the eighteenth century. What Kant referred to as the 'Copernican Revolution' of epistemology in the preface to his *Critique of Pure Reason* virtually reverses the Aristotelian process of cognition:

Up to now it has been assumed that all *our cognition must conform to the objects* Hence let us once try whether we do not get farther with the problems of metaphysics by assuming that *the objects must conform to our cognition* ... which is to establish something about objects before they are given to us. This would be just like the first thoughts of Copernicus, who, when he did not make good progress in the explanation of the celestial motions if he assumed that the entire celestial host *revolves around the observer*, tried to see if he might not have greater success if he made *the observer revolve and left the stars at rest*. (Kant [1781/1787] 1998:110; Bxvi; italics added)

Under the influence of Kant's innovative epistemology (and arguably that of René Descartes)²⁴, our minds have been assigned to a position of increasing prominence in the cognition process, such that it is merely assumed that the mind now 'measures' the perceived thing. The 'ground and starting point' of cognition has become the thinking self – the human consciousness – rather than the objectively existing external thing (Häggglund 1951:42–43). According to Kant, a thing cannot be detected in and of itself and give rise to true understanding. It is unknowable apart from prescribed categories pre-existing in the mind, which ultimately determine (and construct) true knowledge of the thing (Kant [1781/1787] 1998:212; *Critique of Pure Reason*, A80/B106). The measured has become the measurer.

In so doing, the inner form (*forma*) is separated from the outer material thing (*materia*). The 'grasping' of the conceptual inner form simultaneously and inseparably along with the material external thing is only possible in an Aristotelian framework and is therefore laid aside. This inevitably leads to attempts to get at the former apart from latter. It is particularly evident in the discipline of hermeneutics where Kant's critical epistemology would lead the interpreter, in an increasingly active role, to 'construct' meaning rather than 'abstract' it from the text. As one theologian put it, since Kant 'we have lost our hermeneutic innocence and are expelled from our interpretative Eden' (Vanhoozer 1987:32). The inevitable result is varied attempts to uncover the *res signata* (the signified thing or inner concept, often equated with the

24 Hatfield (1986:45–48; *passim*) underscores quite emphatically the intentional break from previous Aristotelian cognition in Descartes' *Meditations*. Spruit (1995:388) makes the same case. Both point out that Descartes inverted the commonly accepted Aristotelian dictum ('Nothing is in the intellect that was not first in the senses') and placed the intellect in primary position: 'Nothing is received from the senses that was not first in the intellect.'

forma) divorced from the *signum* (the signifier or external letters and words, often equated with the *materia*).²⁵ Such attempts range from Rahtmann's separation of the inner word of the Holy Spirit from the outer word of Scripture (see below) to modern endeavors to discover the meaning 'behind' the word.²⁶

Furthermore, the subject-object relation is affected. Häggglund (1951:44) points out that 'in Kantian thinking a principle divorce is carried out between subject and object and it is maintained as unbridgeable.' In the Aristotelian approach to cognition, as the conceptual form and material thing simultaneously enter the mind, true knowledge depends on an 'identicalness' or 'correspondence' existing between the thing to be known and the one knowing. Such identicalness had reverberating effects for the concept of *theologia*, one of which was to render null any difference or separation between what post-Enlightenment theologians called subjective and objective concepts of theology (Wallmann 1961:68–69, 134–135).²⁷ Rejecting such a separation also allowed Gerhard to refute Hermann Rahtmann's contentious claims of an 'objective knowledge' in the external words and a 'subjective knowledge' in the inner person (Häggglund 1982:213; see below).²⁸ In Gerhard's estimation, no such contrast existed. It also influenced the use of subject-object language in theology.²⁹ Thus, one finds that the terms are often used in ways diametrically opposed to current usage. The thing to be known (the *forma* bound up in the *materia*) is sometimes designated the 'subject' as the primary acting agent in the cognitive process. The one knowing then is called the 'object' as the secondary

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- 25 Considerable confusion may be avoided if one realizes that the terms *forma/formale* and *materia/materiale* were, at times, used interchangeably during Gerhard's time. So, Gerhard clearly refers to the external letters and words of Scripture as the *materiale* and the inner meaning and intention as the *formale* (*Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 7; Gerhard [1628] 1671:204). However, earlier he had used the same language conversely and referred to the letters and words as *formale* and the inner meaning as *materiale* (*Exegesis* 1, *De Scriptura sacra*, ch. 1, § 5). This apparently corresponds to the inconsistent practice of the time. See an explanation of this in the report against Rahtmann from the Jena faculty (ed. Grübel 1671:178). Proper interpretation, then, requires heeding the context and the descriptive words used with these terms (e.g., *externum*, *internum*). The terms *signum/signa* and *signatum/signata* are used in a much more consistent way.
- 26 See Oswald Bayer's (2007:53, 148–171, 174–176) critique of attempts to 'get at the meaning behind' the text. He classifies Schleiermacher's 'hermeneutic of regression' as such an attempt. Although based on an exposition of Luther's theology, his critiques are also applicable to Gerhard's era.
- 27 Wallmann identifies Semler of the eighteenth century as one of the first theologians to make use of this distinction and indicates that Gerhard knew of no difference or separation between the two and, therefore, would not have implied such a difference by his two-fold definition of *theologia* (see *Prooemium*, § 31; see below ch. 5).
- 28 Cf. Steiger (1998:353–354): 'There is no static subject-object schema, which sets up a disparity between knowing and known, but rather [the orthodox hermeneutic] brings up the insight that in the process of knowing even the *diastasis* is bridged and abolished and a communion is established between the author and the reader.'
- 29 For a helpful history of the 'object-subject antithesis,' its introduction into Lutheran dogmatics, and the theological implications thereof, see Pelikan (1950).

agent being acted upon (Hägglund 1951:44).³⁰ One notices this reversal of roles, for instance, in the *onomatology* with which Gerhard often begins his exposition of topics in the *Loci theologici*. In the *Prooemium*, he explains this 'usual method' by citing Julius Caesar Scaliger (1484–1558), an influential sixteenth century philosopher: 'You see, what we call "names" are considered as if they were ideas "because the use of words frequently carries us to a perception of the thing itself ..."' (§ 1). The counter-intuitive 'reversal' of terminology emerges clearly in the Jena professor's refutation of the Rahtmann heresy (see below) in a tract he authored in 1628 *Von der Natur, Kraft undt Wirkung des geoffenbahrten, gepredigten, undt geschriebenen Wort Gottes*.³¹ He concurs with Rahtmann that Holy Scripture has an external *lumen objecti* (light of an object), which enables the reader to acquire the historical sense of the text (*Von der Natur*, quest. 4, § 18; Gerhard [1628] 1671:226). In this usage, Scripture is seen as merely an object (that is illumined by the intellect). However, contrary to Rahtmann, who attributes it solely to the Holy Spirit, he insists that Holy Scripture itself also possesses a *lumen subjecti* (light of a subject) that enlightens the reader toward a salutary understanding of Scripture and converts the hardened heart (*Von der Natur*, quest. 4, §§ 19–20; Gerhard [1628] 1671:227). In so doing, Gerhard positions Scripture as the primary acting subject directly influencing the reader's mind, which is depicted as a secondary receptive object. While no doubt making a theological point regarding the efficacy of Scripture, he bolsters it by his Aristotelian approach to cognition that blurs what modernity views as well-defined lines between the perceiver and the perceived (see also Hägglund 1982:213; 1951:253).

3.2 Interpretation of Scripture: Doctrine of Illumination

Examining, albeit briefly, Gerhard's Aristotelian epistemology allows a more thorough examination of his thoughts concerning the way in which one understands Scripture. And that is the subject that concerns us now. That, in turn, will provide the opportunity for a better grasp of what he meant by *habitus θεόδοτος*.

3.2.1 Excursus: Early Modern Theories of Psychology within Lutheranism

Before delving into Gerhard's doctrine of illumination, however, it behooves us to take a closer look at what we could call early modern 'theories of cognition' or 'in-

30 This makes sense if 'contemplation is not from the subject [perceiver] to the object [perceived], but vice versa from the object as the underlying and determining factor to the subject' (Hägglund 1951:214).

31 *On the Nature, Efficacy, and Effect of the Revealed, Preached, and Written Word of God* (henceforth *Von der Natur*). All references to and citations of *Von der Natur* in German are from *The-sauri consiliorum et decisionum Appendix Nova, Continens quaedam inserenda operi Dedenkenno-Gerhardino* edited by Christian Grübel (1671). All translations are my own.

tellection.’ The Aristotelian epistemology, as presented above, provides the framework for these theories, but does not explain with sufficient specificity that move from perception to knowledge. Those theories were part of an intense and ongoing debate tracing its origins through the medieval scholastics all the way back to Aristotle’s *De anima*.³² Although interpretations abounded during Gerhard’s era, we can trace the contours of what would be considered a commonly accepted framework within Lutheranism at that time, mostly following the thoughts of Cornelius Martini.³³

A difficulty with any theory of cognition is the move from potential knowing (i.e., the potential to know possessed by all ordinary human minds) to actual knowing (i.e., the act of knowing), since nothing can pass from potentiality to actuality by itself. This conundrum triggered spirited discussion revolving around the nature, task, and relation of the *intellectus possibilis* (possible intellect) and the *intellectus agens* (active or agent intellect), two ‘parts’ of the human mind supposedly proposed by Aristotle in *De anima* (see book 3, ch. 5, 430a10–25).³⁴ In addition, because it is so firmly rooted in the material, another underlying problem posed by any Aristotelian theory of cognition is that of moving from material (i.e., perceived thing in the external world) to the immaterial (i.e., knowledge of the thing in the mind). Since the thing obviously cannot enter the mind, one often spoke of *phantasmata*, that is, perceived images or representations of the thing.³⁵

32 For an excellent survey of this debate from the Middle Ages through the Modern Age, see Spruit (1995). The sections on Zabarella (pp. 225–236) and Scaliger (pp. 250–254) are particularly pertinent for the present study. For the Renaissance period, see Kessler (1988). For early modern Aristotelian psychology among Lutherans and Roman Catholics, see Salatowsky (2006), whose section on seventeenth century Lutheranism is especially helpful for the topic at hand (pp. 283–372). All emphasize the common Aristotelian framework of the different interpretations in early modern Europe, as well as the subtle differences that are, for the most part, beyond the scope of this paper.

33 Of course, a comprehensive exposition of Gerhard’s own philosophical understanding of cognition would be preferable. Alas, such research is still in its nascent stages (see ch. 1, fn. 4). For an introduction to Gerhard’s early lectures on metaphysics (1603/4), which included important elements of epistemology, and the ‘return of a forbidden discipline’ into early modern Lutheran conversation, see Salatowsky (2017; see also, though not readily available, his presentation at the Gerhard conference, 2013). Although we have seen and will continue to see significant differences between the approach of Cornelius Martini and that of Gerhard, C. Martini’s influence on German philosophical thought in general (see Pozzo 2004:184) and on Gerhard’s understanding of metaphysics and cognition in particular should not be underestimated. In fact, it seems that Gerhard made use of a revised version of C. Martini’s *Compendium metaphysicum* in his lectures on metaphysics at Jena (Wundt 1939:51–68).

34 A key part of Aristotle’s explanation reads as follows: ‘And there is an intellect which is of this kind by becoming all things, and there is another which is so by producing all things, as a kind of disposition, like light, does; for in a way light too makes colours which are potential into actual colours’ (1993:60; book 3, ch. 5, 430a18). His rather cryptic comments in this section of *De anima* have proven to be a source of unending debate for over two millennia.

35 This is different than what we might call today an ‘idea’ (cf. Spruit 1995:369–390). The concept of ‘ideas’ is divorced from (or, at least, not necessarily attached to) the perceived material thing and,

The cognitive process, then, resembled something like this (for the following, see Salatowsky 2006:358–364): One ‘suffers’ (i.e., ‘undergoes,’ cf. *passio*) the reception of the *phantasmata* through the senses into the mind. Thus far, it is unintelligible, although the potential for knowledge exists. And it would remain so if not for the *intellectus agens* which is responsible for the move from potential to actual knowledge. It does so through two indispensable functions, the first oriented toward the perceived thing and the second toward the *intellectus possibilis*, sometimes referred to as the *intellectus patiens* (passive intellect).

First, the *intellectus agens* abstracts from the *phantasmata* the *species intelligibiles* (intelligible species), the form of the perceived thing which renders it understandable. It is important to recall here that the form of a thing is what gives it its determinative and defining shape and makes it perceptible and recognizable (see above, ch. 1). To abstract the form from the *phantasmata* is to abstract the universal from its individual circumstances (e.g., time, place) and, therefore, to make sense of it in such a way that it becomes actual knowledge (cf. Salatowsky 2006:351). How it does so is significant. Following Aristotle and many after him (including Scaliger), Cornelius Martini illustrates how that abstraction happens by using the image of ‘light.’ Potential colors of a thing become actual perceptible colors once they have been illuminated by light. Until that moment, they remain obscure and imperceptible. Just as light makes the potential, yet imperceptible, colors visible to the eye, so the *intellectus agens* illumines the *phantasmata*, formerly unintelligible, and transforms them into intelligible forms (*species intelligibiles*).

We now have the *species intelligibiles*, but not yet knowledge. For that, once again, the *intellectus agens* is needed to ‘produce’ in the *intellectus possibilis* those very *species intelligibiles*. This is its second function. As Scaliger puts it, the *intellectus agens* ‘imprints’ these intelligible forms, thus illuminated, on the *intellectus possibilis* as if impressing them in wax (*Exercitationes* 307, sec. 21, pp. 959–960).³⁶ What results, then, is the actual act of understanding, in other words, knowledge. Within this schema, the *intellectus possibilis*, not the *intellectus agens*, is that part of the mind that actually understands and acquires knowledge. However, the *intellectus agens* has become, in effect, the ‘active principle’ or ‘effective cause’ of that act of understanding (even more so than the perceived thing), because it is the ‘agent’ which effects the act of understanding (Salatowsky 2006:357, 362). It is what moves the intelligible thing from potentiality to actuality.

As we explore Gerhard’s epistemology of divine revelation through Scripture, it is important to bear in mind that for him the interpretation of Scripture presumes

hence, is illustrative of the fundamental shift, described above, from the mind as measured to that of measurer.

36 *Sculpturam in gemma, & impressionem in ceram idem esse*. All citations and references to Scaliger’s *Exotericarum exercitationum liber XV de subtilitate* (henceforth *Exercitationes*) are from the 1582 Frankfurt edition.

an Aristotelian understanding of intellection similar to that described here and markedly foreign to how we might view the interpretative task today.

3.2.2 Scripture and Cognition of Divine Mysteries in Gerhard's *Tractatus*

In 1610, fifteen years before publishing the *Prooemium*, the young lecturer at the gymnasium of Coburg penned a booklet that would become the second *locus* in his *Loci theologici*. It bore the title: *Tractatus de legitima Scripturae sacrae interpretatione*³⁷ and gives arguably the clearest expression of Gerhard's thoughts on how one comes to understand Scripture, what has come to be known as his 'doctrine of illumination'.³⁸ Although early in his writing career, prominent Gerhard scholars (e.g., Steiger 2008:234–235) view it as generally characteristic of Gerhard's doctrine of Scripture. Hägglund (1951:254–255) also refutes the assertion that Gerhard modified his view of Scripture later in life as a result of the Rahtmann controversy. In fact, in a more recent article he widens the applicability of the *Tractatus* beyond even Gerhard and describes it as 'a masterful synthesis of the presuppositions of biblical interpretations as they were understood at that time' (Hägglund 2003:322). In any case, research has not revealed any reason to believe that Gerhard modified his epistemology of Scripture, nor did Gerhard later express any reservations regarding his presentation of this idea in the *Tractatus*. On the contrary, he readily applies the same doctrine to the Rahtmann debate some eighteen years later in his work *Von der Natur*: '... When Holy Scripture instructs us towards salvation / it lets loose at once a beam of divine, supernatural light / which we do not have in us by nature / and without which we cannot understand the divine mysteries in Holy Scripture' (quest. 4, § 5; Gerhard [1628] 1671:222).³⁹ Although em-

37 *Tract on the Legitimate Interpretation of Holy Scripture*. Unless otherwise noted, all references to or citations of Gerhard's *Tractatus de legitima Scripturae sacrae interpretatione* (henceforth, *Tractatus*) in Latin are from the 1610 Jena edition. English translations are my own, but I am, again, indebted to Richard J. Dinda whose kind help and insight in translating large portions of the *Tractatus* are very much appreciated. Since the writing of this book, Dinda's English translation has been published by Repristination Press (see Gerhard [1610] 2015).

38 Note that epistemologies of revelation by way of 'illumination' have a long history and can be traced back as far as Augustine and the subsequent Augustinian line of 'Churchmen' (Congar 1968:114–122; cf. Appold 1998:134–135). This section attempts to delineate the unique features of Gerhard's view of illumination.

39 The whole paragraph reads: 'Indeed, such guidance towards salvation, which comes from the Holy Scripture, is also / much different / from the guidance of human wisdom / that comes from human writings. Because, when we are instructed by human writings of human wisdom / there is the rest of the remaining light of nature in our intellect to be found / through which we can understand / conceive and comprehend / what is presented to us in the same writings about human wisdom, / We do not necessarily need a supernatural / spiritual light of grace to open our understanding for it. / However, when Holy Scripture instructs us towards salvation, / it lets loose at once a beam of divine, supernatural light / which we do not have in us by nature / and without which we cannot understand the divine mysteries in Holy Scripture.' (*Ja es verhält sich auch mit solcher Unterweisung zur Seligkeit / welche von der heiligen Schrift herrühret / viel anders / als mit der Unter-*

phasizing the means of this illumination as the Word of God (i.e., Scripture) in order to refute Rahtmann, the doctrine essentially remains consistent.⁴⁰

One may, therefore, legitimately utilize Gerhard's epistemology of Scripture as disclosed in the *Tractatus* as a valid clarification of his thoughts on θεόσδοτος in the *Prooemium*. It is true, nonetheless, that the ideas in the *Tractatus* were later sharpened, more clearly expressed, and brought to bear on particular circumstances, such as the Rahtmann conflict. In light of this, this and the next section will consider both the *Tractatus* of 1610 and Gerhard's *Von der Natur* of 1628.

There are two paragraphs of paramount importance in the *Tractatus*. The first elaborates on Gerhard's Aristotelian theory of cognition as explicated by Julius Caesar Scaliger:

All knowledge is involved between the thing to be known and the knowing intellect, because understanding is the reception into the intellect of a species from an object to be known by abstraction. The action of the active intellect follows [that reception], as Scaliger argues about this matter (*Exercit.* 307, sect. 21). A correspondence [*adaequatio*] is required, therefore, between the knowing intellect and the thing to be known, similar to the eyesight, which is somewhat like a shadow and model of understanding. (*Tractatus*, § 47)⁴¹

In this short paragraph Gerhard alludes to the theory of cognition as depicted in the popular textbook by Scaliger: *Exotericarum exercitationum de subtilitate*. In that textbook, Scaliger begins his description of cognition with the assertion that 'understanding of the soul is either active or passive' (*Exercitationes* 307, sec. 21, p. 959).⁴² Since understanding can be defined as 'reception of the species into the

weisung in menschlicher Weisheit / so von menschlichen Schrifften herrühret. Denn wenn durch menschliche Schrifften von menschlicher Weisheit wir unterrichtet werden / so findet sich bey uns das noch übrige liecht der Natur im Verstande / dadurch wir verstehen / fassen und begreifen können / was von menschlicher Weisheit in denselben Schrifften uns wird vorgetragen / wir bedürffen darzu nicht nothwendig eines übernatürlichen / geistlichen Gnadenlichtes zur Eröffnung des Verständnuß / aber wenn die heilige Schrift uns unterweiset zur Seligkeit / so giebt sie zugleich von sich einen Straal Göttliches übernatürlichen liehtes / welches wir von Natur nicht bey uns haben / und doch ohne dasselbe die Gottlichen Geheimnuß in der h. Schrift geoffenbahret seliglich nicht verstehen konten.) See also the topic of the fourth question: 'Whether Holy Scripture ... has, by virtue of God's ordinance, the power to illumine and to convert in and by itself?' (*Ob die h. Schrift...vermöge Göttlicher Ordnung eine Erleuchtigungs und Lebendigmachungs Krafft in und bey sich habe?*).

40 For Gerhard, Scripture is the written 'Word of God.' What he says about the 'Word of God' in *Von der Natur*, applies equally then to Scripture. See below for a more detailed discussion thereof.

41 *Omnis notitia versatur inter rem cognoscendam & intellectum cognoscentem, quia intellectio est speciei ab objecto cognoscendo abstracte in intellectum receptio, cui succedit intellectus agentis actio, prout hac de re disputat Scaliger. Exercit. 307. sect. 21. Requiritur igitur inter intellectum cognoscentem & rem cognoscendam adaequatio, perinde ut in visione, quae est intellectionis quasi umbra & παράδειγμα.*

42 *Intellectio aut est actio, aut passio animae.* The translation attempts to account for the lack of an English unambiguous equivalent for *passio* (i.e., suffering).

intellect' (the very definition that Gerhard also adopts) and since reception is passive by nature, understanding is obviously passive, Scaliger claims. In fact, in this regard, the very object would seem to be the 'efficient cause' of understanding. With this assertion, Scaliger maintains the passivity of Aristotelian cognition as outlined above. This is fundamentally important for Gerhard. Nonetheless, it is not purely passive, Scaliger concludes, because the thinking mind does in fact have an active role in the acquisition of any knowledge.⁴³

Scaliger lays out the four factors involved in general cognition that would appear to underscore its active role: 'First, that which draws out or extracts the species from the *materia* as pure light does for vision; secondly, the species which is extracted; thirdly, the impression the species makes on the intellect, and, fourthly, the [resulting] understanding' (*Exercitationes* 307, sec. 21, p. 959; for the following explanation, see Häggglund 2003:231–232).⁴⁴ As mentioned above, one initially 'suffers' (i.e., 'undergoes,' cf. *passio*) the reception of the notions through the senses into the mind. This constitutes the initial and passive part of the process and, according to Scaliger, is carried out by the *intellectus possibilis*.⁴⁵ It renders conceptual understanding possible, though does not yet accomplish it. Then the 'active' processes happen: Actual understanding is only attained when the *intellectus agens* 'illuminates' or applies itself to the raw notions and, thereby, transforms them, by way of abstraction, into *species intelligibiles*. These species are then 'imprinted' in the intellect bringing about actual knowledge and understanding of the perceived thing.

Following Aristotle, Gerhard compares especially the 'abstraction' process to that of vision, which he describes as a 'shadow and model of understanding' (*Tractatus*, § 47). Scaliger does the same by equating the *intellectus agens* in the list above (i.e., that which extracts the species from the *materia*) with 'pure light.' According to this parallel, the eye cannot take in the picture of an object, unless that object is illuminated by an outside light (e.g., sun). Without that light, the object remains obscure and unidentifiable. Hence, just as the sun illuminates the object enabling the eye to view it, presumably, the *intellectus agens* could be said to illu-

43 *An vero omnis intellectio passio sit? Non omnis: sed sola prima apprehensio notionum. Quas ipse intellectus cum agitat, dividit, componit, deducit: alius est intelligendi modus, qui διάνοια, ... appellatur: & actio est, non passio.*

44 *Quatuor ergo sunt. Primum, quod educit speciem e materia: puta lux ad visionem. Alterum, species, que educitur. Tertium, ipsa impressio speciei in intellectum. Quartum, intellectus.*

45 One significant difference between the cognitive process described above and that of Scaliger here is the latter's blurring of the distinction between *intellectus possibilis* and *intellectus agens* (Spruit 1995:251; in this regard Scaliger is similar to Zabarella, see Kessler 1988:532). Hence, the passive and active roles of the intellect are not strictly confined to what one would think should be their respective part of the intellect. So, for example, the sphere of activity of the *intellectus possibilis* is widened to include even the reception of the species, more properly called notions, into the mind, but they are unintelligible until illumined by the *intellectus agens* (cf. Häggglund 2003:231–232; cf. similar reasoning in Zabarella, see Spruit 1995:234). It is for this reason that Gerhard indicates that the action of the *intellectus agens* 'follows' after the species (i.e., raw notions) have already been received into the mind.

mine the species allowing the mind to understand them. Although Scaliger does not take the comparison quite this far, others such as Thomas Aquinas had before him.

This parallel also allows Gerhard to underscore the importance of an *adaequatio* (correspondence, agreement, alignment) between the object and the eye, according to the well-known axiom of the time: 'Were not the eye akin to the sun, it could never perceive it.' This reflected the much earlier thinking of Empedocles, later taken up by Plato, who surmised that lightened objects are perceived because of a similar light in the eye itself (Parry 2012). Quoting the church father Irenaeus, Gerhard alludes to this only a few paragraphs later: 'Who sees the sun without the sun?' (*Tractatus*, § 52)⁴⁶ In any case, as mentioned earlier, it was commonly accepted that understanding was conditioned on a certain *adaequatio* between the mind of the perceiver and the perceived thing (cf. Salatowsky 2006:225–232). The human mind must 'measure' up to the thing to be known. The *intellectus agens*, then, provided this *adaequatio* and enabled the mind to achieve understanding (see, again, Häggglund's helpful explanation, 2003:231–232).

Scaliger's Aristotelian theory of cognition is only one part of the context required to understand Gerhard's thinking in the *Tractatus*. One must also appreciate his overtly pessimistic theological anthropology. Although his assumptions regarding Aristotelian intellection may have provided the framework, his view of the severe limitations and utter corruption of the human being vis-à-vis God provided its particular shape and content.⁴⁷ That Gerhard began his discussion by first referencing a philosopher should not surprise us. As mentioned earlier, this is permissible according to his sanctioned 'instrumental' use of philosophy insofar as he proceeds with caution and adapts it 'according to the principle of his own science, namely, according to Scripture' (cf. *Methodus*, part 1, sect. 2, ch. 1, p. 97). And that is precisely what he does now:

Since the mysteries of faith set forth in Scripture are divine and have come from the direct revelation of God, they therefore surpass, if I may speak in this way, the sphere of our intellect which sin has so wretchedly corrupted. For the natural person does not perceive the things which are of the Spirit of God. They are foolishness to him, and he cannot understand them (1 Cor 2:14). Accordingly, they require beyond the natural power and original resources of our intellect an illumination of di-

46 The full quote: *Desine, cur videat nemo sine Numine Numen, Mirari, Solem quis sine Sole videt?*

47 According to Gerhard, the severe limitations are attributed to the mere fact that the human creature cannot fathom the mysteries of the divine Creator (cf. *Tractatus*, §§ 48, 54; see also *Exegesis* I, § 434). Secondly and even more devastatingly, Gerhard ascribes the utter corruption of the human being to human sinfulness 'which has so wretchedly corrupted' our intellect (*Tractatus*, § 48; cf. 'spiritual darkness', § 56). See also Wallmann (1961:126).

vine light [*divini luminis irradiatio*]. Otherwise, the mysteries presented in Scripture will remain a closed and sealed book. (*Tractatus*, § 48)⁴⁸

Although he substantiates his theory in the following paragraphs (§§ 49–60), in this short passage, Gerhard clearly explains his doctrine of illumination, a doctrine that appears in his final definition of *theologia* fifteen years later (*Prooemium*, § 31).⁴⁹

Accepted in this explanation are all of the elements of Scaliger's theory of cognition, except one – the view that one can understand the mysteries of faith by one's own natural powers. It is interesting that the passive '*receptio*' of Aristotelian epistemology, the need for an *adaequatio* between perceiver and perceived, and the 'illumination' required for understanding all jibe well with Gerhard's theological beliefs. In fact, he can and does accept the distinction between the 'possible' and 'active' intellect. The one element he disallows is precisely that also rejected later by Cramer and his supporters among the Magdeburg pastors during the *habitus* controversy. It is also his primary reason for dismissing Aristotle's *habitus* and creating a unique *habitus* θεόδοτος to define *theologia*. In fact, quoting Savonarola, he directly connects the need for this unique *habitus* to 'the illumination of the Holy Spirit,' as opposed to 'the power of one's own abilities' (*Prooemium*, § 10). Ironically and, perhaps, intentionally, Gerhard disagrees with Scaliger on the very point the philosopher was attempting to emphasize. Scaliger wished to accentuate the intellect's active role in cognition; Gerhard now seeks to minimize that role when it concerns the mysteries of faith. For the divine mysteries in Scripture (i.e., the species or notions) surpass the human intellect and, hence, any *adaequatio* between the two is rendered absolutely impossible. They are therefore 'mysteries' in the very real sense of the word. No inner 'light' from the 'active intellect' can penetrate the Scriptures and abstract a salutary knowledge of those mysteries of faith. At this point, Gerhard does not adduce philosophy, but quotes 1 Corinthians to eliminate any possibility of a naturally attained knowledge of the mysteries.

But what is impossible for human beings, is possible with God. Such an *adaequatio*, a correspondence or alignment between the divine mysteries and the human mind, is finally accomplished when the Holy Spirit illumines the intellect with divine light. Only in this way, does the mind 'measure up' to the salutary mysteries. Not an inner light radiating from the 'active intellect' however, but rather a divine light from outside the person, namely, the light of the Holy Spirit coming through and with Scripture, is required. Hence, for Gerhard, not only is the 'recep-

48 *Quia ergo mysteria fidei in Scripturis proposita, sunt divina, ex immediate Dei revelatione profecta, ideo intellectus nostri per peccatum misere corrupti sphaeram, ut ita loquar, excedunt, animalis enim homo non percipit quae sunt Spiritus Dei. Stultitia est illi, & non potest intelligere 1 Cor. 2. v. 14. proinde praeter naturas intellectus nostri vires, & primaevas, ut ita loquar, opes, requiritur divini luminis irradiatio, alias mysteria in Scripturis proposita erunt liber clausus & signatus.*

49 *Theologia ... est habitus θεόδοτος per verbum a Spiritu sancto homini collatus quo non solum in divinatorum mysteriorum cognitione per mentis illuminationem instruitur ...* (emphasis added).

tion' of God's Word into the senses and into the mind a completely passive event (*pro* Scaliger, Aristotle), but indeed the intellect's supposed 'active' understanding is now a 'passive' operation as well (*contra* Scaliger, Aristotle).

The mind still does have a role to play, according to Gerhard, since understanding and knowledge happen in the mind. The alternative would be a second subject (e.g., the Holy Spirit) acting within and apart from the person – a contention that would introduce confusion between creator and creation.⁵⁰ That role, which the mind plays, however, is rendered possible, only through the enlightenment of the mind by the divine illumination of the Holy Spirit. Gerhard gives the impression that this is not merely a matter of 'strengthening' the natural powers or native light of the human mind in such a way that the divine illumination simply completes or complements the mental operation already begun by the initial activity of the mind.⁵¹ Such an understanding would be more akin to George Calixt, who attributes a much greater active role to the mind than Johann Gerhard (Wallmann 1961:106–107). Rather, he describes the human dilemma as one of blindness (*Tractatus*, §§ 58, 71) and darkness: 'Just as natural light repels darkness, so also the spiritual darkness of our intellect is illumined through the light of Scripture ...' (*Tractatus*, § 56). The language of 'dispelling' (*dispellere*, § 58) and 'driving out' (*pellitur*, § 59) implies a negative, antithetical view of the natural powers of the mind. The problem is one of 'blindness' that must be dispelled to allow one to see, rather than merely weak eyesight to be strengthened for one to see more fully. Hence, the role of the mind is truly and purely passive and only in this passive way is the *adaequatio* realized between the mysteries of faith and the human intellect.

In retrospect, one could say that the cognition of divine mysteries is θεόσδοτος, conferred by the Holy Spirit through the Word. We will have opportunity to examine this much more closely in chapter five when we analyze Gerhard's final definition of *theologia*. Suffice it to say for now that the idea is present here, although Gerhard does not use this specific terminology.

50 Cf. Melancthon's similar concern above, ch. 2, fn. 39.

51 Häggglund's (1951:214; cf. 2003:233; 2006:324) explanation of Gerhard's theory of cognition leaves room for such an optimistic understanding of human natural mental abilities: 'The process of thinking may be the following: Only if the natural light of the intellect has been *strengthened* [*verstärkt worden ist*], as it were, through the light of the Holy Spirit, is alignment (*adaequatio*) possible between the content of revelation and the intellect' (italics added). Such an interpretation may be understandable in view of Gerhard's statement that the mysteries of faith 'exceed' (*excedunt*) the sphere of our intellect and that they, therefore, require a divine illumination 'beyond' (*praeter*) the natural powers of our intellect (*Tractatus*, § 48; cf. § 54 and Gerhard's use of *assurgere*). In retrospect, it seems that in using such language Gerhard may be envisioning the human mind as limited because of the creature-Creator divide. If this were only the case, a mere 'strengthening' might be sufficient. However, in addition to these limitations, the human being, including his mind, is utterly corrupted by sin because of and since the Fall. For this reason, he refrains from using the analogy of "strengthening" altogether and opts for metaphors of darkness and blindness.

In Gerhard's estimation, such an idea was opposed by many within Christendom. His comments in the *Tractatus* (see, e.g., § 45) are specifically intended to refute the 'Papists' who relied on the tradition and teaching position of the papacy for Scriptural understanding. The Schwenckfeldians (i.e., Enthusiasts) and some Calvinists, according to Gerhard, relied on direct intervention apart from the Word and, therefore, look directly to their own intellect (cf. *Von der Nature*, quest. 1, §§ 16–18; Gerhard [1628] 1671:207–208). The theory of 'illuminationism' may be equally counter-intuitive to the modern mind primarily because of Kant who utterly rejected it as a 'pure aberration' (as quoted in Häggglund 2006:331).⁵² Attention was, instead, directed toward the natural power and ability of the perceiver. Subsequently, Schleiermacher revolutionized hermeneutics by directing new attention to the subjective 'creative' factor in interpretation and translation, encouraging the attempt to break through the hard shell of the word and get at the meaning behind it (Häggglund 2006:331–332).⁵³

This optimistic view of human cognitive ability, which underlies all of these approaches to one degree or another, is conspicuously lacking in Gerhard's epistemology of Scripture. For him, the distance between creature and Creator and particularly the corruption from the Fall extends beyond the will and irreversibly corrupts the very intellect (*Tractatus*, § 55). He roots his thoughts in those of Luther, citing Luther's *De Servo Arbitrio* (*On the Bondage of the Will*) as the first argument for his doctrine of illumination: 'Not even a single letter in Scripture is clear without the light of the Holy Spirit ...' (*Tractatus*, § 49). Prayer is then a necessary prerequisite for a salutary understanding of Scripture (§§ 50–54). Moreover, the problem does not lie in the obscurity of Scripture, for God's Word is eminently clear and the very light that enlightens. Rather, the problem lies in the post-lapsarian blindness of the reader: 'The eyes of the blind do not perceive even the brightest objects and therefore do not see the sun itself; but who would wish to attribute darkness to the sun for that reason?' (§ 55)

For precisely what is this illumination required? On the one hand, at first glance, Gerhard seemingly gives the impression in the *Tractatus* that the illumination merely applies to the conversion of the will as in the *ordo salutis*.⁵⁴ He frequent-

52 See Häggglund's (2003) insightful analysis contrasting the terms 'illumination' (as used by Gerhard) and 'enlightenment' (as used during the Enlightenment Era). That the primary difference is the presumed 'origin' of each respective 'light' underscores again the distinction between Aristotelian and modern epistemologies.

53 'What [Schleiermacher] expressed is the faith of Romanticism in the creative ability of the translator ... The terminology he employed in this connection is revealing. The translator, the student of Scripture on the academic level, is for him a "virtuoso," who has a "divine" power to declare what a text means by going behind it, the power to place himself in the situation of the author ...' (Häggglund 2006:332; see also Bayer 2007:149–159; 174–176).

54 The term *ordo salutis* (order of salvation) refers to the logical (not necessarily chronological) ordering of the various elements in personal salvation (cf. Ferguson 1988:480–481). Although the term itself became common among Lutheran dogmaticians in the eighteenth century, the idea traces its roots to the *Formula of Concord* and even further back to the Reformation.

ly qualifies the doctrine of illumination as applying only to 'the divine mysteries in Scripture'⁵⁵ and to 'a salutary and solid knowledge'⁵⁶ of Scripture. And, in fact, he intentionally distinguishes those who are able by their natural mental ability to grasp the 'outer bark of historical accounts' and even 'become acquainted with the dogmas of Scripture' from those who have a 'salutary and solid knowledge of the divine mysteries' (§ 54).⁵⁷ Only the latter, not the former, require the illumination of the Holy Spirit.

On the other hand, as mentioned above, Gerhard agrees with Luther that 'not even a single iota in Scripture is clear without the light of the Holy Spirit, for this reason and in this respect all things are unclear to the flesh and acumen of human beings' (§ 49).⁵⁸ Moreover, he clarifies that the illumination is required for 'understanding and interpreting *all Scripture and any part thereof* in a salutary fashion' (§ 51, italics added).⁵⁹ Gerhard later more fully explicates the difference between the two meanings of the 'inner word' (*Von der Natur*, quest. 3, § 3; Gerhard [1628] 1671:214), but it is important at this point to note that he is wholly disinterested in any knowledge attained apart from the illumination of the Holy Spirit. He is writing, as the title indicates, *De legitima scripturae sacrae interpretatione*, that is, on the rules for legitimately interpreting Scripture. The primary assumption of any and all efforts to interpret Scripture is summarized by the opening quote of the *Tractatus* from 2 Corinthians 4:3–4.⁶⁰ Any attempt at interpretation without the Holy Spirit is henceforth illegitimate.

This is relevant to the discussion at hand because Gerhard normally envisions no substantial role of 'historical' biblical knowledge (i.e., knowledge apart from justifying faith) in the bestowal of the theological *habitus* or of faith.⁶¹ Illumination is even required for the interpretation of Scripture treated as merely the principle of theology (Häggglund 1951:165). Of course, it is not *only* the principle of theology. The preceding discussion has underscored an important point: In Gerhard's mind, there is no real separation between Scripture as 'principle of theology' and Scripture as 'means of grace,' that is, the means by which the Holy Spirit not only gives

55 Cf. '*divina mysteria in Scripturis*' and similar expressions as in, e.g., §§ 48–49, 54–55.

56 Cf. '*salutarem & solidam notitiam*' and similar expressions as in, e.g., §§ 49–50, 54, 57.

57 *Etsi enim quaedam in Scripturis ita comparata sunt, ut intellectus humani captum non excedant, verbi gratia exterior historiarum cortex Possunt quidem nondum a Spiritu sancto collustrati cognita habere Scripturarum dogmata, fidemq; historicam tenere per externum verbi ministerium, at πληροφορίαν certam, solidam ac salutarem notitiam habere non possunt sine Spiritu sancto interius mentes illuminante.*

58 ... Lutherus ... dicit, ne unum quidem iota in Scripturis perspicuum esse sine Spiritus sancti luce, omnia enim hac ratione & hoc respectu carni & acumini hominis obscura esse.

59 *Haec Spiritus sancti collustratio necessaria est ad totam Scripturam & quamlibet ejus partem Salutariter cognoscendam & interpretandam*

60 'And even if our gospel is veiled, it is veiled to those who are perishing. The god of this age has blinded the minds of the unbelievers, so that they cannot see the light of the gospel of the glory of Christ, who is the image of God' (2 Cor 4:3–4, NIV).

61 See ch. 5 below for a fuller discussion of this topic and its implication for faith and *theologia*.

understanding via the intellect, but moves the will and gives justifying faith (Hägglund 1982:209–210). To divorce one from the other is to deviate from a true and legitimate understanding of Scripture and to engage in a task that is other than *theologia*. For the God-given understanding of Scripture, even as an intellectual operation, appertains to the mysteries of the faith and, therefore, can only be received by faith. At the same time, the faith engendered by Scripture as ‘means of grace’ is rooted in the salutary knowledge and understanding of Scripture. One begins to see how faith and *theologia* are closely connected and nearly identical (Wallmann 1961:125). Hence, to better grasp Gerhard’s thoughts in regard to θεόσδοτος, we must examine his understanding of Scripture as ‘means of grace.’

4. The Rahtmann Debate: Scripture as Means of Grace

Scripture as means of grace was at the center of the Rahtmann⁶² debate. This inter-Lutheran controversy was sparked when Hermann Rahtmann (1585–1628), a deacon and, then, pastor in the city of Danzig, published a controversial book in 1621 entitled *Jesu Christi: Des Königs aller Könige und Herrn aller Herrn Gnadenreich*. The controversy was finally brought to a close in 1629 after Rahtmann’s death and the publication of the report of the Leipzig council of university representatives.⁶³ According to Hägglund (1982:211), the pivotal question of the controversy was simply this: ‘What is the word which brings about grace and creates faith in the heart of man?’ Of course, behind this debate is the Aristotelian distinction, accepted by all involved, that any communication is comprised of the *signum* (*materia*, external signs, words, letters, syllables) and *res signata* (*forma*, meaning and intention of the one communicating). The former was often termed the ‘outer word’ and the latter the ‘inner word’ (ed. Grübel 1671:177–179; *Prooemium*, § 18).

The debate centered on how the two were related. According to Gerhard’s summary, Rahtmann held that the words of Scripture were only an external word or testimony and did not have the power to convert a person, because the inner word remained in the minds of the prophets and apostles to whom God had bestowed it. He likened Scripture, then, to a ‘signpost’ that simply points the way to salvation, but has no salutary power in and of itself. Or, it is like a ‘picture’ that represents a royal person, without actually being the person in and of itself. Both analogies demonstrate, said Rahtmann, that the true effect of what Scripture points to (i.e., grace, conversion, true Christian life) is only brought about through the illumination by the Holy Spirit that occurs prior to, and also simultaneously with, though separate from, the reading of the external words of Scripture. The conundrum that triggered Rahtmann’s speculations was the enduring theological and pastoral ques-

62 Gerhard employs the Latin spelling ‘Rathmannus’ in *Von der Natur*. Hägglund (1951, 1982), Koch (2004), and Steiger (2008) all prefer the spelling ‘Rahtmann’ which has been adopted here.

63 For a helpful summary of the controversy and the surrounding events, see Steiger (1998). Koch (2004) gives a helpful explanation and interpretation of the report of the Leipzig council.

tion: 'Why some and not others?' His response: Some have been illumined by the Holy Spirit and understand Scripture in a salutary way. Others lack that illumination and, therefore, are not led to God. Both encounter the same external word of Scripture that cannot enter into the soul (*Von der Natur*, intro., §§ 1–6; Gerhard [1628] 1671:201–202).⁶⁴

Simply put, Rahtmann espoused what Steiger (1998:347) has termed a 'Spirit-Scripture dualism.' He separated the inner word from the outer word and claimed that Scripture was not identical with the eternal word of God. Although his views may have been somewhat distorted by his opponents and the judgment no doubt influenced by political complications (see Steiger 1998:340–342), he was accused of the spiritualist position and roundly condemned by many of his contemporaries. In late 1623 and early 1624, reports came out from the major universities (including that of Jena) addressing and, to various degrees, denouncing Rahtmann's position. It was not until after Rahtmann's death in 1628 that Gerhard drafted *Von der Natur, Kraft und Wirkung des geoffenbahrten, gepredigten, undt geschriebenen Wort Gottes* (see Fischer 1723:340–341; Fischer [1723] 2000:279).

Against Rahtmann's view of Scripture, Gerhard's most fundamental argument is that the inner word cannot be separated from the outer word, though they are by no means identical (*Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 29; Gerhard [1628] 1671:211). The revealed written word of God is simultaneously and inseparably the 'letters and external words written or printed on paper' and the inner 'meaning and intention' authored into those words (quest. 1, §§ 5–7; [1628] 1671:203–204). Just as in any communication, when the thing to be known enters the senses, the mind 'extracts' the meaning and intention of the author ('*genommen*'; quest. 1, § 28, cf. §§ 14–15; [1628] 1671:211, cf. p. 207). Therefore, it makes no sense, based on accepted philosophical theories, to separate the inner from the outer word. What distinguishes Scripture from other literary works is not that the Spirit adds an inner sense and illumination to the reader prior to or concurrently with his or her perusal of the outer word of Scripture. Rather, the difference lies in the particular 'meaning and intention' already drafted into and united with the outer word. Instead of a *creaturely* meaning as in the case of human writings, God has ordained that his *divine* meaning and intention be 'wondrously united' with the external words of Scripture (quest. 1, § 6, cf. §§ 1–8; quest. 2, § 2; [1628] 1671:203–204; 214). And that divine meaning and intention have the 'divine power to bring to life and to illumine,' that is, to convert, make faithful, and redeem (quest. 4, § 3; [1628] 1671:221). In underscoring the inner power of Scripture to accomplish conversion in a person, Gerhard emphasizes Scripture as 'means of grace,' though without using that term.

Sadly, the divine meaning and intention of Scripture (i.e., divine mysteries) surpass the ability of the corrupted natural mind to grasp them. Gerhard argues then that God intervenes, not apart from, previous to, or even through and in Holy Scrip-

64 See also Steiger 1998:347–352; Häggglund 1982:211–212; and Koch 2004:35–36.

ture, but the Holy Spirit has really and effectively given to Holy Scripture the inner spiritual power to convert, such that Scripture has this power ‘in and with itself’ (*in und bey sich*) (quest. 4, §§ 11, 29; [1628] 1671:224, 233).⁶⁵ Gerhard cautiously distinguishes between ‘the Holy Spirit working in and through Scripture’ and ‘the Holy Spirit attributing power to Scripture’ since Rahtmann had argued the former while still maintaining a separation between Scripture and the work of the Spirit. The latter enables Gerhard to underscore the life-giving power and efficacy (*Krafft und Wirkung*) of Holy Scripture in and with itself (*in und bey sich*) (cf. quest. 4, §§ 6–7, 20; [1628] 1671:222, 227). Gerhard uses care at this point to clarify that Holy Scripture is not the principal cause (*causa principalis*) of conversion, but rather a ‘powerful and cooperative instrumental cause’ (*causa instrumentalis*), such that one can legitimately say that ‘the divine light and the divine power of illumination are due to the Word’ (quest. 4, §§ 14–15; [1628] 1671:225). The Holy Spirit exercises this power as Scripture ‘lets loose a beam of divine supernatural light’ in order to open our minds to ‘understand the divine mysteries’ contained therein (quest. 4, § 5; [1628] 1671:222).⁶⁶ This is nothing more than a further elaboration of the doctrine of illumination explicated by Gerhard some eighteen years earlier in the *Tractatus*. In this context, however, he does not take the time to expound on the mental operation undergone as Scripture does its efficacious work, nor does he specifically mention the need for an *adaequatio*, presumably because the current Rahtmann debate does not revolve around the corrupted state of the human intellect and the manner in which it comes to understand the divine Word (a primary concern of the *Tractatus*), but rather around the nature and efficacy of written Scripture even as it exists in and with itself (*in und bey sich*).

Gerhard does not directly broach the topic of *theologia* in *Von der Natur*. Nevertheless, the Rahtmann controversy forms part of the immediate theological background against which Gerhard pens the *Prooemium* and describes *theologia* as θεόσδοτος. Thus, for our purposes here, several important implications can be drawn from Gerhard’s response to the Rahtmann heresy.

First, the source of divine knowledge and understanding (i.e., *theologia*) is always the Word and not apart from that Word as it is revealed and written in Scrip-

65 ‘There we hear / that according to Rahtmann’s opinion about Scripture it has to be said / that it converts / not because of an inner spiritual power that was given to it / but because of the Holy Spirit / who wants to teach through and in Scripture / and with it, not as through a powerful cooperating means, but as an external picture / counterfeit and painting wants to make itself known through powerful illumination.’ (*Da hören wir / daß Rathmanni Meynung nach von der Schrift gesagt werde / daß sie bekehre / nicht wegen einer geistlichen innerlichen ihr mitgetheilten Krafft / sondern um des h. Geistes willen / der durch und in der Schrift will lehren / und darben (mercks wohl dabey) als bey seinem eusserlichen Bild / Conterfait und Gemähde (nicht als dach ein kräftiges mitwirkendes Mittel) sich durch kräftige Erleuchtung zu erkennen geben.*) (quest. 4, § 11; [1628] 1671:224).

66 See above this chapter, fn. 39.

ture.⁶⁷ Although his argument is further developed and more pointed in *Von der Natur*, Gerhard had already in the *Tractatus* cautioned that

we therefore should not think that we must await from the Holy Spirit an immediate illumination from on high before we go on to reading, meditating on and carefully examining Scripture; rather, we must pray for and obtain that light of the Holy Spirit in and through Scripture. (*Tractatus*, § 57)⁶⁸

Indeed, Scripture heard and meditated on is that very light which illumines the mind (*Tractatus*, §§ 56, 71). The Rahtmann dispute provided further opportunity to elaborate on the inseparability of illumination and the external Word, especially as it pertains to conversion and the effects of conversion. In light of these two important documents, it seems clear that, for Gerhard, the power or capacity to understand the divine mysteries is not an enduring ability that remains the lasting possession of the reader or listener apart from continued and constant interaction with the Word of God. In other words, the inner illumination of the active intellect is never a permanent possession of the mind such that illumination could take place apart from its source – Scripture.⁶⁹ Yes, the illumination and consequent understanding takes place in the mind, but the source remains the Word of God. After all, ‘who sees the sun without the sun’ (*Tractatus*, § 52)?

The implications for Gerhard’s theological *habitus* are apparent. In contradistinction to Aristotle’s *habitus* which essentially become the permanent possession of the person (see above, ch. 1), Gerhard depicts the theological *habitus* as only ‘possessed’ by continual reading, meditating on, and researching the Word, while also praying for the help of the Holy Spirit. This peculiar understanding of *habitus* depicts it as more akin to continual ‘reception,’ so to speak, than achieved ‘possession.’

67 *Contra* Rahtmann, Gerhard insists that written Scripture is the very Word of God (quest. 1, § 4; [1628] 1671:203). However, he readily acknowledges that that Word also exists in God the Holy Spirit, in the prophets and apostles who received it from God, in their oral preaching, and also in the inner man of the one listening or reading. These are not different in kind from the written Word, but they are identical and form an inseparable unity (Hägglund 1982:214; cf. *Prooemium*, § 18; *Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 11–12; Gerhard [1628] 1671:205–206).

68 *Non ergo cogitandum est, prius a Spiritu sancto immediatam e supernis illuminationem expectandam esse, quam ad Scripturas legendas, meditandas & perscrutandas accedamus: sed in Scripturis, & per Scripturas, lux illa Spiritus sancti quaerenda & impetranda* In response to Rahtmann, Gerhard is later obligated to clarify that the phrase ‘in and through Scripture’ must not entail a separation between Spirit and Word (see above).

69 ‘... Gerhard does not seem to consider this illumination a habitual, remaining possession of a person ... While the light of the active intellect is present in people by nature, the light of grace is inflamed only through the Word of God and only through this Word. Indeed, it is a light of spiritual understanding that is ignited in us, but if one asks where the source of this light is to be found, the answer according to Gerhard is always: Only in the Word itself. By the Word here the Holy Spirit illuminates and understanding is not derived from a new intellectual ability of the person, but rather from the illuminating power of Scripture.’ (Hägglund 1951:215)

sion.⁷⁰ Thus, according to Gerhard, the theological *habitus* is only and truly θεόςδοτος. One could say that it is invariably ‘*katabatical*,’ that is, the movement is always from God (through his Word) to the person, and not vice versa.⁷¹

Secondly and consequently, if the Holy Spirit will not work in a salutary way apart from and outside of the external Word such that Holy Scripture has an inner spiritual power in and with itself, then this underscores the importance of a deep study of God’s Word. Rejected are the alternative sources of knowledge – the natural strength of one’s intellect, the endorsed interpretation of the church⁷², and immediate divine intervention. Gerhard associates these respectively with the Calvinists, the ‘Papists,’ and the Enthusiasts (*Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 14, quest. 3, § 4; [1628] 1671:207, 220). God does not wish to reveal himself to human beings in any other way. Instead, the theologian must ‘extract’ the inner Word, that is, the sense and meaning, from the external words of Scripture. Of course, in Gerhard’s view, that extraction, taking place through the deep study (*meditatio*) of Scripture, happens only because that very Scripture illumines the reader’s intellect, dispelling the darkness and bringing about understanding.

Thirdly, as mentioned above, there exists no dichotomy or separation in Gerhard’s mind between Scripture as principle of theology (source of divine knowledge and truth) and Scripture as means of grace (means of conversion and salvation). His Aristotelian approach to cognition, coupled with his skeptical view of sinful humanity’s ability to grasp the mysteries of God, naturally gives rise to this inseparability. The modern (and post-modern) mind is accustomed to viewing itself as the measurer of the perceived thing. This, in turn, gives rise to the tendency to posit a separate and subsequent relation between *notitia literae* (academic knowledge) and *notitia Spiritus* (spiritual knowledge), whereby the former is often credited to the natural strength of the intellect and the latter to the work of the Spirit. In this modern schema, Spirit-endowed faith builds on knowledge obtained through one’s natural strength and ability. In fact, this was similar to the teaching of some during Gerhard’s time, such as, for example, George Calixt (cf. Wallmann 1961:102–106). But this disjunction concedes the very heresy of which Rahtmann was accused – the separation of the work of the Spirit from the Word (cf. Appold 1998:118–119). If, however, the perceived measures the perceiver, then the Word (and Spirit) plays an active role in understanding, just as it does in salvation. And this is the case for

70 ‘Even though Gerhard also very much stresses the illumination of the soul, he nevertheless never poses it as a creative ability of the person against the Word’ (Hägglund 1951:217). See also Hägglund’s (2003:238–239) insightful comparison of the term *illuminatio* of Orthodoxy and *Aufklärung* (enlightenment) of rationalism.

71 I am indebted to my colleague, Werner Klän, who coined this term, deriving it from καταβαίνω, as a helpful way of describing the passive role of the human being in interaction with God.

72 Although Gerhard sees the ‘Rule of Faith’ playing a significant role in interpretation (*Tractatus*, §§ 61–63), he interprets that Rule differently than the ‘Papists.’ The Rule is nothing else than ‘clear passages of Scripture which present the articles of faith in clear and lucid language’ and not the interpretation of church fathers, councils, or the papacy (§§ 73–75).

Gerhard. He dismisses *notitia literae* when it comes to faith and piety.⁷³ Scripture is by no means a '*mortua litera*' (dead letter) or mere 'external sign or testimony' that simply points the way to salvation (*Von der Natur*, quest. 1, §§ 18–19; [1628] 1671:208–209). Instead, the *notitia Spiritus* consists of the true, original meaning and knowledge of Scripture, which Scripture possesses in and with itself (Hägglund 1951:216–217). As we have seen above, when it enters the mind of the perceiver, it actively illumines the intellect toward understanding and simultaneously and inseparably enlightens and converts. Word and Spirit are united. Consequently, understanding of the Word is conjoined to the efficacy of that very Word. God-given theological knowledge is seamlessly inseparable from Spirit-endowed faith.

So, for example, Gerhard points out that past orthodox teachers have referred to the 'inner Word' as both the 'inner sense, understanding, and meaning drafted into the external Word' and the 'inner taking in of the Word into the heart' (*Von der Natur*, quest. 2, § 3; [1628] 1671:214). However, he gives no indication of any tension, separation, or disjunction between them. Further on, even more to the point, he explains the relation between illumination (toward conversion) and the nature of Scripture:

'If we teach however / that the power to illumine [for conversion] belongs to the essence [*esse*] of Holy Scripture / it has to be understood in no other way than / that it belongs to the inner completeness of Holy Scripture / and that Holy Scripture according to its nature / and its essence [*esse*] cannot be thoroughly considered or described / unless / this power to illumine is kept in mind' (quest. 4, § 15; [1628] 1671:225)⁷⁴

The chronological or logical segmentation of faith from Scriptural knowledge makes no sense to Gerhard. The 'meaning and intention' (*Verstand und Meinung*) of Scripture, that is, its actual 'form or essence' (*Form oder Wesen*), enter the human soul and effect understanding and conversion (quest. 1, §§ 3–4; [1628] 1671:203). For this reason, Gerhard can describe the Word of God as 'a light illuminating the intellect, a fire enflaming the affections' with no apparent disjointedness between them (*Aphorismi sacri*, p. 362).⁷⁵ Scriptural understanding does not just lead to salvation, it encompasses that very salvation.

73 See, e.g., his dedicatory epistle to Balthasar in *Aphorismi succincti et selecti*, 1611: 'We can concede to that one [whose heart is full of evil things] academic knowledge, but we plainly deny to him spiritual knowledge' (*Notitiam literae concedere illi possumus, sed notitiam spiritus et plane denegamus*). Cf. *Methodus*, part 1, ch. 2, p. 21).

74 Wenn wir aber lehren / daß die Erleuchtungs Krafft zum esse der h. Schrift gehöre / so wird hierdurch anders nichts verstanden / als daß sie zur innerlichen Vellkommenheit der h. Schrift gehöre / daß die h. Schrift ihrer Natur / und ihrem esse nach nicht könne vollkomlich betrachtet noch beschrieben werden / es sey denn / daß auch derselben Erleuchtungs Krafft mitgedacht werde

75 *Verbum Dei est lumen, illuminans intellectum, ignis inflammans affectum*

Finally, Rahtmann's description of Scripture as a mere *signum* separated from the life-giving *res signata* resembled too closely the Calvinist and Spiritualist views of the sacraments, as his opponents were quick to point out (for an insightful exploration of this aspect of the debate, see Steiger 1998: *passim*). Hence, Gerhard repeatedly accuses Rahtmann of this suspicious resemblance. The external word and the inner word are inseparably united in Scripture in a 'hidden way' similar to that of the sacramental union of bread and body in the Supper – not merely in a 'signified way' (*signative*) as Rahtmann suggested, but in a unified way (*unitive*) (quest. 1, § 25; [1628] 1671:210; cf. Steiger 2008:713). Likewise, one cannot divide and separate the water poured out in baptism from the 'real inner power of baptism' (*Von der Natur*, quest 4, § 35; Gerhard [1628] 1671:241). According to the Jena professor, as well as comrades from other universities, in the same manner that the sacraments as the 'visible word' (*verbum visibile*) are deemed not to be empty signs, but the means through which God really and powerfully works faith and salvation, so too the heard and written Word as the 'audible word' (*verbum audibile*) is deemed not to be a mere blank sign, but 'a powerful active Word' (quest. 4, § 34; [1628] 1671:239). The sacramental nature of Scripture, then, underscores again the efficacy and power of Scripture, its active role in the formation of *theologia*, and the receptive role of the theologian's mind.

5. Conclusion

Gerhard was well aware that taking up the Aristotelian concept of *habitus* to define *theologia* was a rather precarious endeavor. It not only opened the door to theological synergism, but also risked distancing faith from the theological enterprise. His rather rare use of the term to describe *theologia* evidences a certain cautious deliberation underscored yet again by its purposeful qualification as θεόσδοτος. Like that of other theologians before (e.g., Meisner) and after (e.g., Quenstedt) him, Gerhard employs this qualifier to emphasize the uniqueness of the theological *habitus* in comparison to anything that Aristotle had to offer. As such, familiarity with the Aristotelian concept of *habitus* is helpful in understanding Gerhard's theological *habitus*, but only to a limited degree. For a deeper and more precise comprehension of Gerhard's *habitus* θεόσδοτος, one must delve into his own writings to ascertain how he envisions the God-givenness of its acquisition, in other words, how one 'gets' theological knowledge. This chapter has attempted to do just that. What we have seen is that Gerhard uses the term, like other theologians, to accentuate the divine nature of Scripture that serves as the God-given source of *theologia*. However, unlike many other theologians, he also uses it to describe the divine intervention within the *mental operation* of the theologian as he or she engages in the theological pursuit. That intervention happens by way of divine illumination through the Word resulting in an *adaequatio* that renders the mind able to understand the divine mysteries. With that, all synergistic aspirations in the

theological realm are immediately disqualified. But that divine intervention in the mind cannot be separated from faith which it necessarily creates. So, θεόσδοτος, as Gerhard specifically uses it, concerns knowledge (in the intellect), but necessarily implicates justifying faith (in the will) and the subsequent life of faith. In short, for Gerhard, if the theological *habitus* is explicitly θεόσδοτος as he interprets that word, then it is necessarily ‘practical.’ But that is the subject of the next chapter.

IV *Theologia as Practica*

1. Introduction

Thus far we have had opportunity to explore Gerhard's concept of *theologia* as a *habitus* θεόσδοτος in its historical, contemporary, and literary contexts. The Jena professor, however, insisted on yet another qualifier: *Theologia* is also *practica* (*Prooemium*, §§ 11–12). This chapter then sets out to delve into Gerhard's use of the term '*practica*,' focusing on the *Prooemium*, while also taking into consideration his use of the term as a descriptor of *theologia* in other contexts. The term did not by any means originate with Gerhard and, in fact, his views share much in common with other orthodox Lutheran (and Reformed) theologians of his time. He is participating in an on-going conversation, the parameters of which having been established for centuries. Nonetheless, our investigation of Gerhard's particular use of the term will afford us the opportunity to examine certain aspects and emphases of his thinking which will lead us to a deeper understanding of his final definition of *theologia* (cf. *Prooemium*, § 31). It should also be kept in mind that Gerhard's description of *theologia* as *practica* cannot be divorced from his particular use of the terms *habitus* and θεόσδοτος to define and qualify the same. On the contrary, previous analyses of these terms provide the necessary background to properly understand his use of *practica*. And, as has been the case thus far, further examination of the Aristotelian framework of Gerhard's thinking will also prove necessary.

2. Understanding '*Theologia as Practica*' in Context

2.1 Seventeenth Century versus Contemporary Views of 'Practical'

Any contemporary discussion of the seventeenth century use of *practica* is especially fraught with the danger of 'presentism,' for the present day conversation, perhaps particularly in the American context, is influenced by a strong tendency toward pragmatism. In such a context, the truth and value of knowledge are assessed and evaluated by the success of its practical application in real life scenarios.¹ This has led to certain notions and dichotomies in modern thinking that simply did not exist in Gerhard's mind shaped by seventeenth century Aristotelian thought.

For example, modern (especially American) pragmatism tends to maintain that the truth and value of knowledge are derived from the mind's ability to measure the thing by applying that knowledge in life and making a judgment based on its usefulness. This contrasts sharply with Gerhard's context where the mind is measured by

1 See, e.g., John Dewey ([1910] 1978), one of the primary figures of American Pragmatism during the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries.

the perceived thing. In his Aristotelian context, the truth and value of knowledge are naturally derived from the thing and the extent to which that knowledge correlates, describes and mirrors that thing. This does not imply that seventeenth century theologians, such as Gerhard, were disinterested in the real life applications of Christian dogma. Quite the opposite, Gerhard's works (both devotional and dogmatic!) attest to his preoccupation with the tangible application of dogmatic knowledge (for a thorough treatment of this subject, see Steiger 1997, as well as his shorter essays, 1995, 1996b), but such life applications were based on the indubitable conviction that such knowledge was already true and valuable in and by itself, not because such applications would somehow render theological knowledge true and worthwhile.

Furthermore, the seventeenth century theological thought of Gerhard (and others like him) does not allow the modern divorce or dichotomy that currently exists between 'theory' (content, statement, or principle of abstract ideas) and 'practice' (application and use of an idea). Since the rise of Pietism and the Enlightenment Era in the eighteenth century, this modern theory-practice bifurcation has dominated modern thought and continues to have reverberating effects in the theological arena, making it all the more difficult for modern historians to understand earlier concepts of theology (Farley [1983] 2001:61; see also 49–72). The theory-practice dichotomy arises when *theologia* is thought of as only a content or deposit of truths to be objectively examined and assessed and divorced from its practice. This, however, is foreign to seventeenth century theologians, such as Gerhard, who view the Word as entering into the mind/soul of the theologian and bringing about theological knowledge in that mind/soul. That *habitus* oriented knowledge gives rise automatically to its life application. In this seventeenth century context, then, 'theoretical' and 'practical' are misunderstood if those terms are associated with the contemporary 'theory-practice' dualism (Muller 1987:216).

Several misguided views must be avoided here if the historian wishes to truly grasp Gerhard's concept and study of *theologia*. First, one must avoid thinking of *theologia* as mere 'theory' and the study of *theologia* as merely 'book learning' of that theory, to which will later be added the practical and useful component. In this modern schema, *theologia* ceases to exist as 'sapiential knowledge' or 'theological *habitus*' within the person and, therefore, ceases to 'function in the church as the foundation of the good life' (Charry 1997:5; for the historical roots of this problem, see Farley [1983] 2001:29–49). Secondly, the 'fourfold pattern' of theology, which has dominated modern seminary education for at least two centuries (Farley [1983] 2001:99–124)² is completely foreign to the seventeenth century Jena professor and his contemporaries. This 'fragmentation' of *theologia* into independent disciplines came about in an effort to unite what, in part, the theory-practice dual-

2 For a somewhat more historically balanced critique of the current 'fourfold pattern' of theology that also attempts a measured response and complement to Farley, see Muller (1991).

ism rent asunder. Thirdly, one must also avoid viewing Gerhard's study of *theologia* as teleologically united by what Farley ([1983] 2001:87, see especially fn. 37; 42–44) has called the 'professional' or 'clerical paradigm,' that is, the function-oriented practical know-how of pastoral ministry. *Theologia* as *practica* does not mean, for Gerhard (and his contemporaries), that theological education falls under the rubric of what we call today 'professional' or 'technical' studies. In other words, specific aspects of theological knowledge are not especially limited to, nor explicitly aimed at, certain practical know-how skills of the ministry, nor does that knowledge attain its validity from those skills. If *theologia* is *practica*, it is expressly because its goal lies outside of it – not in a certain professional technique (e.g., preaching), but in the salvation of either the theologian himself or of those to whom he ministers (cf. Muller 2003:119–121). The skills and techniques are not central, but auxiliary, to the practice of *theologia*. Finally, to understand Gerhard one must avoid another extreme, namely, the relegation of Christian *theologia* to the realm of opinion and feelings devoid of any substantive knowledge base. That this reflects a modern sentiment is evidenced already a century ago by John Henry Newman's plea that theology be considered a branch of knowledge and, therefore, be included in the university curriculum (1907:19–98). Among the many factors that have contributed to the devaluation of theology as a university discipline in the (post-)modern era, divorcing theory from practice and legitimating theology by its practice alone stands at the head of the list. Responsible historiography must be aware of these modern concepts of theology and approaches to theological education and bear in mind that they are completely foreign to Gerhard's concept and study of *theologia*.

In addition, 'practical' must not be conceived as opposed to or separate from the 'intellect.' It is important to bear in mind the philosophical framework established earlier within which Gerhard lived and worked (see above, ch. 1). According to the Melancthonian-Aristotelian schema, the intellect is the part of soul in which understanding, reasoning, and knowledge happen. This is differentiated from the will where reside the appetitive and desiderative faculties, including the affections. The intellect is further subdivided into the 'speculative intellect' and the 'practical intellect.' It is important to note for our purposes here that both are assigned to the intellect and, therefore, entail knowledge and understanding. The distinction is to be found in the kind of knowledge and the end or purpose of that knowledge. The speculative intellect regards 'necessary truths' that cannot be otherwise and pursues knowledge purely for the sake of knowledge, that is, for the sake of contemplating truth (e.g., mathematics, metaphysics). The teaching is known purely in and for itself. The practical intellect regards 'contingent truths' that can be otherwise and pursues knowledge for the sake of an end other than pure contemplation toward which that knowledge directs the knower (e.g., medicine) (Muller 1987:216; cf. Wallmann 1961:51–52). Insofar as a pursuit of knowledge embodies its own end or goal, it is a speculative pursuit. Insofar as the end or goal of a pursuit of knowledge lies outside of that pursuit, it is practical (Muller 1987:216; 1985:285, 233). It is in

this sense that the seventeenth century differentiation between *theoria* (θεορία) and *praxis* (πρᾶξις) should be understood. A practical pursuit requires the intellect, for in both cases the intellect is involved because both constitute knowledge. Speculative intellectual *habitus* and practical intellectual *habitus* both reside in the intellect (versus the will). Whereas *sapientia* is speculative wisdom and resides in the speculative intellect, *prudentia* is practical wisdom and resides in the practical intellect. The modern contrast between theory and practice is not in view here; rather, the contrast is between *contemplativa/speculativa* and *practica*, as different kinds of knowledge with different ends. Finally, it is also important to recall that the intellect (the seat of intellectual virtues/*habitus*) and the will (the seat of moral virtues/*habitus*) are neither separate things, nor opposed to one another. They merely differ modally.

2.2 The Conundrum of *Theologia* as a Practical Discipline

'*An sit theologia contemplativa, an vero practica?*' (*Prooemium*, § 11)³ This question and the consequent discussion traces its origins back to the medieval scholastics, as Gerhard was well aware. Aquinas conceded that it was both, but more speculative than practical, while Scotus viewed it as purely practical (*Prooemium*, § 11; cf. Muller 1987:226). Operating in the background, of course, was the enduring tension, recognized by all involved, between *eruditio* (scholarship) and *pietas* (spirituality), the *intellectus* (intellect) and the *affectus* (affections of the heart), that is, the head and the heart, to use the modern idiom. As mentioned above (see intro.), Bayer (2007:9) describes this as a tension between 'monastic' and 'scholastic' theology and points out that 'theology would have to be blind if it denied this tension and tried to resolve it in favor of one side or the other.' Indeed, seventeenth century Protestant theologians wrestled with the same question and confronted the same problems (for a helpful summary of Reformed views, see Muller 1987:215–226). The reason is partly due to the theological and philosophical conundrum presented by the question itself.

At the outset, one should note that the word '*theologia*' was a contested term from early in the Reformation. This study will not attempt to trace the history of the term and concept of *theologia*,⁴ except to point out that, although Luther liberally uses the term, though giving it his own meaning, Melancthon studiously avoids it, preferring the expression 'Christian doctrine' or, especially, 'doctrine of the church' (*doctrina ecclesiae*). Gerhard uses it without pause and paves the way among Lutherans for full acceptance of the term (Wallmann 1961:18–23). The problem with the term *theologia* lies in its etymological roots. It literally means 'talk/teaching about God' or 'about divine things' (*Prooemium*, § 2). With this

3 'Is theology contemplative or practical?'

4 For helpful summaries of the history of *theologia*, see Farley [1983] 2001:29–124; Bayer 2007:1–14; Wallmann 1961:3–21; Congar 1968:*passim*.

serving as its definition, *theologia* naturally desires to dwell on God, his essence and attributes, and on eternal, immovable things that cannot not be (i.e., necessary things). With God as its subject and the joy of knowing God as its end, *theologia*, strictly speaking, is a purely speculative pursuit.

Excluded from *theologia* thus defined are all things of a temporal nature and all sensible things (i.e., contingent things). But this excludes a great part of what has traditionally been included under the purview of the doctrine of the church (e.g., creation, humanity, sin, salvation, Christian life), doctrines that Luther and the reformers recognized as essential for knowing and teaching. Hence, Luther used the scholastic term *theologia* and yet insisted that '*theologia est practica, non speculativa*' (WA TR 2:56, 22f [no. 1340]).⁵ In calling *theologia practica*, Luther wished to emphasize that its focus ought to be on a particular deed (*praxis*), the deed of God justifying human beings. For this reason, in his 1532 lectures on the Psalms he made the deceptively simple, yet essentially groundbreaking, declaration that 'the subject of theology is the sinful and lost human being and the justifying and saving God' (LW 12:311; *Psalm 51*).⁶ This was breaking new ground because it set up a relationship between God and human beings as the unifying subject matter of the entire discipline of theology. In other words, Luther insisted that one must seek God not in the category of substance but of relation (LW 3:122; *Lectures on Genesis: Ch. 15–20*; cf. *Prooemium*, § 28; see above, ch. 1). And that relation was squarely focused on the event of the cross. Thus, he construed true *theologia* as theology of the cross (*theologia crucis*), focused on the revealed, crucified God, versus theology of glory (*theologia gloriae*), focused on the hidden God only attainable through speculation (cf. LW 31:52–53, 225; *Heidelberg Disputation; Explanations of the Ninety-Five Theses*).⁷

Following suit, Melancthon's *Loci communes* were never meant to explicate *theologia* etymologically defined, but only those fundamental articles of doctrine which attend to the salvation of human beings. Interestingly enough, as one of those who ushered in the regular use of *theologia* into post-Reformation Lutheran thought, Gerhard justified its use by following Chemnitz in defining *theologia* as the 'essence and will' (*essentia et voluntas*) of God (*Aphorismi succincti et selecti*,

5 'Theology is practical, not speculative.' See also WA TR 2:56 464f (no. 2444) or 1:72f. (no. 153); LW 54:22; WA TR 5:384, 16f. (no. 5867). For helpful explanations of Luther's idea of theology as practical, see Bayer 2007:21–27; Nieden 2006:86–87.

6 *Subjectum theologiae homo reus et perditus et deus justificans vel salvator*. I follow the translation and am indebted to the helpful analysis of Bayer (2007:16–21).

7 Kolb (2002:443) describes Luther's idea of *theologia crucis*: 'Of all the places to search for God, the last place most people would think to look is the gallows. Martin Luther confessed that there, in the shadows cast by death, God does indeed meet his straying, rebellious human creatures. There God reveals who he is; there he reveals who they are. Not in flight beyond the clouds, but in the dust of the grave God has come to tell it like it is about himself and about humanity.'

1611a, aph. 1, thesis 8).⁸ Such a definition allowed *theologia*, properly defined as 'talk about God,' to encompass both his being (i.e., essence) and his decrees (i.e., expressions of his will such as creation, salvation, and other divine acts with regard to human beings).

Thus far the challenges presented have been theological and reveal the problematic nature of a *theologia speculativa* or *contemplativa* for those, such as Gerhard, committed to the Reformation legacy. Nonetheless, *theologia* as *practica* presents its own challenges of a philosophical nature. Contemplation solely for the sake of contemplation is counted as the highest and purest pursuit in which a person can engage. Aristotle likens it to the activity of the gods and indicates that it far surpasses the practical pursuits of prudence and art (*Eth. Nic.* 1177b30–78a2; cf. Book X, ch. 6–8; see above, ch. 1). This is primarily because those practical *habitus* deal with contingent, temporal, sensible things that can be otherwise (e.g., human beings). Speculative wisdom (*sapientia*) is reserved for the supreme and highest principles, the most honorable things, and is the 'most excellent science' (*Eth. Nic.* 1141a17–22), precisely because it deals exclusively with necessary, eternal, immovable things that cannot be otherwise (e.g., God). From an Aristotelian philosophical point of view, clearly speculative wisdom (*sapientia*) befits *theologia* infinitely better than practical wisdom (*prudentia*). So, the question remained: '*An sit theologia contemplativa, an vero practica?*'

3. Gerhard's Concept of Practica

These theological and philosophical dilemmas placed the seventeenth century theologians in somewhat of a quandary. And Gerhard was no exception. After establishing that *theologia* is a *habitus* θεόςδοτος, Gerhard had to address the question of its speculative or practical nature because he had identified 'wisdom' as the closest Aristotelian genus and wisdom is of two kinds: Contemplative (i.e., *sapientia*) and practical (i.e., *prudentia*) (*Prooemium*, § 11). From the various opinions on this matter, Gerhard aligns himself with Thomas of Strasbourg's commentary on Lombard's *Sentences*, who had conceded that *theologia* is 'speculative and practical at the same time,' but that it is 'more practical' (§ 11).

3.1 Gerhard's Delimitations of *Theologia* as *Practica*

Gerhard gives ample arguments for his decision in the subsequent paragraph, but it behooves us first to examine those opinions that he rejects. Although only briefly mentioned, they reveal a depth of insight and measure of care that is characteristic of Gerhard as he navigates through the often tedious philosophical and theological

⁸ Gerhard actually organizes the order of his *Loci* around this same schema (see *Prooemium*, § 25) as evidenced by his statement to that effect at the beginning of *Loci* 5 'On Creation' (§ 1).

waters of his time. Faced with the conundrum presented by a *theologia practica*, he is forced to deviate from the accepted Aristotelian framework, similarly as he had done in identifying *theologia* as a *habitus* θεόδοτος. In view of his ‘instrumental’ (ὀργανικός) use of philosophy (*Methodus*, part 1, sect. 2, ch. 1), this is not only permissible; it is encouraged.

Wallmann (1961:72) perceptively points out that Gerhard avoids directly identifying *theologia* as a ‘*habitus practicus*,’ a label clearly used by numerous other theologians during and after his time.⁹ The avoidance of that technical theological term, both in the section treating the genus of *theologia* (§§ 8–12) and in the final definition (§ 31), suggests a certain caution on his part. It is true that by accepting *theologia* as *practica*, Gerhard has essentially aligned it with *prudentialia* (practical wisdom) and there are, of course, important advantages to doing so. Not only does it concede that *theologia* is about action and not merely a matter of bare knowledge, on a deeper level it also provides a convenient ‘connection’ between the intellect and the will (see discussion of the ‘interconnectedness’ of the *habitus*, ch.1), a primary concern in the final definition (see below, ch. 5). Despite sharing some characteristics with *prudentialia*, however, Gerhard is reluctant to associate *theologia* directly or even too closely with the practical *habitus*.

There are, no doubt, several reasons for this. We need not repeat here the philosophical problems described above that a *theologia practica* necessarily invokes. There are other reasons as well. The most obvious of these is that, according to Gerhard, *theologia* was not solely practical. Many seventeenth century theologians followed the opinion of Thomas of Strasbourg, who represented a compromising Augustinian view between that of Scotus and Aquinas and who accommodated both by insisting on a certain balance between the intellect and the will (Muller 1987:225–226). It was generally thought that *theologia* did involve a certain contemplative element lacking in a purely practical pursuit. As other Protestant theologians aptly pointed out, a purely practical *theologia* as claimed by the Socinians and later by Spinoza was devoid of the basic articles of the Christian faith and ultimately led to a kind of ‘ethical atheism’ (Muller 1986:199). Thus Gerhard is justified in adding the ‘essence of God’ (a speculative topic) to what is to be taught in *theologia* (*Aphorismi succincti et selecti*, aph. 1, thesis 8; cf. Appold 1998:24). Similarly, he offhandedly dismisses *theologia* as *affectiva*. That *theologia* implicates the *affectus cordis* (affections of the heart, i.e., emotive impulses, desires, appetites) is indispensable for *theologia* (cf. *Prooemium*, § 31), but it cannot be devoid of knowledge.

There was perhaps an even more important reason. As mentioned earlier, Bartholomew Keckermann, the Reformed theologian who is credited as the conduit through which Zabarella’s Aristotelian thought entered into Protestant theology,

⁹ See, for example, the definitions of *theologia* by Balthasar Meisner (*Philosophia sobria*, 1623, p. 191), Abraham Calov (*Systema locorum theologicorum*, 1655, book 1, ch. 1, p. 1), Johann Könnig (*Theologia positiva acroamatica*, [1664] 1675, ch. 1, p. 7), and Johann Quenstedt (*Theologia didactico-polemica*, 1685, book 1, p. 16).

was one of the first and few theologians to clearly identify *theologia* as the direct equivalent of *prudentia*.¹⁰ In the first volume of his *Philosophia sobria* published in 1612 over a decade before Gerhard's *Prooemium*, Meisner argues strongly against this idea. Among the arguments he advances, one finds a familiar one: *Prudentia*, like *sapientia*, is acquired primarily through one's own efforts (1612:455–457; sect. 2, ch. 1, assert. 1).¹¹ Indeed, Zabarella's *ordo resolutivus*, which was associated with the practical *habitus* and later gave rise to the analytic theological method, was originally directed toward an end activity that was ultimately dependent on human effort and will and accomplished in this life (cf. Hägglund 1951:52–53). Hence, the reasons underlying Gerhard's prior decision to identify *theologia* as a *habitus* θεόδοτος serve as reason enough for distancing it from *prudentia*.

This caution again surfaces when one considers that Gerhard also avoids the term *habitus mixtus* (mixed *habitus*), which would seem, at first glance, to be a more than adequate expression of his idea of *theologia*. In fact, the term had already been used by his friend and comrade, Meisner, in 1612 (*Philosophia sobria*, sect. 2, ch. 1, assert. 2, pp. 462–463)¹² and in 1614 by the Reformed theologian, Johann Heinrich Alsted (*Praecognitorum theologicorum: Libri Duo*, book 1, ch. 9, pp. 53, 60)¹³. A quick comparison of Gerhard's and Alsted's descriptions of *theologia* leaves one with the distinct impression that the former felt much less constrained to precisely identify and position it among the categories of Aristotle. Against the background of the *habitus* controversy in the 1620's and some of the Magdeburg pastors' discontent with the unduly academic nature of the term, Gerhard's reluctance is understandable. One also notices immediately that Gerhard is much more inclined to underscore the practical nature of *theologia* than Alsted, who aligns it primarily with *sapientia*. A mixed *habitus* could be construed in this way, again much to the chagrin of those Magdeburg pastors who supported Cramer, and so it makes sense that Gerhard would want to be more precise.

10 'Theology is a prudent religion leading to salvation' (*Theologia est prudentia religiosa ad salutem perveniendi*) (Keckermann, 1614:67; *Systema sacrosanctae theologiae*, book 1, ch. 1; cf. Muller 1987:212, 219).

11 Φρόνησις *autem* vel *prudentia Aristotelica exercitatione potissimum acquiritur*.

12 'Therefore, may we not say that [theology] is a mixed *habitus*? Thus it would certainly seem to be correct. For it cannot be denied that there are two duties and offices of theology. First, to teach the knowledge of truth ... Second, to guide to the practice of piety ...' (*Ergo ne dicemus habitum mixtum? Ita sane videtur sequi. Negari enim non potest, quod Theologiae duplex sit munus & officium. 1. docere γνώσιν ἀληθείας ... 2. dirigere πρᾶξιν εὐσεβείας ...*).

13 'Theology ... therefore, is understanding, science, and prudence' (*Theologia ... ergo est & intelligentia, & scientia, & prudentia*) (p. 53). 'Theology is a mixed *habitus* ...' (*Theologie est habitus mixtus ...*) (p. 60). For a helpful overview of Alsted's concept and study of *theologia*, see Nieden (2006:145–159).

3.2 The Aim of *Theologia* that is mostly *Practica*: θεοσέβεια (*Pietas*)¹⁴

Without equating it with any of Aristotle's *habitus*, Gerhard simply states that he prefers the opinion that describes *theologia* as more practical than contemplative 'because the ultimate end of theology is not bare knowledge [γνῶσις], but action [πρᾶξις]. Consequently, everything that theology treats looks toward action if not immediately and directly, then mediately and indirectly' (*Prooemium*, § 12).¹⁵ What follows is a series of authoritative voices supporting this opinion arranged in chronological order and covering the entire span of church history, beginning with Scripture and concluding with Jean Gerson of the Late Middle Ages.

The Bible passages immediately quoted by Gerhard reveal a common theme – *praxis*, action, doing. He provides quotations from the Gospels of Matthew (7:21, 24–27), Luke (6:46), and John (13:7). In them Jesus admonishes the disciples 'to do' (*facere*) rather than merely to know and to talk. Similarly, quotations from 1 Corinthians (4:20) and 1 Timothy (1:5) emphasize the importance of 'virtue' (*virtus*), rather than talk, and 'love' (*charitas*) as the fulfillment of the commandments. From these passages it seems clear that Gerhard is contrasting the Christian life of good works over and against the academic exercise par excellence of the time – the disputation. Those who excelled in knowing and talking excelled also in the disputation, regardless of their faith and spirituality. And, yet, as a practical discipline, *theologia* does not pursue its knowledge for the sake of knowledge, but knowing has a purpose outside of itself – the carrying out of good works (*executio operis*; see end of §§ 12, 31).

This argument is further bolstered by other voices of authority, of which we may highlight a few. Chrysostom, a master preacher adept at syllogistic rhetoric, remarks that 'the finest syllogism in theology is the syllogism of works [*operum*]' reinforcing the emphasis on *praxis*. Similar quotes from Theodoret and Alexander of Hales indicate that *theologia* is more about the 'good performance of things [*bonas rerum functiones*]' and 'virtue' than about contemplation and knowledge, although neither dismisses knowledge as unnecessary. The final quote in the paragraph from Jean Gerson's *De consolatione theologiae* drives the point home:

Just as Cicero describes an orator as a good man skilled in speaking, so we describe a theologian as a good man erudite in sacred writings, but not with an erudition of the intellect alone but much more of the affection, so that he may transfer those things he understands by theology through continual rumination to the affection of

14 Despite the connotations associated with the word due to Pietism and the Pietistic movement of the late seventeenth and eighteenth centuries, I most often translate this term as 'piety' for lack of a better English equivalent ('spirituality' and 'godliness' seem equally problematic). Let the reader recognize that such connotations do not necessarily apply to Gerhard and his idea of *pietas* (see discussion below).

15 ... cum finis theologiae ultimus non sit nuda γνῶσις, sed πρᾶξις, ac proinde omnia, quae in theologia traduntur, ad πρᾶξιν spectent, si non immediate et directe, tamen mediate et indirecte

the heart and the carrying out of works [*executionem operis*]. (*Prooemium*, § 12, author's translation)¹⁶

This quote shares a certain language with the final definition of *theologia* (see § 31), leaving no doubt that Gerhard considered it a particularly significant and accurate description of *theologia*. We will examine it further later, but suffice it to say for now that the goal and purpose of Gerhard's *theologia practica* is expressly the carrying out of good works.

Gerhard employs this exact same quote in the dedicatory epistle to Balthasar introducing his *Aphorismi succincti et selecti* in which he addresses the responsible use of disputations, namely, that they be accompanied by a 'serious pursuit of sincere piety' (*serio sinceræ pietatis studio*) (1611a:9, 11)¹⁷. For who can have spiritual knowledge (*notitia Spiritus*) whose heart is full of evil pursuits such as hatred, envy, greed, and filth? Rather, the pursuit of true spiritual knowledge is characterized by imitating and learning from Christ, whose meekness and humbleness embody the pursuit of piety (1611a:11). This dedicatory epistle is strategically well placed as a cautious reminder. It serves as the introduction to a series of aphorisms which will form the systematic outline (ὑποτύπωσις) for Gerhard's *Loci* (see *Aphorismi succincti et selecti*, aph. 1) and which are essentially a list of topics expressly aimed at 'affirming the truth and destroying the falsehood of some who contradict it' (see full title of Gerhard's *Loci theologici*). The scholarly task of 'free[ing] the heavenly truth from the corruption of adversaries' (*Prooemium*, § 31) must be accompanied by, and even fused with, the personal exercise of spirituality/piety (θεοσέβεια).

Nearly two decades before the *Prooemium* saw the light of day, Gerhard had already called *theologia* a 'practical doctrine' in the *Dedicatio* of one of his earliest

16 *Sicut apud Ciceronem orator describitur, quod sit vir bonus dicendi peritus: ita theologum nominamus virum bonum in sacris literis eruditum, non quidem eruditione solius intellectus, sed multo magis affectus, ut ea, quae per theologiam intelligit, traducat per jugem ruminationem in affectum cordis et executionem operis.* If one translates the last expression (*executionem operis*) as 'performance of [his] work', it would appear to refer to one's ministerial occupation and, hence, support a professional or 'allo-praxis' interpretation of *practica* (see discussion below in this chapter). I have opted to translate it as 'carrying out of [good] works' (despite the grammatical difficulty of *operis*) for several reasons. First, the quote wishes to deal with an internal operation between one's intellect (i.e. erudition), and one's affections from which arise good works. Secondly, Gerhard uses this quote to finalize a paragraph that has repeatedly emphasized the need for virtue and good works. The ministerial profession is not in sight here. Thirdly, Gerhard employs this same quote in the dedicatory epistle to Balthasar in his *Aphorismi succincti et selecti* (1611a). The context immediately following clearly focuses on the heart and piety (i.e., good works) of the theologian to be of the utmost importance during disputations. Fourthly, Gerhard uses this same expression in a part of the final definition of *theologia* (§ 31) that expressly targets the spirituality (not profession) of the theologian (see discussion below in ch. 5 about the final definition). Finally, the context of the quote in Gerson's *De consolatione theologiae* is clearly one of piety and good works and not that of ministerial work or duties (cf. Burrows 1991:137).

17 Manuscript pagination uncertain.

works, *Meditationes sacrae*, a devotional handbook enormously popular throughout Europe. In this introductory section he broaches the topic of *theologia* and chides those who see speculation as its end ([1606] 1629:3–15; cf. Koch 1987:31–32; Steiger 1997:38–40).¹⁸ Yes, there are things to be believed and hoped for (*theoria*) in addition to ‘things to be done’ (*praxis*), but it is still a practical discipline because, similar to the practice of medicine, it pursues that very *theoria* ‘for the sake of and in relation to *praxis*’ (pp. 5–6).¹⁹ It will never merely be ‘bare knowledge and subtle theory’ (*nuda γνώσις & subtilis θεωρία*), but always be ‘more practical’ (*praxis*) (p. 6). Despite the medical analogy, *praxis* in this context is not limited to the theologian’s professional responsibilities of pastoral care of others. This will be discussed below. Suffice it to say for now that theology as ‘practical doctrine’ includes ‘doing works’ (*opera danda*) (p. 7), conforming one’s life to that of Christ (p. 8), and worshiping and adoring God with piety and holiness (*pie sancteque*) (p. 9).

Yet how can the practice of piety be the ‘ultimate end’ if the ‘principal and highest end’ of *theologia* is the ‘glorification of God’ (*glorificatio Dei*) (*Prooemium*, § 26)?²⁰ This poses no contradiction for Gerhard, for he has already specified in his *locus On Good Works* that the glory of God (*Dei gloria*) is also the end goal of good works, affirming that one participates in the ‘glorification of God’ by carrying out ‘good works’ (*Loci* 17, ch. 4, § 20). Gerhard further elaborates on the ‘glorification of God’: ‘[God] communicates theological wisdom to men for this end: that they may know Him rightly and honor, worship [*colere*], and invoke Him in this life and in the life to come’ (*Prooemium*, § 26). What Gerhard means by ‘worship’ becomes clearer when compared with his comments earlier in the *Prooemium* regarding ‘practical theology’ (§ 17). He remarks that the theology of wayfarers (*theologia viatorum*) can be divided into theoretical theology and practical theology. The former, Gerhard specifies, is often called *θεωσοφία* or *cognitio Dei* (knowledge of God) and the latter

18 ‘... I can conclude that theology is a practical doctrine, and likewise that those who contend that the end of theology is speculation, that is, a number of those among the scholastics, think less correctly’ (... *colligere possim, Theologiam esse doctrinam practicam, ac proinde minus recte eos sentire, qui speculativam eam esse contendunt, quo in numero sunt quidam ex Scholasticis*) (Gerhard [1606] 1629:5). Unless otherwise noted, translations are mine. I have also consulted on occasion the English translation by Wade Johnston (Gerhard [1606] 2011).

19 ‘For although not only things to be done, but also things to be believed and things to be hoped for are proposed in this heavenly philosophy, that however does not impede what otherwise has been said up until now about *practica*; for even the practice of medicine is concerned to a certain extent with theory, but it is not for that reason a theoretical discipline, for it pursues this same theory because of *praxis* and in relation to *praxis* ...’ (*Quamvis enim non solum agenda, sed etiam credenda ac esperanda in hac coelesti philosophia proponantur, id tamen non impedit, quo minus practica adhuc dicatur; nam & medicina in quorundam theologia occupata est, nec tamen properea theorica disciplina est, quia hanc ipsam theologia praxeos ratione ac in ordine ad praxin sectatur* ...).

20 It should be noted that *ultimus* (greatest), as used by Gerhard in this passage, is not a technical term denoting a specific Aristotelian component in a thing’s definition. On the contrary, *principalis finis* would have been a more appropriate Aristotelian term to describe a thing’s ‘final cause.’

θεοσέβεια or *Dei cultus* (worship of God). Gerhard had earlier distinguished between these when identifying synonyms for *theologia* (§ 5). In that context, he relates θεοσέβεια to 1 Timothy 2:10, where it is translated as *pietas* (piety) in the Latin Vulgate and where it is directly related to *opera bona* (good works).²¹ Therefore, for Gerhard, *cultus Dei* and *pietas* are closely related, if not synonymous, and entail the indispensable performance of good works.²²

Thus far we have used the term *pietas* (piety) frequently throughout this section. In fact, we have established it as the most appropriate term to capture the essence of what Gerhard meant by describing *theologia* as mostly *practica*. It is mostly *practica* because it is aimed at *pietas*, more than at mere contemplation, though it does include the latter. This then raises the question: Why have we used the term *pietas* instead of *praxis*? Indeed, Gerhard does focus section twelve of the *Prooemium* on *praxis* and the ‘doing’ of good works. He seems to do so, however, because of its etymological and linguistic relation to *practica*, the adjectival form derived from *praxis*. Moreover, he seems especially concerned in the context of the *Loci* and the *contemplativa/practica* debate to underscore the contrast between mere knowing (γνώσις, seated in the intellect) and action (πράξις, arising from movements of the will). And, to be sure, the latter was a technical term in the ongoing Aristotelian conversation at that time. Gerhard does introduce the term *pietas* into his argument by quoting Theodoret’s practical advice to ‘practitioners of piety’ (*operarios pietatis*) (§ 12). As mentioned above, he also clearly connects *practica* with θεοσέβεια and *cultus Dei* elsewhere in the *Prooemium*. Furthermore and perhaps most importantly, he claims Titus 1:1 as the ‘most beautiful and fullest paraphrase’ of *theologia*: ‘The knowledge of the truth for the purpose of piety’ (§ 5).²³ This was a commonly quoted verse to describe the mixed nature of *theologia* (Muller 1987:225–226), and Gerhard references it already in 1611 in his dedicatory epistle to Balthasar in the *Aphorismi succincti et selecti*.²⁴ He comments about *theologia* and the responsible use of academic disputations: ‘Let us pursue truth with piety and pursue piety with truth, since all theology, defined by the Apostle to Titus 1:1, is “knowledge of the truth which is joined [*est iuxta*] with piety”’ (pp. 18–19/fol. b3).²⁵ *Theologia* is closely affiliated with *pietas*, which, in Ger-

21 ‘... but, which is proper for women professing godliness [θεοσέβεια], with good works [ἐργων ἀγαθῶν]’ (NKJV).

22 In fact, Gerhard claims both as synonyms for good works, but does specify a slight difference such that *cultus Dei* focuses more on the final cause of good works than *pietas* (*Loci* 17, ch. 1, § 3).

23 ... ἐπίγνωσις τῆς ἀληθείας καθ’ εὐσέβειαν (author’s translation).

24 See also Gerhard’s *Schola pietatis*, vol. 1 ([1622] 2013a:11).

25 *Secetmur cum pietate veritatem & cum veritate pietatem, cum universa Theologia, definiente Apostolo ad Tit. 1. vers. 1. sūt ἐπίγνωσις ἀληθείας τῆς καθ’ εὐσέβειαν*. Note: In the text I am using, above the Greek words there appear the hand-written corresponding words in Latin: ‘*cognitio veritatis quae est iuxta pietatem*.’ The suggested Latin translation differs from that of the Vulgate. To whom the notes might be attributed is unclear, though every Greek text throughout the letter is thus translated.

hard's mind, encompasses *praxis* (see definition of *pietas* below). Finally, since it was not an Aristotelian term, but a theological and biblical one, Gerhard uses it far more frequently than *praxis* throughout his works, including the *Methodus studii theologici*, which will be the focus of the final chapter of this study. Hence, our use of *pietas* appears amply justified.

3.3 Understanding Gerhard's Concept of *Pietas*

But what precisely is *pietas*? It behooves us to take at least a brief look at how Gerhard understood the term since it plays such a prominent role in his concept of *theologia*. Additionally, our understanding of *pietas* as used by Gerhard must be divested of its current association with what has come to be known as the Pietistic movement or Pietism. That movement sparked initially by the work of Philipp Jakob Spener (1635–1705) no doubt built upon trends that existed during Gerhard's lifetime and influenced his own theological thinking. Historical research is increasingly showing a certain continuity between the Age of Orthodoxy and Pietism, not the least of which was the insistence by many Lutheran theologians, such as Gerhard, on the life of piety and insufficiency of mere academic theological knowledge (Kolb 2006:438).²⁶ This does not justify, however, the equating of Gerhard's concept and practice of *pietas* with the tenets of Pietism. The quasi-Rahmannian tendency to separate Word and Spirit, the adamant insistence on subjective experience as the basis for certainty, the shift from justification as imputation to justification as transformation, the eventual acceptance of the chiliastic point of view, and even the strict avoidance of worldly pleasures – one is hard-pressed to find any of these tenets in Gerhard, many of which he outright rejects (cf. Hägglund 1968:325–334; Heimbigner 2001:7–8, 283). To get at his thinking regarding *pietas*, therefore, it will prove helpful to set aside contemporary thoughts associated with Pietism and delve into Gerhard's own writings. Two of his writings in particular shed light on his understanding of *pietas* – the first devotional and the second systematic.

Shortly before he penned the *Prooemium*, Gerhard undertook the task of writing a five volume work on the *Schola pietatis* (*School of Piety*). In the first pages of the first volume he sets out to define what is meant by *pietas*. Defined specifically and strictly, it 'indicates obedience towards the first table of the holy Ten Commandments and to the true worship which we offer to God the Lord with heart and mouth' (Gerhard [1622] 2013a:9). In this narrow sense, it addresses the relation of faith between human beings and God as they respond to Him with worship, honor, and praise. In its broad sense, it 'encompasses obedience both towards the first and the second table of the holy Ten Commandments and also the entire Law ...' (p. 10). In this sense, it involves both love of God and also service to neighbor. Interestingly,

26 The vilification of the Age of Orthodoxy as sterile and dead by pietistic theologians (e.g., Gottfried Arnold) directly after and since has been helpfully documented by Steiger (1997:17–27; 1996b:319–321).

at this point Gerhard continues: 'Indeed, [it encompasses] also the font and source of this holy obedience; namely, true proper, contrite repentance and the true living faith in Christ' (pp. 10–11). That faith forms a part of *pietas* is at first striking when one considers that the same author had identified *pietas* earlier in the *Loci* as a synonym of good works (*Loci* 17, *De bonis operibus*, ch. 4, § 18). Does Gerhard actually consider faith a good work and, if so, how? Does he forego the distinction between justification and sanctification? We must attempt a response to these questions before delving into the more pointed question in the next chapter: What is the relation Gerhard establishes between *theologia* and *pietas*?

One may initially be inclined to simply dismiss Gerhard's comments here as the less than accurate musings of devotional writings.²⁷ But this does not seem to be the case. With regard to this comment, one must bear in mind the following. First, Gerhard is deriving his thoughts directly from a close exegesis of certain biblical passages and primarily from Paul's pastoral epistle to Timothy, in which the word εὐσέβεια carries a range of connotations depending on its immediate context. Gerhard observes that one such connotation encompasses even saving faith since the text itself requires such an interpretation (e.g., 1 Tm 4:8; 6:3, 6; cf. Gerhard [1622] 2013a:11).²⁸ Secondly, while the distinction between justification and sanctification must be maintained to avoid synergistic heresies, such a distinction entails no separation in the real Christian lives of Gerhard's readers of the *Schola*. This is more a matter of application than of inaccuracy. Thirdly, he makes it abundantly clear that 'if truly good and God-pleasing works are to be produced by us, they have to flow forth from faith in Christ ...' (Gerhard [1622] 2013a:15).²⁹ It appears that based on his exegesis of passages from 1 Timothy and for the sake of application, Gerhard has widened the scope of *pietas* to include contrition and faith, followed by new obedience (p. 18). This happens in a continuous, cyclical way. The final element (new obedience), nevertheless, serves as the primary focus or apex of *pietas*, as evidenced by the abundance of passages Gerhard educes for the new obedience in contrast to the small number of passages referenced for contrition and faith (pp. 19–20).³⁰ Finally, the context is the First Part of Luther's *Small*

27 Gerhard had elsewhere requested leniency from his readers with regard to the doctrinal exactness of his devotional writings (cf. *Meditationes sacrae, Dedicatio*; [1606] 1629:12).

28 Ironically, εὐσέβεια in some passages, such as 1 Tm 4:8, which connect piety to the promise of life, must include saving faith for Gerhard to avoid encouraging works-righteousness (cf. Gerhard's comments in this regard, [1622] 2013a:24–26).

29 'Consequently, anyone who wants to bring forth fruits of good works, Christ has to live in his heart through faith. From all this it is sufficiently apparent, and it follows unequivocally, that genuine faith in Christ is part and parcel for [sic] godliness. Indeed, this same faith, so to speak, is the soul, the foundation, and the root for godliness' (Gerhard [1622] 2013a:16).

30 '... It is not so difficult to conclude what it means to train oneself in godliness. It means to acknowledge one's sin from God's Law, seek forgiveness for same [sic] from God the Lord and, in true repentance, seek in steadfast faith to cling to Christ and, as a result, produce righteous fruits of repentance (Mat. 3:8), to be fruitful in good works (Col. 1:10), to be zealous in good works (Tit.

Catechism whereby the meaning of each subsequent commandment reflects that of the first: 'We should fear and love God ...' (Kolb & Wengert 2000:351–354). 'Obedience' of the first commandment, then, is pure and simple faith – that 'one's whole heart and confidence be placed in God alone, and in no one else' (Kolb & Wengert 2000:388; *Large Catechism*, part 1, First Commandment).³¹ Similarly, in the *Apology of the Augsburg Confession*, Melancthon construes New Testament Christian worship in the article on Good Works as 'the righteousness of faith in the heart and the fruits of faith,' while adamantly and systematically rejecting any works-righteousness (Kolb & Wengert 2000:263, 235–237; *Apology*, art. 24, § 27; cf. art. 20).³² In the *Prooemium* (§ 5), Gerhard equates 'worship of God' (*Dei cultus*) and *pietas* (θεοσέβεια). Hence, Gerhard is in good company and has deeply rooted his description of *pietas* in the thinking of his forebears. After all, it was Luther who adamantly insisted that 'the first, highest, and most precious of all good works is faith in Christ' (LW 44:23; *Treatise on Good Works*).

To these devotional thoughts we can add a more systematic presentation. The consistency of thought between the two is striking.

In the *locus De justificatione per fidem*, the Jena professor had underscored the importance of distinguishing good works from saving faith, but qualified this distinction by clarifying that such good works are joined together with saving faith 'by a perpetual and indissoluble bond' (*perpetuo et indissolubili foedere*) (*Loci* 16, § 118). In the *locus De bonis operibus*, Gerhard immediately begins by reiterating this same relation. It is 'proper order' that the article on good works follows directly after that on faith because justification and sanctification are bound together 'by a perpetual and indissoluble knot' (*perpetuo ac indissolubili nexu*) (*Loci* 17, § 1). Against the accusation of the 'Papists' that the Lutherans remove faith (*fiducia*) from *pietas*, Gerhard affirms that 'to distinguish faith and works and to attribute to each one what belongs to it, is not to separate faith from works' (*Loci* 17, § 1).³³

In typical Gerhardian fashion, he then proceeds to analyze the etymology and synonyms of good works. The synonyms are many, but each can be classified based on the extent to which it emphasizes the efficient cause, the formal cause, the effect, the object, the final cause, or a combination thereof. Some of the terms, for

2:14), to abstain from evil and do good (Psa. 34:15), to abide in godly living (Gen. 5:22), to serve God with holiness and righteousness (Luke 1:75)'

31 Cf. Luther's further comments: 'Look, here you have true honor and worship that please God, which God also commands under penalty of eternal wrath, namely, that the heart should know no other consolation or confidence than in him, nor let itself be torn from him, but for his sake should risk everything and disregard everything else on earth' (Kolb & Wengert 2000:388; *Large Catechism*, part 1, Ten Commandments).

32 Cf. similar comments in the article on Justification: 'Faith is that worship [*latreia*] which receives the benefits that God offers; the righteousness of the law is that worship which offers God our own merits. God wants to be honored by faith so that we receive from him those things that he promises and offers' (Kolb & Wengert 2000:128; *Apology*, art. 4, § 49).

33 *Atqui sidem & opera distinguere, atque unicuique horum quod suum est, tribuere, non est fidem & opera separare*

example, underscore both the efficient cause and the formal cause of good works. Hence, terms such as 'vivification,' 'regeneration,' 'sanctification,' and 'renewal' imply the Holy Spirit as the efficient cause who vivifies, regenerates, sanctifies, and renews. But such terms also allude to the formal cause of good works, that is, the 'inherent newness and inchoate spiritual life' (*Loci* 17, § 3).³⁴ These 'internal renewed qualities of the mind' (*interiores renovatae mentis qualitates*) produce effects (*effectus*) such as 'good behavior' (*bona conversatio*), 'holy behavior' (*sancta conversatio*), 'mortification of the flesh' (*mortificatio carnis*), and 'obedience to righteousness' (*oboedientia ad justitiam*) (§ 3). Good behavior manifests itself through outer actions and deeds. Gerhard indicates, at this point, that the terms εὐσέβεια and θεοσέβεια (both translated by *pietas* in the Vulgate; cf. 1 Tm 2:10; Tt 1:1) are synonyms for 'good works,' but they are unique in that they 'express simultaneously both the formal cause and the effect of regeneration' (§ 3).³⁵ *Pietas*, therefore, includes not just good and holy conduct, but also the internal movements of the heart that precede such behavior.

Does it encompass saving faith? It seems so. Gerhard emphasizes that there is a two-fold fulfillment (*facere*) of the law in Scripture – a legal (*legale*) fulfillment and a gospel (*evangelicum*) fulfillment of the law (*Loci* 17, § 5). The first is obligated to fulfill perfectly the law of God, what is impossible for any human being in this life. The second is to 'believe in Christ' (*credere in Christum*), which perfectly fulfills the law. It is in this way, Gerhard points out, that Luther can speak of a 'concrete and incarnate faith, whereby the term "works" is understood first of all as "faith," without which good works cannot be done' (§ 5).³⁶ In fact, works can also be categorized into 'internal' (*interna*) works, seen only by God, and 'external' (*externa*) works, visible also to other people. The former 'include the inner movements of the mind and the will and the good affections of the heart, such as, love, fear of God, trust towards God [*fiducia erga Deum*], patience, humility, etc.' (§ 6; cf. § 2).³⁷ Faith, then, can be legitimately depicted as the 'first and principal grade of good works,' from which sprout all sorts of other works toward the neighbor (§ 7). In this respect, faith is called the 'form' of good works in those who have been reborn, for it is only 'on account of the mediator, Christ, grasped by faith, [that] the works of the

34 *Ita quoque vivificatio, regeneratio, sanctificatio, renovatio, etc. tum causam efficientem, videlicet Spiritum sanctum vivificantem, regenerantem, sanctificantem & renovantem, tum causam formalem, videlicet inhaerentem novitatem & inchoatam vitam spiritualem denotant.*

35 *Quaedam & causam formalem & effectus renovationis simul exprimunt, ut virtus, Phil. IV. 8. εὐσέβεια, θεοσέβεια 1 Tim. II. 10.*

36 *... Lutherus loquitur, de fide concreta & incarnata loquuntur, ubi nomine operum intelligitur cum primis, sine qua bona opera non possunt fieri* Of course, like Luther before him, Gerhard has already pointed out in the previous locus on justification that the work of faith is wrought by the Holy Spirit alone and is in no way meritorious.

37 *Ratione operis quaedam bona opera dicuntur interna, solius Dei oculis obvia, interiores mentis ac voluntatis motus cordisque affectus bonos complectuntur: tales sunt, dilectio, timor Dei, fiducia erga Deum, patientia, humilitas, &c.*

reborn are pleasing to God and accepted by him' (§ 18; cf. §§ 10, 19).³⁸ Thus, as its form, saving faith (*fiducia*) is the formal cause of *pietas*, for the formal cause of a thing is its form (see above, ch. 1).

This analysis of Gerhard's concept of *pietas* will prove helpful as we later analyze his definition of *theologia* as *habitus* and his preoccupation with the 'transfer ... into the affections of the heart' within that theological pursuit (*Prooemium*, § 31). Gerhard has expressed his concern that the concept of 'good works' not be so narrowly defined that it merely include external actions, but that it also encompass those foundational 'internal affections of the heart and movements of the will' within the reborn that give rise to such actions (*Loci* 17, § 2). Our conclusion here coincides with that of Hupfeld (1908:9), whose monograph on Gerhard's ethics concludes that Gerhard's concept of *pietas* can be seen as a 'unified summary of volitional activity,' such that it can be defined as the 'obedience to the whole law of God and even as the font of that obedience that is pleasing to God, namely true repentance, whose soul, as it were, is true faith in Christ.' Hupfeld (1908:203–205) also reiterates what we pointed out in the beginning of this discussion, that Gerhard considers faith within the doctrine of justification very differently than faith within the doctrine of sanctification (as we are looking at it here). Although residing in the human soul and considered as the 'font' and 'source' of good works in the sphere of sanctification, it is in no way a meritorious work or even an internal quality in the sphere of justification.³⁹

As we will see in the next chapter, Gerhard does not equate *pietas* with *theologia*, but he does posit a close relation between them and as regional superintendent and soon to be general superintendent⁴⁰ he is prone to heed and highlight this relation. It seems clear from this discussion that Gerhard's idea of *practica* and the corresponding life of *pietas* is not a matter of mere professional or vocational skill, but that is the topic of the next section.

3.4 Gerhard's Concept of *Practica*: Auto-praxis or Allo-praxis?

Thus far we have seen that the end goal of a *theologia* that is mostly *practica* is not mere knowledge, but rather the carrying out of good works as they are embodied in a life of piety. The point is emphasized because what Luther had in mind when he

38 ... *propter Christum mediatorem fide adprehensum renatorum opera Deo placere atque ab ipso acceptari*

39 Vaahtoranta's (1998:212–268) more recent research has distinguished in Gerhard's thinking between a psychological empirically ascertainable faith defined as *notitia*, *assensus*, and *fiducia* and a atemporal, nonempirical mystical union between the person and Christ. The two, of course, cannot be distinguished chronologically, though the psychological presupposes logically (and theologically) the mystical. This would coincide with Hupfeld's concern here. See below, ch. 5.

40 Gerhard served as superintendent of Heldburg from 1606–1615 until Prince Caspir promoted him to general superintendent of the region of Coburg in 1615. *Locus* 17 *De bonis operibus* was first published in 1614. Gerhard was called as a theology professor to the University of Jena in 1616.

referred to *theologia* as *practica* is decidedly different than Gerhard's notion of the same. In fact, in a list of voices of authority that ranges from the Gospel writers to Jean Gerson of the Middle Ages, it seems somewhat strange that Luther is not listed among them (*Prooemium*, § 12).⁴¹ In retrospect, Luther did not set out to systematically position *theologia* within the existing Aristotelian binary structure of contemplative and practical disciplines. Within that structure, *practica* denotes the action (*praxis*) toward which the knowledge of that discipline orients the *knower*. Gerhard's conclusive remarks about the pious *praxis* of the theologian as the end of *theologia* conform well to this ongoing conversation taken up from the medieval scholastics. It is noteworthy, however, that the *praxis* here is clearly the anticipated action to be carried out by the *one studying theology*. Luther understands *theologia* as *practica* in a very different and nearly opposite way.⁴² As mentioned earlier, he posits God's action (*praxis*) as the focus of *theologia*, namely, God's justification of sinful human beings (WA 40/II:328; LW 54:22; cf. Bayer 2007:18). For Luther, then, the opposite of practical theology – speculative theology – sets up human works or self-justification as the basis for salvation. For this reason, 'speculative theology belongs to the devil in hell' (LW 54:22, *Table Talk*, no. 153). Of course, Luther's theological move here breaks from the Aristotelian schema and establishes what Bayer has called the *vita passiva* (receptive life) as what constitutes *theologia* (2007:21–24).⁴³ Theology is characterized by the *vita passiva* insofar as the theologian suffers, that is, undergoes God's work in and through his Word (by way of *oratio*, *meditatio*, *tentatio*). The theologian then only receives passively what God works in him or her.

This appears fundamentally at odds with Gerhard and it is true that the two theologians, hailing from different eras, understand and use the term *practica* in very different ways. For Luther the term *practica* provides him the opportunity to underscore the *passive* nature of *theologia*, while Gerhard uses it to emphasize its *active* goal. Below, we will have opportunity to explore in some depth the passive nature of Gerhard's concept of *theologia* and its affinity to that of Luther, but for now the apparent difference between the two underscores the evolution of the understanding and use of the term *practica* within Lutheranism.

The meaning of that term continued to evolve throughout the late sixteenth and early seventeenth centuries. In addition to the shift in its meaning from Luther to Gerhard, historians (e.g., see especially Sparr 1976; 1991; 1992) have identified

41 Though admittedly this may be due to the fact that the *Loci* were meant for an ecumenical audience that did not value Luther's voice as much as those from the pre-Reformation era.

42 For references to '*practica*' in Luther's writings, see this ch., fn. 5.

43 Bayer: '[Luther] does not take up either of the Aristotelian alternatives: He does not make theology a part of action (*actio*), nor does he make [sic] it a part of contemplation (*contemplatio*). Instead, Luther chooses a third option: He sees theology as an event and a path that is so different from anything else that it deserves to have its own name – so he calls it the "passive life" (*vita passiva*) The Christian life therefore is passive in the sense that it *suffers*, it *undergoes* God's work and so passively receives it.'

another major shift in the orientation of the word. Gerhard is situated at a turning point in that evolution. The rest of this section will explore the extent to which Gerhard's concept of *theologia* accommodated or rejected this shift.

The key question that reveals the shift is simply this: For the benefit of whom does one study *theologia*? During the Reformation era, theological studies were, for the most part, ultimately aimed at the spiritual development and maturity of the theologian. The goal of such studies, one could say, was that the theologian 'come' (*pervenire*) to faith and to a deeper level of piety. We see a significant shift in orientation ushered in by the reforms led by Jakob Andreae during his stay in Electoral Saxony (1576–1581) and thereafter popularized by Protestant theologians in the early seventeenth century (Appold 2004:15–25). The end of theological studies then begins to primarily target those to whom the theologian will minister. The ultimate goal of such studies becomes 'leading' (*perducere*) others to faith and towards greater piety through the theologian. Essentially the shift is one of focus – from transformation of self to transformation of the other, from the motif of 'ethics' to that of 'medicine.'⁴⁴ Definitions of *theologia* at this time reveal which approach they adopt by their use of *pervenire* (come – targeting the theologian) or *perducere* (lead – targeting the other). Of course, ultimately, this is a matter of *practica* and its orientation, leading Nieden (2006:192) to helpfully coin the terms: *Auto-praxis* and *allo-praxis*. Recent studies have suggested that this may be somewhat of an over-simplified portrayal of the rather complex historical realities of pastoral education. For instance, theological studies even during the time of the Reformation had a decidedly pastoral orientation toward care of parishioners and 'leading' them to faith (see, for example, Kolb 2012; Haemig & Kolb 2008; Burnett 2006). Nonetheless, one still detects a shift in thinking with regard to the definition and concept of *theologia* around the turn of the century.⁴⁵

The question before us then is whether Gerhard's concept of *practica* is oriented toward *auto-praxis* or *allo-praxis*. This is a pivotal question as we explore Gerhard's concept of *theologia* as *habitus*. Is it more akin to a vocational and profes-

44 See Sparn (1976:30–35; 1992:72–82) for the logical and theological implications of such a shift and Sparn (1991:*passim*) and Appold (2008:94–99, *passim*) for a helpful explanation of the historical and political contexts of the shift. One may at first see an affinity here with the relation between *prudentia*, the 'habitus of actions' that remain internal to the agent (πρᾶξις), and *ars*, the 'habitus of making' things external to the agent (ποίησις) (see above, ch. 1); however, theologians such as Calov were quick to point out that even an *allo*-oriented *theologia* was intent on effecting activity (albeit in someone outside of the self) and not in producing any particular work (cf. Appold 1998:44).

45 The *allo-praxis* orientation of *theologia* is different than the modern 'professional' or 'clerical' paradigm as presented above. The *allo-praxis* of the seventeenth century did affect the presentation of knowledge (giving rise to the analytical method; cf. Sparn 1976:31–32), but for the most part, aspects and fields of knowledge are not yet specifically derived from, nor especially limited to or aimed at, certain ministerial skills and tasks. Notwithstanding, historians have drawn clear lines of connection between this shift and the 'professionalization' of theology (cf. Sparn 1992:72–74; 1991:127–131; Nieden 2006:241–243).

sional *habitus*, that is, an aptitude or ability to carry out the ministry? Or is it more akin to a personal *habitus* orienting the faith life of the theologian? The former would be associated with *allo-praxis*, while the latter with *auto-praxis*. And if it is both, how are they related? What follows is an analysis of some of the key instances where Gerhard speaks of *theologia* and describes the orientation of its practical nature. Analyzing them in chronological order will reveal a certain consistency of thought, though emphases might vary.

In one of his earliest writings, *Meditationes sacrae* (1606), Gerhard compares *theologia* to medicine. Just as the goal of medicine is to free from disease and preserve health, theology also has a double goal: 'It shows not only how we might be freed from sin, but also how we might be preserved in grace' (*Dedicatio*; [1606] 1629:1).⁴⁶ These medical analogies are common for Gerhard,⁴⁷ who had first studied medicine before fulfilling a vow to pursue theology that he had earlier made during a long and grave illness he endured as a lad (cf. Fischer [1723] 2000:22, 27–29). Scholars have pointed out that the medical analogy naturally lends itself to an *allo-praxis* approach to *theologia* – the theologian acts as the doctor who applies theology as a 'spiritual medicine' to the souls of others (Sparr 1976:32; Steiger 1997:39–41; 2008:704–705; Koch 1987:30, 32). And, indeed, Gerhard does seem to view the meditations as theological 'medicine.' They are meant to provide a 'stimulant' or 'incentive' (ὁρμητήριον) toward greater piety 'for those slow in the way of the Lord' and to remind Gerhard himself and other academic theologians of their duty or service (*officium*) (*Dedicatio*; [1606] 1629:11).⁴⁸

But is this merely *allo-praxis*? Gerhard is not so easily categorized. Despite the earlier medical analogy, there are clear indications that Gerhard's primary concern is that the 'medicine' be for the physician, just as much as for the patient.⁴⁹ Gerhard had originally written the *Meditationes* in Latin and, therefore, addressed them to ministers (cf. *ecclesiae filios*; *Dedicatio*, [1606] 1629:12; cf. Koch 1987:43). It would seem, then, that his admonitions for the pious life are directed at the life of

46 *Ut enim duplex Medicinae finis, sanitatem in corpore humano conservare, eandemque amissam recuperare: Ita Theologia, quoad anime morbas, eodem modo duplicem agnoscit finem. Ostendit namque non solum, quomodo a peccatis liberemur, sed etiam, quomodo in gratia conservemur.*

47 See, for example, his epistle to Balthasar in *Aphorismi succincti et selecti* (1611:3) and his *Dedicatory Epistle* to Lord Christian II ([1610] 2009:1).

48 The passage reads: 'Therefore, so that I might add fuel to the almost extinguished piety in this coldest age of the world and a stimulant/incentive to those slow in the way of the Lord, and so that I might remind myself and others of [our] duty/obligation, I have written ...' (*Ut igitur extinctae fere in hac frigidissima mundi senecta pietati υπέκκαυμα, tardis in via Domini ὁρμητήριον* [i.e., ὁρμητήριον] *addiderem, ac meipsum & alios officii commonerem, ... conscripsi* ...).

49 Equating the medical analogy with *allo-praxis* does not always work with Gerhard. He often uses it in clear contexts of *auto-praxis*. For example, to emphasize the importance of the theologians' daily Scripture reading, Gerhard refers to the Word as a 'light for the mind and medicine [*pharmacum*] for the soul' (*Methodus*, part 3, sect. 1, ch. 1, p. 141). At other times, his medical analogies are somewhat ambiguous and could emphasize either *auto-* or *allo-praxis*, or both, which often seems to be the case.

the ministers themselves. *Theologia* is a *practica doctrina*, not because it is applicable to the patients (i.e., parishioners), but because it goes beyond bare knowledge and expressly leads to the carrying out of good works (*opera danda*), worshipping with piety and holiness, and Christian living ([1606] 1629:3, 7, 9–10). A clearly expressed professional or vocational motif is curiously missing, especially if one considers that they were most likely originally addressed to professional theologians. Furthermore, upon reading the *Dedicatio* (and the meditations), one cannot help but notice how much they apply to the theologians of the academia, whose very professions emphasized the importance of intellectual prowess, at times, at the expense of humble piety. Indeed, according to Johann Ernest Gerhard (Johann Gerhard's son), they were especially recommended by his father for the novice theologian, that is, the theology student in the first year of theological studies (Fischer [1723] 2000:313).⁵⁰ In short, as early as 1606 Gerhard's thoughts with regard to *theologia* tend toward a kind of synthesis of *auto-* and *allo-praxis*. *Theologia* is practical because it is for both self and other, although clearly the latter cannot happen without one being continually preoccupied with the former.

A similar synthesis is to be found a few years later in the epistle to Balthasar in Gerhard's *Aphorismi succuncti et selecti* (1611). The first pages of the epistle remind the reader of the two-fold purpose of medicine already alluded to in the *Meditationes*. The 'ministers of the church' (*ministri ecclesiae*) must attend to both parts of the 'ecclesiastical ministry' (*ministerii ecclesiastici*) (1611a:1–2/fol. a2). It is not simply a matter of 'forming' (*informare*) one's hearers (i.e., parishioners) and preserving them in true and sound doctrine – the hygienic (ὕγιενει) part of the theologian's work. One must also be engaged in the therapeutic (θεραπευτικῇ) practice of healing those hearers from the 'cancer' of heresy (p. 3/fol. a3). The theologian carries out the latter by way of the disputation, a necessary academic exercise. Thus far the medical analogy clearly and emphatically underscores the *allo-praxis* of the theologian.

Yet, therein lies the danger, says Gerhard, for many over-emphasize the importance of disputing and conquering the enemy and neglect 'the serious pursuit of piety and the more careful cultivation of the inner man' (p. 9).⁵¹ Gerhard's foremost

50 Cf. the dedicatory epistle by Gerhard's son to Günther Heinrich Plathner in the 1654 edition of the *Methodus* (Johann Ernest Gerhard [1654] 2010b:3).

51 The passage reads: 'For many suppose that the pinnacle of God-wisdom [*theosophia*] is in disputing, while considering less esteemed the serious pursuit of piety and the more careful cultivation of the inner man. The majority prefer to dispute rather than live, as the best Teacher of the worst students once said. In the same way we too can lament in this place: Many prefer to seek Christ by disputing rather than imitating his life, although it is better to live Christ, then to seek him by flourishing the sword ...' (*Multi enim apicem quasi Theosophia in disputando constitutum censent, serio sinceræ pietatis studio & accuratiore interioris hominis cultura interim posthabita. Plerique malunt disputare quam vivere, dicebat olim discipuli pessimi Praeceptor optimus; eodemmodo etiam hoc loco conqueri possumus, Multi Christum quaerere malunt disputando, quam vitam ipsius imitando, cum tamen praestet Christum vivere, quam digladiando quaerere ...*) (pp. 9–10).

concern is that the work of the theologian be rooted in a personal pursuit of the pious Christ-like life,⁵² which serves as the much needed evidence that his knowledge is 'of the spirit' (*notitia spiritus*) and not merely academic (*notitia literae*) (p. 11). Hence, he qualifies the use of disputations by encouraging (and requiring!) first of all the theologian's own pious development and, as highlighted above, drives the point home by the pivotal quote from *De consolatione theologiae* of Jean Gerson (p. 11). In this regard, the goal of the epistle is primarily one of *auto-praxis*. Gerhard resolves this apparent paradox by assimilating both elements into his concept of *theologia*. Theologians of the academia ought not to consider their academic knowledge and defense of heavenly doctrine as sufficient in and of itself. They must also be engaged in 'imitating the life of Christ [*auto-praxis*] and instilling the same in the people committed to their trust [*allo-praxis*]' (p. 10).⁵³ This reflects strikingly similar language to that used in the *Prooemium* (see explanation below, ch. 5).

The insistence on theological study embedded in *pietas* and the contrast to bare knowledge was not by any means unique to Gerhard and could be considered a basic concern of nearly all Protestant theologians in the latter half of the sixteenth and beginning of the seventeenth centuries.⁵⁴ These same themes, for example, had been most emphatically reiterated by Johann Arndt (1555–1621), who had a deep influence on Gerhard's early theological development (cf. Fischer [1723] 2000:22, 29–31).⁵⁵ That influence emerges decisively in the *Aphorismi sacri*, a series of lectures Gerhard delivered during his first year at the University of Jena (1616). These 'sacred aphorisms' were meant to cover particular topics of 'practical theolo-

52 'Learn from me, says Christ, not only because my word is truth (Jn 17:17), but also because I am meek and of a humble heart (Mt 11:29)' (*Discite a me, inquit Christus (non solum quod sermo meus sit veritas, Joh. 17. v. 17. sed etiam) quod sim mitis & humilis corde, Matth. 11. v. 29)* (pp. 11–12).

53 The passage reads: 'Moreover, once again I repeat that I am by no means disapproving of either scholastic or ecclesiastic debates, but rather of the neglect of true and serious piety. You see, there are some people who think that they have performed their duty sufficiently if they offer themselves (in their way of thinking) as energetic supporters of heavenly doctrine and at the same time are sluggish and remiss in imitating the life of Christ and instilling the same in people committed to their trust.' (*Denuo autem repeto, neutiquam ipsas vel Scholasticas vel Ecclesiasticas disputationes improbari, sed verae ac seriae pietatis neglectum, quod suo se quidam satis functos officio arbitrentur, si strenuos sua opinione sese praestent doctrinae coelestis propugnatores, atque interim ad Christi vitam imitandam, eandemque hominibus suae fidei commissis instillandam segnes sint atque remissi.*)

54 See, for example, Hafenreffer (1561–1619), who greatly emphasized the importance of piety in his advice on theological studies, as well as Chytraeus (1530–1600), who described theology as *ars pietatis* (the art of piety) (Kang 2001:91, 159, 170).

55 That influence was somewhat tempered. Although Gerhard was a faithful supporter of Arndt and defended him against the frequent attacks of some of his Lutheran contemporaries, his wariness of some of Arndt's writings is evident in that he published the *Schola pietatis* as a 'corrective' to Arndt's four books of *True Christianity* (cf. Fischer [1723] 2000:371–372; cf. Gerhard's letter to Hunnius in this regard, pp. 425–427).

gy' and yet they differ significantly from the subject matter that bears that name today.⁵⁶ They are not at all aimed at or shaped by the various professional functions and skills of the pastor's work; nor are they purely doctrinal statements. They are more akin to proverbial aphorisms, sermonic in tone and metaphoric in style, that seek to apply theological truths to the spiritual lives of the students and promote a deepening of faith and a life of piety (cf. Fischer [1723] 2000:369). Just as the *Meditationes sacrae* were principally drawn from church fathers to edify the reader, so the *Aphorismi sacri* are primarily drawn from the fathers to edify students of academic theology. And just as the *Meditationes* emphasize the need for *praxis* in addition to mere knowledge, so the *Aphorismi sacri* are introduced by Johann Arndt's disputation stating that 'the practice of acroamatic theology is the exercise of faith and of the Christian life or sincere piety' and does not consist merely in 'bare theory' and the 'art of disputation' (*Dissertatio D. Johannis Arnds*, theses 2 & 3).⁵⁷ *Theologia practica*, as characterized in his inaugural lecture by the former pastor and now professor, is a *theologia* that leads to pious *praxis* (cf. *Prooemium*, § 12). In this regard, it is decidedly *auto*-oriented, though, in light of the *allo-praxis* elements of the *Meditationes* and the 'Epistle to Balthasar,' one cannot rule out the expectation that these aphorisms be also used in the edification of parishioners.

So, too, Gerhard underscores the *auto*-orientation of *theologia* in a series of lectures on the study of *theologia*, delivered to his students in 1617 and published three years later as a separate booklet: *Methodus studii theologici* (1620). *Theologia* is superior to all other disciplines, he argues, because it 'sets before itself the immediate salvation of the soul'⁵⁸ and he evaluates the usefulness of *theologia* by godliness and its necessity 'by our salvation' (*a salute nostra*) (*Methodus*, preface, pp. 6–7, emphasis added). Nine out of the ten reasons that Gerhard presents exhorting the theologian toward a more sincere pursuit of *pietas* focus principally on the personal faith life of the theologian (part 1, ch. 2, pp. 18–23). So clear are these assertions of *auto-praxis* that one may perceive a shift in Gerhard's orientation of

56 The full name is revealing: *Aphorismi sacri praecipua theologiae practicae complectentes* (*Sacred Aphorisms Embracing Particular Topics of Practical Theology*). Some of the topics include 'Self-denial,' 'Love of God,' 'Love of the World,' 'Love of Self,' 'Greed,' 'Baptism,' 'Good Works,' 'Conception of Christ,' 'Imitation of Christ,' 'Chastity,' 'Lord's Supper,' etc. Topics of Christian life are interspersed among more doctrinal topics, but even the latter are applied directly to the listening student. Even a quick glance at the aphorisms reveals the stark difference between what constitutes 'practical theology' (professional paradigm) today and Gerhard's own concept of '*theologia practica*.'

57 *Praxis a. [acroamatic?] theologiae est exercitium fidei, & vitae Christianae seu syncerae pietatis*. Note thesis 3: 'Therefore, theological study that consists in bare theory and proceeds entirely in the art of disputation is to be disapproved' (*Improbandum igitur studium Theologicum est, quod in nuda Theoria versatur & in artem disputatricem prorsus abit*). This disputation had been previously published as a separate booklet in 1597 under the title: *De antiqua philosophia* (see Kang 2001:48–49).

58 *Theologia animae salutem immediate sibi habet propositam, ad quem scopum omnia sua axiomata ac praecepta dirigit ...* (emphasis added).

theologia between the writing of the *Methodus* (1617) and that of the *Prooemium* (1625), which contains clear statements of *allo-praxis* (see below). Granted, the *Methodus* is concerned with the theologian coming to and growing in faith, hence the adoption of Luther's three-fold theological method aimed at the salvation and spiritual maturation of the theologian (part 1, intro, pp. 13–14). Nonetheless, a closer look reveals again a certain synthesis of both *auto* and *allo* elements even in the *Methodus*. For example, the sole goal of the theologian is 'the glory of God alone, the edification of the church, and the salvation of himself and his neighbor [*suam & proximi salutem*] ...' (part 1, ch. 1, p. 15). The sincere pursuit of *pietas* is a necessary requisite for theological study because deeds speak louder than words to those who will be watching and learning (part 1, ch. 2, pp. 21–23). In addition, the advice on preaching (part 3, sect. 4, ch. 2) and theological debates (part 3, sect. 2, ch. 2–3) reveal a marked concern that one's engagement in *theologia* be also oriented toward the parishioner. Gerhard's conceptualization of *theologia* as seen in the *Methodus* will be investigated extensively in chapter six.

A few years later in the *Prooemium* Gerhard sums up the subject (*circa quod*) of *theologia* as man and how he must be formed (*informandus*) and led (*perducendus*) to salvation. The *allo*-oriented medical analogy, reminiscent of previous language used in the *Meditationes* and the 'Epistle to Balthasar,' immediately follows, along with the corresponding suggested analytic theological method (§ 28). The analytic method had been traditionally, though not solely, identified with *allo-praxis*, designed to systematically lead hearers to salvation through a presentation of dogmatic commonplaces beginning with the end goal (God and salvation), proceeding to the subject in whom the goal is to be accomplished (humans as sinful beings), and then ending with the means by which it is accomplished (means of salvation such as election, justification, and means of grace). That *allo*-orientation in the *Prooemium* is most clearly demonstrated in Gerhard's final definition of *theologia*, the last word of which is tellingly *perducantur* (§ 31).

However, a closer look reveals once again that Gerhard's *theologia* is not so easily categorized. It should be noted, first of all, that in his own presentation of the theological *Loci* Gerhard never adopted the analytic method that usually accompanied a *perducere* oriented *theologia*, despite the fact that his mentor Balthasar Mentzer (1565–1627) opted for the new method when he published his *Synopsis theologiae analytico ordine comprehensa* in the same year that Gerhard's first *Loci theologici* went to press (1610).⁵⁹ Additionally, among the references Gerhard calls upon to support his concept of *theologia practica* (§ 12), all seem focused on the personal *praxis* of the theologian or, at least, lack any direct reference to *allo-praxis*. In fact, one clearly sees the dual nature of Gerhard's *theologia* in his explanation of how *theologia* is *practica*: 'Everything that theology treats looks toward

59 That Gerhard served as a bridge between two eras explains to a certain extent his reluctance to use the analytic method. Hägglund (1951:57–58) and Wallmann (1961:53–57) offer further explanations of other underlying reasons for this notable lacuna.

action *if not immediately and directly, then mediately and indirectly*' (§ 12, emphasis added; cf. the 'intermediate' end of *theologia*, § 26).⁶⁰ *Theologia* is oriented toward *praxis*, done directly by the theologian or indirectly by those to whom he ministers. Finally, the Jena professor's final definition of *theologia* contains a component of *auto-praxis* that is foundational to the following focus on *allo-praxis* (see discussion of definition below in ch. 5).⁶¹

Whereas many of his contemporaries had already adopted an *allo*-oriented definition of *theologia*, Gerhard resists because of some underlying reasons. To help discern these, it will prove helpful to take a look at the definition of *theologia* suggested by Gerhard's good friend and comrade, Balthasar Meisner, and his rationale for its distinct *allo-praxis*: 'Theology is a God-given *practical habitus* existing in the mind of the theologian, and guiding him so that he may lead [*perducatur*] fallen people through true religion to eternal blessedness' (as cited in Nieten 2006:192, fn. 108).⁶² His justification for it is as follows:

Therefore, I cannot approve the definition of Keckermann who writes that 'theology is a prudent religion of coming [*pervenire*] to salvation': For I will say nothing of the kind ... because from that it follows that theology is primarily a *habitus* of those hearing [i.e., students] and those to be saved, but not of teachers. If this is the case, no one can come to salvation unless he is a theologian, or is equipped with the *habitus* of theology, which is absurd. Therefore theology is not the doctrine of coming [*pervenire*], which is for students; but much more of leading [*perducere*] or promoting to salvation, which is for teachers. (*Philosophia sobria III*, 1623, p. 192)⁶³

A comparison with Gerhard reveals some important differences. First, if the *habitus* of *theologia* leads to salvation, then essentially all Christians who are saved are also theologians. We will take up this important point later in our analysis of Ger-

60 ... ac proinde omnia, quae in theologia traduntur, ad *πρᾶξιν* spectent, si non immediate et directe, tamen mediate et indirecte See also § 26: 'Therefore, whatever does not lead or draw one to this goal [forming people for or actually attaining eternal salvation] either directly or at least indirectly, either immediately or mediately, that does not pertain to theological knowledge' (*Quaecunque ergo ad hunc finem non ducunt nec conducunt, sive directe, sive saltem indirecte, sive immediate sive mediate, ea non pertinent ad theologicam γνῶσιν*).

61 It seems to me that the *allo-praxis* orientation of the last two parts of Gerhard's definition of *theologia* has been somewhat exaggerated by scholars such as Scharlemann (1964:28) and Steiger (2008:704–705) at the expense of the more foundational *auto*-focus of the first part. Appold (1998:50) shares this sentiment.

62 *Theologia est habitus θεόδοτος πρακτικός in mente Theologi existens, eumque dirigens, ut homines lapsos per veram religionem perducatur ad aeternam beatitudinem.*

63 *Non ergo possumus adprobare definitionem Keckermanni, scribentis: Theologiam esse prudentiam religiosam perveniendi ad salutem: Ut enim de genere nihil dicam ..., quoniam exinde sequeretur, Theologiam primo esse habitum auditorium & salvandorum, non autem doctorum, & neminem pervenire posse ad salutem, nisi qui sit Theologus, vel habitu Theologiae instructus, quod absurdum. Est ergo doctrina non perveniendi, quod auditorium: sed potius perducendi aut promovendi ad salutem, quod doctorum.*

hard's definition of *theologia* (see chapter 5). Suffice it to say for now that this poses no problem for Gerhard because of the broad range of meanings he attributes to the word *theologia*. At its core, *theologia* is intertwined with faith and, for this reason, requires a theologian to adopt the life of faith (*vita passiva*) advocated by Luther: *Oratio*, *meditatio*, and *tentatio* (cf. Bayer 2007:22; see below, ch. 6, for discussion of Gerhard's use of Luther's *Trias* in the *Methodus*). Secondly, if theological *praxis* is thought of as a '*habitus* of those to be saved' (*habitus ... salvandorum*), then one runs precariously close to reducing *theologia* to a synergistic endeavor to attain salvation (cf. Nieden 2006:191). In distancing *theologia* from the theologian's faith and applying it to the faith of others, Meisner allays this danger. Gerhard faces the same difficulty, but relies on his concept of θεόσδοτος (see previous chapter) to resolve the conundrum. Finally, Meisner's definition is void of any reference to '*affectus*' or '*good works*,' while one could argue that such references in Gerhard's definition are its very foundation (cf. *Prooemium*, § 31; see ch. 5). The fact that Gerhard's concept of *practica* embodies εὐσέβεια, as opposed to vocational duties, allows (and even requires!) his *theologia* to be oriented first and foremost to *auto-praxis*.

There are also historical contextual reasons for which Gerhard resists embracing a purely *allo*-oriented conceptualization of *theologia*. The Jena professor, formerly pastor, superintendent, and then general superintendent, seems to have maintained an affinity for the parish pastor and his concern that theology not be reduced to mere academics. In fact, Gerhard appears cautiously sympathetic to the complaints of Andreas Cramer (and his Magdeburg supporters) who viewed *theologia* as '*faith-praxis*' over and against mere academic, university theology, as represented by Evenius and Kotzebue.⁶⁴ The latter tended to increasingly reduce *theologia* to an '*external skill*' of guiding parishioners to faith (*allo-praxis*), while neglecting the crucial and personal movement of the theologian's own heart (*auto-praxis*) (Friedrich 2004:307–308; cf. also parallels with Hoffman's earlier concerns, p. 268, fn. 124). A *theologia* only concerned with the '*other*' concedes the possibility of a *theologia non renatorum*. In fact, this was a fundamental criticism of the theological *habitus*. As reiterated below, not only did it run the risk of a synergistic reliance on natural human ability, it also risked transforming *theologia* into a scientific, institutionalized, and professionalized discipline, much like other university disciplines, that prepared one to be a skilled practitioner in a certain field,

64 A direct historical connection between Gerhard and Cramer has yet to be established, though the parallels between some of Cramer's concerns and Gerhard's views are striking. Incidentally, Friedrich (2004:314–315) does underscore such a connection between Cramer and Philip Jakob Spener of the following generation, who re-published and provided forwards for several of Cramer's writings toward the end of the seventeenth century. It should be pointed out in light of this that I am unaware of any occasion where Gerhard clearly endorses Cramer's writings, nor are their theological views in full alignment, despite their common concerns about an academic *theologia* devoid of *faith-praxis*. As mentioned above, one must avoid an ahistorical construal of Gerhard that would align him unreservedly among the pietists of a later generation.

but not necessarily with the accompanying change or effect in the affections of the heart. This is unthinkable for Gerhard. As a former pastor and now university professor, Gerhard attempts to integrate the two. Hesitatingly and with important qualifications (cf. his reluctance to embrace the nomenclature of *habitus practicus*), he accepts *theologia* as a *habitus*, but forcefully insists on its faith-praxis dimension. In retrospect, as mentioned earlier, Gerhard's carefully qualified use of *habitus* is evidence of his transitional role as a bridge between eras (see above, intro.) and his proclivity for integrating the old with the new, heeding the concerns of his theological forebears, while responding to newly emerging trends in the field of theological thought.

His synthesis of the sixteenth century (*auto-praxis*) and seventeenth century (*allo-praxis*) understandings of *practica* in his concept of *theologia* is to be expected. Also expected for such an astute scholar is the fact that this synthesis is no mere haphazard conglomeration. The intentional relation will be explored more fully below (see chapter 5). At this point, it suffices to say that he views the *auto-praxis* as foundational and primary to the secondary and consequent *allo-praxis*. The latter without the former is inconceivable. The professional must proceed from the personal. The Word as principle of *theologia* cannot be separated from the Word as means of grace. It simultaneously illumines the intellect toward understanding and the affections of the heart toward trust and good works (*Prooemium*, § 31). *Theologia* is, after all, a *doctrina fidei* (*Prooemium*, § 8), encompassing obedience under the first table of the Law (*auto-praxis*), which, in turn, provides the impetus for service to neighbor in the second table of the Law (*allo-praxis*) (Gerhard [1622] 2013a:9–11, 15–16; cf. *Loci* 17, §§ 20, 25).

4. The Efficacy of the Word and *Theologia* as *Practica*

Earlier, it was pointed out that Gerhard's concept of *practica* differs significantly from that of Luther's. While this is undoubtedly true, it ought to be emphasized that Gerhard and Luther are not as far apart in their thinking as one might at first suppose. For Gerhard, *practica*, as a specialized term, anticipates the end (*finis*) of *theologia* toward which theological knowledge is oriented.⁶⁵ In the Aristotelian schema, this end must be embodied by the knower in whose mind that knowledge now resides. For Luther, *practica* characterizes *theologia* as a whole and how theological knowledge comes about. In other words, whereas Gerhard's concept of *practica* anticipates the end (*finis*) of *theologia*, Luther's essentially characterizes its object (*subjectum circa quod*). It is for this reason that, in examining Gerhard's object of *theologia*, one finds that he affirms and directly references Luther that 'we must look for God not in the category of substance but of relation' and that 'the

65 Recall the first sentence of § 12 of the *Prooemium*: '... The ultimate end of theology is not bare knowledge ..., but action'

proper subject of theology is man, guilty of sin and lost, and God, who justifies and saves sinful man' (*Prooemium*, § 28). As mentioned earlier, this was an innovative idea when Luther first broached it in the sixteenth century and Gerhard continues in the same line of thought some one hundred years later. All of *theologia* is essentially preoccupied (*occupatur*) with an act of God in relation to humankind and, consequently, with 'man as he is to be led to eternal blessedness' (*Prooemium*, § 28).⁶⁶ It is for this reason, he says, taking it a step further than Luther, that all of theology ought to be arranged around this same schema (i.e., the analytic method).⁶⁷ Gerhard is also in agreement with Luther regarding the means by which true *theologia* is acquired: *oratio*, *meditatio*, and *tentatio* (§ 17). Although their concepts of *practica* differ significantly, the receptive nature of *theologia* (i.e., *vita passiva*, though Gerhard does not use this terminology) is particularly underscored by Gerhard in his use of the term θεόσδοτος (see chapter 3).⁶⁸ It becomes important, therefore, to conclude this chapter with a brief survey of Gerhard's concept of *practica* as it relates to *theologia*'s God-giveness.

In the years prior to the Reformation, much of popular Christian thought and practice centered on the use of rituals as the essential way of gaining access to God and grace became, in many ways, a quantifiable commodity that could be measured and distributed based on the proper performance of those rituals, like treasures from a treasury. Luther's theological thinking developed in a way which contrasted sharply with this effort to seek God in the categories of substance and quantity. For him, the Christian God is a personal God who can only truly be known as he seeks to interact with human beings in the setting of a relationship that is characterized by conversation as initiated by God in and through his Word (Kolb & Arand 2008:137–140). This coincided well with Melancthon's humanist interests in the original sources of Scripture and his emphasis on the art of rhetoric (Kolb 2012:30) and is manifest in the limited scope and focus of his original *Loci communes*. Together, then, both reformers contributed to changing the orientation of *theologia*.

Theologia became centered on the Word of God, especially in and through Holy Scripture, as the means by which that conversation takes place – not just the means by which God spoke to human beings, but the means by which he continues

66 Gerhard had already employed the same idea in his *Methodus* eight years earlier: '... [*Theologia*] has set before itself as its object Man, insofar as he is to be saved ...' (... [*Theologia*] *hominem, quatenus salvandum, objecti loco sibi habet propositum* ...) (preface, p. 6).

67 See ch. 1. Although suggesting the analytic method in this context, Gerhard had already employed the synthetic method throughout his *Loci*.

68 For Luther's part, one should also not forget his tremendous concern for the carrying out of good works as they are embodied in the life of piety or godliness, that is, as they flow from faith: '... When I exalt faith and reject such works done without faith they accuse me of forbidding good works. The fact of the matter is that I want very much to teach the real good works which spring from faith' (LW 44:24; *Treatise on Good Works*). Cf. Luther's treatments of the 'Ten Commandments' in the *Small* and *Large Catechism*, as well as the 'Table of Duties' (Kolb & Wengert 2000:351–354, 365–371, 386–431).

to speak to them. The difference is significant. The former concedes the possibility of Scripture as principle or source of truth, the latter allows it to also be a means of grace by which those truths become ‘for you’ (LW 34:110; *Theses concerning Faith and Law*; cf. Kolb 2009:46).⁶⁹ Luther expresses similar comments regarding the Lord’s Supper (*Large Catechism*, part 5; Kolb & Wengert 2000:470). And, in fact, Luther challenged contemporary thought by depicting the written Word and the preaching derived from it as ‘means of grace,’ a concept normally applied solely to the sacraments (Kolb 2009:131–135; cf. Steinmetz 1999:164–165). He was especially able to do so because he began to view God’s Word from the perspective of the first chapter of Genesis – as a creative instrument.⁷⁰ It does more than merely speak about God’s will. It accomplishes or performs that very will of God, namely, the creation of the world or, when applied to the *ordo salutis*, the faith and salvation of its readers and hearers (Kolb & Arand 2008:135–143). It is a deed-word, similar to what modern linguists have dubbed ‘performance speech.’ This fundamentally different way of looking at God’s Word was occasioned by a parallel shift in Luther’s underlying hermeneutic. In what Oswald Bayer (1971:140–241; cf. Kolb 2009:42–71) has described as the ‘reformational turn’ in his hermeneutic, Luther began to see that the *res signata* (meaning and intention) was not ‘behind’ the *signum* (material word), but rather in that very *signum*, from which it cannot be separated. God can and chooses to use the created things of this world (e.g., human language) to not just teach about his will, but to execute that very will.

Of course, this internal epistemological struggle within Luther calls to mind the controversy a century later between Rahtmann and the orthodox theologians, who defended Luther’s discovery so long before. Gerhard voices their opinion in no uncertain terms that, although they ought to be distinguished, the *signum* and the *res signata* must not be separated (see above, ch. 3). This is the case for Scripture, as it is for all communication. In fact, like his theological forebears, he too underscores the relational aspect of *theologia*. He does so by depicting Scripture as a letter ‘from the Almighty to his creatures, in which the words of God echo and God’s heart is heard’ (*Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 13; [1628] 1671:207; cf. *Aphorismi sacri*, 1616, p. 369). God cares for human beings by entering into conversa-

69 The passage reads: ‘Acquired faith, or the infused faith of the sophists, says of Christ, “I believe that the Son of God suffered and arose again,” and here it stops ... But true faith says, “I certainly believe that the Son of God suffered and arose, but he did this for me, for my sins, of that I am certain.”’

70 ‘For God calls into existence the things which do not exist (Rom. 4:17). He does not speak grammatical words; He speaks true and existent realities. Accordingly, that which among us has the sound of a word is a reality with God. Thus sun, moon, heaven, earth, Peter, Paul, I, you, etc. – we are all words of God ...’ (LW 1:21–22; *Lectures on Genesis*, Chapter 1–5). Steinmetz (1999:167–170) points out that Luther differentiated between a *Heissel-Wort* and a *Thettel-Wort*. The former served as a label for something already in existence. The latter describes speech that brings into existence or causes to happen that which it says. The first chapters of Genesis contain examples of God’s *Thettel-Wort*. Similarly, this same *Thettel-Wort* re-creates the readers of Scripture and the hearers of sermons derived from Scripture.

tion (*Gespräch*) with them, as Steiger (1997:45–52) has demonstrated through his analysis of Gerhard's *Zwei kleine Trostreiche Tractätlein*. Scripture is there once again portrayed as an epistle from God addressed to us and delivered by his postmen, the prophets and the apostles (Steiger 1997:42). Such a metaphor serves to highlight the relational character of a personal God and underscores the limits of a speculative *theologia* and Gerhard's criticism of it. Whereas one deepens speculative theological knowledge through contemplation, Gerhard's concept of *theologia* places great emphasis on the *dialectic* or *auditory* nature of *theologia* – a *theologia* received and strengthened through the *hearing* of God's Word (Scharlemann 1964a:23–24; 1964b:22–25).⁷¹ One calls to mind, for example, the dialogue between the *tentatus* (tempted) and the *consolator* (comforter) in Gerhard's *Enchiridion consolatorium morti ac tentationibus in agone mortis opponendum* (1611b).⁷² A surprising depth of 'theological knowledge' is conveyed in these meditations, but that knowledge is communicated in a way that renders it clearly 'for you.' In this regard, one could justifiably argue that Gerhard's concept of *theologia* incorporates a liturgical element, in which the divine-human conversation takes place (cf. Steiger 1997:48–49).

One may initially be inclined to relegate such pastoral writings of Gerhard to the periphery of his concept of *theologia*, that is, to the realm of application, separate from *theologia*. And, indeed, Gerhard does usually conclude his *Loci* with the 'practical uses' or applications (e.g., consolation, exhortation, rebuking, warning) of that particular doctrine. Nonetheless, as mentioned earlier, the modern dichotomy (and separation) between theory and practice/application does not hold sway in Gerhard's concept of *theologia*. He sees them as fully integrated. In fact, *theologia* is not merely the work of university academicians who produce the theoretical knowledge to be later applied. On the contrary, *theologia* is engaged in by 'all the faithful, both learned and unlearned' (*Prooemium*, § 4). Albeit an important and indispensable theological expression, the *Loci* are not the only legitimate expression of *theologia* and, it would seem, that other expressions (e.g., *Aphorismi sacri*,

71 Scharlemann (1964a:passim, 1964b:22–37) contributes to the discussion of Gerhard's concept of *theologia* by helpfully distinguishing between *theoretic* (emphasized by Aquinas) and *acoustic* (emphasized by Gerhard) theology. This highlights in many ways Gerhard's contention that *theologia* is integrally related to faith, which comes from hearing the Word of God, and serves to remind the researcher that we are not dealing here with the modern theory-practice dichotomy. Notwithstanding this contribution, his thoughts with regard to the contrast between the two aspects of Gerhard's dual definition of *theologia* and the *allo-praxis* of the acoustic aspect seem, to me, to be over-emphasized. Scharlemann has also been criticized for importing foreign concepts of theology into Gerhard's thought. See especially John Warwick Montgomery (1978:148, fn. 34, see also pp. 134–135) who criticizes Scharlemann's attempt 'to relate Gerhard to Kant's critical philosophy, modern German existentialism, and Bultmannian theology by finding in him a dualistic separation between an alleged finite realm of formal, conceptual, objective knowledge and the realm of faith where only the "dialectical word" and "acoustic knowledge" hold sway.'

72 *Handbook of Consolations for the Fears and Trials That Oppress Us in the Struggle with Death* ([1611] 2009).

Meditationes sacrae) were deemed better suited for the cultivation of *pietas*. This in no way undermines Gerhard's high regard for the importance of a systematic presentation of doctrine, but simply underscores the specific goals of the different theological genres produced by Gerhard. The *Loci* were intended to defend the faith as clearly indicated by their full title. The *Aphorismi sacri* were expressly meant to cultivate piety, as were the *Meditationes sacrae*. In Gerhard's mind they all comprise *theologia*, provided that they stem from Scripture as the instrumental cause, envision their end as the glorification of God and the salvation of people, and focus their subject matter on humans, lost and sinful, and on God, who saves. It would seem justifiable then and especially helpful to reflect on Gerhard's concept of *theologia* as it manifests itself in a variety of expressions.

A survey of those expressions reveals Gerhard's underlying concern that faith permeate any and all theological endeavors at a fundamental level. After all, Scripture does not intend to only present knowledge, but it intends to actually console the reader and create faith in that person who reads it as a 'letter' addressed to him or her by God. It is, therefore, not a dead letter or mere signpost as Rahtmann contended, but its meaning and intention (*res signata*), bound up with the words (*signum*), enter the mind of the reader and illumine his or her intellect so that he or she understands the essence and will of God. That is what Gerhard refers to as the first office or role (*officium*) of Holy Scripture. It has an 'instructing' (μαθήσεως) role, whereby one gains knowledge that is necessary for salvation. This is Scripture's 'didactic' (*didacticum*) office and purpose (*Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 35; [1628] 1671:212–213). One might surmise that, in this regard, Scripture is similar to other human writings. And, indeed, as Gerhard and others were quick to point out, even a casual comparison between Scripture and human writings disallows Rahtmann's erroneous idea that the *res signata* could be separated from the *signum*. Notwithstanding, it is important to keep in mind that, because it is divine and because of human sinfulness, that scriptural knowledge requires divine illumination, a requirement not found in normal human communication (see ch. 3 above).

In any case, the didactic office does not exhaust the purpose of Scripture. Scripture also has what Gerhard calls a 'practical' (*practicum*) office or purpose that he describes as 'creative' or 'regenerative' (γενέσεως) (*Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 35; [1628] 1671:212–213). This *practical* office of Scripture corresponds to the *practical* end goal of a *theologia* that is mostly *practica*. After all, according to the Jena professor, 'the end of *theologia* and all of Christianity is spiritual and heavenly regeneration [παλιγγενεσία]' (*Aphorismi sacri*, 1616, *Bona opera*; p. 53).⁷³ Just as God has chosen to mysteriously attach divine meaning and intention to the external words of Scripture, by divine ordinance he has also given to that meaning and intention a 'divine power of life and illumination' (*Göttliche Lebens- und Erleuchtungs-Krafft*), that is, a power of conversion (*Von der Natur*,

73 *Finis theologiae et totius christianismi, est spiritualis et coelestis παλιγγενεσία.*

quest. 4, § 1; Gerhard [1628] 1671:221). In this regard, Gerhard can reference Luther's comments on Psalm 2 about the creative power of God's Word and directly apply that same power to the realm of grace (*regno gratiae*) where God's Word goes forth and accomplishes what it intends, that is, conversion and salvation (quest. 4, § 34; [1628] 1671:238; cf. *Aphorismi succincti et selecti*, 1611a, part 1, aph. 17).⁷⁴ It is a *signum efficax* or a 'linguistic event' such that the words of Scripture are *signa exhibitiva*, as the Leipzig theological delegation, including Gerhard, concluded in 1629 (Steiger 1998:355–356; 2008:713).⁷⁵ This was sacramental language. Just as the outer signs of the sacrament are not dead signs, neither are the outer words of Scripture (cf. *Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 23; quest. 4, § 35; [1628] 1671:210, 241). They are inseparably united to God's Word and efficacious to carry out his will.

It should be pointed out here that Gerhard distinguished between the *actus primus* and the *actus secundus* of the Word in order to allay Rahtmann's concern about the apparent ineffectiveness of the Word with regard to those who resist its effect. Whereas the *actus primus*, that is, the efficacy or inner power of the Word to illumine and to convert, is always present in the Word in and with itself even before its use, the *actus secundus*, that is, the actual salvific effect in the hearing person, does not always occur. Although the presence of the latter necessitates the former, the opposite is not true.

God desires to accomplish his salvific will through Law and Gospel. In fact, for Gerhard it seems that the connection between bare knowledge (*nuda γνώσις*; *Prooemium*, § 12) and salvation (and good works) is that of Law and Gospel, the framework within which the divine-human conversation takes place. Scripture cannot be properly interpreted, nor proper knowledge acquired, apart from that framework (cf. Håggglund 1951:246). God's Word, especially written, but also preached, is unlike any other human writing or speech:

In Holy Scripture, it is no man, but the highest almighty eternal majesty of God himself, who speaks and this does not simply pass by in vain like the rushing wind, but it touches and affects the heart, penetrates, cuts and burns marrow and bone, be it in wrath to punish and kill or be it in mercy to comfort and bring to life This is why the wrath-talk [*Zorn-Rede*] and trust-word [*trauwort*] of God's majesty are called a burning fire, a two-edged sword, a hammer that smashes rocks into pieces,

74 That the efficacy of God's word formed a central part of Gerhard's theological thinking is evident from the systematic arrangement of his *Loci* as laid out in the *Aphorismi succincti et selecti* (1611a). Of the two parts of this arrangement (i.e., essence and will of God) the second focuses on God's decree as the manifestation of that will. What God decrees inevitably happens. It is striking how often Gerhard references *decretum* or *verbum* throughout the aphorisms.

75 Steiger (1998:345) presents a compelling case that Gerhard's *Von der Natur* greatly influenced the report of the Leipzig theological convention and was, in fact, originally commissioned by Elector of Saxony, Johann Georg I, to serve as the foundational document discussed at that meeting.

etc. Whereas the words of grace and comfort are called power and word of life, light, peace, joy, etc. (*Von der Natur*, quest. 4, § 27; Gerhard [1628] 1671:231)⁷⁶

God's word as revealed in Holy Scripture is a living and powerful word, both in regard to the Law, by which it 'works the living experience of God's wrath,' and in regard to the Gospel, by which it is the 'power of God that saves' (quest. 4, § 34; [1628] 1671:237; cf. *Loci* 17, § 14). Contrition results from the Law and faith is effected by the Gospel. Rejected is the contention that the Holy Spirit must work the Law prior to and outside of the Word. Both the Law and Gospel are part and parcel of the Word (quest. 5, § 18; [1628] 1671:259).

What is more, the power of God's Word, working through Law and Gospel, is not limited to effecting conversion, but flows onward and outward into good works and the pious life. For Gerhard (and the other orthodox theologians), Scripture is the very Word of God and there is an inseparable unity between the Word and the Holy Spirit (*contra* Rahtmann; cf. *Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 25; [1628] 1671:210). Therefore, the efficacy attributed to the Holy Spirit by nature, must also be attributed to Scripture by extension. As the Word of God in Scripture enters a person's mind and heart, it has the power to propel toward good behavior. The fruit of the Spirit can then be depicted as fruit of the Word (see Hägglund 1951:246, 252). This idea is most clearly brought out by Gerhard's use of the 'seed' analogy to describe the Word. The Word as the instrumental cause of good works is like a seed in which the Spirit of life is fully present. As such a 'spiritual and incorruptible seed,' it contains the very life that, when planted into the heart of a person, sprouts and grows 'to do every kind of good work' (*Loci* 17, § 14). It has an 'internal efficacious power to make the hearts of men productive for good works in a spiritual way' (*Von der Natur*, quest 5, § 18; [1628] 1671:260; cf. quest. 4, § 31; [1628] 1671:235).⁷⁷ To use another analogy, the light of the Word gives rise to the light of faith and both are required for works to be truly good (*Loci* 17, § 18). God's Word does not just show us what good works are and teach us how they are to be done, but it also 'urges and compels us in the direction of good works' (*Loci* 17, § 14). Indeed the mind and will are 'efficaciously changed' by the Holy Spirit working in and through the Word and, therefore, cooperate (*cooperatur*) with the Holy Spirit in carrying out good works; nevertheless, that 'synergy in the good works of the reborn in no way excludes, but

76 ... in der h. Schrift kein Mensch / sondern die Allerhöchste / Allmächtige / ewige Majestät Gottes selber redet / denn das führet ja nicht vergebens / wie ein rauschender Wind fürüber / sondern rühret und trifft das herz / durchdringet / durchschneidet undt durchbrennen Beine und Marck / es sey im Zorn zur Straffe und Tode / oder aus Gnaden zum Trost und Leben Derowegen denn der Göttlichen Majestät Zorn-Rede und Träuwort in der Schrift genennet werden ein verzehrendes Feuer / ein zweyschneidig Schwert / ein hammer / der die felsen zerschmettert etc. Dagegen aber die Gnaden-Sprüche und Tröstungen Kraft und Wort des Lebens / Liechtens / Friedens / Freude etc. (Gerhard cites from a 'Confession of Faith' of the Estates of Thuringia).

77 Wo hat auch der geistliche Samme des Göttlichen Worts eine innerliche wirkende Krafft die Herzen der Menschen geistlicher Weise zu guten Wercken fruchtbar zu machen.

requires the perpetual help of the Holy Spirit' (*Loci* 17, § 15).⁷⁸ Christian piety and good works are in no way earned or meritorious. As Gerhard emphasizes in the first volume of *Schola pietatis*, they are gifts from God, for 'such a rich bestowal of godliness ... takes place by sheer grace and not by our earning it by works' ([1622] 2013:24). And again, 'good works come from God to us, not from us to God, so that we somehow deserve them' (*Aphorismi sacri*, 1616, *Bona opera*; p. 53).⁷⁹

5. Conclusion

For Gerhard the practical office of Scripture corresponds to the practical end (*pietas*) of a *theologia* that is mostly *practica*. Bare knowledge is not enough. The theologian must also be created anew, re-born, made faithful, and, consequently, live the pious life that God intended. Of course, this may lead one to inadvertently dichotomize the two offices of Scripture and pit teaching against regeneration, knowledge against conversion, illumination for interpretation against illumination for conversion, theory against *praxis*, and intellect against will (and affections). Gerhard refrains from doing this. In fact, he appears very concerned to avoid such a misleading dichotomy and posits both intellect and will as essential in conversion and Christian life and, hence, in the theological enterprise. As already mentioned earlier, God's Word is simultaneously a 'light illuminating the intellect, a fire enflaming the affections [*affectus*]' (*Aphorismi sacri*, 1616, *Verbum Dei*; p. 362). It is simultaneously principle of *theologia* and means of grace. In fact, for Gerhard, the efficacy of the Word applies both to interpretation of Scripture and salvation because there is an inseparable unity between the Word and the Spirit in both regards (Hägglund 1951:245–246, 217). An interpretation *non renatorum* is an illegitimate interpretation. Just as the Spirit in and through the Word enlightens toward understanding, the same Spirit in the same manner enlightens toward faith and the pious life. Scripture is the very Word of God and, far from a mere signpost or dead letter that simply points to or teaches about something, that Word accomplishes what it teaches. In this way, *theologia* is *practica* because it is thoroughly and utterly scriptural and Scripture is God's powerful and efficacious Word. In other words, *theologia* is *practica* precisely because it is θεόδοτος.

In retrospect, Gerhard does take up the Aristotelian idea of *habitus* to define *theologia* and in so doing underscores the intellectual aspect of *theologia* setting himself apart from Cramer and his supporters in Magdeburg. At the same time, his theological *habitus* is markedly different than that proposed by Evenius and Kotzebue (and Calixt). It is even distinct from that of Meisner. His understanding of these two qualifiers – θεόδοτος and *practica* – has not only allowed Gerhard to

⁷⁸ *Interim tamen synergia illa renatorum in operibus bonis nequaquam excludit, sed requirit perpetuum Spiritus sancti adiutorium* This was a hand-written note later added by Gerhard in the margins.

⁷⁹ *Bona opera veniunt a Deo in nos, non a nobis in Deum, ut illis quicquam mereamur.*

offset the potential problems of a theological *habitus*, but has also rendered his concept of *theologia* somewhat unique. That uniqueness and the precise manner in which Gerhard folds both of these ideas into his final summative definition of *theologia* are the subject of the next chapter.

V Defining *Theologia*

1. Introduction

We have thus far had ample opportunity to rather closely examine Johann Gerhard's concept of *theologia* according to those three essential terms: *Habitus*, θεόσδοτος, and *practica*. The preceding analysis of the Jena professor's use of these terms in their historical, contemporary, and literary contexts now affords us the opportunity to take a look at his final definition of *theologia* as he crafted it in the closing paragraph of the *Prooemium* in 1625.

Following the commonly accepted scholastic outline,¹ that final definition attempts to draw together into one succinct statement all of the strands of his previous investigation regarding the concept of *theologia*, especially within the *Prooemium*, but also found in his other writings.² As such, although quite brief, it proves to be an exceedingly important statement, carefully formulated to underscore those aspects which Gerhard thinks are essential for a true and full understanding of the nature of theology. It will prove beneficial for us to lay out here in full the definition in Latin:

*Theologia (systematice et abstractivè considerata) est doctrina ex verbo Dei extracta, qua homines in fide vera et vita pia erudiuntur ad vitam aeternam. Theologia (habitualiter et concretivè considerata) est habitus θεόσδοτος per verbum a Spiritu sancto homini collatus, quo non solum in divinarum mysteriorum cognitione per mentis illuminationem instruitur, ut quae intelligit in affectum cordis et executionem operis salutariter traducat, sed etiam aptus et expeditus redditur de divinis illis mysteriis, ac via salutis alios informandi, ac coelestem veritatem a corruptelis contradicentium vindicandi, ut homines fide vera et bonis operibus rutilantes ad regnum coelorum perducantur. (Prooemium, § 31)*³

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- 1 See, e.g., the final paragraph of his *locus* on Holy Scripture (*Exegesis* 1, § 539) where Gerhard again offers a concluding, summative definition of Holy Scripture. This is his customary practice for nearly all of his *Loci*.
 - 2 Hence, Gerhard mentions the 'illumination of the mind' (*per mentis illuminationem*) in his final definition. While he has made only passing reference to this in the *Prooemium* (e.g., § 17), as seen above, he had already clearly expounded his doctrine of illumination in the *Tractatus*.
 - 3 'Theology (considered systematically and abstractly) is doctrine built up from the the Word of God, by which people are instructed in true faith and pious living for eternal life. Theology (considered habitually and concretely) is a God-given *habitus* conferred on a person by the Holy Spirit through the Word. By this *habitus* he is not only instructed in the knowledge of divine mysteries through the illumination of the mind, so that in a salutary way he transfers what he understands into the affection of the heart and the carrying out of [good] works, but concerning those divine mysteries he is also rendered apt and ready to both inform others about the way of salvation and free the heavenly truth from the corruptions of adversaries, so that people might be led to the kingdom

This chapter, then, is a deep analysis of this definition. In order to adhere all the more carefully to the terms and concepts of Gerhard himself, it seems that the best way forward is to simply follow the wording of this definition; hence, we will work our way progressively through it, focusing on those parts that are of particular importance for our study here and offering some summative and concluding remarks. In the final chapter we will attempt to ‘test’ some of the conclusions reached in this chapter by focusing our attention on these same ideas in the *Methodus* as they are ‘implemented’ in his advice on the ‘study’ of *theologia*.

2. Situating Gerhard’s Definition

Although mentioned earlier, it will prove helpful here to more clearly situate the Jena professor’s definition between two ways of understanding *theologia* within Lutheranism.⁴ Both existed during Gerhard’s time, although, due to the philosophical influence of Zabarella (see above, ch. 2), one was waning while the other was waxing. The earlier generally saw it as the equivalent of faith (e.g., Luther), while the later tended to regard it as an academic science or discipline (*scientia* or *Wissenschaft*).⁵ The roots of these divergent views trace back to the rivalry between

of heaven, glowing with true faith and good works’ (my translation). See comments above, ch. 3, fn. 16, regarding the translation of the expression *exsecutionem operis* and below, this ch., fn. 38, for a more nuanced understanding of the result/purpose clauses.

- 4 Walter Sparr (1992:78–82) has similarly remarked that the various attempts of early seventeenth century theologians to resolve the ‘theory-practice’ conundrum and to correlate the Christian, the minister, and the dogmatician (see discussion below regarding Gerhard’s three interrelated ‘meanings’ of *theologia*) have generally fallen into three categories: Those who unite all three and equate theology and piety (e.g., Arndt, Rahtmann), those who see distinct boundaries between them and presume a sharp distinction between theology and piety (e.g., Calixt), and those who take a middle path between these two antitheses, reluctant to directly identify theology with piety, but also refusing to set up a radical distinction between them (see also Nieden 2006:212). Sparr indicates that Gerhard belongs to the middle group, as well as others such as Meisner (though Meisner’s openness, at least theoretically, to a *theologia non renatorum* would seem to indicate a fundamental difference between his and Gerhard’s view of *theologia*). He mentions in passing that the Jena professor does not really address the question of how theology and piety are related. While it may be true that Gerhard, in his relatively short *Prooemium*, is not entirely forthcoming in specifying the relation between *theologia* and piety, our investigation of this question in the context of his other writings will allow us to draw some important conclusions.
- 5 For Luther’s understanding of theology as faith, see Bayer (2007:21–32). For the consequences of that shift on the thinking of Gerhard in comparison to Calov, see Appold (1998:46–66). For its influence on the practice of disputations at Wittenberg, see Appold (2004:64–67). Nieden’s study of the consequences of that shift in the conceptualization of *theologia* and theological study literature is particularly helpful, especially as it pertains to Gerhard (2006:186–194, 213). Friedrich (2004:268–270; 300–310) traces the origins of the clash between these two ways of viewing *theologia* to the Hofmann controversy at the turn of the century and, after that, to the *habitus* controversy involving the Magdeburg pastor, Cramer, who emphasized *theologia* as faith-praxis, and Evenius and Kotzebue, who viewed *theologia* purely as an academic pursuit (see ch. 2 above). In Lutheran circles the potential for such a clash originated with Melancthon’s adoption of the three-fold scholastic definition of faith (Friedrich 2004:298–299).

monastic and scholastic types of theological learning during and even before the Reformation (Bayer 2007:9–13; cf. Schmidt-Biggemann 1996:491–505).⁶ The former tended to happen outside the universities and academies and the latter within. During the first decades of the seventeenth century, theologians such as Cramer and Arndt, Gerhard's pastor and mentor in his early years, would be representative of the former, while Calixt and the professor of philosophy, Cornelius Martini, the latter. Most, of course, ranged somewhere between these two extreme positions. Those who tended toward the former were inclined to emphasize faith-*praxis* (*pietas*) even more so than faith, a tendency which appears somewhat at variance with that of the earlier reformers (Nieden 2003:69). Those who tended toward the latter also saw a close connection between *theologia* and faith, but underscored especially the faith and salvation of the parishioners, rather than the personal faith of the theologian (Sparn 1992:72). Generally speaking, then, the tendency to view *theologia* as an *academic* discipline associated with the university was most often also accompanied by an emphasis on the *professional* practice of the theologian.⁷

This becomes immediately apparent from a quick comparison of later definitions with that of Gerhard, whose own definition is a curious blend of both. The following are from three prominent Lutheran theologians later in the seventeenth century:

[Theology is] an intellectual practical *habitus* drawn from the written word of God about true religion so that by its work sinful people are led through faith to life. (Johann König [1664] 1675, ch. 1, p. 7)⁸

- 6 Schmidt-Biggemann (1996:491–501) refers to three 'types of learning': Aristotelianism (i.e., scholasticism), Ciceronianism (i.e., humanism), and Hermetic Neoplatonism (i.e., monastic theology). All three influenced theological study and clergy education. The first two were institutionalized into the university, while the last was not and was, at times, hostile to the first two.
- 7 Theology had been studied at the university for centuries, but such studies were never a necessary prerequisite for ordination and the ecclesiastical profession. Those seeking positions within the hierarchy of the church were just as likely to pursue higher studies in jurisprudence or canon law than theology. This began to change in the second half of the sixteenth century. Thomas Kaufmann (2003:127–132) has given an overview of this well-documented trend, but also helpfully clarified that this shift toward a more professionalized and educated clergy was much slower than one might at first imagine and at times varied significantly depending on the particular territory and on whether the pastor was to serve in a rural or urban context. For an overview of the 'professionalization' of university education in general, see Müller (1996:326–329), and of theological studies in particular, see Pedersen (1996:474–478). Sparn (1992:73) describes the new *allo*-oriented concept of theology as a 'reflex of a process of professionalization' (cf. also Nieden 2006:241–242). Schorn-Schütte (1996; cf. 2000) has also helpfully identified a 'professionalizing' trend in the emergence and development of early modern clergy as a distinct social group, though not in the modern sense of the term. She also shows the increasing education levels of the clergy, though this was not universal nor did it always entail graduate studies (see also the helpful series of essays in Dixon & Schorn-Schütte 2003).
- 8 [*Theologia est*] *habitus intellectus practicus, e verbo DEI scripto de vera religione haustus, ut ejus opera homo peccator per fidem ad vitam perducatur.*

Theology is a practical *habitus* of knowledge drawn from divine revelation about true religion, by which people after the fall are to be led through faith to eternal salvation. (Abraham Calov 1655, book 1, ch. 1, p. 1)⁹

[Theology is] an intellectual, God-given, practical *habitus* conferred on a person through the word of scripture by the holy spirit about true religion, by which people after the fall are to be led through faith in Christ to eternal life. (Johann Quenstedt 1685, book 1, p. 16).¹⁰

These later definitions were penned at a time after *theologia* had been more firmly established as an academic discipline. The contrast between them and Gerhard's earlier definition sheds light on the subtle, yet significant, differences between the two ways of viewing *theologia*. We will have opportunity to offer further comments on these definitions below. It suffices for now to point out the subtle shift in emphasis on faith and salvation as theology's goal toward which people (not necessarily the theologian) are led (*perducantur*) versus Gerhard's definition in which the personal faith and piety of the theologian serve as its foundational essence.¹¹

Interestingly, *theologia* understood as either 'faith' or as 'discipline' could be legitimately described as a *habitus*. A theological *habitus* of faith would primarily entail a *habitus* of the will (volitional virtue), while a theological *habitus* as an academic discipline would primarily depict it as a *habitus* of the intellect (intellectual virtue). The former was much less common since the reformers and their successors were hesitant to use it in theological contexts. As mentioned earlier, depicting faith as a *habitus* was simply too closely associated with the alleged synergism of the Romanists and also, presumably, the Philippists. It also did not align closely enough with the language Luther used to describe faith. As such, the term *habitus*, when used during Gerhard's time to describe *theologia*, normally portrayed it as an academic discipline within the university or academic context. It was precisely this connotation that gave rise to the *habitus* controversy of the early seventeenth century (see above ch. 2).

Of course, Gerhard does utilize the term in his *Prooemium* (1625), a use which Niden (2006:188) suggests might trace back to his early lectures at the University of Jena (c. 1616). It would make sense that he begins using a specifically academic term shortly after assuming the professorial chair. He does not use it in the *Metho-*

9 *Theologia est habitus practicus cognitionis e revelatione divina haustae de vera religione, qua homo post lapsum per fidem ad salutem aeternam perducendus est.*

10 *[Theologia est] habitus intellectus theosdotos practicus per verbum scripturae a spiritu sancto homini collatus de vera religione, qua homo post lapsum per fidem in Christum ad vitam aeternam perducendus.*

11 Later theologians would also often differentiate between the *habitus theologiae* and the *habitus religionis*. See, e.g., Meisner's 'doctrine of religion' (Appold 2004:241–265). Such a distinction, however, essentially removes personal 'faith' as a necessary element of *theologia*, a move which has potential repercussions for the study of *theologia*.

dus (lectures given in 1617 and published in 1620), but as we have indicated above, this would seem to be due more to the intended audience and less to any perceived change in his conceptual understanding of *theologia*. In the end, we cannot know with any certainty precisely when Gerhard began to employ the term. Regardless, our point up to now has been that whether as ecclesiastical superintendent (1607–1616) or as university professor (1616–1637), his understanding of *theologia*, though no doubt showing signs of elaboration and clarification, remains nevertheless consistent and evidences a great deal of continuity. So, although adopting the term, he seems to adapt it to his particular understanding of *theologia*. As such, he represents a position between those who viewed *theologia* as faith and those who viewed it as an academic discipline. In fact, in his own particular way, Gerhard attempts to incorporate elements of both into his own understanding of *theologia*. This renders his definition of *theologia* and his use of *habitus* θεόσδοτος particularly interesting and unique.

It also renders his concept of *theologia* difficult to place. On the one hand, he seems to distance the theological *habitus* from faith and, yet on the other hand, seems to clearly indicate that *theologia* closely resembles faith. So, as we just pointed out, he clearly and prominently uses an academic term – *habitus* – to describe *theologia* that normally would have been seen as distancing *theologia* from faith. We might also note that in describing the acquisition of the theological *habitus* he avoids the term *infusus*, a term traditionally associated with faith, at least since Aquinas, and one that he had earlier indicated could be understood in the correct way to describe faith despite its ‘Papist’ connotation (*Loci* 16, § 116). Using the term *infusus* would have clearly depicted *theologia* as faith, though admittedly the fact that he avoids it may have more to do with his objection to the non-biblical language of the term than any attempt to distance *theologia* from faith. In any case, he instead opts for *collatus* (bestowed, conferred), a neutral term that appropriately supports the idea of the theological *habitus* being a gift from God in the same manner as faith (see below, Figure 1, Intro). In fact, the term *collatus* is particularly well suited for emphasizing, not just the source of the gift, but especially the process of the actual giving. Later theologians such as König and Calov (see comparison of definitions above) prefer the term ‘*haustae*’ (drawn). The idea of ‘drawing,’ however, inherently implies human effort, an implication that is noticeably absent in the idea of ‘bestowing.’ A term such as ‘*haustae*’ could correspond well to the views of those who increasingly understood *theologia* as akin to an academic discipline and who tended to view θεόσδοτος as merely depicting the divine nature of its source – sacred Scripture. As we have seen above (ch. 3), for Gerhard this is not nearly sufficient. For him, the God-giveness of *theologia* must also extend into the realm of the mental operation that takes place in *theologia*. It is no coincidence that the same can be said of faith. According to Lutheran theological tradition, faith is not simply a gift of God because it comes from the Word of God, but also and especially

because it is worked by God.¹² In this respect, Gerhard's theological *habitus* distinguishes itself from later Lutheran theologians and, as we have seen, from some of his contemporary Lutheran comrades (e.g., Meisner).¹³

The point here is that Gerhard, as a man between eras, has crafted and embraced a definition of *theologia* that could be (and has been) interpreted in different and almost contradictory ways. Our goal in this chapter is to more precisely and more fully situate his concept of *theologia* between these extremes by exploring the seeming conflict within the definition itself and thereupon drawing some conclusions.

3. Analyzing Gerhard's Definition

We pointed out above (ch. 2) that Gerhard's dual definition of *theologia* as *doctrina* and as *habitus* simply describes two ways of considering or viewing the same entity (see below for a fuller explanation). Whereas *doctrina* is for universal consideration, the corresponding *habitus* resolves the issue of individual application. One can see, then, that from the perspective of the seventeenth century theologians defining *theologia* as merely *doctrina* was a less than satisfying definition. It failed to get at the underlying problem of subjective application, that is, how *theologia* might be appropriated into the mind and soul of the person and lead him to salvation as well as others to whom he might minister. Hence, the need for the second definition becomes apparent.

In this study, we are interested in the concept of *theologia*, but especially in how it is developed within the theologian, that is, in the 'study of *theologia*' as it is carried out within the student. Although we have seen that Gerhard's concept of *doctrina* cannot be divorced from the person, it does not give ample details regarding how exactly *theologia* is carried out. The second part of his two-fold definition does. This is important for our purposes, for much of what renders his concept of *theologia* unique and of particular interest can more readily be detected phenomenologically¹⁴. Hence, from here on it will prove more helpful to focus our attention on *theologia* considered habitually and concretely in the person, especially in the student of theology.

In order to facilitate our discussion of Gerhard's habitual definition throughout the rest of this chapter, I have attempted to analyze the structure of the sentence in

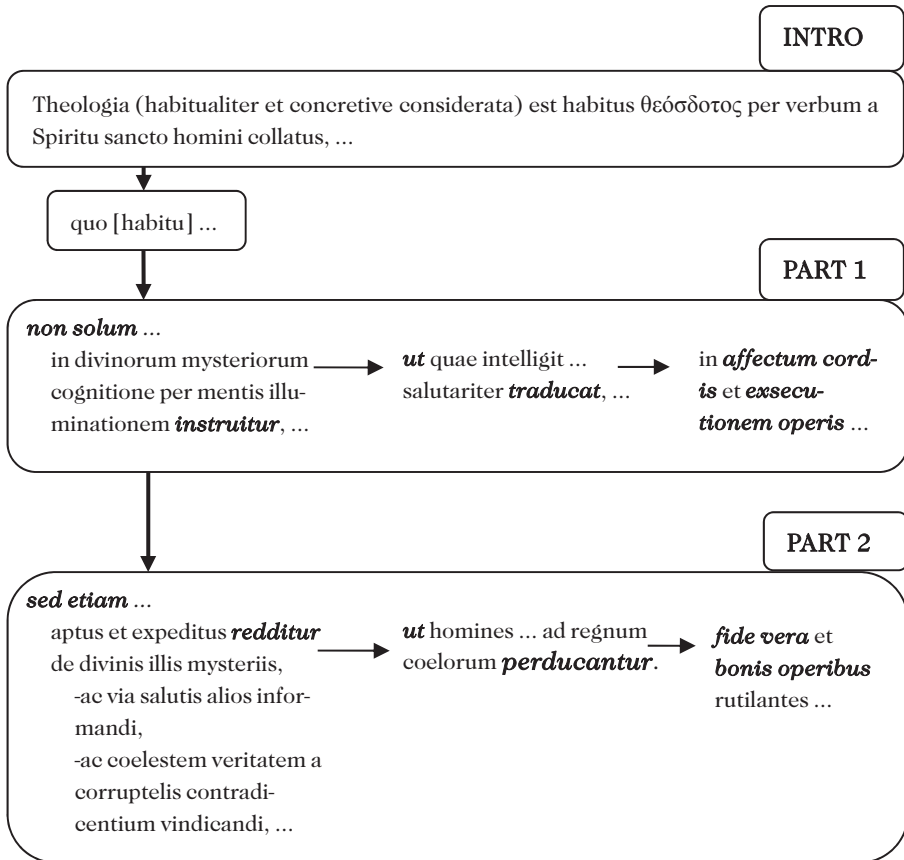
12 Cf. Jn 6:29 and other passages referenced in the *Formula of Concord*, art. 2; see also *Small Catechism*, Creed, art. 3; Kolb & Wengert 2000:355, 549.

13 Häggglund (2003:235–236) points out that Gerhard was one of the last Lutheran theologians to describe divine illumination as a prerequisite for the actual understanding of Scripture, although generations of theologians after him continued to see it connected with the moment of conversion in the order of salvation. Gerhard still views such illumination for both interpretation and salvation (see ch. 3 above).

14 To view or study *theologia* 'phenomenologically,' as the term is used in this study, simply indicates an inclination to view *theologia* 'in action' or 'as it is carried out' rather than 'statically.' It has no relation to the twentieth century philosophy of phenomenology.

order to map out the vertical and horizontal flow of its various elements, as well as make the parallel components more apparent (see Figure 1). I have also divided it into three major parts, which I have labeled: Intro, Part 1, and Part 2.

Figure 1: Structural Analysis of Gerhard's Habitual Definition of *Theologia* (divided into three parts with key parallel components bolded and italicized)



3.1 'Theologia ... est habitus θεόσδοτος per verbum a Spiritu sancto homini collatus'

3.1.1 Theological *Habitus* as the Mind's 'Suitability' for Divine Things

Throughout the previous four chapters, we have examined Gerhard's *theologia* in some depth, but can we work out the 'uniqueness' of Gerhard's *habitus* θεόσδοτος with a bit more precision (cf. Wallmann's related desideratum, 1961:73, fn. 4)? We have already explored the Jena professor's concept of θεόσδοτος in light of his earlier comments made in the *Tractatus*. Is it now possible to offer a more nuanced explanation of Gerhard's understanding of the theological mental operation that would, in effect, reconcile his theory of cognition (see above, ch. 3) with his use of *habitus*? Of course, to pull together these two strands of thought requires a bit of caution since the respective theological contexts within which they appear, the *Tractatus* and the *Prooemium*, are separated by some fifteen years and Gerhard elaborates only briefly on each of them. Hence, the brief remarks offered here will require substantiation by further research that focuses perhaps especially on Gerhard's early lectures on logic and metaphysics, the research of which is only in its nascent stages.¹⁵

We have examined above (ch. 3) in some detail the intellective process that forms the background for Gerhard's comments in the *Tractatus* (§§ 47–48). That process inevitably involves the move from potential knowledge (*intellectus in potentia*) to actual knowledge (*intellectus in actu*). According to Aristotelian thought, between these two would exist the *habitus* which renders the mind apt for that particular knowledge and, in so doing, allows potential knowledge to reside in the mind as actual knowledge (Salatowsky 2006:366). The *habitus* is not that which *effects* this move. That privilege was often seen as belonging to the *intellectus agens* as the effective, active agent, most often depicted as a power (*potentia*) of the soul.¹⁶ According to this interpretation, the *intellectus agens*, then, effectively causes both the *habitus* as well as the actual knowledge in the mind. It does so by extracting the universal from the particulars, that is, the *forma* from the *materia*, an operation akin to the illumination of light, and produces or imprints the intelligible forms on the *intellectus possibilis* (views on how this happened varied consid-

¹⁵ See ch. 1, fn. 4 and ch. 3, fn. 33.

¹⁶ Melancthon, following Aristotle (*Eth. Nic.* 1105b20), had posed three sources in the soul for all human action: *habitus* (ἔξεις), *potentiae* (δυνάμεις), and *affectus* (πάθη) (*CR*, vol. 13, p. 535; cf. Salatowsky 2006:340). The nature of the *intellectus agens* was often a point of contention, though it was most often designated as a *potentia* among early modern Lutheran professors (Salatowsky 2006:337–346). It should also be pointed out that different commentators assigned varying roles to the agent and possible intellects. For instance, Zabarella (and Scaliger to a degree) saw the *intellectus possibilis* as having a much more active role (Spruit 1995:234–235).

erably, though almost all spoke of its resemblance to illumination).¹⁷ The *habitus*, for its part, resides in the *intellectus possibilis*, as does all knowledge and understanding, and serves as the means by which actual knowledge is possible (Salatowsky 2006:362–368).

Applying this to the realm of biblical interpretation and theological knowledge, as Gerhard does, we might further deduce the following from his brief comments in the *Tractatus* in addition to what we have already said in chapter three. In defense of the Lutheran axiom *sola scriptura* against the accusations of the ‘papists,’ Gerhard is very concerned with ruling out the possibility of any human source of a salutary interpretation of Scripture (cf. *Tractatus*, §§ 45–46). Such is impossible because of the natural inferiority of the human mind to that of God, but also and especially because of the inexorable corruption of the human mind caused by sin. Hence, when it comes to the divine mysteries of Scripture, no activity of the *intellectus agens* (or of the *intellectus possibilis*) is able to effect the move from mere potential theological knowledge¹⁸ to actual theological knowledge, nor extract in any meaningful (salutary) way the *forma* (divine mysteries) from the *materia* (Scriptures). Such an operation requires an *adaequatio*, that is, an ‘alignment’ of sorts that would essentially render the human intellect apt (i.e., ‘suitable’) for the knowledge of divine mysteries. *It would seem that the adaequatio spoken of here in the Tractatus (§ 47) directly relates to the habitus of Gerhard’s Prooemium (§§ 10, 31).*

What exactly might be that relation? It seems clear from the *Tractatus* that Gerhard intends to establish a parallel between the *adaequatio* (§ 47) and the *divini luminis irradiatio* (§ 48). This parallel makes sense. Both are focused on the operation or process whereby an ‘equaling’ (i.e., equation, equalization) of sorts is required. Whereas the ‘equaling’ normally happens via the mind, for the divine mysteries of Scripture, such an ‘equaling’ requires divine illumination from the outside that essentially creates the ‘suitability’ of the mind for such divine things. *It*

17 Gerhard alludes to such an operation of ‘extraction’ in his refutation of Rahtmann: ‘If someone wants to reveal secrets to his friend in a letter and to teach him how to gain knowledge of it, he must insert the sense and meaning [*Sinn und Meynung*] of those secret things [*verborgene Dinge*], which his friend should understand, in such a manner that one can extract [*nehmen*] them and bring them into his mind’ (*Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 13; Gerhard [1628] 1671:207).

18 This theological *intellectus in potentia* should not be taken as a type of initial understanding upon which one builds further knowledge, but is merely the *potential* to have theological understanding, a potential that all humans possess as opposed to, for example, inanimate objects or even animals. It is akin to what the authors of the *Formula of Concord* called the *capacitas passiva* in their discussion of the ‘Free Will’ (FC SD, art. 2, §§ 22–23). Kolb & Wengert (2000:548, fn. 64), editors of the *Book of Concord*, offer a helpful explanation: ‘The notion of “a passive capacity” emphasizes the fact that human beings do nothing but that something is done to them. This passivity is in no way a deliberate, good, or meritorious attitude. It merely means that human beings are creatures that can be converted ... The concordists understood it rather as a natural characteristic of human reason that persisted despite the fall and distinguished human beings from other animate or inanimate creatures.’

would seem that that 'suitability' is equivalent to what Gerhard will later in the *Prooemium* refer to as a *habitus*.

Let us look at this a bit more closely. Gerhard's *habitus* θεόσδοτος alludes more to that condition or state of the mind's 'suitability,' while the *adaequatio* alludes more to the forming of that 'suitability.' Such an interpretation would account for the fact that *habitus* is derived from a static verb (*habere*), while *adaequatio* is the derivative of a dynamic verb (*adaequare*). In this way, the *habitus* would be, so to speak, the resulting adjustment or leveling brought about through the *adaequatio* process. It is not really a relation of equivalence, though admittedly the difference between the *adaequatio* (as activity of equaling) and the *habitus* (as resulting state of suitability) is negligible, since, when it comes to Gerhard's *habitus* θεόσδοτος, such a *habitus*, unlike other *habitus*, never becomes the permanent 'static' possession of the person, but is always a matter of continual 'dynamic' reception from God (see above, ch. 3).

That a certain 'aptitude' or 'suitability' of the mind required for the acquisition of knowledge be characterized as a *habitus* had already been proposed by Zabarella:

I therefore say that from the many acts of understanding a certain aptitude [i.e., suitability] or ability for the understanding of that same thing is acquired in the intellect, which it did not have before, and which is called an acquired *habitus*. (*De speciebus intelligibilibus*, ch. 8, fol. 41A; cf. Salatowsky 2006:231)¹⁹

It would not be abnormal, then, for Gerhard to later conceive of the required *adaequatio* as continually giving rise to a similar, yet different, kind of *habitus*. If the mind requires a certain humanly acquired 'suitability' (*habitus acquisitus*) for ordinary, mundane knowledge, then how much more must it require a divinely bestowed 'suitability' (*habitus θεόσδοτος*) for the divine mysteries of Scripture?²⁰

19 The passage reads: 'I therefore say that from the many acts of understanding a certain aptitude or ability for the understanding of that same thing is acquired in the intellect, which it did not have before, and which is called an acquired *habitus*. For our mind is born undeveloped and inept to immediately grasp the knowledge of the thing. Therefore, it is necessary to work and investigate, to learn and discover. But once it apprehends the thing, if it contemplates it for a long time, it acquires a *habitus*, that is, a certain ability by which it can examine that thing whenever it wants without practice or effort ...' (*Dico igitur acquiri in intellectu ex multiplicatis intelligendi actibus quondam maiorem aptitudinem seu habilitatem ad eas dem res intelligendas, quam non habebat prius, eaque dicitur habitus acquisitus, nam mens nostra nascitur rudis, & inepta ad rerum cognitionem statim capiendam, ideo necesse est ut laboret, & investiget, ut discat, & inveniat; sed postquam semel rem aliquam apprehendit, si diu in eius contemplatione versetur, acquirit habitum, id est, habilitatem quondam, qua potest, quando vult, rem illam speculari absque exercitio, & absque labore ...*).

20 Although not directly connecting *habitus* and *adaequatio*, Wallmann (1961:78) would seem to support the general line of argument here: 'Durch die Einführung der Kategorie des *habitus θεόσδοτος* gleicht sich der theologische Erkenntnisvollzug der Übernatürlichkeit seines Gegenstandes an. Das geoffenbarte, in der Heiligen Schrift enthaltene Wort Gottes und der theologische

There are also striking parallels between the *adaequatio* of the *Tractatus* and the *habitus* of the *Prooemium*. For example, the immediate context in the *Tractatus* for Gerhard's explication of the *adaequatio* is the direct refutation of the 'papist' argument that the true interpretation of Scripture can only come from the church, that is, the pope (*Tractatus*, §§ 45–46). Gerhard responds that Scripture (i.e., the Holy Spirit) can and does interpret Scripture (§§ 63, 58, 72) and that that true interpretation is accessible to us through the God-given *adaequatio* that takes place in the mind (§§ 47–48). Similarly, as was mentioned above, scholars have pointed out that during Gerhard's time there was a shift away from an understanding of *theologia* as 'teaching of the church' (*doctrina ecclesiae*) and toward an understanding of it as a God-given *habitus* existing in the mind (cf. Wallmann 1961:64–65; Nieden 2006:187–189). It is interesting that in both cases there is a shift away from *theologia* happening primarily in the church to it happening primarily in the human soul. In the first case it is carried out by a divinely wrought *adaequatio* and in the second case by a divinely bestowed *habitus*. The point here is not to argue that Gerhard was against a *doctrina* view of *theologia* (see his dual definition), but to only point out that the very concern to which Gerhard responds with the *adaequatio*, in retrospect, seems to be similar to the concern that gave rise to the theological *habitus*.

Other parallels exist as well. Occurring in the *intellectus possibilis*, as all forms of knowledge must, both the *adaequatio* (*Tractatus*, § 47) and the *habitus* (*Prooemium*, § 31) are acquired in the theological realm solely by the work of the Holy Spirit, who effectively acts in lieu of the *intellectus agens* through an illumination of divine light (*Tractatus*, § 48; *Prooemium*, § 31). Of course, Gerhard reiterates in both cases that that only happens *per verbum* (*Tractatus*, § 57; *Prooemium*, §§ 17, 19, 31). In other words, without the Word, neither the *adaequatio* nor the *habitus* exists.

Thus far, we have identified the *habitus* as the 'suitability' resulting from the *adaequatio* that renders the mind apt for a certain knowledge. This is strikingly similar to Timpler's definition of the 'internal' liberal arts which perfect the student and render him 'learned and apt to skillfully contemplate or do' ([1604] 1616:30).²¹ The only difference would be that Gerhard's *habitus* is divinely wrought by the work of the Holy Spirit because of the divine nature of the knowledge that is to be attained. In fact, if one defines it rather broadly, it could be said that Gerhard is not even alone in his theory of divine illumination. Zabarella had already identified the

habitus θεόδοτος entsprechen sich in ihrer unmittelbar von Gott gegebenen übernatürlichen Beschaffenheit.'

21 The definitions reads: 'Thus far the external or systematic liberal art has been treated. The internal liberal art follows, which is nothing else than an intellectual *habitus* perfecting the person and rendering him learned and apt to skillfully contemplate or do' (*Adhuc actum fuit de arte liberali externa, seu systematica: Sequitur ars liberalis interna, quae nihil aliud est, quam habitus intellectualis hominem perficiens, doctumque & aptum reddens ad artificiose contemplandum vel operandum*).

illuminating *intellectus agens* with God himself even for everyday knowledge (Kessler 1988:531), though this opinion was roundly condemned by later Protestant professors of philosophy such as Timpler, Evenius, and Cornelius Martini (Sala-towsky 2006:349, 356–357). In any case, so far, Gerhard seems to wholeheartedly embrace *theologia* as a purely intellectual *habitus* and, thus, as an academic and professional discipline.

3.1.2 Theological *Habitus* as Faith

Other parallels, however, would seem to indicate otherwise. In the *Prooemium*, like in the *Tractatus*, Gerhard is concerned to define *theologia* such that its genus can account for the marked lack of ‘alignment’ between the fallen human mind and the divine mysteries revealed in Scripture (*Prooemium*, §§ 8–10).²² This is essentially why, as we have seen above, that he immediately rejects *scientia* as the genus of *theologia*. It cannot sufficiently deal with the subject of theology – Christ – because such knowledge comes by way of revelation and cannot be had through reasoning by inherent principles (§ 8). The Aristotelian intellectual *habitus* of wisdom is far more suitable for dealing with the things of God. In fact, *theologia*, defined as the Aristotelian *habitus* of *sapientia*, would seem at first glance to satisfy that need for *adaequatio* and for that reason Gerhard surmises that it ‘most closely approximates its nature’ (§ 10). However, the alignment of the weak, corrupted human mind and the sublime divine mysteries of faith requires more than an intellectual adjustment. It also entails an ‘adjustment’ of the will, that is, faith, and even Aristotle’s *sapientia* falls short in this regard (see above, ch. 3). Gerhard’s *habitus* θεόσδοτος, then, is the ‘suitability’ that allows the mind intellectually, *but also volitionally*, to adequately measure up to the divine mysteries.

In fact, as expected, the same relation between Gerhard’s *adaequatio* and his later use of *habitus* seems to exist also between his use of *adaequatio* and faith. In other words, just as the divinely wrought *adaequatio* results in the ‘suitability’ of the mind (thus far established as Gerhard’s theological *habitus*), so too that same *adaequatio* results in faith. After all, according to the *Tractatus*, what precisely is the difference between a reading of Scripture with versus without the *adaequatio*, if it is not the difference between a ‘believing’ versus a ‘non-believing’ interpretation of Scripture? This would seem to be the point of the introductory quote from 2 Corinthians 4:3–4²³ and would explain why the pursuit of the *adaequatio*, like the pursuit (*studium*) of the theological *habitus* (*Methodus*, part 1, ch. 3; *Prooemium*, § 17), is accompanied by diligent prayers for divine illumination by the Holy Spirit

22 That this is also a (the?) fundamental concern of the preface of the *Methodus* is a topic which we will treat below in ch. 6.

23 ‘But if this Gospel of ours be concealed, it has been hidden in those who are perishing, in whom the god of this world has blinded the senses of those who do not believe, lest the light of the Gospel of the glory of Christ, who is the image of God, shine upon them’ (*Tractatus*, immediately preceding § 1).

(*Tractatus*, §§ 50–53). In addition, in his exhortation for diligent prayer, Gerhard references verses from Scripture that refer notably and directly to faith. That the Holy Spirit be given (Lk 11:3 [sic]), that Jesus Christ be made known (Jn 1:18), and that one be drawn to Jesus (Jn 6:44) go beyond mere interpretation skills or professional aptitude (§ 50). Additionally, Gerhard concludes his *Tractatus* with an exhortation that the interpreter of Scripture engage in Luther's *Trias* (*oratio, meditatio, tentatio*), a formula designed for faith formation (§§ 214–225; note especially *tentatio*). It also might be pointed out that, in Gerhard's mind, a 'legitimate' interpretation of Scripture (i.e., one accomplished by way of the divine *adaequatio*) must be according to the *regula fidei* (§§ 61, 75). However, such an interpretation is no mere 'acquaintance' (*cognita habere*) of dogmas (§ 54). It is a knowledge that is 'fully certain, solid, and salutary,' that is, bound up with personal, saving faith (§ 54). This simply reiterates the point made previously that, for Gerhard, the interpretive task treats as inherently inseparable Scripture as principle of theology and Scripture as means of grace (see above ch. 3).

That the *adaequatio* is related to faith and to *habitus* respectively in the same way leads one to believe what has been indicated all along, namely, that Gerhard's *habitus* θεόςδοτος is essentially faith. And in fact, Gerhard argues that the genus of *theologia* must be about believing rather than knowing, because the subject of *theologia* is the person of Christ who cannot be 'known' scientifically (*scientifico modo*) (*Prooemium*, § 8). Rather, Jesus Christ makes himself known by divine revelation and that knowledge can only come by way of a relation of trust (*credere*). And, indeed, he later specifies that that subject (*subjectum circa quod*) of *theologia* is God considered 'relatively' (Latin: *relate*, i.e., 'in relation to something'), quoting Luther that 'the proper subject of theology is man, guilty of sin and lost, and God, who justifies and saves sinful man' (§ 28).²⁴ *Theologia* is not about God per se, but about the relation between God and human beings. For this reason, 'we must not look for God in the category of substance but of relation' (§ 28; cf. *Loci* 16, §§ 179, 220). As part of this, Gerhard often underscores the idea of the mystical union in relation to faith (e.g., *Loci* 16, §§ 176, 198, 208), much as Luther had stressed the union with Christ brought about through faith (see above, ch. 1; cf. Vaahtoranta 1998:249–267). In his final determination, Gerhard posits 'man as he is led to eternal blessedness' as the subject of theology, but what Luther had said about the relational aspect of faith and theology remains an integral part (cf. *subordinata*) of it (*Prooemium*, § 28).

And therein lies one of the inherent difficulties of Gerhard's theological *habitus*. He embraces Luther's concept of *theologia* as faith, as well as Luther's concept

24 *Theologiae proprium subjectum est homo peccati reus ac perditus, ac Deus justificans et salvator hominis peccatoris.*

of faith as inherently relational (cf. Schröder 1983:64–68).²⁵ However, at the same time, he defines *theologia* as a *habitus*. In an Aristotelian framework, that is impossible because it is necessarily contradictory. *Habitus* belong in the category of quality, while justification and faith, according to Luther, fall in the category of relation. A ‘relational *habitus*’ would be an oxymoron because a thing cannot be both an internal quality and an external relation (see above ch. 1).

What does one make of this ‘conundrum’ in Gerhard’s understanding of *theologia*? Schröder (1983:71–80) describes this as Gerhard’s ill-fated ‘doubling’ of the concept of faith and depicts it as a failed attempt to put ‘old wine’ (i.e., Luther’s concept of faith) into ‘new wineskins’ (i.e., the three-fold understanding of faith as *notitia*, *assensus*, and *fiducia*) – an attempt that supposedly led to other irreparable contradictions in his theology.²⁶ Appold (1998:157–158, fn. 68), however, has noticed what we pointed out earlier, that this is not unique to Gerhard, but reflective of a trend throughout post-Reformation Lutheranism. He points out that Calov in particular was reluctant to use the term *habitus fidei* in the theological context of justification and instead develops in its place the concept of *inhabitatio Dei*, that is, the mystical union between the human being and God. An analysis of the etymological and conceptual similarity between *habitus* (i.e., *habere*, ‘to have’) and *inhabitatio* (i.e., *habitare*, ‘to be in possession of’) leads him to surmise that Calov, and presumably others before him such as Gerhard, saw a relation between the two such that the *habitus fidei* essentially becomes a *habitus* of being ‘had,’ that is, ‘inhabited’ by God. The *habitus fidei* is then seen as a ‘manifestation’ of the *inhabitatio Dei* (Appold 1998:158). Vaahtoranta (1998:212–267), in an intriguing study that takes into account the wide breadth of both dogmatic and devotional works of Gerhard, has concluded, similarly to and yet independently from Appold, that for Gerhard the psychologically empirically experienced event that Gerhard refers to as faith (i.e., *notitia*, *assensus*, *fiducia*) presupposes the atemporal, un-empirical mystical union (i.e., *unio spiritualis*) between a person and Christ whereby that person is forensically justified.²⁷ In any case, it seems clear that Gerhard can and, in

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- 25 Schröder (1983) describes Luther’s concept of faith as essentially ‘*eine seinsstiftende relatio*’ (‘a relationship that creates being’) between human beings and God (pp. 71, 79) and emphasizes Luther’s rather adamant refusal to consider faith a kind of quality (i.e., *habitus*) (pp. 64–66).
- 26 A thorough assessment of Schröder’s critique of Gerhard is beyond the scope of this paper, though it might be mentioned here that he seems to set up a sharp and irreconcilable distinction between the intellectual and volitional aspects of faith that seems foreign to Gerhard’s thinking (see similar remark by Vaahtoranta 1998:215, fn. 26), especially when one views Gerhard’s dogmatic and devotional writings in sync. For a brief history of the introduction of the Aristotelian three-fold concept of faith into Lutheran thought (via Melancthon) and a more measured critique of its adverse effect on Lutheran theological thought, see Pelikan (1950:97–101).
- 27 It would appear at first glance that in placing the mystical union within the act of justification Gerhard would be blatantly disregarding the injunctions in the *Formula of Concord* against Osiander’s doctrine of justification whereby the person is justified because of Christ’s indwelling presence and divine righteousness (FC SD, art. 3; Kolb & Wengert 2000:562–573; for the context and analysis of Osiander’s views, see Arand, Kolb, & Nestingen 2012:217–226). Vaahtoranta argues

fact, does reconcile faith as *habitus* and faith as relation without reverting to an ill-fated 'doubling' of the faith concept. In retrospect and in light of Gerhard's 'instrumental' use of philosophy (*Methodus*, part 1, sect. 2, ch. 1), with regard to Gerhard's *habitus* θεόσδοτος, we can speak of a *habitus* of being had, rather than of having, a *habitus* of reception, rather than of possession, and, therefore, a *habitus* of continual relation, rather than of permanent quality.²⁸

3.2 '... quo non solum in divinorum mysteriorum cognitione per mentis illuminationem instruitur'

We have already treated most of the terms and expressions in this part of the definition. We can take this opportunity, however, to call to mind how a *habitus* works. The first part of the definition as just described constitutes its substance in that it establishes precisely what *theologia* is (i.e., its genus; cf. *Prooemium*, § 10). It corresponds to the question of quiddity (i.e., what is *theologia*?). The following two parts (*non solum ... sed etiam ...*) denote what we might call the 'actualizations' of the *habitus*. They specify how the *habitus* is 'actualized,' that is, what happens by means of this *habitus* (see Figure 1 and the first sections of Part 1 and 2).²⁹ The distinction is important if one recalls that a *habitus* exists between potentiality and actuality (see ch. 1) and serves as the means by which (not because of which!) the move from potentiality and actuality can happen; hence, that small, yet significant relative pronoun – *quo*.³⁰ To use contemporary language, it is the *means* not the *cause*. Despite the fact that the *habitus* resides in the person's soul, Gerhard's use of verbs in the passive voice underscores his insistence on the inherent passivity of

that this is not the case, however, since Gerhard associates the mystical union, not with a permanent or static justifying presence of Christ within the person, but with the atemporal 'happy exchange,' as Luther referred to it, whereby Christ is present in faith and his foreign righteousness imputed to the believer (1998:249–267; see especially p. 257, fn. 19). Examining the details and plausibility of Vaahutoranta's argument is beyond the scope of the present study. I simply present it here to show that, in the minds of seventeenth century theologians, faith as *habitus* was not necessarily opposed to faith as relational, although a great deal of care was taken to distance the Lutheran view from that of the so-called 'Papists.'

- 28 Such descriptions attempt to capture the conceptual idea(s) associated with Gerhard's *habitus* θεόσδοτος, although he did not use these expressions himself.
- 29 Here, strictly speaking, we are not talking about the 'end' or 'goal' of theology (*finis theologiae*; cf. *Prooemium*, §§ 12, 26). That would only be the case if *theologia* were a speculative *habitus*. The *finis* of *theologia* is external to it – *pietas* – because it is a mostly practical *habitus*.
- 30 The relative pronoun '*quo*' in Gerhard's definition could refer grammatically and logically to any of the three nouns ('*verbum*,' '*Spiritu*,' or '*habitus*') in the first part of his definition. The inherent function of a *habitus* as the 'means through which' a movement from potentiality to actuality happens leads to the use of a relative pronoun (in the ablative case) in almost all definitions involving *habitus* (see, e.g., the comparative definitions of later theologians earlier in this chapter). Thus, Zabarella defines 'method' as 'an intellectual *habitus* by which [*quo*] we might be helped toward consequent knowledge of things' (as cited in Hägglund 1951:49). See also Melancthon's definition of *habitus* above in ch. 1. In light of this, I have taken *habitus* as the referent of *quo*.

the theological endeavor. It is the Holy Spirit (i.e., God) who is the *causa efficiens principalis* of *theologia* (*Prooemium*, § 18) and, therefore, who is responsible first for ‘bestowing’ the *habitus* upon the person and then also for the actualization of that same *habitus* – ‘instructing’ the person and ‘rendering’ that person apt and ready. The Spirit does this by what we might call an external ‘giving’ means that Gerhard designates as the *causa instrumentalis* of *theologia* – *verbum Dei*. This is not to be confused with what we might call in modern language an internal ‘receiving’ means (*habitus* θεόσδοτος) that constitutes the mind’s ‘suitability’ for the knowledge of divine mysteries.

3.2.1 Identifying the Theological *Habitus* by its Actualization

A *habitus* is established by frequent repetition of the actualization of that *habitus* (e.g., the *habitus* of bravery is acquired through repeated brave acts). The process is inherently circular in that the actions carried out through the *habitus* are those very actions required for the formation of that *habitus*.³¹ As a result, we can learn something about the very nature of the *habitus* by examining the actions that arise from it (e.g., if we see the action of ‘painting,’ we can assume that it arises from the *habitus* of ‘painting’ and not that of ‘running’) (see *Eth. Nic.* 1103a15–1103b25; see above, ch. 1).³² This is an important and helpful point. Gerhard has described two ‘actualizations’ of the *habitus* θεόσδοτος, that is, two actions that result for the true theologian: The theologian ‘is instructed’ (*instruitur*) through the illumination of the mind in the knowledge of divine mysteries (see Figure 1, Part 1) and ‘is rendered’ (*redditur*) apt and ready to inform others and defend the truth (see Figure 1, Part 2). Strictly speaking, then, these same two actions are also the actions by which the Holy Spirit bestows the *habitus*. Therefore, they potentially reveal something about the uniqueness of this particular *habitus*. For example, it is not a *habitus* of ‘painting,’ of ‘bravery,’ or of ‘administering,’ but it is a *habitus* of ‘being instructed in the knowledge of divine mysteries’ and ‘being rendered apt and ready to inform others and defend the truth.’

The task now is to ascertain how well these two actions (*instruitur* and *redditur*) coincide with what we have said thus far about the *habitus*, namely, that it is

31 The word ‘circular’ here describes the formation ‘process’ and not the relational or functional active ‘role’ of the *habitus*. In Gerhard’s case, his *habitus* θεόσδοτος leaves no room for synergism, for both the actions forming the *habitus* and, hence, the actions carried out through the *habitus*, as well as the bestowal of the *habitus*, are performed by the Holy Spirit (cf. Hägglund 1951:217).

32 ‘To sum it up in a single account: a state [ἕξις] [of character] results from [the repetition] of similar activities. That is why we must perform the right activities, since differences in these imply corresponding differences in the states’ (*Eth. Nic.* 1103b21–23). Although referring here to *habitus* of character in this context, a similar process takes place with *habitus* of thought, though ‘teaching’ also plays an important role (*Eth. Nic.* 1103a15–19).

the 'suitability' required for understanding the divine mysteries and that that 'suitability' is to be equated ultimately with faith.

3.2.2 *Theologia* as *Habitus* of 'Being Instructed in the Divine Mysteries'

If, as we have said, there is a direct, close relation between Gerhard's *habitus* θεόδοτος and the *adaequatio*, then it stands to reason that *theologia* is primarily about interpreting Scripture. This must be the case if we wish to connect the *Prooemium* that treats *theologia* with the *Tractatus* that treats the interpretation of Scripture. And indeed, Gerhard clearly asserts earlier in the *Prooemium* (§ 17) that *theologia* is concerned essentially and fundamentally with the 'handling' of Scripture, for it is only in such 'handling' of Scripture through the ordinary means of *oratio*, *meditatio*, and *tentatio* that *theologia* can be kindled in sojourning people (*hominibus viatoribus*) here on earth. *Theologia* as a whole, then, is principally about the task of properly interpreting Scripture. This accounts for the clear parallels between Part 1 (see Figure 1) of Gerhard's definition in the *Prooemium* (§ 31) and the description of the interpretive task of Scripture in the *Tractatus* (see, e.g., §§ 48–53).³³ The 'suitability' for the knowledge of divine mysteries is precisely that very 'suitability' for interpreting Scripture. Gerhard cannot separate the two (see discussion of the Rahtmann conflict in ch. 3).

It appears that Gerhard is emphasizing the academic nature of *theologia* as he underscores again the intellectual 'suitability' of the mind to interpret Scripture. And, indeed, the insistence on 'instruction' and 'knowledge' in this second part of the definition substantiates the importance of the intellect in Gerhard's understanding of the theological *habitus*. This is an important point. On the one hand, against Cramer and others such as Johann Arndt who essentially equated *theologia* and faith-*praxis*, Gerhard clearly establishes that his theological *habitus* is not a *habitus* of piety. It is not merely an ethical *habitus* of the will, which others, such as Cramer, were open to conceding (see Cramer's willful use of *habitus*, Friedrich 2004:312–313). On the other hand, whereas later definitions will accentuate the professional actualization of *theologia* (e.g., people being led through faith to eternal salvation) (cf. the definitions of later theologians earlier in this chapter), Gerhard's is unabashedly intellectual ('being instructed in the knowledge ...'). Far from distancing *theologia* from the intellect, the actualization mentioned here characterizes *theologia* as an intellectual activity, for which is required a certain 'suitability,' what Gerhard purportedly calls the *habitus* θεόδοτος. In using the term *habitus* and in establishing it as the 'suitability' of the human mind to appropriate knowledge, he has clearly characterized *theologia* as an intellectual activity.

³³ As to be expected, then, there are also noticeable parallels (e.g., description of the different uses of philosophy, explanation of Luther's *Trias*) between the *Tractatus* and the *Methodus* that we will explore below. Suffice it to say for now that these parallels support the contention here that the legitimate interpretation of Scripture remains, for Gerhard, the constitutive task of *theologia*.

But also noteworthy in his definition is his repetitive use of the term *divina mysteria* or *mysteria fidei* (e.g., *Prooemium*, § 31; *Tractatus*, §§ 48, 49, 50, 54, 55, 60, 66). According to Gerhard, these divine mysteries, hidden from the world, were first proclaimed orally by the prophets and apostles who then drafted them in written form in the Holy Scriptures (*von der Natur*, quest. 1, §§ 10–11; Gerhard [1628] 1671:205–206). Therefore, these ‘hidden things’ (*verborgene Dinge*) are now revealed to human beings in the written Scriptures and, henceforth, must be ‘extracted’ from the written words (see above, ch. 3). The divine mysteries, then, are part of the very ‘meaning and intention’ of Scripture and, according to Gerhard, are summed up by the Apostle Paul as ‘God’s plan for our redemption and salvation’ (*von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 11, see also § 30; Gerhard [1628] 1671:206, see also p. 211). Of course, one can come to a bare understanding of the historical accounts and even become familiar with certain dogmas of Scripture, but, for Gerhard, such ineffectual knowledge is woefully inadequate and, in fact, does not grasp the mysteries at all (*Tractatus*, §§ 48, 54). For the divine mysteries are the very council, will, and intention of God in Christ Jesus and that very efficacious will both requires and creates faith (see Gerhard’s treatment of the divine will in *Aphorismi succincti et selecti*, ch. 1, theses 16–20, 28–30; see above the ‘didactic’ and ‘regenerative’ role of Scripture, ch. 4). It stands to reason, then, that if faith is lacking, the mysteries have remained mysteries – hidden and infinitely out of reach of the non-believer.³⁴ As we indicated above, so also here: A ‘solid and salutary knowledge’ of these divine mysteries – the only knowledge that can truly access the mysteries – presupposes an *adaequatio* that, in turn, must ultimately result in faith (cf. *Tractatus*, § 54).

Thus, the *habitus* as we previously described it coincides quite well with the first action to be carried out through it. The Holy Spirit’s instruction can only happen if that same Spirit bestows on the person’s mind a kind of ‘suitability’ that aligns it with the divine mysteries. But, any kind of ‘suitability’ devoid of faith would be dismally inadequate and the attempt at *adaequatio* would fall woefully short, for the divine mysteries would continue to remain utterly hidden from the human mind and any legitimate dealing with Scripture absolutely impossible. After all, any legitimate treatment of Scripture allowed by the *adaequatio* and its resulting ‘suitability’ will necessarily handle Scripture as simultaneously principle of theology and means of grace, not only for others, but especially for the self.

34 In my own research of Gerhard’s writings thus far I have yet to come across a passage in which he speaks of the ‘divine mysteries’ in a context that would allow them to be separated from saving faith.

3.2.3 *Theologia* as *Habitus* of 'Being Rendered Apt and Ready'

But what about the second action (see Figure 1, Part 2)?³⁵ Does what we have said previously about the *habitus* θεόσδοτος coincide with the Holy Spirit rendering the theologian apt and ready for informing others about the way of salvation and defending the heavenly truth from corrupt adversaries?

The actions of *informandi* and *vindicandi* are clearly oriented toward a professional paradigm rather than personal faith *praxis*. Such an orientation would support an understanding of *theologia* as an academic discipline akin in some ways to professional training (though let us be careful with this term, see above ch. 4). It would seem, then, at first glance that Gerhard has set up a 'double *habitus*' – a personal *habitus* of faith focused on *praxis* in Part 1 and a professional *habitus* of ministry and dogmatics focused on skills in Part 2 (see Figure 1 above). Subsequent generations of theologians would then have presumably dropped the former and take up the latter. However, although a transitional figure in Lutheran theology, Gerhard refrains from simply placing the old alongside the new. His transitional stance is much more nuanced and, as we have seen above, responsive to his underlying fear of separating faith from academic theology.

That nuanced stance comes out in a subtle difference between his definition and that of others who followed him. In the definitions of such prominent Lutheran theologians as König, Calov, and Quenstedt (see above, this chapter), 'people being led through faith to eternal life' is the action to be carried out through the theological *habitus*.³⁶ The definition of Gerhard, however, includes the words '... *aptus et expeditus redditur* ...' as the required condition for the *allo-praxis* of informing others and defending the truth (*Prooemium*, § 31). At first glance, the difference may seem negligible, but it is telling that the prefacing words are consistently missing in the definitions of the later Lutheran theologians cited above. And that difference becomes less trivial, and even significant, if one recalls that we can know something about the *habitus* itself if we examine the action carried out through that *habitus* (because that same action is what shapes the *habitus*). According to these later theologians, *theologia* is a *habitus* 'by which people are led to salvation,' whereas, according to Gerhard, *theologia* is a *habitus* 'by which [the theologian] is rendered apt and ready' to lead others to salvation. In the former, their definitions are plainly and directly oriented toward *allo-praxis* and entail a *habitus* of professional and/or academic skill. Gerhard's carries a conspicuously different orientation. In fact, the addition of these prefacing words introduces an arguably foundational element of *auto-praxis* even into Part 2 of his definition (see Figure 1).

35 Due to logical continuity and consistency, we will treat the third part of the definition partly here before returning to it below.

36 I have tried to analyze the definitions of particularly prominent later Lutheran theologians. Notwithstanding, the trend identified here will have to be substantiated by further analyses of a wider breadth of definitions (see also Nieden 2006:*passim*).

We might ask: What renders a person apt and ready to inform others about the way of salvation and defend the heavenly truth? And what renders a person apt and ready to do that in such a way that others are led to salvation glowing with true faith and good works? No doubt, professional and academic skills are a part of it ('... *informandi* ... *vindicandi* ...'), but it seems here that Gerhard wishes to underscore a much more foundational and essential aptness – the 'suitability' of the person's mind to handle Scripture in a salutary way, first for the self and only then, consequently, for the neighbor. It is no mere coincidence that mention of the 'divine mysteries' is made in both the *auto*-oriented Part 1 and the *allo*-oriented Part 2 of his definition. In other words, all that was said previously regarding the first action of the *habitus* (i.e., 'being instructed in the divine mysteries') must also apply now to the aptitude and readiness of Part 2 (see Figure 1). Without the Holy Spirit's *adaequatio* and the 'suitability' of the mind to know the divine mysteries, it becomes virtually impossible to inform others about the way of salvation and defend the truth, for both of those actions require that very knowledge of those mysteries. And, as pointed out earlier, such 'suitability' which aligns the mind with those mysteries requires faith. Hence, Gerhard's definition of *theologia*, although including elements of *allo-praxis*, is essentially and primarily still *auto*-oriented (see ch. 4).

3.2.4 Comparative Analysis of Definitions

We arrive at the same conclusion via a comparative analysis of the different definitions of *theologia* by the later Lutheran theologians mentioned earlier. In Figure 1 above, I have attempted to show the logical flow of Gerhard's definition of *theologia*. The vertical arrows illustrate the 'actualizations' of the *habitus* θεόδοτος. The theologian 'undergoes' or 'suffers' the primary actualization of 'being instructed' (*instruitur*) and then the secondary actualization of 'being rendered' (*redditur*) apt and ready. The horizontal arrows, for their part, attempt to illustrate the ultimate end (*finis*) of the actualizations as they are carried out through the *habitus*.

Such an analysis of the other definitions would reveal that they lack the horizontal arrows and have only one vertical arrow pointing downward toward an action to be carried out through the *habitus*. If that action were intellectual, it would render their concept of *theologia* purely speculative (e.g., *scientia*, *sapientia*), with no practical end external to it. If it were one of moral virtue, it would render it purely ethical, such as the virtuous *habitus* of the will (e.g., love, justice). If it were one of making rational decisions about personal *praxis*, it would render it *prudencia*, the practical wisdom of 'doing.' Or, if it were one of producing something, it would render it a kind of art concerned with 'making' (e.g., carpentry, carving).

But the action in view here is that of 'sinful people being led through faith to eternal life' or a variation thereof. The action being oriented toward something external to it affirms it as a practical *habitus*. It is concerned with activity or *praxis* (people being led through faith), but not for the self, so it cannot be *prudencia*. At

the same time, it cannot be *ars* because it is concerned with *praxis* and not merely 'making' (see Calov's remarks in this regard; Appold 1998:44). In the end, an analysis would seem to indicate what we have said above, that their concept of *theologia* is akin to a professional aptitude³⁷ – a new kind of *habitus* that coincides with the emerging professionalization of the clergy (cf. Nieden 2003:241–242).

Gerhard is reluctant to embrace this new paradigm. According to his definition, *when true theologia is properly carried out*, the vertical arrows ensure that the *habitus* engage the theologian himself on the level of personal faith (see Figure 1). That bears repeating. Part 1 of the definition (*instruitur*) is obviously *auto*-oriented. Strictly speaking, however, Part 2 is *also auto*-oriented since the practical actualization in view (*redditur*) is oriented toward the theologian as well. We will have opportunity later to examine the connection with *informandi* and *vindicandi*. For now it is important to notice that it is the theologian himself who 'undergoes' or 'suffers' both actualizations. We should not dismiss this as an unimportant technicality. Cramer was obviously not against the work of ministers and professors of dogmatics, but only adverse to that work being carried out apart from personal faith *praxis*. Gerhard's definition leaves no room whatsoever for a potential *theologia non renatorum*.

3.3 '... ut quae intelligit in affectum cordis et exsecutionem operis salutariter traducat'

Gerhard includes two additional parallel ideas, illustrated in Figure 1 by horizontal arrows. Grammatically speaking, they are the result/purpose of the actualizations of the *habitus*.³⁸ By comparison to other definitions, this is somewhat peculiar. Ordinari-

37 Though let the reader *not* equate this with the professional education of today's technical schools. *Theologia* was clearly labeled an intellectual *habitus* and noticeably more oriented toward the goal of salvation of the other and less toward the particular technique (Muller 2003:120; see ch. 4). This difference becomes all the more evident when comparing today's discipline of 'Practical Theology' with that of Gerhard's idea of the same (see ch. 4).

38 Grammatically, the clauses could be either 'purpose' (telic) or 'result' (consecutive). I take the force of the first clause (*ut ... traducat*) to be that of result (hence the translation in the present tense with no auxiliary; see above, this chapter, fn. 3). Gerhard seems to be emphasizing here the necessary consequence or effect of the Holy Spirit's instruction in the knowledge of divine mysteries. This coincides with our contention that, although *theologia* is essentially 'faith-knowledge,' such knowledge can never be separated phenomenologically from saving faith as it is carried out in the life of the theologian (see below Figure 2 and the inherent and necessary interrelation between *theologia* and *pietas*). In other words, if the effect or result is not present in the theologian, then true *theologia* has not happened and the *habitus* is lacking. However, this is not necessarily the case with regard to the second clause (*ut ... perducantur*), which I take as carrying the sense of purpose (hence, the auxiliary *might*, see translation above, this chapter, fn. 3). With regard to those same divine mysteries, the theologian is rendered apt and ready for both teaching others and defending the truth *in order that* people *might* be led to heaven. However, not everyone who hears the Word is led to heaven as in the case of some who reject it. Gerhard would seem to indicate that

ly, such horizontal arrows would not exist because the actualization of the *habitus* is its own end or goal. In this ordinary schema, the practical or speculative nature of the actualization (note the vertical arrows in the structural analysis, Figure 1) would determine the practical or speculative nature of the intellectual *habitus*. Later Lutheran definitions of *theologia* agreed on its practical nature because of its practical professional goal external to the knowledge itself ('people be lead to eternal life'). By contrast, the actualization of Gerhard's *habitus* almost appears speculative, involving 'instruction' and 'knowledge.' That actualization, however, has a result/purpose outside of itself rendering it akin to a *habitus mixtus*, a term that eventually fell out of use among Lutherans (see Sparr 1992:72). As mentioned earlier (ch. 4), it seems that Gerhard avoids this term precisely because it is not a haphazard combination of speculative and practical elements. In his mind, there exists a specific relation between the two. The result/purpose clauses (*ut ... traducat; ut ... perducantur*) express this relation and explain why he can characterize the *habitus* θεόδοτος as *mostly practicus*, that is, not knowledge for its own sake, but knowledge oriented toward *praxis* or what we have termed *pietas* (θεοσέβεια) (cf. *Prooemium*, § 12; see ch. 4). The result/purpose clauses convey Gerhard's fundamental concern that *theologia* is not only a matter of bare knowledge (γνῶσις). The knowledge of *theologia* must result in something outside of itself, namely, faith and good works. He underscores this by including parallel thoughts of faith and good works in both Part 1 and Part 2 of the definition (the subtle difference between these parallel expressions will be explored below). Whether 'immediately and directly' (personal) or 'mediately and indirectly' (professional), *theologia* is about knowledge that results in faith and good works (*Prooemium*, § 12).

3.3.1 Gerhard's Three-Fold Definition of Faith

This begs the question, of course, as to how 'faith' can be identified with *theologia* and, at the same time, be its desired 'purpose' or 'result.' The response to this lies in the medieval understanding of faith and the roles assigned to the intellect and the will therein. Wallmann (1961:33–36) has astutely pointed out that in Gerhard's first 'meaning' of *theologia* in which he classifies all Christians – learned and unlearned – as theologians, the Jena professor specifies that all are theologians who 'have known the articles of faith and assent to them' (*Prooemium*, § 4).³⁹ Since Melancthon's introduction of the medieval three-fold definition of faith into Lutheran theology, it was often construed as involving *notitia*, *assensus*, and *fiducia* (see *Erotemata dialectices*, CR, vol. 13, p. 538).⁴⁰ By Gerhard's time, *notitia* and

theologia can still have happened and the theologian still be rendered apt and ready, even if the second clause is not always realized in the case of some.

39 ... *ut sic theologi dicantur, quicumque norunt fidei articulos, iisque assentiuntur* ... (my translation).

40 Subsequent definitions followed Melancthon's basic outline, though with some minor variations (see Pelikan 1950:97–101).

assensus, with the truths of Scripture as their object, were regularly assigned to the intellect, while *fiducia*, with the promise of the forgiveness of sins for Christ's sake as its object, was assigned to the will.⁴¹ And Gerhard embraces this understanding in his *Loci* (e.g., *Loci* 16, § 67).⁴² It seems then, as Wallmann surmises, that Gerhard's specific reference to knowledge and assent in his first 'meaning' of *theologia* is more than accidental. He appears to focus his concept of *theologia* particularly on the knowledge component (*notitia* and *assensus*) of faith and not as directly on the trust component (*fiducia*). So, for instance, Gerhard proves that faith is knowledge by examining certain synonyms of faith that focus on its knowledge content (*Loci* 16, § 68). Three of the biblical passages referenced in this examination of faith (Lk 1:77; Tt 1:1; Col 1:9) are also later used by Gerhard in his list of synonyms for *theologia* in the *Prooemium* (§ 5).⁴³ There are also other parallels. For example, Gerhard insists that neither *notitia* nor *theologia* can properly be called ἐπιστήμη (*scientia*) and both require divine illumination (*Loci* 16, § 69; *Prooemium*, § 8, 31).⁴⁴ Obviously he saw parallels between *theologia* and the *notitia* (and *assensus*) of faith that we do not find in his analysis of the *fiducia* of faith (cf. *Loci* 16, § 72, sect. 3). For this reason, Wallmann (1961:35–36, 71) can equate Gerhard's habitual concept of *theologia* with *Glaubenserkenntnis* ('faith-knowledge'⁴⁵) and call it a *Gottesgelehrsamkeit* (God-erudition) (cf. Appold 1998:48–50).

41 In early Lutheran descriptions of faith, *assensus* was originally more oriented toward the will (see, for example, *Apology of the Augsburg Confession*, § 48; Kolb & Wengert 2000:128), but by Gerhard's time it was considered more intellectual than volitional (Pelikan 1950:98–99).

42 'Here we are discussing justifying faith, which includes knowledge, assent and confidence ... With respect to knowledge and assent, faith is related to the intellect and has in the place of its object only every word of God revealed to us in the prophetic and apostolic Scriptures. With respect to confidence, faith is related to the heart or will and has in the place of its object the promises of the Gospel regarding Christ the mediator ...' (*Hoc loco agimus de fide justificante, quae complectitur notitiam, assensum, et fiduciam ... Respectu notitiae et assensus refertur ad intellectum, atque objecti loco habet omne et solum DEI verbum Scripturis prophetis et apostolicis nobis revelatum; respectu fiduciae refertur ad cor sive voluntatem, atque objecti loco habet promissiones evangelicas de Christo mediatore ...*). Somewhat strangely opposed to how he uses it elsewhere, Gerhard contrasts *assensus* to *nuda notitia* and clearly describes the former as 'an act of the will' (*ex parte voluntatis actum*) in the *Dedicatio* of his *Meditationes sacrae* ([1606] 1629:6).

43 The first two were added later as marginal notes by Gerhard. They appear in the Preuss, not the Cotta, edition.

44 Gerhard describes *notitia fidei* in a way strikingly similar to his definition of *theologia*: 'A kind of knowledge is kindled in the mind of man from the illumination of the Holy Spirit and from the revelation of the Gospel' (... *est notitia quaedam ex illuminatione Spiritus sancti & revelatione evangelii in mente hominis accensa*) (*Loci* 16, § 69).

45 Strictly speaking, the English term 'faith-knowledge' falls short of capturing Gerhard's concept of *theologia*. 'Faith' and 'knowledge' appear paradoxical to the modern ear when they occur in the same word. This is mostly due to the modern tendency to sharply demarcate 'religious beliefs' from 'scientific facts.' Within this modern schema, faith denotes a personal, subjective feeling or opinion, while knowledge is associated with objective facts and evidence. Not only is this dichotomizing of faith and knowledge foreign to Gerhard's thinking, he also does not conceive of 'knowledge' as pre-existing, static information, but as existing in the soul/mind of a person. Other terms such as 'faith-learning' or 'faith-cognition' seem beset with similar misunderstandings. I have

We have described Gerhard's *habitus* θεόσδοτος as the 'suitability' of the human mind/soul for a salutary understanding of the divine mysteries of Scripture and have shown how that 'suitability' is actually none other than 'faith.' Here we have presented a more nuanced picture of that faith as *notitia* and *assensus*, that is, 'faith-knowledge.' Two problems immediately present themselves.

First, how can the *habitus* that renders the mind suitable to appropriate a certain knowledge be referred to as that actual knowledge? The answer lies in the fact that a *habitus* is a form, that is, a quality and, therefore, only an accident. According to Melancthon, its existence is linked to the substance which is effective through it (*Erotemata dialectices*, CR, vol. 13, p. 534; see above ch. 1). This means that the *habitus* per se can only really be defined and identified by its actualization. Hence, Melancthon (*Erotemata dialectices*, CR, vol. 13, p. 536) calls the *habitus* of the intellect *notitia*, as does Timpler (*Technologia*, ch. 4, p. 31), even though strictly speaking the *habitus* is that disposition (or suitability) which allows the appropriation of knowledge. Hence, we can legitimately refer to Gerhard's theological *habitus* of 'suitability' as the 'form of faith-knowledge' or simply as 'faith-knowledge.'

Secondly, and related to it, would this not imply a circular argument for the legitimate interpretation of Scripture – the same knowledge one acquires by interpreting Scripture is the very knowledge required for that interpretation? In other words, how does one obtain from Scripture that 'suitability,' if that very 'suitability' is a prerequisite for understanding Scripture? Indeed, in a way, it certainly is a circular argument, hence the circular nature of acquiring a *habitus* as mentioned earlier. But even with regard to Scripture this is not a new question. It lay at the core of all epistemologies of divine revelation and various responses had been given, none of which were acceptable to Gerhard and his Lutheran comrades. The quandary of such responses was precisely in that they attempted to break the circle by inserting into it something external to Scripture – authority of the papacy (Roman Catholic), immediate intervention of the Spirit (Schwenckfeldians), or reason (Socinians, Calvinists) (cf. *Von der Natur*, quest. 1, §§ 14–20; [1628] 1671:207–209).⁴⁶ Already in the *Tractatus*, Gerhard insists that the solution lay in an *adaequatio* produced by the Holy Spirit by way of divine illumination, and not from

chosen the term 'faith-knowledge' because it reflects the language (e.g., *cognitio*) that Gerhard employed in Part 1 of his definition (see Figure 1).

- 46 'All this shows / that the 'Papists' / Schwenckfeldians / Calvinists and Rathmanians agree in this part / that they look at Holy Scripture merely according to its external letter / separate the inner word and understanding from the external word / and therefore call Holy Scripture an inanimate and lifeless character ...' (*Aus welchem allen erscheint / daß Papisten / Schwenckfelder / Calvinisten und Rathmannianer in dem Stück überein kommen / daß sie die heilige Schriftt bloß nach dem eusserlichen Buchstaben betrachten / das innerliche Wort und den innerlichen Verstand von dem eusserlichen Word trennen / und dannenhero die heilige Schriftt vor einen leblosen und toden Buchstaben ausruffen ...*) (§ 20).

the papacy or any other external source (cf. *Tractatus*, § 46).⁴⁷ One could then say that, according to Gerhard, the Holy Spirit does 'break' into the circle, but that happens *only* through the external written texts of Scripture. In his later refutation of Rahtmann, he focuses especially on the inseparability of the internal and external Word, but here in the *Tractatus*, with regard to interpretation, he directs attention particularly to the *regula fidei* (rule of faith) (cf. §§ 61, 64, 71, 75–82, 122, 126, 147, 150–151). This *regula fidei*, however, is not something that one imposes upon Scripture from the outside (e.g., tradition); rather, it is purely and simply 'clear passages of Scripture which present the articles of faith in clear and lucid language' (§ 75) and, therefore, is not external, but internal to Scripture (§ 126).⁴⁸ Gerhard's use of the *regula fidei* in the task of interpretation is deeply rooted in his understanding of the clarity of Scripture and the inseparability of the external written word and the internal work of the Holy Spirit (§ 75; see ch. 3). The Holy Spirit illumines the human mind through the very light of Scripture (§§ 56–58). This may be difficult to comprehend in the same way as a Lutheran seventeenth century theologian like Gerhard precisely because the modern mind, living in the wake of the Enlightenment, has been relegated to a position of dominance and mastery over (and, at times, against) the text. To Gerhard, the axiom 'Scripture interprets Scripture' was not merely a lexicographical or syntactic rule of interpretation regarding literary context, as it is today. If that was part of it, it was because the axiom expressed the belief that the Holy Spirit speaking through Scripture is his own interpreter (Huber 1965:565–566; for the relation to the *testimonium spiritus sancti internum*, see Kirste 1976:92–97).

3.3.1.1 The Unity of Gerhard's Definition of Faith

All of this is to show that positing 'faith-knowledge' as the 'suitability' (i.e., *habitus θεόδοτος*) of the mind necessary for a legitimate interpretation of Scripture jibes quite well with Gerhard's thinking. Of course, the *regula fidei* exists outside of the

47 Gerhard's doctrine of illumination is presented as a direct refutation of Roman Catholic complaints about the purported illegitimacy of the Lutheran interpretation of Scripture: "On what basis," you [papists] ask, "Can we be certain about the true interpretation of Scripture? We must not pursue some personal spirit in interpreting Scripture, must we? Will not some action drive you to confess that in some passages Scripture is unclear and in need of interpretation? From what source must we draw that?" ... As Bellarmine says ...: "Scripture cannot tell what its true meaning is. Scripture cannot interpret itself. All the heretics appeal to Scripture, and they all boast that they have the Spirit ..." (*Unde ergo, inquis, certi esse possumus de vera Scripturae interpretatione? Num privatus Spiritus in Scripturis interpretandis sequendus? An non fateri cogeris, Scripturam esse in quibusdam locis obscuram & egere interpretatione? Unde illa haurienda est? ... ait Bellarm ...: Scriptura non potest seipsam interpretari, omnes jactant Spiritum ...*) (*Tractatus*, § 46).

48 The passage reads: *Per regulam fidei intelligimus perspicua Scripturae loca, in quibus claris & disertis verbis articuli fidei proponuntur: Huc pertinent omnia illa argumenta, quibus suo loco probavimus, Scripturam esse perfectam & perspicuam, ac proinde Canonem omnium controversiarum Theologicarum* (§ 75).

mind (e.g., *Apostles' Creed; Tractatus*, § 76). But, according to Gerhard, in the faith-event, the mind grasps, appropriates, and assents to that 'rule of faith' (here called 'articles of faith'; *Loci* 16, *De justificatione per fidem*, § 129) and that is precisely what makes all Christians theologians – they 'have known and assent to the articles of faith' (*Prooemium*, § 4; cf. Vaahtoranta 1998:213–214).⁴⁹ If this sounds strange to our modern ears, it is because we live post-Enlightenment, but also because our modern minds may immediately divide between 'knowledge' and 'faith,' that is, between the 'intellect' and the 'will,' and we are unused to a definition of 'faith' that encompasses both. This is not to say that people during Gerhard's time were immune to the timeless temptation to be satisfied with a 'dead faith,' that is, a superficial faith devoid of good works. Quite to the contrary, as we have seen above in chapter four, Gerhard and others were very concerned that the Christian religion not be a matter of mere *nuda γνώσις* (bare knowledge), but of *πραξις* (practice) (see, e.g., *Prooemium*, § 12; *Meditationes sacrae, Dedicatio*, p. 7). In fact, as we will see below, the 'transfer' of the Christian message from the intellect to the will, bringing 'the head into the heart,' as it was later described, was a pressing concern for church (and many governmental) leaders at this time (Sträter 1995:1–31; 2000:16). Nonetheless, this practical concern actually reveals a presumed relation between the intellect and will such that, although at times existing in tension with one another, they remain connected, unlike modern tendencies which often assume an almost unbridgeable divide between them such that they become alternatives (cf. Kang 2001:30–31).

Hence, for Gerhard, the *notitia* and *assensus* (faith-knowledge) within the faith-event necessarily assume the simultaneous existence of *fiducia* (justifying faith). In fact, in a marginal note added at the beginning of his discussion of justifying faith, Gerhard expresses certain misgivings about the three-fold division and warns the reader that he is using a bit of 'latitude' in employing it throughout the *locus* (*Loci* 16, § 67).⁵⁰ So, indeed, he does dissect the faith-event, but expressly in order to argue against his (mostly Roman Catholic) opponents. His arguments vary widely and refute a broad array of challenges to the concept of faith inherited from the Reformation. On the one hand, he systematically rejects those who claim faith is only knowledge and, on the other hand, those who claim it is only trust. When viewed together as a whole, Gerhard's primary concern is evident: The biblical

49 The use of the terms *regula fidei* and *divina mysteria* (see discussion above), as well as the precise relation between the two, is still to be worked out and requires further research outside the purview of this paper.

50 '... one must know that, although faith is neither an integral or essential whole, neither are such parts to be assigned to it; therefore, we are using some latitude in this defining of parts, as we take this to mean nothing else than the different actions consequent to each other and which come together in justifying faith' (... *sciendum, cum fides non sit totum vel integrale vel essenziale, nec partes ipsi tales adsignari, ideoque in quadam latitudine utimur hoc partium termino, nihil aliud intelligentes, quam diversos actus se invicem consequentes & in fide justificante concurrentes*) (my translation).

concept of saving faith implicates the intellect *and* the will. He posits an *individuus nexus* (indivisible bond) between faith and its knowledge (*Loci* 16, § 69, sect. 1) primarily because Scripture does not make such a distinction, nor does it divide the intellect and the will but 'attributes to the heart both *notitiam* and *fiduciam* and their affects' (§ 75; especially in Hebrew culture, see again § 75; see also § 137, sect. 1). Indeed, Scripture is even supported by philosophy in this. Gerhard reminds his opponents of what the astute philosopher Scaliger wrote regarding the *essential* unity of the intellect and the will and the fact that the will is simply an 'extension' of the intellect taking possession of what the intellect knows (*Loci* 16, § 75).⁵¹ They are of the same essence and, therefore, it can be legitimately said that faith exists in *both* the intellect and the will. In other words, although Gerhard uses the three-fold definition liberally throughout the *locus* in order to engage in the ongoing ecumenical conversation about faith, he intends no chronological or phenomenological separation or succession between the three components, but uses it only as a logical way of explaining and analyzing what happens in the single psychological faith-event (Wallmann 1961:36, 104, 117; Vaahtoranta 1998:215, 218; cf. Nieten 2003:58).⁵²

3.3.1.2 Common Misunderstandings about Gerhard's Concept of Theologia

At this point, it behooves us to examine three modern misunderstandings that would jeopardize the unity of Gerhard's concept of faith. The first would insert the modern concept of objective-subjective theology into Gerhard's thinking, the second would equate Gerhard's *theologia* with un-illuminated 'historical faith,' and the third would equate it with 'natural knowledge.'

The first error is often derived from the two-fold definition of *theologia* (as *doctrina* and *habitus*). Wallmann (1961:68–70, 134–135) emphatically points out that this must *not* be interpreted according to the modern schema of a separation between "objective" and "subjective" theology. He contends that that framework of thought originates from the likes of Johann Salomo Semler in the eighteenth century.

51 'The will is the extension of the intellect to have or to do what it knows ... We say that the intellect and the will are not accidents, nor absolutes, nor relatives, nor do they actually differ from each other as the common people say, nor does either differ from the essence of the soul ... So also, soul, intellect, and will are one thing. The soul speaks of an essence. This intellect is that very essence, when it apprehends [something]. The will is the same thing, because that essence apprehends and extends itself in order to take possession of that thing which it has come to know.' (*Voluntas est intellectus extensus ad habendum aut faciendum, quod cognoscit ... Dicimus intellectum & voluntatem non esse accidentia, neque absoluta, neque relativa, neque realiter, ut vulgo loquuntur, differe a se invicem, neque utrumvis ab essentia animae ... dio una res, anima, intellectus, voluntas. Anima tamen essentiam dicit, intellectus ea est ipsa essential, ut apprehendit; voluntas est idem, quod illa essentia intelligens atque extendens sese ad illam rem cognitam potiundam.*) (I have made some minor revisions to Dinda's translation.)

52 It is in this sense that the Cotta edition of the *Loci theologici* (*Loci* 16) labels paragraphs 65–109 as *De fide justificante ejusque partibus*. All are part and parcel of justifying faith.

ry.⁵³ Such a schema tends to see objective theology as fixed content separated from and external to the inquiring person. However, in Gerhard's mind, firmly rooted in Aristotelian thought, there is not nearly as much difference between the two descriptions of *theologia* as one might presume today. In an Aristotelian context where the mind is measured by the perceived thing (and not vice versa!), as the mind extracts the *forma* from the *materia*, the resulting knowing or learning [*Erkennen*] happens in the mind and there exists a certain identicalness between that knowing or learning and the thing known (Häggglund 1951:42–43). Similarly, as the mind extracts or 'builds up' (*exstructa*) *doctrina* from Scripture, the resulting *doctrina* happens in the mind and there exists a certain identicalness between that theological learning and Scripture. Notice that *doctrina*, in the actual process of being 'built up' from Scripture, is a phenomenon that happens in the person's mind. For that reason, Wallmann (1961:62–63; 68–70) describes Gerhard's concept of *doctrina* as the 'state of learning/erudition [*Erkenntnis*] which follows from the act of teaching' and prefers to interpret *doctrina* as 'learning' or 'erudition' (*Gelehrsamkeit*) rather than use the modern terms 'doctrine' or 'teaching,' which imply a permanent separation from the person doing theology.⁵⁴ The goal of modern theology to 'move' from objective to subjective faith posits a separation between the *notitia fidei* (faith-knowledge) and the *fides justificans* (i.e., *fiducia*), the former being static and ultimately accomplished by the person rather than by God. These ideas are completely foreign to Gerhard, who can talk so readily of *theologia* as a *doctrina fidei* by which one is instructed in *fide vera* for salvation (*Prooemium*, §§ 8, 31).

Regarding the second misunderstanding, an analysis of the psychological faith-event does allow for a certain sequential consideration of faith, such that *notitia* (and *assensus*) precedes logically (albeit atemporally) *fiducia*.⁵⁵ And, thus, Gerhard does occasionally refer to *notitia* and *assensus* as 'historical faith' (*fides historica*)⁵⁶ and, at times, can even say that, although *fiducia* requires historical

53 This modern distinction is different than, yet can be traced back to, the distinction between *fides quae creditur* and *fides qua creditur*. For the history of this distinction, see Pelikan (1950:97).

54 One possible way of pinpointing the subtle differences between Gerhard's concept of *doctrina* and its contemporary usage today is to compare the expressions 'to do theology' and 'to do doctrine.' The latter sounds strange to the modern ear because doctrine nowadays is not to be 'done.' Of course, Gerhard used neither, but in light of his concept of *doctrina*, he would have been able to use either one interchangeably. See Wallmann's similar comments with regard to 'doctrine' and 'dogmatics' (1961:62–63).

55 We see this already in Melancthon: 'Faith and hope differ because faith also signifies knowledge and then confidence in the will as it receives a present blessing, namely, the forgiveness of sins' (*Differunt fides et spes, quia fides et noticiam significant, et deinde fiduciam in voluntate accipiente praesens beneficium scilicet, remissionem peccatorum*) (*Erotemata dialectices*, CR, vol. 13, p. 539; emphasis added)

56 'Historical faith is that by which we believe that those things which are revealed in the Word of God are true' (*Fides historica est, qua credimus, vera esse, quae in verbo DEI revelata sunt*) (*Loci* 16, § 110).

faith (it would be impossible to trust in unknown promises), historical faith can exist without *fiducia* (e.g., in the case of biblically literate 'hypocrites') (e.g., *Loci* 16, §§ 80, 110; *Tractatus*, § 54; *Methodus*, part 1, ch. 2; *Exegesis* 1, *De scriptura sacra*, § 435). As mentioned earlier, however, Gerhard clearly indicates in the *Tractatus* (§ 54) that such a 'historical faith' remains un-illuminated and, therefore, is completely separate from faith as we are talking about it here. As far as I know, Gerhard gives no indication that such un-illuminated 'historical faith' is somehow a first 'stepping stone' in justifying faith. It also seems that Gerhard tends to use the specific term 'historical faith' in a derogatory manner denoting an un-illuminated, surface knowledge of Scripture (as in the case of the references cited above).⁵⁷ In any case, this un-illuminated 'historical faith' is not at all what Gerhard has in mind when he equates the *habitus* θεόδοτος of *theologia* with faith. *Notitia* and *assensus* are wholly incomplete without *fiducia*.⁵⁸ On the other hand, *fiducia*, for its part, cannot exist without *notitia* and *assensus*. Hence, two scenarios are disallowed according to Gerhard: Faith-knowledge (*notitia* and *assensus*) without trust (*fiducia*) and trust without faith-knowledge. The first is impossible because it is unbiblical, that is, it would entail hypocrisy. The second is impossible because it is unbiblical and illogical, that is, trust requires an object (i.e., promise). Neither scenario epitomizes Gerhard's concept of *theologia*.

Such a distinction between 'un-illuminated' knowledge and 'illuminated' knowledge might lead one to accuse Gerhard of falling into the trap of 'double truth,' that is, the contention that rational (un-illuminated) knowledge necessarily contradicts spiritual (illuminated) knowledge. Since the rejection of Hofmann's extreme position on this question at the turn of the century (1598–1601), all parties involved in the conversation were leery of any talk of 'double truth' (see above ch. 2). And, in fact, Gerhard had already published in 1605 a disputation *De vero* critically responding to Hofmann's ideas in this regard (Fischer [1723] 2010:46). Two decades later the question continued, albeit in the form of a more nuanced conversation revolving around the question of the value and truth of a knowledge of God acquired naturally by way of reason (i.e., 'natural knowledge' of God). Those (e.g., Cramer) who favored *theologia* as faith-*praxis* tended to view rather negatively this naturally acquired knowledge of God, while those (e.g., Calixt) who favored *theologia* as an academic discipline tended to view it more positively (Friedrich 2004:295–300). Although a detailed study of Gerhard's position in relation to these extremes is beyond the purview of the present study, suffice it to say that Gerhard insists that such natural knowledge, both innate

57 This tends to be the case. There are exceptions, such as when Gerhard refers to 'historic faith' as the knowledge of the threats of the law portrayed in certain biblical stories. The terrors caused by such stories are 'forerunners of justification because God first kills and then brings to life' (*Loci* 16, § 134).

58 'Historical knowledge does not yet complete justifying faith but must achieve confident apprehension and the special application of the promises of the Gospel ...' (*Notitia enim illa historica nondum absolvit fidem justificantem, sed oportet accedere fiduciam apprehensionem et specialem promissionum evangelicarum applicationem* ...) (*Loci* 16, § 75).

and acquired, exists (*Exegesis 2, De natura Dei*, §§ 65–80) and that it has specific uses for both those outside and those inside the church (§ 88). Such knowledge drives the heathen to seek God, live in peace with their neighbors, and leaves them without excuse for failing to truly glorify God. Those in the church, however, must carefully ‘cultivate’ (*excolare*) such knowledge, all the while realizing how imperfect it is in comparison to revealed knowledge and considering it subordinate to that same revealed knowledge.⁵⁹ Gerhard, then, views natural knowledge with a certain optimism, but tempered with pronounced caution. It is not necessarily *opposed* to revealed knowledge because some things revealed in Scripture can also be known rationally (e.g., God’s existence), but it is necessarily *imperfect* in two important ways. First, it is limited because some things (i.e., mysteries of the faith) are simply ‘set beyond the grasp of human reason’ (*Exegesis 2, § 80, point 2*) and, secondly, it is corrupt because the human mind is depraved since the fall into sin (*Exegesis 2, § 80, point 5*). This imperfection renders it absolutely insufficient for salvation (*Exegesis 2, §§ 81–85*). Furthermore, that corruption inclines the human mind to abuse what limited capacity it still possesses, so that human reason refuses to remain subordinate to revealed knowledge and attempts to form arguments against the truth revealed in Scripture (*Exegesis 2, § 88; cf. Methodus, part 2, section 2, intro.*). But to do so is an illegitimate move, Gerhard argues, for ‘faith itself is not knowledge drawn from the principles of reason but is a spiritual light kindled by the Holy Spirit’ (*Exegesis 2, § 80, point 2*).⁶⁰ With these words, Gerhard sets up a distinction between natural knowledge and revealed knowledge, not just in terms of content, but especially in regard to how one goes about acquiring them. The former we know (*scire*) by reason and the latter we believe (*credere*) by revelation (via illumination).

This is similar to the language used in the *Prooemium* to describe *theologia* (§§ 8, 17, 23) and, indeed, Gerhard insists also in this context that such an abuse (i.e., pitting rational arguments against revealed truths) is ‘preposterous’ because it commits an illegitimate ‘crossing over into another genus’ (μετάβασις εἰς ἄλλο γένος) (§ 24). Interestingly, Gerhard does systematically classify natural knowledge, called *theologia naturalis* (natural theology) in the *Prooemium*, under the heading of *theologia vera* (true theology) (§ 17). This would seem to reiterate what we have said above. He does not view natural knowledge as necessarily contradict-

59 ‘With respect to us who are in the church and who rejoice in the knowledge revealed in the Word, the true, salutary use of natural knowledge consists in this: that we not consider it as an indifferent matter but cultivate it carefully and meanwhile recognize its imperfection by comparing it with revealed knowledge and determine that it should be subordinated to revealed knowledge’ (*Respectu nostril, qui sumus membra ecclesiae et revelata in verbo notitia gaudemus, verus et salutaris notitiae naturalis usus in eo consistit, ut eam non susque deque habeamus, sed diligenter excolamus, interim tamen imperfectionem ejusdem ex collatione cum revelata agnoscamus ac revelatae notitiae eandem subordinari debere statuamus*) (*Exegesis 2, § 88*).

60 ... siquidem e et scimus propter rationis demonstrationem et credimus propter Spiritus sancti revelationem. Ipsa quidem fides non est scientia ex rationis principiis hausta, sed spiritualis lux a Spiritu s. accensa

ing revealed knowledge of faith and, as such, avoids the trap of 'double truth.' In this regard, he views natural knowledge rather optimistically as true and good. However, at the same time, as indicated earlier, Gerhard is quick to point out that that natural theology is limited and, since the fall, inexorably corrupted. And this seems to be enough for Gerhard to promptly lay aside any further discussion of it and to concentrate his attention solely on *theologia supernaturalis* (supernatural theology) which arises 'from the light of grace revealed in the Word' (*Prooemium*, § 17). It should be emphasized here that Gerhard considers *theologia supernaturalis* as distinct from *theologia naturalis* not only because they are derived from distinct principles, but also because they require distinct cognitive operations (*scire* versus *credere*; cf. § 8). Scripture is not only principle of *theologia supernaturalis*, but also means of grace. Hence, any synthesis of the two is inherently disallowed. Gerhard's description of *theologia* in the *Prooemium*, then, is exclusively that of *theologia supernaturalis* because, for Gerhard, *theologia* is essentially faith.

And this allows us to dismiss the third misunderstanding about Gerhard's concept of *theologia*. He does not view natural knowledge, in any of its manifestations, as a first 'stepping stone' in the theological operation or as any essential part of *theologia*.⁶¹ It cannot be, for only *theologia supernaturalis* is saving knowledge or what we have called 'faith-knowledge' (*Prooemium*, § 31).⁶² For Gerhard, then, faith-knowledge is exactly that – the *notitia* (and *assensus*) that, along with *fiducia*, is simultaneously part and parcel of the single psychological faith-event.

3.3.2 *Theologia* and *Pietas*

Thus far we have examined Gerhard's concept of *theologia* from *within* as faith. But, of course, if *theologia* is faith (albeit with emphasis on faith-knowledge), then *theologia* must be *practica* because faith is always active in pious practice. Therefore, it remains now for us to explore it *from without*, that is, to consider *theologia* as it relates to its practical end: *Pietas* (see ch. 4).

61 Gerhard does underscore the important role that certain external tools, such as the learning of languages and philosophy (*Methodus*, part 2, sect. 1–2) as well as certain exercises of piety involving natural knowledge (*Schola pietatis*, vol. 2, ch. 7; Gerhard [1622] 2013b:71–73), can play in the study of *theologia*. Nonetheless, these tools are clearly auxiliary rather than essential elements of *theologia*.

62 Gerhard's idea of 'saving knowledge' is much wider than what we might think of today and includes, for example, God's very essence. God has revealed himself as Father, Son, and Holy Spirit. Such knowledge of the Trinity is not available via natural theology and is salutary because without such knowledge, there is no Son, and without the Son, there is no salvation (see overview of theses 8–15 in *Aphorismi succincti et selecti*, ch. 1; see also *Exegesis* 2, § 82).

3.3.2.1 *The Interrelation of Theologia and Pietas*

In a dedicatory epistle to Dorothy Sophia and Anna Maria in the second volume of his *Schola pietatis* (1622), Gerhard clearly lays out the appropriate relation between faith and piety (Gerhard [1622] 2013b:9–18). The letter is particularly relevant to our present study not only because of its content, but also because of its context.⁶³ Dorothy Sophia was Princess-Abbess of Quedlinburg (1618–1645), Gerhard's hometown and one of the villages involved in the controversy between Andreas Cramer, former rector of the school in Quedlinburg (1606–1613), and Johannes Kotzebue, his immediate successor at the same school until his dismissal a few years later (1613–1620). Both were currently serving as pastors in Magdeburg. As pointed out earlier (ch. 2), that controversy came to the fore in a disputation held on November 20, 1622, during which the question of the nature of *theologia* was strongly contested. In the tense setting leading up to the controversy, a scant month before, on October 17, Gerhard published this dedicatory epistle in an apparent attempt to address the issue at stake. The dispute followed the lines presented earlier between *theologia* as an academic discipline (and, hence, identified as an intellectual *habitus*) and *theologia* as faith-*praxis* (i.e., *pietas*). Gerhard's letter strikes a well-balanced 'harmony' between the extremes of 'pure doctrine' (emphasized by Kotzebue, Evenius, and the academic theologians) and 'true godliness' (emphasized by Cramer and the pastors who viewed *theologia* as faith-*praxis*).⁶⁴ Nowhere in the letter does Gerhard mention *theologia*, but the way in which he describes faith (e.g., knowledge, wisdom) and relates the two sides allows us to draw some important conclusions about his concept of *theologia* and its relation to *pietas*.

On the one side, Gerhard underscores the importance of 'true faith.' In typical fashion, he describes the accepted three-fold definition of faith; however, in a strikingly familiar way he emphasizes particularly *notitia* (i.e., 'faith-knowledge') in the ensuing pages and calls attention especially to the need for 'pure doctrine,' quoting some twenty Bible passages to support his argument (Gerhard [1622] 2013b:11–14).⁶⁵ On the other side, the Jena professor underscores the importance of 'true godliness' and supports this by again quoting a series of some twenty Bible passages (pp. 14–16).⁶⁶ The first refutes those who would see *theologia* as merely concerned with faith-*praxis*, for 'it is a totally useless, mad delusion what many people think;

63 See above, ch. 2, for a detailed description of the inter-Lutheran *habitus* controversy and its connection to Quedlinburg.

64 Gerhard does not directly reference the controversy in the letter; nonetheless, the parallels are striking and it is hard to imagine that Gerhard would remain ignorant or aloof of the situation. Further research will have to ascertain the extent and nature of the precise historical relation between the letter and the context at Quedlinburg.

65 His list of Bible passages includes: Mt 7:15; Jn 10:7–8, 27, 5; Ac 20:28–29; Rm 16:17–18; 2 Cor 11:2–3; Gal 3:1; Eph 4:14; Phlp 3:2; 1 Th 5:20, etc.

66 The list of Bible passages again includes: Mt 7:21; Lk 6:46; Jn 13:17, 35; 14:15; 15:14; Rm 8:12–15; 2 Cor 5:17; Gal 5:6, 24; 2 Tm 6:8; 2 Tm 3:5, etc.

namely that it is sufficient for one to busy himself with godliness and good works, even though he does not concern himself much about purity of doctrine ...' (pp. 13–14). The second reprimands those who would see *theologia* as merely an academic discipline, for 'it is useless if a person wants to boast about pure doctrine and proper faith but does not show this by works and instead with his pure faith wants to knowingly lead an unholy, unclean, sinful life' (p. 14). Both parts – pure doctrine and zeal for godliness – are part of 'genuine Christianity' (p. 16). Gerhard then closes with a pointed admonition directed at those who have been called to the 'teaching ministry' of the Church (i.e., seemingly academic theologians and pastors). They must protect their people from the errors of both false teaching and godless living, so that those people might be saved through faith, for that 'very same faith is a confession of the truth for godliness in the hope of eternal life (Tit. 1:1)' (p. 16). The address to the teachers of the church as well as the closing reference to Titus (cf. *Prooemium*, § 5) lead one to surmise that Gerhard is referring expressly to the ongoing dispute about *theologia*.⁶⁷

Of particular interest is the 'connection' Gerhard establishes between 'pure doctrine' (faith-knowledge) and 'true godliness' (faith-*praxis*). That connection is nothing other than *fiducia*. In fact, such fiducial trust 'has no status' without it being exercised in godliness and a supposed godliness without true knowledge also 'has no status' (Gerhard [1622] 2013b:11).⁶⁸ One begins to see the inherent interrelation that Gerhard posits between the two 'poles' within the Christian life – knowledge and piety (and their related affiliations to the intellect and the will).

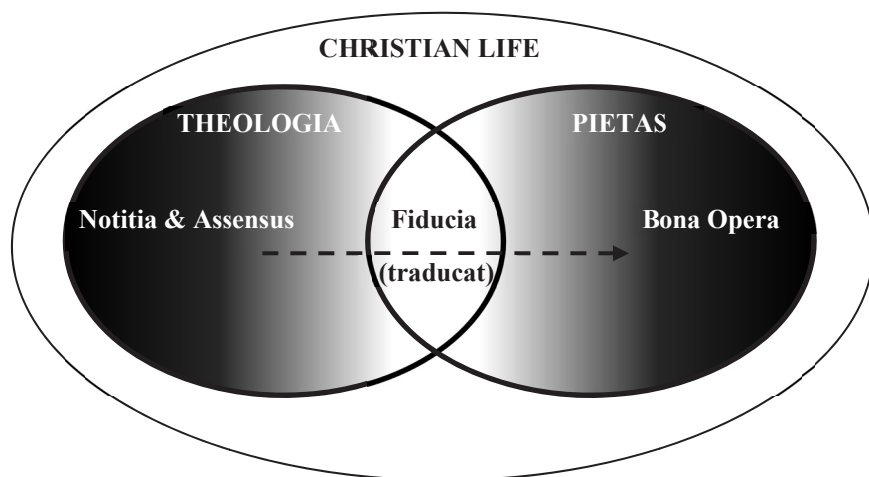
When we consider Gerhard's comments here, coupled with what we have learned above about Gerhard's concepts of faith and piety (see ch. 4), a picture begins to emerge of two conceptual spheres – *theologia* and *pietas* – distinct, yet overlapping, whose point of overlap encompasses *fiducia*. I have attempted to diagram this picture in order to illustrate and better understanding not only the distinct concepts themselves, but also their necessary interrelation (see Figure 2).⁶⁹

67 See similar language and a similar use of Titus 1:1 in the introduction to *Schola pietatis*, vol. 1 (Gerhard [1622] 2013a:11–14).

68 This passage immediately follows Gerhard's three-fold description of faith. It reads in full: 'Such believing trust and accompanying confidence has no status without an accompanying, dutiful exercise [of it]. On the other hand, such an accompanying, dutiful committal has no status without knowledge and wisdom.'

69 Of course, I am well aware that any attempt to diagram such complex notions as these will be inevitably over-simplistic and prone to misunderstanding. With regard to this diagram, then, a few clarifications are in order. First, the darker shades do *not* indicate the degree of theological importance in Gerhard's thinking. The Lutheran (and Protestant) insistence on justification gave *fiducia* a place of prominence in all theological conversations since the Reformation. Secondly, the diagram portrays an admittedly over-simplified sketch of Gerhard's concept of *pietas*. It does not attempt to lay out the complexity of *pietas* as Gerhard understood it, nor the movement from saving faith to actual external good works (for such an explanation, see Hupfeld 1908:87–167, 199–204). For example, according to Gerhard, *pietas* (at least in the wide sense that we adopt here) also encompasses contrition and repentance which precede *fiducia* (see, e.g., *Schola pietatis*,

Figure 2: Relation of Gerhard's Concepts of *Theologia* and *Pietas* (darker shades indicate emphasis within the concept)



We have spent a good deal of time thus far establishing the inherent, close relation in Gerhard's mind between knowledge, faith, and piety and have underscored the interrelation between the intellect and the will emphasizing Scripture as simultaneously principle of theology and means of grace. Notwithstanding, at this point, it is helpful to once again reiterate that Gerhard does not equate *theologia* with *pietas*. As mentioned earlier, this is an important point because it differentiates him from Cramer and others who insisted that this was indeed the case. Rather, he presents them as unequivocally *distinct* conceptually and theologically, though never *separate* phenomenologically, that is, as they are carried out and experienced. The diagram attempts to illustrate this distinctness by way of two distinct spheres set within the larger sphere of 'Christian life' (see Figure 2).

Let us look at them individually first before analyzing the relation between them. Because of modern dichotomist tendencies, it would seem preferable to speak of Gerhard's concept of *theologia* as a matter of *emphasis* or *focus* within

vol. 2, part 2, ch. 1–7; see also ch. 4). This is not reflected in the diagram, but would be considered a necessary part of the 'transfer' (*traducat*). Thirdly, the purpose here is not to relegate doctrine and piety to two separate fields, one academic and the other pastoral. This modern dichotomistic thought is not of Gerhard (see ch. 4). Fourthly, the diagram's 'movement' from left to right reflects a logical (and theological) relation and sequence and not a chronological progression. Chronologically, *notitia*, *assensus*, and *fiducia* happen simultaneously as a single faith event and *fiducia* immediately bears fruit through good works. Finally, the diagram is inevitably static and fails to capture the dynamic life of the theologian (i.e., every Christian) as he or she 'engages' in *theologia*, not just once, but as a repeated continuous process.

the single faith-event, than to talk of distinct 'parts' of faith. In fact, one wonders if Gerhard refrains from directly describing *theologia* as *notitia* and *assensus* precisely for this very reason. In any case, he seems to follow the 'theological rule' that when speaking of faith, sometimes Scripture emphasizes knowledge and, at other times, trust (*Loci* 16, § 67). Gerhard's concept of *theologia* places greater emphasis on the knowledge aspect of faith and less emphasis on trust (hence the darker shaded area within the conceptual sphere of *theologia*; see Figure 2).

Similarly, Gerhard's concept of *pietas* has been described as a 'unified summary of the activities of the will' (*einheitliche Willensbetätigungszusammengefaßt* [sic]) (Hupfeld 1908:9). As seen in chapter four, it includes *fiducia* but is focused especially on good works, that is, on the external actions produced by the reborn and visible to others (*Loci* 17, *De bonis operibus*, § 2) and Gerhard evidently views these visible actions as the apex of piety in the first volume of *Schola pietatis* ([1622] 2013a:19–20).⁷⁰ This is the case because saving faith cannot be without works, which are its necessary and immediate fruit, for faith without works is dead (*Loci* 17, §§ 21–23; 16, § 29, sect. 5; cf. Vaahtoranta 1998:268–285; Nieden 2003:63). For Gerhard, then, *pietas*, as the living out of saving faith, places greater emphasis on visible good works (hence the darker shaded area within the conceptual sphere of *pietas*; see Figure 2).

The diagram of Figure 2 also illustrates the two ends or goals of *theologia*. Good works, in effect, are the 'principal and highest end' of *theologia* because they are the 'glorification of God' (*Prooemium*, § 26; *Loci* 17, § 20). Theological knowledge is communicated to people so that they may worship God and invoke him in this world and the next. This is the life of piety. There is also an 'immediate and proximate end' – salvation. As the Jena theologian points out, the proper effect of *theologia* is that people are made 'wise unto salvation (2 Tim 3:15)' (*Prooemium*, § 27). Fiducial trust in Jesus Christ as our mediator is salvation. Any knowledge that does not lead to this is ματαιολογία (vain discussion) and not θεολογία (*Prooemium*, § 26).

At this point, then, we must reiterate that the emphasis (darker shades; see Figure 2) is one of conceptual focus and *not* theological importance. For Gerhard, following in the footsteps of the first reformers, would argue that *fiducia* is of paramount importance in the Christian life (Hupfeld 1908:205). In other words, al-

70 A survey of the five volumes of Gerhard's *Schola pietatis* seems to support this contention. Volume one defines godliness (i.e., *pietas*) and explains various motivations for pursuing it. Volume two describes the five 'auxiliary means' that one should make use of in pursuing that godliness and lays out the 'necessary parts' of it (repentance, true faith, and new obedience). This volume is essentially concerned with what we have called here the 'transfer' (*traducat*) from head to heart and the path that 'transfer' takes (this is also a common concern of *theologia*, see below). The remaining three volumes, however, treat the 'new obedience' according to the ten commandments – volume three treats the first table and volumes four and five treat the second table of the law. Of course, 'true faith' is absolutely essential and foundational, but the emphasis, again, appears to be on the 'new obedience' (good works).

though less emphasized within the respective conceptual understandings (and explications) of *theologia* and *pietas*, *fiducia* is of central importance in their phenomenological implementation (hence its central position in the diagram). Separating *fiducia* from ‘faith-knowledge’ is as illegitimate as separating it from ‘faith-praxis.’ *Theologia* presumes the simultaneous presence of *fiducia* as its necessary end (*Prooemium*, §§ 12, 31). *Pietas* presumes the simultaneous presence of *fiducia* as its necessary form and font (*Loci* 17, § 18; *Schola pietatis*, vol. 1, Gerhard [1622] 2013a:10–11). Consequently, as the Jena professor wrote in his dedicatory epistle to Dorothy Sophia and Anna Maria, both *theologia* and *pietas* necessarily implicate each other in their very implementation, such that any attempt at *theologia* without *pietas* is ‘useless’ and any attempt at *pietas* without *theologia* is a ‘delusion’ (*Schola pietatis*, vol. 1, Gerhard [1622] 2013b:13–14; cf. Niden 2003:61–62, 69). True saving theological knowledge naturally gives rise to the pious life and the pious life requires that very theological knowledge. In retrospect, Gerhard has distinguished himself from those who would equate *theologia* with faith and *pietas*, but done so in a manner that leaves the two necessarily and simultaneously conjoined, and, in so doing, also succeeds in setting himself apart from those who would erect sharp boundaries between them.

3.3.2.2 The ‘Transfer’ From Head to Heart

The challenge now that *theologia* was no longer identical with *pietas* was effecting the ‘transfer’ from head to heart and ultimately to the pious life of good works.⁷¹ Because the two are still conjoined, Gerhard’s definition of *theologia* in the *Prooemium* addresses this challenge, and not just for others (*allo-praxis*), but especially for the self (*auto-praxis*). The purpose (or result) of the Holy Spirit’s work on the mind through the *habitus* θεόδοτος is that the theologian seamlessly ‘transfer’ (cf. ‘traducat’ in Figure 2) that understanding into the *affectus cordis* (affection of the heart) ‘in a salutary way’ (*Prooemium*, § 31). Melancthon had defined the *affectus cordis* as ‘movements’ of the heart, aroused by knowledge, that cause the heart to pursue or flee something (*Erotemata dialectices*, CR, vol. 13, p. 543).⁷² As we learned earlier, in Aristotelian psychology, the affections are a subpart of the will,

71 This concern was not unique to Gerhard. Sträter (2000:16–17) points out that similar questions and complaints about the lack of ‘transfer’ from intellect to will were exceedingly common in Lutheran pastoral and theological writings of the seventeenth century. See Muller (2003:105–121) for a similar concern among Reformed theologians.

72 ‘But the affections of the heart are the impulses which follow knowledge. Because of those impulses, aroused as they have been by knowledge, the heart either pursues or flees the objects. Those impulses always accompany the ultimate affections – pleasure, when the heart takes pleasure in the object and is sweetly influenced thereby, or pain, when the contrary occurs’ (*Sed affectus cordis sunt motus sequentes cognitionem, et excitati cognitione, quibus cor aut prosequitur aut fugit objecta, et quos semper comitantur ultimi affectus, delectatio, cum cor fruitur objecto, et suaviter afficitur, aut dolor, cum contrarium accidit*).

and works of piety, that is, virtues, are also seated in the will (see ch. 1). Gerhard, then, is here concerned with the 'transfer' from intellect to will. In other words, true *theologia* is focused on *notitia* and *assensus* in the intellect, but is only properly and legitimately carried out if it results in pious *praxis*, which, of course, involves a prior change in the affections of the heart (i.e., will), including especially *fiducia* (note the use of *salutariter*). Figure 2 attempts to illustrate this concern of Gerhard's by a dashed arrow extending from 'faith-knowledge' to 'faith-praxis' – the two 'poles' of the Christian life.

And we are talking here about the whole Christian life. When Gerhard speaks of *theologia* and its related 'transfer,' he is not really thinking of conversion. *Theologia* obviously presumes *regeneratio* (rebirth) since, in Gerhard's mind, a *theologia non renatorum* is unthinkable. As Vaahtoranta (1998:212–267) has astutely suggested, Gerhard's three-fold definition of *notitia*, *assensus*, and *fiducia* depicts faith as a psychologically and empirically ascertainable quality within the person that presupposes a prior (logically, not chronologically) atemporal, non-empirical mystical union (*unio spiritualis*) between the person and Jesus Christ (see above this chapter). The former is considered part of *renovatio* (renewal) and stems (logically, not chronologically) from the latter which is considered part of *regeneratio* (rebirth) (Vaahtoranta 1998:224–242). When speaking of *theologia* as a *habitus* and associating it with *notitia* and *assensus* (which are never separate from *fiducia*), Gerhard has relegated it to the domain of an internal quality within the theologian and, therefore, to the realm of *renovatio* and the continuous life of sanctification. He is assuming that only a Christian who is in *unio spiritualis* with Christ will be about the theological enterprise. Far from a one-time event with a definite beginning and end (like conversion), Gerhard envisions the life of the theologian as a dynamic helical growing process of continually undergoing (suffering) *theologia* which, in turn, necessarily entails the 'transfer' to the pious life and the cycle is unceasingly repeated.

The way in which the theologian effects the 'transfer' necessarily involves the 'carrying out' of *theologia*. That will be addressed more fully below when we investigate Gerhard's advice regarding the study of *theologia* (see ch. 6). Nonetheless, a few points might be highlighted here. First, all that we have said above about the essential unity of the intellect and the will, as well as the unity of the single faith-event, must also be brought to bear on this topic. Secondly, it is helpful to note that according to Melancthon's definition of *affectus* (see above), some sort of prior knowledge is required to *arouse* the movements of the heart. According to Jena professor, it is the knowledge of the divine mysteries that inherently moves the theologian's heart and brings about the pious life – the reason for which *theologia* is mostly *practica*.

And, finally, as we pointed out earlier (ch. 4), the language found here in Gerhard's final definition is borrowed largely from a passage in Jean Gerson's *De consolatione theologiae* quoted earlier in the *Prooemium* (§ 12) as the final conclud-

ing argument for the practical nature of *theologia*. The significance of this passage for Gerhard's understanding of *theologia* is underscored by the number of times he either quotes or references it when treating the topic of *theologia* (e.g., *Prooemium*, §§ 12, 31; *Tractatus*, § 223; the dedicatory epistle to Balthasar in *Aphorismi Succuncti et Selecti*, 1611a, p. 11; *Methodus*, part 1, ch. 2). In each case, he uses the Gerson quote to support the contention that *theologia* is not simply a learning of the intellect alone, but a learning that reaches into the affections of the heart. In this way, the theologian might 'transfer [*traducat*] those things he understands by theology through *continual rumination* to the affection of the heart and the carrying out of [good] works' (*Prooemium*, § 12).⁷³ With these words, Gerhard not only introduces the idea of 'transfer,' but also alludes to the way in which that 'transfer' might happen – through 'continual rumination' (*per judem ruminationem*). *Ruminatio* was a technical term expressing an ancient form of monastic meditation whereby one internalizes and appropriates the Word of God through constant, repetitive, and often oral reading, recalling, and contemplating of the biblical texts (Nicol 1991:55–56; Leclercq 1982:72–73).⁷⁴ Taken from an allegorical interpretation of Leviticus 11:3 and Deuteronomy 8:2–3, the image is that of an animal repeatedly chewing its cud. Gerhard refers to this explicitly in his instructions regarding the 'auxiliary means' that help a person in the exercise of piety: The Word of God is to 'be chewed up and digested through contemplation so that it consequently becomes distributed throughout all the veins of the inward man' (*Schola pietatis*, vol. 2, part 1, ch. 5, p. 61).⁷⁵ Hence, the 'transfer,' like the instruction in the divine mysteries, is steeped in Scripture. This should come as no surprise, since that very written Word of God is both principle of *theologia* (illuminates the mind) as well as means of grace (moves the affections and the will) (*Exegesis* 1, *De scriptura sacra*, § 435; *Methodus*, part 1, ch. 3, p. 24).

3.4 '... sed etiam aptus et expeditus redditur ... informandi ... vindicandi'

We have already spent some time above examining the significance of that peculiar phrase '*aptus et expeditus redditur*' and how it provides a firm *auto-oriented* foun-

73 ... ut ea, quae per theologiam intelligit, traducat per jugem ruminationem in affectum cordis et executionem operis (my translation, emphasis added). For a justification for the translation of 'executionem operis' see above ch. 4, fn. 16.

74 Leclercq (1982:71–88) contrasts the reading of Scripture for intellectual disputation with that for affective meditation. The latter often takes the form of *ruminatio*.

75 For Gerhard's use of *ruminatio* in the practice of meditation and contemplation, see Steiger (2000:47), Hägglund (1998:28–30), and Koch (1987:36). It seems Gerhard was heavily influenced by Luther in this regard. For the role of *ruminatio* in the meditation advice offered by Luther, see Kleinig (1986:142–146) and also Nicol (1991:57–60). Part of Luther's commentary on Deuteronomy 14:1 reads: 'To chew the cud, however, is to receive the word affectively (*cum affectu verbum suscipere*) and meditate with supreme diligence so that (according to the proverb) one does not permit it to go in one ear and out of the other, but holds it firmly in the heart, swallows it, and absorbs it into the intestines' (translated and cited by Kleinig 1986:144).

dation for an otherwise *allo*-oriented part of Gerhard's definition that is focused on informing others about the way of salvation and freeing the truth from corruption (see Figure 1, Part 2). It behooves us to step back and take another look to see the relation between the actions of *informandi* and *vindicandi* and the rest of Gerhard's definition.

One notices immediately that Gerhard's definition appears a bit unwieldy especially when compared to that of others (see above definitions of later theologians). This is so because, as Wallmann has pointed out (1961:44), Gerhard has very strategically incorporated into this one definition the three different meanings of *theologia* that he had underscored earlier in the *Prooemium*. The word *theologia* can be taken in the following ways:

- (1) As the Christian faith and religion that is common to all the faithful – learned and unlearned – so that whoever knows and assents to the articles of faith is called a 'theologian' (2) As the performance of the ecclesiastical ministry, and in this sense all ministers of the Word are called 'theologians.' (3) As the more accurate knowledge of the divine mysteries. In this way, those are called theologians who are able to establish divine truth fully and destroy the falsity opposed thereto (*Prooemium*, § 4)⁷⁶

Gerhard classifies these as homonyms (ὁμωνυμία, § 4) and emphasizes that they are not different types (*species*) of *theologia*, but only diverse meanings (*significationes*) of the same word. One might at first be tempted to dismiss these as separate meanings unrelated to one another; however, the parallels between them and Gerhard's final definition (§ 31; see Figure 1 above) are evidently more than coincidental: '*in divinatorum mysteriorum ... instruitur*' corresponds to *theologia* as the 'Christian faith and religion' that all believers possess regardless of their level of theological training; '*ac via salutis alios informandi*' conforms to *theologia* as ecclesiastical ministry carried out by the clergy;⁷⁷ '*ac coelestem veritatem ... vindicandi*' correlates to dogmaticians involved in the scholarly theological enterprise of defending the faith. The parallels would seem to indicate that Gerhard discerned three interrelated elements within the whole of *theologia*. In fact, Wallmann (1961:42–44) argues that they are simply different 'forms' of the same *theologia* and suggests that they differ only in their diverse realizations as they are carried out. He then proposes in passing that the three 'forms' of *theologia* be best viewed as three concentric circles.

76 ... 1. *pro fide et religione Christiana, quae omnibus fidelibus, doctis aequae ac indoctis communis est, ut sic theologi dicantur, quicunque norunt fidei articulos, usque assentiuntur* ... 2. *pro functione ministerii Ecclesiastici, quo sensu omnes ministri verbi dicuntur theologi*. 3. *pro accuratioris divinatorum mysteriorum cognitione, qua ratione theologi dicuntur, qui possunt veritatem divinam solide stabilire, eique oppositam falsitatem potenter destruere*

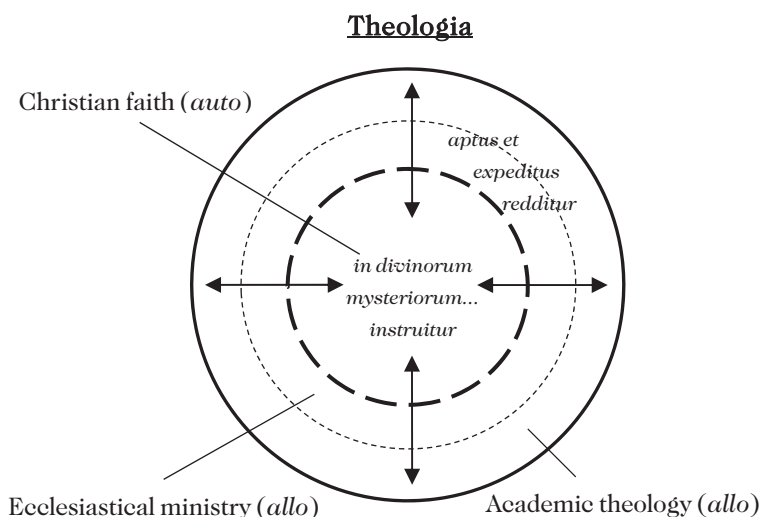
77 Wallmann (1961:37–41) makes the case that *informare* (informing, teaching) as used here refers specifically to the preaching office of the church.

Wallmann's (1961:44) insightful analysis of Gerhard's definition has proven to be exceedingly helpful. Notwithstanding, my partition of that definition varies slightly from that of Wallmann. He divides Gerhard's definition into three parts (not including the introductory clause: '*Theologia ... quo*') so he can arrange it around the three 'meanings' of *theologia*: Faith-knowledge, proclamation, and academic theology. It seems to make more sense grammatically, however, to divide it into two major parts as we have done (see Figure 1, Part 1 & Part 2). In this analysis, 'proclamation' (*informandi*) and 'academic theology' (*vindicandi*) both fall in Part 2 and are equally related to '*aptus et expeditus redditur*' and '*ut ... perducantur*.' As a result, I tend to conceptually keep together the actions of *informare* and *vindicare* because it seems Gerhard intends to do so with the '*ac ... ac*' construction. Keeping those two ideas together is furthermore supported by an analysis of Gerhard's advice regarding the 'application' step in sermon writing based on 2 Tm 3:16–17, which also conjoins 'teaching' and 'refuting' (*Methodus*, part 3, sect. 4, ch. 2, pp. 217–219; see below, ch. 6).

In any case, I arrive at conclusions similar to those of Wallmann and have found his suggested image of concentric circles a helpful summary of some of the conclusions we have drawn above. As such, I have attempted to diagram an adapted version of Wallmann's idea, adding in what I consider is Gerhard's intentional emphasis on the two orientations of *theologia* – *auto-praxis* and *allo-praxis* (see figure 3).

This image allows us to make several important concluding points about the in-

Figure 3: The interrelation of Gerhard's three 'forms' and two 'orientations' of *theologia* (adapted from Wallmann 1961:43–45)



terrelation between the personal and the professional/academic approaches to *theologia* and make mention of some potential misunderstandings.

First, as Gerhard clearly points out, all Christians, regardless of their level of theological education, are 'theologians.' This coincides well with the view that *theologia* is to be equated with faith. *Theologia*, then, can be and is carried out by every Christian (see the innermost circle of Figure 3). This claim is rejected by later generations (e.g., Calov) and even by many within Gerhard's own generation (e.g., Calixt, Meisner) who viewed *theologia* as an academic and professional discipline (cf. Appold 1998:51; Wallmann 1961:44). Of course, as pointed out earlier, Gerhard here underscores faith-knowledge (*norunt ... assentiuntur*), but this can never be separated from fiducial trust, for 'all the faithful' are theologians (*Prooemium*, § 4). Both the learned and the unlearned can engage in *theologia* because 'the greatest and most authoritative interpreter of Scripture is the Holy Spirit, who sets forth in appropriate and clear words in Scripture the dogmas of faith which are necessary to anyone for his salvation' (*Tractatus*, § 72).⁷⁸ Hence, Gerhard's understanding of the clarity of Scripture and the active role of the Holy Spirit in all human understanding of those Scriptures forms the basis for his contention that all Christians can (and do) possess the theological *habitus* which renders them 'suitable' to be instructed in the divine mysteries.⁷⁹

Secondly, one could mistakenly conclude that the layperson, the pastor, and the academic theologian are engaged in entirely different 'kinds' of *theologia*. In this mistaken view, the *theologia* of the layperson would be akin to faith(-knowledge), while the *theologia* of the academic theologian would be a different kind altogether, perhaps, for example, a purely academic discipline built upon faith, though separate from it (similar to the views held by Calixt, cf. Wallmann 1961:107–118). On the contrary, the rather hard and fast boundaries set up by later generations between 'theologian,' 'minister,' and 'Christian' are instead rather permeable in the view of Gerhard, who was a minister and superintendent for quite some time before accepting a professorial chair at the university level. This does not at all mean that Gerhard entertained a weakened view of the ministerial or professorial office and, in fact, should not even be interpreted in terms of occupation or role. But Gerhard does imply that all three are engaged *essentially* in the same theological operation, at least at a *fundamental* level. In other words, the *theologia* that the parish pastor or theology professor carries out is no different *in essence* than the *theologia* carried out by the ordinary Christian, though the particular

78 *Summum & authenticum Scripturae interpretem dicimus esse Spiritum Sanctum, qui dogmata fidei ad salutem cuiusvis scitu necessaria verbis propriis & perspicuis in Scriptura proponit*

79 With this one can immediately detect the origins of a potential tension between lay Christians and more educated pastors and academic theologians. That tension played a role in the 'professionalization' of theology and coincides with the *allo-praxis* shift in theology's orientation (cf. Nieden 2006:241–242; Sparr 1992:78). It is worth noting that Gerhard tempers this tension by establishing a certain synthesis between the *auto-* and *allo-*orientations of *theologia*. This warrants further study.

‘form’ (and ‘orientation’) of that *theologia* may vary depending on the respective circumstances and role of the theologian (Wallmann 1961:42, 44–45).⁸⁰ This means that all three are engaged in the same ‘process’ as illustrated in Figure 2 above and are similarly concerned about the necessary ‘transfer’ for the self first, and only then for the other. This corresponds well with Gerhard’s remarks elsewhere that ‘although faith’s knowledge has its own grades so that it is brighter or more clear in some people but is darker and weaker in others; nevertheless they do not vary their type more or less’ (*Loci* 16, § 69).⁸¹ In Figure 3 the lines separating the three concentric circles are somewhat porous (hence the dotted lines) to avoid this potential misunderstanding. This will become important in the next chapter in understanding Gerhard’s advice with regard to the study of *theologia*.

Thirdly and relatedly, according to Gerhard, the *auto*-orientation of *theologia* is foundational to its *allo*-orientation. Figure 3 clearly portrays this fundamentally important aspect of his definition. Whereas the inner circle does not include the outer circles (i.e., not every Christian is a pastor or academic theologian), the outer circles necessarily include the inner one (every pastor or academic theologian must have Christian faith). This supports our contention above that the habitual actualization of *instruere* is essentially how one is rendered apt and ready for any attempt at *informare* or *vindicare*. Of course, that instruction will vary in terms of degree, but not in terms of essence. And although it may be supplemented by training in other skills (e.g., homiletics, disputations), in its essence and at its foundation *theologia* remains God-given instruction in *divinorum mysteriorum cognitione per mentis illuminationem* regardless of the level or role of the theologian. Consequently, a pastor or university theologian without fiducial trust and the accompanying good works (i.e., faith *praxis*) is, for Gerhard, an oxymoron. In underscoring the *allo-praxis* orientation of the second part of his definition, then, we should take care to avoid overlooking the primary nature of the first part (Wallmann 1961:44–45; see Figure 1 above). The words ‘... *non solum* ...’ introducing that second part should not be taken as an effort to dismiss it as unimportant, but, on the contrary, to emphasize it as an assumed, essential, indispensable part of what follows. Consequently, it would seem that, in Gerhard’s mind, the *allo-praxis* elements of the definition (*informandi*, *vindicandi*) fall in the realm of *pietas* and, as such, presuppose the necessary ‘transfer’ (see Figure 2). After all, as mentioned above, *allo-praxis* can only be a ‘good work’ and pleasing to God if it comes from true faith. Love for neighbor emerges from love for God. Incidentally, this seems to be

80 Wallmann writes specifically with regard to academic theology: ‘Die hier in ihrer spezifischen Form als Wissenschaft definierte Theologie wird also von Gerhard nicht als etwas von Glaube und Verkündigung geschiedenes Drittes angesehen, sie ist vielmehr in ihrem Wesen mit diesen beiden identisch und geht nur in der zur Bewahrung der reinen Glaubenswahrheit notwendigen Form einer *cognitio accuratior* noch über diese beiden hinaus’ (Wallmann 1961:44–45).

81 ... *quamvis notitia fidei suos habeat gradus, ut in quibusdam hominibus sit illustrior et clarior, in quibusdam vero obscurior et tenuior, tamen magis ac minus non variant speciem*

the main thrust of the *Dedicatio* in Gerhard's *Meditationes sacrae* and of other key writings that we have examined above (see ch. 4).

This being said, we must also take care, to avoid dismissing the outer circles. We would be hard-pressed, for example, to find Gerhard disregarding the need for academic theology (one need only consider his *Loci theologici*!). Indeed, the clarity of Scripture and work of the Holy Spirit assures that all Christians are theologians, but there is yet an indispensable need for 'the skillful interpretation of those passages which are quite unclear in Scripture' (*Tractatus*, § 72) and for the defense of the truth in order 'to preserve with all care the same hearers from heresies, which are just like gangrene and cancer' (the epistle to Balthasar in *Aphorismi succincti et selecti*, 1611a, p. 3/fol. a3).

Finally, Gerhard insists that the faith-*praxis* center of any theological endeavor is never a single accomplished event that once completed requires nothing further. The scholarly theological operation of the academician is continually and always a matter of faith-*praxis*, which must necessarily permeate all forms of *theologia*. In this regard, the theological enterprise is not a sequential process, nor even a circular operation (cf. Hägglund 1951:217), but always and only a matter of passive reception from the Holy Spirit through the Word. It is therefore continually *katabatical* (see comments above regarding this term, ch. 3). The double pointed arrows connecting the three concentric circles in Figure 3 attempt to portray this important point. This will have obvious repercussions for Gerhard's thoughts regarding the study of *theologia* even as an academic university discipline.

3.5 '... ut homines fide vera et bonis operibus rutilantes ad regnum ... perducantur.'

For Gerhard, the desired purpose of 'being rendered apt and ready' (*redditur*) and of the *allo*-oriented activities of teaching/preaching (*informare*) and of vindicating (*vindicare*) is that the 'transfer' from head to heart to action also be effected in those who learn about the way of salvation and the uncorrupted heavenly truth and that thereby they be led (*perducantur*) to salvation. Figure 1 attempts to illustrate this by the horizontal arrows in Part 2 of the definition. These arrows are parallel to those in Part 1 because Gerhard insists that that 'transfer' is the practical goal of *theologia* both directly (personal) and indirectly (professional) (Prooemium, §12).

It is worth noting that Gerhard had used the term *fide vera* earlier in the definition as he considers *theologia* systematically and abstractly as *doctrina* (see the full definition at the beginning of this chapter). The academic/professional view of *theologia* tends toward this systematic and abstract view of *theologia* precisely because it does not address its personal appropriation into the theologian. It is intriguing that, for Gerhard, the habitual conceptualization actually allows him to deal with the personal appropriation of *theologia* – a move that the *doctrina* conceptualization could not so readily accommodate – and phenomenologically depict it as faith inseparably

conjoined with piety. Those who preceded Gerhard could not readily accomplish this through the earlier *doctrina* conceptualization of *theologia*.⁸² And, for the most part, the Lutheran theologians who followed Gerhard were leery of doing so for fear of falling into ‘works-righteousness.’ As we have seen above, this leads them to depict the (by that time) common habitual conceptualization of *theologia* as a quasi-professional *habitus* (Sparn 1992:72; Niden 2006:191–192). Interestingly, in so doing, they take up once again the systematic and abstract consideration of *theologia* as *doctrina* into their habitual conceptualizations of *theologia*, unlike Gerhard who must separate it out as a wholly different way of viewing *theologia* (hence his two-fold definition of *theologia*). Such a systematic and abstract view of *theologia*, then, becomes the implied *effective* center of the actualization (i.e., ‘people being led to eternal life’) of any professionally oriented theological *habitus*. This is what gives rise to the analytic method of systematically ordering *doctrina* through which a person can be led to salvation.

On closer examination, there is also a subtle difference between the two horizontal parallel lines of thought (see Figure 1, Part 1 and Part 2). In Part 1, the end or goal applies to the *affectus cordis*, while in Part 2 it refers to *fides vera*. The former presumes the presence already of ‘faith-knowledge’ and so does not include it, while the latter refers to faith as a whole. This supports our contention above, following Wallmann (1961:37–45), that Gerhard’s *theologia* is essentially faith-knowledge. When treating *theologia* from the perspective of personal appropriation (see Figure 1, Part 1), the concern is that the divine knowledge be transferred to the affections of the heart (hence the use of *affectum cordis*) and the personal carrying out of good works (cf. *exsecutionem operis*). When treating *theologia* as an academic discipline (see Figure 1, Part 2), the concern is that the professional *praxis* effect faith (hence the use of *fide vera* – both knowledge and fiducial trust) and good works (cf. *bonis operibus*) in others as they are led to the kingdom of heaven.

This subtle difference gives us the opportunity to state clearly here what has been implied all along: *A theologia as faith-knowledge, in the personal habitual way that Gerhard understands it, cannot really also be allo-oriented in its essence.* *Notitia* and *assensus*, as part of the single faith event, are necessarily oriented toward the theologian’s own faith and faith-*praxis*. In the actual implementation of *theologia*, that faith-knowledge cannot exist outside of or separated from the personal faith-event and the resulting *pietas*. This also explains the implicit *auto*-orientation of the second actualization of his theological *habitus* (*aptus et expeditus redditur*). Professional *allo*-oriented activities, such as informing others of the way of salvation and freeing the truth from errors, are by no means insignificant, but they are added to *theologia* as its purpose/result. This gives us opportunity to reiterate what was pointed out earlier: *Gerhard implies that such professional*

82 For the transition from the doctrinal to the habitual understanding of *theologia*, see Wallmann 1961:75–84; Niden 2006:191.

allo-praxis is part of *pietas* (*faith-praxis*). This helps contextualize Gerhard's insistence throughout his works that the academic practice of disputation must naturally be coupled with the faith practice of piety.

So, Gerhard can and does make use of the habitual conceptualization and connects it closely to the professional and academic endeavor. However, for him, the personal appropriation of faith (*'in divinorum mysteriorum cognitione ... instruitur ... ut ... traducat in affectum cordis'*) still remains at the front and center of his theological *habitus* in its very essence. This is not to say that Gerhard off-handedly dismisses the last part of his definition as unimportant. As we will see in the next chapter, Gerhard takes quite seriously the instruction and training of the professional theologian and, in fact, suggests a curriculum that far exceeds that available in almost any higher level seminary today. The crucial need for such professional theologians notwithstanding, he views 'all the faithful' as theologians in an essential and fundamental way. For 'people are led to the kingdom of heaven glowing with true faith and good works' precisely in that they too 'undergo' and 'suffer' *theologia*, receiving the theological *habitus* by being instructed in the divine mysteries toward a change of heart and the resulting pious life.

4. Conclusion

To bring our discussion full circle, we have seen how Gerhard attempts to walk the fine line between *theologia* as faith and *theologia* as an academic discipline. The former had been associated with *faith-praxis* (*pietas*), while the latter was increasingly affiliated with professional *praxis*. In a rather unique and transitional way, the Jena professor emphasizes the former without dismissing the latter. How he goes about doing this has been the theme of this chapter.

As we followed that theme, we were able to explore three important questions through a deep analysis of Gerhard's final definition of *theologia*: What is the theological *habitus*? How are *theologia*, *fides*, and *pietas* related? And, how are the personal and professional orientations of *theologia* related?

With regard to the first question, we have argued that Gerhard's *habitus* θεόσδοτος is the mind's 'suitability' resulting from the *adaequatio* of divine illumination to understand the divine mysteries revealed in Scripture. We have also shown that, in Gerhard's thinking, this *habitus* is none other than the form of *notitia* and *assensus* of faith (i.e., faith-knowledge), as Wallmann (1961) has contended.

With regard to the second question, *theologia* as faith-knowledge is chronologically and phenomenologically inseparable from *fiducia* (justifying faith). Although they might be logically analyzed separately, according to Gerhard, they form together the single psychological faith-event that implicates simultaneously the intellect and the will. By contrast, Gerhard views *theologia* and *pietas* as two different concepts that form two 'poles' within the Christian life – faith-knowledge and *faith-praxis*. Although conceptually and theologically distinct, it is crucially important

for Gerhard that these two foci within the Christian life never be separated phenomenologically as they are carried out, precisely because they share a common connecting factor – *fiducia*. The ‘transfer’ from faith-knowledge to faith-*praxis*, then, was of great concern for Gerhard and a fundamentally important task of both *theologia* (as its end) and *pietas* (as its form and font).

With regard to the third question, Gerhard effectively characterizes professional *praxis* as an integral part of faith-*praxis* (*pietas*), which in turn presupposes a personal-oriented understanding of *theologia*. Gerhard’s conceptualization of *theologia* as faith-knowledge, then, is foundationally and essentially oriented toward the theologian and, hence, a matter of *auto-praxis*. However, just as that faith when carried out is inseparable from *pietas*, so too *theologia* as it is carried out by the minister and the academic theologian necessarily, properly, and fittingly leads to the professional and vocational activities of preaching/teaching and defending the truth so that others might be led to salvation by themselves undergoing *theologia*.

Throughout our study thus far, and especially in the present chapter, we have been able to uncover, at least to a certain extent, Gerhard’s concept of *theologia*. But what does Gerhard’s *theologia* look like as it is carried out in theological study? And can we detect elements of this same conceptual understanding of *theologia* in the advice he gives regarding the proper *methodus studii theologici* (method of theological study)? That is the subject of the next and final chapter.

VI Implementation of *Theologia*

1. Introduction

Shortly after taking up the professorial chair of theology at the University of Jena in the summer of 1616, the new professor held a series of public lectures early in 1617 on a proper method of studying theology, out of which grew the tract later published in 1620 under the title *Methodus studii theologici* (Fischer [1723] 2000:316–317).¹ This final chapter revolves around this tract.

The purpose here is three-fold. Our first goal is to explore Gerhard's advice with regard to the study of *theologia*, particularly as we find it laid out in the *Methodus*. Occasional forays into Gerhard's *Methodus* have been undertaken,² but they are surprisingly few and limited in scope when compared to its relative importance in the seventeenth century. Niden (2003:59) claims that, within the literary genre addressing the study of theology, Gerhard's *Methodus* was the most important work from Jena in the early modern era. This chapter, then, sets out to make a contribution to this ongoing investigation, even if our foray into it here cannot offer more than a brief survey of the extent to which Gerhard's concept of *theologia* finds expression in his advice regarding its study.

And that leads us to the second goal of this chapter: To corroborate some of the findings and conclusions drawn in previous chapters, especially in chapter five. It has been observed several times in our deeper analysis of it, that a conceptualized *theologia* is not nearly sufficient. For Gerhard, *theologia*, due to its God-given nature, does not wish to be merely analyzed formally as a static concept, but invites an investigation of its phenomenological implementation. *Theologia* as the *habitus* θεόσδοτος is never static, but always active. As such, Gerhard's *theologia*, by its very nature, seeks to be more fully understood as it is observed in action, that is, as it is being experienced or 'suffered.' Scharlemann (1964a:23, *passim*; 1964b:22–37) has alluded to

1 The full title reads: *Methodus studii theologici publicis praelectionibus in Academia Jenensi anno 1617 exposita*. See ch. 1, fn. 5.

2 Niden's (2003) rather short, yet insightful, chapter researching the question of whether the theologian is justified (i.e., saved) by the study of *theologia* is the only research that I know of that examines in a substantial way the *Methodus* in light of Gerhard's habitual definition of *theologia*. He concludes that such study does indeed entail the 'justification' of the theologian. There are other studies: Mayes (2013) explores Gerhard's advice regarding the use of the church fathers in the study of theology; Kang (2001:110–119) traces Gerhard's use of Luther's *Trias* in the *Methodus*; Steiger (1997:143–155) underscores the pastoral nature of Gerhard's advice in the *Methodus* and its inherent pastoral orientation; Preus (1970:120–128, 140–142) gives a helpful, yet brief, overview of the *Methodus* focusing attention especially on the relation between theology and philosophy. Niden (2006) has conducted an expansive study on early modern theological study literature issuing from Wittenberg, but only briefly touches on Gerhard's concept and study of theology (pp. 188–191) in his discussion of Meisner. I am aware of no such in depth study for Gerhard's *Methodus*.

this in his thought-provoking distinction between theology as theoretic knowledge (formal-objective) and theology as acoustic knowledge (dialectic-personal). In his estimation, Aquinas is inclined to seek truth through the contemplation of formal concepts and, therefore, tends toward the former; Gerhard, following in the footsteps of Luther, is inclined to encounter truth through the dialectic of the proclaimed Word and, therefore, tends toward the latter. This is especially the case with regard to his habitual definition of *theologia*. Although our interpretation here of Gerhard differs somewhat from that of Scharlemann (see above, ch. 4, fn. 71), his is a reminder that Gerhard's theological *habitus* θεόδοτος is a matter of personal appropriation and, therefore, best observed as it is to be personally implemented. The *Methodus* offers one normative, and therefore, significant example of Gerhard's thoughts regarding the *implementation of theologia* (Nieden 2003:58–59).³

And that leads us to our third goal: To clarify and further refine our understanding of Gerhard's concept of *theologia* as we see it 'played out' in a study program specifically aimed at the formation of ministerial and academic professional theologians. Observing Gerhard's *theologia*, which we have concluded is essentially and foundationally personal (*auto-praxis*), in such a 'professional' context (*allo-praxis*) will allow us to bring out certain emphases and nuances that perhaps we have thus far missed.

A few caveats must be avoided as we proceed along this path. First, the *Methodus* lays out the *ideal* implementation or curriculum for the study of *theologia* and is not to be confused with the historical, factual implementation of that program of study as it was carried out at the University of Jena.⁴ Gerhard himself was indeed aware that his 'plan' was only ideal and that many would not be able to complete the full five years for one reason or another (*Methodus*, part 3, intro., p. 139). Rather than trace its historical implementation, our goal here is to examine the *ideal* implementation of *theologia*, which will correspond all the better to Gerhard's *conceptualized* understanding of *theologia*.

Secondly, establishing a causal relation between Gerhard's concept of *theologia* and certain elements of his proposed study of *theologia* can be a rather precarious undertaking. We have already argued in several places that Gerhard's under-

3 I understand the expressions 'implementation of *theologia*,' 'carrying out of *theologia*,' and 'experiencing *theologia*' to be synonymous. The 'carrying out of *theologia*' does not mean to focus attention on the sanctified life resulting from salutary knowledge, but rather the actual 'doing' of *theologia* in a concrete real life scenario such that a person undergoes or experiences wholistically theological cultivation. The carrying out of *theologia* can be equated with the pursuit (*studium*) of *theologia* if one recalls that the source of a *habitus* and the actions resulting from it are one and the same (*Eth. Nic.* 1104a28–04b4; see above ch. 5).

4 Several such studies have emerged recently that trace the historical, factual implementation of pastoral and theological education in Reformation and Post-Reformation Europe (e.g., Maag 1995; Tolley 1995; Kaufmann 1997; Burnett 2006). I am not aware of such a study for the University of Jena in the early seventeenth century, although some of the groundwork for such a study has been laid with *Geschichte der Universität Jena, 1548/58–1958* (ed. M. Steinmetz 1958).

standing of *theologia*, although certainly showing evidence of elaboration and clarification, remained consistent between his lectures on the study of *theologia* (1617) and the publication of his preface on the nature of *theologia* (1625). In fact, it seems his thinking in this regard remained consistent even before and after this time, as early as the *Tractatus* (1610) and as late as his refutation of Rahtmann (1628). He gives no indication that his use of the term *habitus* signals a change in his understanding of *theologia* (even unhesitatingly referring readers of the *Prooemium* back to the *Methodus*, § 17), but adapts the term to his previous understanding, as we have argued above. In any case, the chronological discrepancy poses no necessary problem if one bears in mind that the origin of ideas is not necessarily coincident with writing and publication. And, in such an erudite scholar as Gerhard, it seldom is.

The reason for caution, however, arises from the marked similarity between methods of theological study during this time. In light of the obvious often inter-confessional parallels, Nieden (2006:246–248) has suggested that the literary genre of ‘instructions for theological study’ seems to even transcend, at least to a certain extent, the widespread effects of confessionalization. The importance of learning the original languages, the reading of Scripture, the heeding of the church fathers, the concern for piety – all of these seem to be part of an inherited culture of theological study common to all confessions. This reveals that non-theological influences (e.g., humanism) played a large role in shaping theological study. It becomes exceedingly difficult, then, to draw definite lines between specific theological study practices suggested by a certain theologian and that theologian’s particular conceptualization of theology. So, for example, does Gerhard’s advice regarding the reading of Scripture reveal his understanding of the theological *habitus* as θεόδοτος or merely reflect a common practice in almost all theological study programs at the time? The historical reality suggests that it was most likely both. But how does one go about demonstrating that?

Notwithstanding, throughout the rest of this chapter we will attempt to draw those lines, but not without taking two precautions. First, in order to uncover some of the uniqueness of Gerhard’s *Methodus* will attempt a deeper analysis of certain passages to get at the underlying rationale for some of his advice and the unique nuances thereof. This has been our practice thus far and we will continue it here. Secondly, our goal is not to establish a *causal* relation, but only determine the *corroboration* between advice Gerhard gives in the *Methodus* and his understanding of *theologia* as we have unpacked it thus far. It will suffice to show that there are no necessary discrepancies, although such a task will inevitably also clarify and sharpen our understanding of Gerhard’s concept of *theologia*. The research presented here then offers only tentative conclusions and invites further comparative studies and verification of the conclusions reached.

Finally, our intention is not that of an exhaustive study of the *Methodus*, as much as that is needed. After offering a brief overview of the *Methodus*, we will

work our way progressively through it, limiting our investigation especially to those areas that shed further light on Gerhard's concept of *theologia*.

2. Overview of the *Methodus*

It will prove helpful to lay out here an overview of the general outline of the *Methodus* before delving into the nuances of its content. The Jena professor divides his textbook into three major parts, preceded by a preface and closed with a conclusion.

Prooemium. Gerhard offers a short preface⁵ in which he defines the 'study of *theologia*,' establishes the superiority of *theologia* in comparison to all other disciplines, and specifies the meaning of that word '*theologia*' as used in the *Methodus*. He also clarifies that the method he proposes is based on an ordinary, not extraordinary, way of learning *theologia*, namely, as it is revealed in the written Scriptures.

Pars prima. After a brief explanation of Luther's famous three chief points (*capiti*) for the study of theology (*oratio, meditatio, tentatio*), Gerhard describes three general 'requirements' or 'requisites' (*de requisitis generalibus*) for theological study that will prove indispensable throughout the entire course of study for the sincere, pious, and God-taught (θεοδιδάκτος) theologian: Right intentions, sincere piety, and devout prayer.

Pars secunda. He then suggests the preparatory studies (προπαιδεία) that students should have completed before studying theology. The first section deals with the necessity and reasons for learning the ancient languages: Hebrew, Chaldaic, Syriac, and Greek. The second deals with the learning of philosophy, its salutary uses, abuses, and aids for its study.

Pars tertia. This constitutes the bulk of the book. Here Gerhard delves into the study of theology proper and carefully outlines a five-year plan, assuring even those who may not complete it that they too will benefit from making at least some progress. The *Sectio prima* lays out the first year of studies which includes the reading of Scripture (both cursory and intensive), the learning of a synoptic overview of theological *loci* (commonplaces) in Scripture, and the listening to public lectures and disputations. Even in this first year, the intensive reading (*lectio accurata*) of Scripture requires an accompanying notebook in which extensive notes are to be taken on the text and the reading of important commentaries. In the *Sectio secunda*, Gerhard treats the second year of studies which includes the continued reading of Scripture, a more accurate learning of the theological *loci* (including the creation of one's own notebook of *loci*), and the beginning of theological disputations. In this section, the Jena professor also gives advice regarding the usefulness, rules, and manner of participating properly in theological disputations. The *Sectio tertia* covers the third year. The student is to continue the daily reading of the Bible, the

5 In order to avoid confusion with the *Prooemium de naturae theologiae* of his *Loci*, the title 'Preface' and the abbreviation 'Pref.' will be used to refer to the *Prooemium* of the *Methodus*.

development of his own theological *loci*, and the participation in practice disputations. In this third year, however, he should also learn how to treat the controversies with the ‘Papists’ (*Pontificiis*), a practice that involves the systematic arrangement of arguments into certain *loci*. In the *Sectio quarta*, the student is to continue that foundation of reading Scripture, developing *loci*, and practicing disputations, but in addition, he is to also learn how to treat the controversies with the Calvinists and the Photinians and begin the practice of preaching (*exercitium concionandi*). At this point, Gerhard gives a rather lengthy excursus on homiletics, referring back to his *Tractatus* for the proper interpretation of the biblical text and presenting a series of rules and suggestions arranged around the classical rhetorical model. His suggestions with regard to the application of the text are particularly pertinent to our discussion and we will come back to them later (see *Methodus*, part 3, sect. 4, ch. 2, pp. 217–229). Finally, the *Sectio quinta* covers the fifth year of theological study. In addition to the foundational reading of Scripture and continued treatment of controversies, the student must now gain knowledge in the history of the church. This entails reading general church histories, the writings of Luther, the church fathers, and even the scholastics. Of course, Gerhard takes the opportunity to underscore the benefits and dangers of each.

Coronis. Gerhard concludes the *Methodus* with a final *coronis de tentatione* (conclusion on *tentatio*) in which he describes three different meanings of the word *tentatio* and explains how it applies to the theological student. As such, in Gerhard’s mind, he has followed the ‘theological method’ as proposed by Luther.

3. Preface

3.1 Definition of *Theologia* in the *Methodus*

The purpose of this chapter centers on Gerhard’s concept of *theologia*. Our first task, then, is to seek how he might define *theologia* within the *Methodus* and, for that, we need not search too widely. Already in the Preface, he readily defines *theologia* for the specific purposes of the *Methodus*:

... In general we take it [*theologia*] to be about the entire system of Christian doctrine; nor do we understand by this term just any knowledge of the Christian faith and religion common to all the faithful, but the more accurate and complete knowledge of the divine mysteries. (Pref., p. 9–10)⁶

6 ... in genere accipimus de toto Christianae doctrinae systemate; nec qualemcumque [sic] fidei & religionis Christianae cognitionem omnibus fidelibus communem hoc nomine intelligimus, sed accuratorem & perfectiorem mysteriorem divinorum cognitionem

Gerhard defines it specifically as a 'knowledge of the divine mysteries' (*mysteriorum divinarum cognitionem*) and, in so doing, distinguishes it from other branches of knowledge, as well as from other professional skills (e.g., knowledge/skills of homiletics, disputations). Of course, in this Gerhard is not unique. Even theologians in the generations after Gerhard would insist on *theologia* as an intellectual *habitus* that consisted in knowledge drawn from Scripture (see definitions of later theologians, ch. 5), despite their clearly *allo*-oriented conceptualizations of *theologia*. The pertinent question for our purposes regards the 'practical' orientation of that knowledge. Is it to be directed inward toward the theologian (personal faith) or outward toward the other (professional activity)?

With this definition Gerhard seems to indicate the latter, for he specifies that this is a 'more accurate and complete' (*accuratiorem & perfectiorem*) knowledge than the ordinary layperson might have and adds that the 'the one who has been instructed [in this knowledge] can pass judgment on theological controversies, report the orthodoxy of heavenly truth, and powerfully overcome that of the adversaries' (Pref., p. 10).⁷ A reference to Titus 1:9 follows connecting this definition to the pastoral and professorial ministry. It is clearly parallel to the *allo*-oriented second part of Gerhard's habitual definition as found in the *Prooemium* (§ 31; see Part 2 of Figure 1 above). Such a theologian will be involved in preaching and defending the faith and those professional activities are by nature *allo-praxis*. In addition, Gerhard also uses the term *doctrina* to define *theologia* here in the *Methodus* (*de toto Christianae doctrinae systemate*). This, too, would seem to imply a professional *allo*-orientation. The abstract and systematic definition of *theologia* as *doctrina* more readily allowed for a professional focus precisely because it dealt less with the personal appropriation of *theologia*. As mentioned earlier (ch. 5), it is partly for this reason that Gerhard alludes to it in the *allo*-oriented second part of his habitual definition in the *Prooemium*. Finally, part three of the *Methodus* does indeed give the distinct impression that the goal of the sought after theological knowledge is that of application to others. The excursuses on disputations (sect. 2, ch. 2–3) and preaching (sect. 4, ch. 2) demonstrate this plainly enough.

Thus far, the evidence indicates that as the student proceeds through the curriculum of the *Methodus* the theological knowledge he acquires is oriented toward the other and not toward himself. If this is the case, then *theologia* could very well be something other than faith-knowledge (*notitia fidei*), contrary to what we have contended above, for theological knowledge solely oriented toward leading other people to salvation has nothing *necessarily* to do with personal faith. And, indeed, this was one of the factors that would lead to a *theologia non renatorum* such as that found in Meisner (1612:458; *Philosophia sobria*, vol. 1, sect. 2, ch. 2, quest. 1, assert. 2) or later in Neumann (see Preuss 1970:228–232). Obviously, theological

7 ... qui instructus est, de controversiis theologicis iudicare, ὁρθοδοξίαν coelestis veritatis afferre, eiusdemque adversarios potenter convincere possit.

knowledge may and even should include faith, as all theology professors insisted at the time, but in this schema it would be *incidental* rather than *essential* to what it means to be a professional theologian. This seems contrary to the thinking of Gerhard as we have encountered him thus far and so merits a second look.

3.2 Definition of *Theologiae Studium*

To begin with, Gerhard's definition of *theologia* in the *Methodus* must be understood alongside his definition of the 'study of theology' (*theologiae studium*). Already in the second sentence of the preface to the *Methodus*, the Jena professor defines *theologiae studium* 'briefly and in general' as

... the remedy for the innate ignorance within us in spiritual matters and the disorder clinging to our affections, the stimulus for the cultivation of holiness and piety, the means of daily hearing God in His Word and of speaking with God through prayers, and therefore as a sort of prelude of that most holy and blessed fellowship that we await in heaven. (Pref., p. 5)⁸

This image of *theologia* as it is implemented or carried out in the *theologiae studium* places his later definition of *theologia* as the system of doctrine in a completely different light. In fact, this definition has striking parallels to the first part of Gerhard's habitual definition in the *Prooemium* (§ 31; see above Figure 1, Part 1). The 'innate ignorance' of spiritual matters is remedied by the instruction 'in the knowledge of divine mysteries.' This concerns the intellect of the human mind. The 'disorder clinging to the affections' is remedied by the 'transfer' of that knowledge into the affections. This concerns the will, that is, *fiducia* and its associated internal volitional movements. That the study of *theologia* is the ὀρμητήριον (stimulus, incentive, starting point) which leads to piety mirrors the horizontal movement in Part 1 of Gerhard's habitual definition. It also expresses quite aptly the relation between *theologia* and *pietas* (see Figure 2). And listening to God's Word relates to the illumination of the Holy Spirit and the God-given nature of the theological *habitus*. If this definition is perhaps here not as precise, it is because Gerhard is speaking 'briefly and in general' (Συντόμως και ὡς ἐν τύπῳ *dicendo*), but much more importantly, he is speaking of *theologiae studium*, that is, *theologia* as it is carried out by the theologian. In his mind *theologia*, as it is experienced and implemented, can never be separated phenomenologically from *pietas*. What we have said above bears repeating. The definition of *theologiae studium*, as Gerhard presents it here, corresponds strikingly well with Part 1 of his habitual definition in the *Prooemium*.

8 Συντόμως και ὡς ἐν τύπῳ *dicendo*, *theologiae studium est ignorantiae in rebus spiritualibus nobis connatae atque, ἀταξίας in affectibus haerentis remedium, ad sanctitatis & pietatis culturam ὀρμητήριον, quotidie Deum in verbo audiendi & cum Deo per preces colloquendi medium, adeoque sanctissimae & beatissimae illius societatis, quam in coelo expectamus, quoddam praeludium.*

It seems clear then that Gerhard's definition of *theologiae studium* is very much *auto*-oriented and focused on the personal faith growth and pious *praxis* of the theologian himself. Surely, the allusion to 'that most holy and blessed fellowship' that we await in heaven would give that impression. Gerhard is here alluding to the fact that in doing *theologia* the theologian becomes engaged in a conversation with God himself. God speaks to the theologian through his Word and the theologian responds to God through prayer. This calls to mind the 'dialectic' nature of Gerhard's concept of *theologia* (see ch. 4) whereby it entails a kind of quasi-liturgical divine-human conversation (cf. Steiger 1997:48–49). *Theologia* thus conceived is ostensibly personal. So, it is not surprising that the author indicates immediately a few lines later that we can evaluate the need to study *theologia* by *our own* need for salvation (Pref., p. 6).⁹

Here we have what might appear as a conundrum at first glance – a professional definition of *theologia* that appears *allo*-oriented and a personal definition of *theologiae studium* that is clearly *auto*-oriented. How does one reconcile a professional *theologia* with an overtly personal study (i.e., *studium*) of that same *theologia*? How does one solve the puzzle of a *theologia* focused on 'the entire system of Christian doctrine' and its study that allegedly transforms the mind, gives rise to personal piety, and can be equated to an intimate conversation with God?

The resolution lies in the very fact that, for Gerhard, there exists no necessary conundrum; hence, he can include both in the Preface to his *Methodus*. It also clarifies the connection he will later posit between the first and second parts of his habitual definition (*Prooemium*, § 31; see Figure 1).

To understand Gerhard at this point, it is helpful to lay aside common modern caricatures of academic dogmatic studies that often depict them as lifeless and useless when it comes to the faith life of the student (cf. Steiger 1997:27–45).¹⁰ As was pointed out earlier (ch. 5), the modern tendency is to view the intellect and the will as alternatives. Gerhard views the two as related and connected, though admittedly at times existing in tension. Even the English word 'study' can be misleading because of its associated modern connotations. The word *studium* during Gerhard's time could denote the enthusiastic and zealous pursuit of something, a kind of devotion or even fondness for the thing sought after. And the Jena professor clearly uses it in this way in the *Methodus* when he talks about the '*de sincero pietatis studio*' (part 1, ch. 2, p. 18; *Coronis*, p. 326) or earlier in his dedicatory epistle to

9 *Dignitas ejus a Deo, utilitas a pietate, necessitas a salute nostra aestimanda.*

10 In his dissertation researching Gerhard's Christology in relation to the sacraments, Heimbigner (2001) purposefully delves into both Gerhard's dogmatic and devotional works. He summarizes four different approaches to Gerhard studies that have been adopted throughout modernity (pp. 10–18) and in the end concludes that they have struggled to come to grips with Gerhard because of an inability to understand Gerhard as a theologian who brings together and balances the intellect and the emotions (i.e., affections) and renders them both subservient to Christ (pp. 270–272). See Introduction, fn. 8.

Balthasar in the *Aphorismi succincti et selecti* of 1611 (e.g., pp. 9, 13, 17, 21). Such a *studium* clearly engages the will and the affections as well as the intellect.

All of this is to say that Gerhard's description of theologiae studium at the beginning of the Methodus applies equally to the theologia he describes a few pages later as 'the entire system of Christian doctrine' (Pref., p. 9). Hence, the 'study' or 'pursuit' of the 'more accurate and complete knowledge of the divine mysteries' as methodically laid out in the five year plan of part three is, according to Gerhard, first and foundationally (though certainly not only!) aimed at the faith and faith life of the theologian himself. That five year plan of study is the remedy for the theologian's own spiritual ignorance and disordered affections and is the impetus for his own holiness and pious life. As he engages in this pursuit of that more accurate knowledge of the divine mysteries, he is participating in an endeavor that anticipates the face-to-face fellowship with God with which he will later be blessed in heaven.

One can conclude, then, that the *theologia* as portrayed here in the *Methodus* coincides with Gerhard's later habitual definition in the *Prooemium* (§ 31) and with the fact that the first part of that definition is primary and foundational. In the previous chapter we spoke of that first part as the first 'actualization' of the *habitus* θεόσδοτος – the theologian upon whom the Holy Spirit has bestowed the *habitus* θεόσδοτος 'is instructed in the knowledge of divine mysteries through the illumination of the mind' (see Figure 1). We should reiterate here what we have said above, that the 'instruction' that Gerhard describes here in this first habitual 'actualization' is not only referring to the basic knowledge of the Christian faith which all the faithful have, *but that it also serves as an apt summary of the 'more accurate and complete' theologia that one studies in Gerhard's Methodus* (see above the illustration of *theologia* in Figure 3). In fact, it would be legitimate to say that the entirety of Gerhard's *Methodus* is *essentially* about that very instruction. And according to his habitual definition in the *Prooemium* and his definition of *theologiae studium* in the *Methodus*, that instruction is inseparably bound up with personal fiducial trust and the accompanying carrying out of good works. Of course, the curriculum of the *Methodus* goes beyond this and seeks to also prepare the theologian for the professional ministry, but it is that preliminary, foundational, and essential instruction in the divine mysteries (*instruitur*) and the necessary 'transfer' (*traducatur*) that renders him apt and ready (*aptus et expeditus redditur*) to thereafter engage in the professional activities (i.e., *informare & vindicare*), by which other people will also be led to the kingdom of heaven.

Speaking precisely and conceptually, then, the 'more accurate and complete' theologia of the Methodus is essentially what we have thus far called 'faith-knowledge' (notitia/assensus fidei).¹¹ In this regard, Gerhard does depict theolo-

11 Gerhard seems to focus most of his attention on *notitia fidei* and less on *assensus*, so we have follow suit.

gia as an intellectual endeavor (see his use of *cognitio*), although he never intends this to be divorced from the affections of the will. And this is true, as well, for the professional dogmatic studies of the academic theologian. Again, this may seem strange to our modern ears because we may intuitively divorce dogmatic knowledge from personal faith due to post-Enlightenment influences. Nonetheless, Gerhard evidently views even academic *theologia* (as the whole system of Christian doctrine!) as part of his concept of *fides*. For him, it is impossible to separate Scripture as principle of *theologia* from Scripture as means of grace on any theological level.

Indeed, the *theologia* carried out by the layperson and that carried out by the academician may appear very different and the methods of studying each differ significantly; nonetheless, *in essence* they are identical and can both be called 'faith-knowledge.' For this reason, that academic theological faith-knowledge constitutes the two outer 'circles' of *theologia* according to our diagram above (see Figure 3) and not any other non-theological skills (e.g., rhetoric, logic). It is also why the outer circles include the innermost circle. The *theologia* pursued in the *Methodus* is not a different 'kind' of knowledge, but simply a 'more accurate and complete' form of the same knowledge (i.e., *mysteriorum divinarum cognitio*) that is common to all the faithful (*Methodus*, Pref., p. 10; *Prooemium*, § 31; cf. Wallmann 1961:106). As mentioned earlier (ch. 5), it is a matter of degree or grade, not of different *species*. In describing the *notitia* of his three-fold definition of faith, Gerhard had readily admitted that 'there may be levels of knowledge not only in different believers (indeed, a greater and more exact knowledge of the divine mysteries and understanding of Scripture are required of teachers than of hearers), but also in one and same believer (indeed, every devout person ought to grow daily in his knowledge of the word)' (*Loci* 16, *De justificatione per fidem*, § 115; cf. *Loci* 16, §§ 69, 114).¹² The students of the *Methodus* are then engaged in this 'more exact' faith-knowledge, but it too must be indivisibly bound (*individuo nexus*) to *fiducia* as we have discussed above (*Loci* 16, § 69; see ch. 5). The academic study of professional *theologia* is simultaneously part and parcel of the single psychological faith-event.

Of course, as one might surmise, this gives rise to certain theological difficulties. Gerhard's emphasis on *theologia* as *cognitio* and his equating of the 'entire system of Christian doctrine' with *notitia fidei* could insinuate that each and every word set down in Scripture is required knowledge for the personal saving faith of the academic theologian. And, indeed, Gerhard does claim that every word of Scripture (!) is formally the object of faith with respect to knowledge and assent (*Loci* 16, § 67). This notwithstanding, Gerhard is particularly interested in the 'articles of

12 The passage reads: *Quamvis sint gradus cognitionis, non solum in diversis credentibus, (siquidem a docentibus major & exactior divinarum mysteriorum notitia & scripturae intelligentia requiritur, quam ab auditoribus) sed etiam in uno eodemque credente, siquidem in cognitione verbi pium quemlibet oportet quotidie crescere; absit tamen, ut fidem illam implicitam ac illicitam, quae est mera articulorum fidei ignorantia*

faith' which are those main points of doctrine essential for salvation (*Loci* 16, § 129).¹³ So, there is a 'certain order and reduction' (*certo ordine et reductione*) pertaining to the salvific importance of the words of Scripture (*Loci* 16, § 129). But this does not lead Gerhard into a kind of 'gospel reductionism' as could easily have been the case. In fact, as a young superintendent at Heldburg, in the dedicatory epistle to his first volume of the *Loci* addressed to Lord Christian II, he had already systematically laid out the theological and pastoral relation between salvation and a great many doctrines of the faith that were debated at the time (Gerhard [1610] 2009:1–6). And in his *Aphorismi succincti et selecti* (1611a) he had established the content and order of his *Loci*, again, as related to salvation (aph. 1). It is perhaps still surprising to our modern sensibilities the breadth and depth of the 'articles' he considered crucially relevant for salvation in his seemingly exhaustive *Loci*, even if we keep in mind their specialized intended audience. But the point is that Gerhard viewed each of them as related to salvation in a significant way, and any knowledge that was not related in like manner was to be considered ματαιολογία (vain discussion), rather than θεολογία (*Prooemium*, § 26). In this way, even academic professional faith-knowledge comprising the 'entire system of Christian doctrine' could purportedly be *notitia fidei* because each of those doctrines within the system supported and underscored the object of *fiducia* – the gracious promise of forgiveness for the sake of Christ our mediator (*Loci* 16, §§ 67, 130).¹⁴

But are there then degrees of saving faith? Gerhard's response is both yes and no. It depends on one's perspective:

Faith is considered either by reason of the object which it apprehends or by reason of its quality. In the first way, its perfection consists in the apprehension of Christ [i.e., *unio spiritualis*]; in the latter way, it has its own grades and increments. (*Loci* 16, § 238)¹⁵

13 The passage reads: 'Next, the object of faith by reason of assent is either adequate, namely, each and every word of God; or primary, which are the particular main points of doctrine which we call 'articles of faith' Therefore, speaking properly and carefully, we must not consider as articles of faith all the things which are set down in the Scriptures, but only those dogmas the knowledge of which is essential for salvation' (*Porro objectum scilicet fidei ratione assensus est vel adaequatum, nimirum omne et solum Dei verbum, vel primum, quod sunt praecipua doctrinae capita, quae vocare solemus articulos fidei ... ideo proprie et accurate loquendo non omnia, quae in Scriptura proponuntur, pro articulis fidei sunt habenda, sed tantum dogmata illa, quorum cognitio ad salutem necessaria est ...*).

14 This notwithstanding, equating *theologia* and *fides*, combined with the growing corpus of necessary articles of faith, does lead Gerhard to the notion of 'fundamental articles of faith,' an idea which he seems to have introduced into Lutheranism (Appold 1998:57, fn. 46; cf. *Loci* 16, § 129). Sparr (1992:75–79) contends that the ever-widening scope of necessary articles related to salvation exacerbated the professionalization of the clergy and academic theologians.

15 *Fides consideratur vel ratione objecti, quod apprehendit; vel ratione qualitatis; priori modo perfectio ejus consistit in apprehensione Christi, posteriori modo suos habet gradus suae incrementa.*

Here it is helpful to recall Vaahtoranta's (1998:212–267) contention that Gerhard depicts faith in two ways – as an atemporal, non-empirical mystical union (*unio spiritualis*) and as a psychologically and empirically ascertainable quality (*notitia*, *assensus*, and *fiducia*) (see ch. 5). With regard to the former, faith has no degrees or grades because it is characterized by an external relation. Its value, legitimacy, and worth appertain to Christ with whom it is in relation. With regard to the latter, it can and does have degrees because it exists within the person's mind. For Gerhard, *theologia* falls into the latter depiction of faith because it constitutes a quality. Incidentally, although united in the one faith-event, according to Gerhard, the latter presupposes (logically, not chronologically) the former, such that faith as a psychological quality actually falls in the realm of *renovatio* (renewal, i.e., sanctification) (Vaahtoranta 1998:224–243). Hence, the 'more exact' faith-knowledge of the *Methodus*, as we are treating it here, also belongs in this realm of *renovatio* and its pursuit (i.e., *studium*) entails a dynamic helical process of continual faith edification and growth (*Loci* 16, § 115; see again ch. 5).

4. Requisites of Theological Study

That Gerhard views part three of the *Methodus* as treating how to 'successfully complete the course of theological study'¹⁶ underscores the point, once again, that he does not consider that part as the comprehensive equivalent of *theologiae studium* (part 3, intro, p. 138, italics added). Part three lays out the 'course' of theological study. However, as important as that 'course' is (see discussion below on *meditatio*), theological study encompasses more than that five-year 'course' of activities with the accompanying rules and advice. *Theologiae studium* is broader and forcibly so if one considers the breadth of its definition as also including the cultivation of personal faith. Part one of the *Methodus*, then, fills out that definition as already presented in the Preface.

In part one, Gerhard describes three general *requisita* (requisites) for the study of *theologia* (*De requisitis studii theologici generalibus*): The obligation of right intention (*rectae intentiones debitum*), the sincere pursuit of piety (*sincerum pietatis studium*), and the duty of devout prayer (*devotae orationis officium*). The Jena professor makes it abundantly clear that these are not simply 'prerequisites' or προπαιδεία like the study of languages and philosophy (cf. part 2) that, strictly speaking, stand outside of theological study. All three *requisita* are indispensable for every student 'not only in the beginning, but throughout the entire course of theological study' (part 1, intro, p. 14, emphasis added).¹⁷ In fact, Gerhard begins this section with a lengthy quote from Luther regarding his renowned

16 *De cursu studii theologici feliciter absolvendo.*

17 *Dicimus igitur non solum in auspicio, sed toto etiam theologici studii cursu tria omnino a quovis requiri*

formula for theological study: *Oratio*, *meditatio*, and *tentatio* (part 1, intro, p. 13).¹⁸ It is noteworthy that he introduces it here in part one as ‘*tria studii theologici requisita*’ (‘three *requisites* of theological study,’ emphasis added). He ends up only dealing with *oratio* in this first part, but adds two other *requisita* that are to be presented here along with it. Gerhard, then, seemingly regarded all three of these *requisita* presented in this first part of the *Methodus* (right intention, piety, and prayer) as much an integral part of theological study as Luther’s original *Trias*. In other words, though their respective roles, just as those of the *Trias*, may vary, they are constitutive of that study as much and along with the *meditatio* of part three and the *tentatio* of the *coronis* (for the peculiar placement of *tentatio*, see below). They necessarily accompany the entire five year course of study (and beyond!) as an essential incorporated and intermingled part of it. As such, they also serve as criteria. In other words, Gerhard is advising the student that engaging in the five-year course of study without simultaneously immersing that endeavor in the three requisites explained here renders that course of study useless and indicates that the student has been engaged in something other than *theologia*.

4.1 Use of Luther’s *Trias*

Gerhard’s peculiar use of Luther’s *Trias* throughout the *Methodus* is significant and merits more than just a passing reference. The *Trias*, as Luther envisioned it, was explicitly oriented toward the personal faith development (*pervenire*) of the theologian precisely because that was how Luther viewed *theologia* (cf. Bayer 2007:21–27, 33–66; Nieden 2003:55). It was, as Appold (1998:50) aptly puts it, a ‘form of the life in faith’ and Gerhard’s whole-hearted acceptance of the *Trias* for use in his *Methodus* strongly suggests that he essentially viewed *theologia* as identical to faith (cf. Nieden [2003] who argues similarly). It is no coincidence that, generally speaking, the rise of treating *theologia* as an Aristotelian academic discipline coincides with the decline of the use of Luther’s *Trias* in theological study methods of the time (Kang 2001:120–121).¹⁹ The *Trias*’ focus on the personal faith edification of the theologian seemed increasingly incompatible with a discipline focused on developing the academic skills necessary for defending the faith and leading others to salvation. Eventually Johann Lorenz Mosheim (1693–1755) would ex-

18 Luther proposed his famous ‘*rechte weise in der Theologia zu studirn*’ (‘right way to study theology’) in ‘The Preface to the Wittenberg Edition of Luther’s German Writings’ in 1539 (LW 34:283–288). A study of this triadic formula is beyond the scope of this paper. For an overview, see Bayer (2007:33–66); Kang (2001:74–88); and Nieden (2006:80–87).

19 This trend seems to be generally true though admittedly merits a much more thorough study than can be provided here. Nieden (2006:231–232) has pointed out that Luther’s *Trias* began to fall out of use even during the early seventeenth century. Calixt neglects to use it (as is to be expected in view of his more academic approach to the study of theology), but it also finds no place in the advice on theological study by such Wittenberg professors as Johann Förster (1576–1613), Leonhard Hütter (1563–1616), and Johann Hülsemann (1602–1661).

press doubt that Luther's purpose in formulating the *Trias* was suitable for academic theology and question its usefulness in such studies, a contention that was further argued by Johann Salomo Semler (1725–1791), who relegated the *Trias* to the realm of faith and piety and considered it entirely separate from theological study (Nieden 2006:81, fn. 40; Kang 2001:58–60; cf. Bayer 2007:33). Of course, it was embraced wholeheartedly by Philipp Spener (1635–1705) and those of the Pietist movement who followed in his wake (Kang 2001:270–274, 362–366).

That Gerhard adopts it at the beginning of the seventeenth century, then, is telling. How he uses it also positions him as a transitional figure in the history of the study of *theologia*. Many theologians had taken it up into their own theological works (e.g., David Chytraeus, 1530–1600; Victorinus Strigel, 1524–1569). Matthias Hafenreffer had placed it as the prolegomenon to his *Loci theologici* (1603:1–22), a work which Gerhard recommends several times throughout his *Methodus* (e.g., part 3, sect. 1, ch. 5; part 3, sect. 2, ch. 1). The Jena professor follows the model of David Chytraeus' earlier advice on theological study²⁰ and generally structures his entire method of study around the *Trias*. Steiger (1997:145) has even suggested that in placing the *Trias* with a lengthy explanatory quote by Luther as the opening of the first substantial part of the *Methodus*, Gerhard has almost made it the title of his entire book.

In any case, he gives the distinct impression that his concept of *theologia* is very closely aligned with that of Luther (i.e., understood as faith). In fact, in the *Prooemium* on the nature of *theologia*, he stipulates that the ordinary means of acquiring true *theologia* (the only means available to theology students) are '*oratio, meditatio, tentatio*, etc.' (§ 17). Each of these, along with their particular place and role in Gerhard's *theologiae studium*, will be explored below, but two interesting points can be underscored here that reveal a certain progression of thought since Luther's original presentation of the *Trias*. First, even in the *Prooemium* Gerhard has left the list of means curiously open with the added '*et cetera*' at the end. And, indeed, he does so seemingly because earlier in the *Methodus* he had complemented the original *Trias* with two added *requisita*: Right intention and the pursuit of piety. Gerhard does not in any way seem to view these additions as contrary to Luther's original intent, but he apparently viewed the *Trias* as somewhat open-ended and, to a certain extent, adaptable to the contextual needs of his own time.²¹ Secondly, as other historians have pointed out (Kang 2001:120; Nieden 2003:64–66; Wallmann 1961:75, fn. 3), Gerhard's concept of *meditatio* is significantly broader than that of Luther (see *Prooemium*, § 17; see below for a fuller explanation thereof). It encompasses many of the study practices associated with the rise of *theologia* as an academic discipline at the university and, as such, reveals

20 For Chytraeus' thoughts on theological study in his *Oratio in repetitionem locorum communium D. Philippi* (1549), see Nieden (2006:91–95).

21 See, for instance, the end of part 1 of the *Methodus* (ch. 1, p. 18) where he readily lists the 'sincere pursuit of piety' alongside 'prayer' and 'meditation.'

Gerhard's attempt to maintain the personal faith-oriented characteristic of *theologia*, while also responding to increasing pressures to view it as a discipline and profession that requires serious academic work.

4.2 Daily Duty of Devout Prayer

Of the three *requisita* described in part one of the *Methodus*, *oratio* is placed last after right intention and piety. Nonetheless, here we will treat it first, because its affiliation with Luther's *Trias* allows us to say something about part one in general and, therefore, also about the other two *requisita*.

Out of the three components of Luther's *Trias*, prayer is naturally that most connected to faith. According to Gerhard, prayer is needed because 'after the fall we all lack the image of God, that is, the light of divine knowledge in our mind, and conformity with the divine law in our will' (part 1, ch. 3, p. 24).²² Our lack of understanding is not only due to sin, but also to the very fact that the Scriptures 'were not produced by human will, but by the Holy Spirit' (part 1, ch. 3, p. 25).²³ Any salutary understanding of them, then, is beyond the capacity of the human mind both because we are only human and because we are woefully corrupted by sin. In short, God must intervene for *theologia* to happen. For this very reason a true theologian is only one who is θεοδιδάκτος (taught by God) (part 1, intro, p. 14), that is, as he will later put it in the *Prooemium* (§§ 10, 31), the intervention must be θεόδοτος (note the passive nature of both terms). As mentioned earlier, the God-giveness of *theologia* (and its study!) goes beyond the supernaturalism of its source and applies to the cognitive theological operation itself – an operation by which God provides an *adaequatio* (i.e., illumination) that results in the mind's 'suitability' to understand those divine mysteries.²⁴ *Oratio* is simply the theologian's stark admission of his own 'unsuitableness' to do *theologia* and his pleading to God for that divine intervention. Therefore, *oratio* as a requisite of *theologia* underscores the passive receptive nature of *theologia*. That passivity is a trait that *theologia* shares in common with faith. In fact, for Gerhard, it would seem that they share this common trait precisely because *theologia*, when it is 'suffered,' is faith. The 'suitability' implies the saving faith of the theologian precisely because Scripture is always simultaneously a means of salvation (cf. the relation between Gerhard's theological *habitus* and faith as explained above in ch. 5). Only out of faith (*ex fide profectus*; part 1, ch. 3, p. 26) does the theologian cry out with

22 *Post lapsum omnes destituimur imagine Dei, hoc est, luce cognitionis divinae in mente, & conformitate cum lege divina in voluntate.*

23 *... Scripturas propterea non intelligi, nec explicari spiritu humano, quia non sunt editae humana voluntate, sed a Spiritu sancto.*

24 It is no coincidence that this chapter on prayer in the *Methodus* bears a striking resemblance to the *Tractatus* (§§ 47–54). Gerhard even quotes the same prayer from Augustine (*Tractatus*, § 53; *Methodus*, part 1, ch. 3, pp. 33–35).

King David: 'May my prayer come into your sight, O Lord; give me understanding according to your word!' (part 1, ch. 3, p. 29).

The receptive nature of *theologia*, as it is emphasized here by Gerhard's insistence on the necessity of prayer, renders it necessarily and primarily oriented toward the theologian's own personal faith development. It is not at all surprising, then, that out of the eleven pages worth of sample prayers that Gerhard suggests for the theologian (part 1, ch. 3, pp. 28–38), there is not a single one of them that focuses on or even specifically mentions the theologian's ability to successfully carry out the various tasks of the professional ministry (e.g., disputations, preaching). Neither are any of them specifically for those who will be ministered to. When compared to model prayers suggested for seminary students today, this is all the more remarkable. If these prayers are specifically for *theologia*, which Gerhard seems to indicate, then *theologia*, according to him, is essentially about understanding Scripture in a *salutary* way (i.e., being instructed in the knowledge of divine mysteries) (part 1, ch. 3, p. 24). In other words, they are prayers for 'faith-knowledge,' hence the reason for which such prayers are required especially of theologians, but also 'of all Christians' (part 1, ch. 3, pp. 23–24). This becomes all the more meaningful, if one recalls that such *oratio* is not a prerequisite, but an essential, integrated component of the entire study of *theologia*, including the academic course of study in part three. This would seem to indicate, as contended above, that even the learning of the 'entire system of Christian doctrine' is, for Gerhard, essentially and foundationally about the personal appropriation of the *notitia fidei*, which when implemented in the *studium theologiae*, can never be isolated or separated from saving faith.

That Gerhard places the 'obligation of right intent' and the 'pursuit of piety' in the same part of the *Methodus* as *oratio* is revealing (cf. Niden 2003:62). He seems to realize that the academic nature of the 'course of study' as presented in part three of the *Methodus* may very well pose a problem for unwary students. They may unwittingly treat the course of studies as mere training for professional or academic purposes and neglect the importance of faith-*praxis* (a tendency bemoaned by theologians such as Arndt and Cramer; cf. Friedrich 2004:300–322). Consequently, Gerhard will go even further than Luther. For Luther, *oratio* as an integral part of theological study naturally entailed faith because *theologia* was unquestionably equated with faith. During Luther's lifetime, few challenged this. With the inception of *theologia* as an academic discipline, this previously natural relation was increasingly called into question. In apparent reaction to this tendency, it seems that Gerhard wishes to emphasize the relation between faith and *theologia* even more strongly. Hence, he adds the 'obligation of right intention' and the 'pursuit of piety' as components of theological study that 'ought to have been recommended ... as especially necessary just as much as prayer' (*Methodus*, part 1, intro,

p. 14).²⁵ They are meant to provide ‘greater clarity and a fuller explanation’ of the duty of ‘devout prayer’ as Luther had recommended it (part 1, intro, p. 14; see fn. 21 this chapter). In retrospect, this makes sense. Critics such as Arndt and Cramer were especially critical of academic professional theology precisely because it was too often divorced from faith (right intention) and faith-*praxis* (piety). In response to those concerns, along with prayer, Gerhard adds into the first part of his theological study those very *requisita*.

4.3 Obligation of Right Intention

Gerhard uses the expression *recta intentio* to emphasize that, opposed to worldly gain, the theologian must have the good and proper ‘objective’ (*propositum*) in mind throughout his theological studies: ‘The glory of God alone, the edification of the church, and the salvation of himself and his neighbor’ (part 1, ch. 1, p. 15).²⁶ Although directed toward the ultimate goal (*causa finalis*) of good works (cf. *Loci* 17, *De bonis operibus*, § 20), *recta intentio*, as Gerhard explains it here, is a direct reference to the formal cause of good works, namely, the ‘renewed qualities of the mind’ – including fiducial trust – given and aroused by the Holy Spirit (*Loci* 17, §§ 3, 10).²⁷ His use of Augustine’s allegorical interpretation of Matthew 6:22 makes it abundantly clear that any external good work without the foundational proper intent is filled with the ‘blackness of sin’ (*Methodus*, part 1, ch. 1, p. 15–16). This explains why it is an ‘obligation’ (*debitum*), as the title of the chapter specifies. Even seemingly ‘good works’ done from wrong unregenerate motives are evil and

25 The passage reads: ‘Therefore we must say something here about the first aid for the study of theology, namely, about prayer. For greater clarity and a fuller explanation of prayer we will add the other two requisites that ought to have been recommended to the serious, pious and God-taught theologian as especially necessary just as much as prayer’ (... *ideo de primo studii theologi- ci adminiculo, de oratione, scilicet hoc loco aliquid dicendum, cui majoris perspicuitatis & plenioris ἐξηγήσεως ergo conjungemus alia duo requisita, quae sincero, pio ac θεοδιδάκτω Theologo apprime necessaria nec minus quam oratio commendata esse debent*).

26 The passage reads: *Rectae intentionis appellatione hoc intelligimus, quod qui ad Theologiae studium animum applicat suum, nec honores, nec divitias ..., sed solius DEI gloriam, Ecclesiae aedificationem, suam & proximi salutem finis loco sibi unice debeat habere propositam ...*

27 Following Chemnitz’ lead, Gerhard had earlier in the *Loci* distinguished between different ‘classes’ of good works depending on their relation to the different Aristotelian causes (see discussion above in ch. 4). The passage reads: ‘Some [good works] apply both to the efficient cause and the formal cause, such as “good intention” [*bonum propositum*], “a ready mind,” “good-will,” 2 Cor 9:2, “resolve,” v. 7, “purpose,” 2 Tim 3:10, if that “good-will,” given and aroused by the Holy Spirit, is a good work and is the cause of an external good work’ (*Quaedam & causam efficientem & formalem simul complectuntur, ut bonum propositum, pronitus animus, προθυμία, 2 Cor 9:2, προαίρεσις, v. 7, πρόθεσις, 2 Tim 3:10, siquidem προθυμία illa a Spiritu sancto donata & excitata est opus bonum, & est operis boni exterioris causa*) (*Loci* 17, § 3). Note Gerhard’s use of *propositum* throughout this chapter in the *Methodus* and its use here in *Loci* 17 in relation to the formal cause of good works. The Vulgate also translates πρόθεσις of 2 Tim 3:10 as *propositum*. That fiducial trust (faith) is a part of these ‘renewed qualities of the mind’ we have shown above in ch. 4.

sinful in the sight of God (*Loci* 17, §8). It is only through a mind whose affections have been renewed by the Holy Spirit through saving faith that the Christian can truly carry out good works in a God-pleasing way for God's glory and for the benefit of the neighbor. Since Luther's 'discovery' of the importance of faith (cf. LW 31:327–378; *The freedom of a Christian*), the paradox of good works has been that the Christian only accomplishes the ultimate goal of all good works through faith, rather than through those same good works (*Loci* 17, § 18). And so Gerhard also applies this truth to the academic study of *theologia*:

Therefore, this right intention from true faith in Christ effectively flows forth through love and has as its only objective the glory of God alone and the salvation of one's neighbor. Just as in all of our works, it is required even more so in the choosing and continuation of theological study. (*Methodus*, part 1, ch. 1, p. 16)²⁸

Compared to the 'objective' he had earlier mentioned, Gerhard here has omitted the theologian's own salvation. It would appear to be because the *recta intentio* required for the *theologiae studium* already necessarily implies the salvation of the theologian. Right intention can only stem from justifying faith (*fiducia*).

Gerhard has used this relatively short chapter on *recta intentio*, then, to directly call attention to saving faith as foundational for everything that happens throughout the *theologiae studium*. For this very reason, the Jena professor concludes that if this *recta intentio* is absent, then not just the pursuit of piety and serious prayers, but even a pious and God-pleasing *meditatio*, that is, the entire academic course of study as outlined in part three, 'cannot take place' (*non possunt habere locum*; part 1, ch. 1, pp. 17–18).²⁹ By this Gerhard does *not* mean to insinuate that faith is a *prerequisite* or *presupposition* of the study of *theologia*, such that (perhaps especially academic) theology could be separated from faith, but added on top of it as one building block upon another (as proposed by Calixt; cf. Wallmann 1961:107–118).³⁰ Modern understandings of *theologia* may be prone to think in this way. But this does not at all seem to be what Gerhard has in mind. As mentioned earlier, these are *requisites*, not prerequisites like the philological and philosophical preparatory studies. For Gerhard, saving faith, from which stems right intention, is essential and constitutive to the study of *theologia*, such that any *meditatio* (on any level) that does not also implicate these internal movements of the affections is invalid and cannot be considered the study of true *theologia*.

28 *Haec ergo recta intentio, quae ex vera in Christum fide per dilectionem efficace promanat & solius Dei gloriam & proximi salutem sibi propositam unice habet, ut in omnibus operibus nostris, ita vel maxime in studii Theologici electione & continuatione requiritur.*

29 The passage reads: 'Without that right intention, the remaining requisites of the theological study, that is, the sincere pursuit of piety, serious prayers, and a pious God-pleasing meditation cannot happen' (*Absque recta illa intentione requisita studii Theologici reliqua, videlicet sincerum pietatis studium, preces seriae, meditatio pia Deoque grata non possunt habere locum*).

30 See above discussion of 'common misunderstandings about Gerhard's concept of *theologia*' (ch. 5).

4.4 Sincere Pursuit of Piety

The same could be equally said of *pietas*. Gerhard does not wish to set up a certain level of piety as a *prerequisite* or *preliminary* requirement that must be satisfied before the student can engage in the study of *theologia*. Nor does he wish to make the pursuit or the attainment of piety the cause for success in the theological endeavor. Rather, as Preus (1970:121) indicates, the pursuit of *pietas*, as well as all three of the *requisita*, are ‘marks’ of the true theologian (see also Nieten 2003:62–63). It seems to be in this way that Gerhard uses the expression *non habere locum* five times throughout the relatively short chapter – to underscore a correlation, not causal relation, between two or more aspects of the theologian’s life. Where the ‘marks’ are missing, true *theologia* is also not to be found (*non habet locum*): ‘Therefore, where those [good] fruits and properties attributed to heavenly wisdom are not visible, there heavenly wisdom also has no place [*non habet locum*],’ (*Methodus*, part 1, ch. 2, p. 19).³¹

This quote shows that Gerhard posits a correlation between *theologia* (heavenly wisdom) and *pietas* (fruits of heavenly wisdom). What begins to emerge is a picture that coincides strikingly well with that described in the previous chapter (see Figure 2). These are what we have referred to above as the two ‘poles’ of the Christian life that necessarily implicate one another. Theological knowledge naturally bears fruit, such that one can detect the presence of that knowledge if one sees the visible ‘marks’ of it. It perhaps sounds strange to speak of knowledge or wisdom bearing fruit. Yet, Gerhard insists that ‘true and salutary knowledge of God consists not only in words but also in deeds, not only in the confession of the mouth, but also in the affection of the heart [*in affectu cordis*] and the carrying out of works [*executione operis*],’ (part 1, ch. 2, p. 20).³² Of course, this is reminiscent of the language borrowed from Gerson (*Prooemium*, § 12) and used in the final habitual definition of *theologia* (*Prooemium*, § 31). Gerhard wishes to reiterate that true theological instruction by the Holy Spirit is never only a matter of the intellect, but necessarily involves the will: ‘true and salutary illumination can have no place [*non potest habere locum*] in those who are weighed down with lethargy of the soul’ (*Methodus*, part 1, ch. 2, p. 20).³³ He also underscores the relation between those inner movements of the affections and *pietas*. True fear of God is the *fundamentum* (foundation, basis, beginning) of sincere *pietas* (part 1, ch. 2, p. 18).³⁴ In other words, ‘true faith is effective through love Therefore, where there is no love, neither victory over the world, nor purity of heart, nor inner renewal, nor union with

31 *Ergo ubi non apparent isti fructus & proprietates coelesti sapientiae attributae, ibi ipsa quoque coelestis sapientia non habet locum.*

32 *... vera & salutaris Dei agnitio non solum in verbis, sed in factis consistat, non in sola confessione oris, sed etiam in affectu cordis & executione operis.*

33 *Ergo vera & salutaris illuminatio non potest habere locum in illis, qui lethargo animae oppressi*

34 *Ergo ubi non est verus DEI timor, sincerae pietatis fundamentum, ibi vera ac coelestis sapientia non habet locum.*

Christ, nor even true faith [*vera fides*] has a place there [*non habet locum*]' (part 1, ch. 2, p. 21).³⁵ With this summary statement of what one might call the *auto-praxis* dimension of this chapter Gerhard has connected the 'obligation of right intention' with the 'pursuit of *pietas*' by speaking of 'true faith' being effective 'through love.'

Hence, generally speaking, Gerhard underscores three interrelated elements of the theologian's life in this short chapter: Theological knowledge, inner movements of the affections (the center of which is fiducial trust), and works of piety. In retrospect, this reflects precisely the first actualization of Gerhard's theological *habitus* (see ch. 5, Figure 1). True theological knowledge (on any level!) is, then, the very *notitia fidei* that simultaneously implicates *fiducia* in the single faith-event, which, in turn, naturally gives rise to good works (see ch. 5, Figure 2). Although analyzed logically and theologically in the previous chapter as distinct components, *theologia* and *pietas* can never be separated phenomenologically as they actually happen. In this same way, Nieten (2003:62–63) can describe Gerhard's pursuit of piety as not merely the 'distinctive mark,' but also the 'implementation' or 'realization' (*Vollzug*) of the true knowledge of God.

Thus far, all that Gerhard has written about the 'sincere pursuit of *pietas*' is directly and exclusively aimed at the theological student and, therefore, explicitly concerned with *auto-praxis*. Only the tenth and final point is addressed to the students as future ministers of the church (*Ecclesiae ministris*) (*Methodus*, part 1, ch.2, p. 21–23). The pursuit of *pietas* is also necessary, Gerhard advises, because such a pursuit provides an example to the hearers and renders them more open to their teachers' teaching. Simply put, ministers must practice what they preach for the sake of their hearers. The 'transfer' (cf. *traducat*), then, from head to heart as examined in the previous chapter (see Figure 2), concerns primarily and foundationally the theologian himself, but indirectly and by extension it also concerns the hearers.

Gerhard had earlier addressed the relation between these two orientations of the theologian's life. In his *Tractatus* (1610) he had dealt primarily with the legitimate interpretation of Scripture by which one attains a salutary knowledge of the divine mysteries. This coincides with the personal *auto*-oriented actualization of his habitual definition (see Figure 1, Part 1). Toward the end of the *Tractatus*, the Jena professor quotes a poet in order to briefly touch on the 'indirect' *allo*-oriented use of this salutary knowledge once it has been transferred into the affections of the will:

... if you wish to set me on fire, you must first be burning. Wood which has the capacity to burn does not flame up unless one moves fire to it, and the person who wants to call up pious affections [*pious affectus*] in others must himself first be piously affected [*pie affectus*]. That which must descend into the hearts of others

35 *Vera fides per dilectionem efficax est Ergo ubi non est dilectio, nec mundi victoria, nec cordis puritas, nec interior renovatio & cum Christo unio, ibi etiam vera fides non habet locum.*

must ascend from the heart, and those things which the inner person brings forth also strike the ears of the inner person. (*Tractatus*, § 222)³⁶

Of course, Gerhard is too much of an erudite scholar to fall into the Donatist error. He had warned earlier that ‘it is not our intention to hang the efficacy of the divine word on the dignity or quality of its minister (for we know that ... the Holy Spirit is the interior worker)’ (§ 221).³⁷ That notwithstanding, the ‘transfer’ and the resulting pious life of the interpreter (i.e., theologian) render the theologian’s treatment of Scripture more ‘fruitful for his hearers’ (§ 221). The connection Gerhard posits here between the ‘pursuit of piety’ and effective ministry to hearers reveals that, for him, professional *allo-praxis* is a natural extension of personal *auto-praxis*. Within the practice of *pietas*, service to neighbor (second table) flows from worship of God (first table).³⁸

In conclusion, *sincerum pietatis studium* is a requisite, along with *recta intentio* and *oratio*, that is to accompany the *meditatio* of part three. In retrospect, Gerhard has opened his *Methodus* with what he considers a fundamentally important discussion about the pious affective condition of the theologian resulting from the indispensable ‘transfer’ (see ch. 5, Figure 2) that must accompany *theologia* as it is implemented in the *theologiae studium*. The ‘instruction’ in the knowledge of the divine mysteries will be covered in part three, but that ‘instruction’ is only truly taking place and *theologia* only truly happening if the ‘marks’ or ‘evidence’ of the necessary ‘transfer’ are simultaneously present: Fiducial trust (*recta intentio*), good works (*pietas*), and the accompanying prayer of the pious student for theological understanding (*oratio*). This divine *cognitio* and the attendant *requisita* are precisely how the theologian is rendered apt and ready for the professional *praxis* of *informare* and *vindicare* so that others may also be led to salvation.

5. Course of Theological Study

The second part of the *Methodus* describes those studies that serve as the ‘outer foyer’ which one must traverse to gain entrance to the ‘inner sanctuaries of learning theology’ (*Methodus*, part 2, intro., p. 39). In contrast to the *requisita* of part one,

36 ... si vis me accendere, tibi prius ardendum. Lignum flammae capax non deflagrat nisi admoto igne, & ipse prior debet pie affectus esse, qui vult pios affectus in aliis ciere. Ex corde ascendant oportet, quae in aliorum corda descendere debent, & quae interior homo profert, illa quoque interioris hominis aures percellunt. I have slightly adjusted Dinda’s translation (Gerhard [1610] 2015) to more closely reflect the original Latin.

37 Non est nobis animus, divini verbi efficaciam a dignitate vel qualitate ministri suspendere (novimus enim ... Spiritus sanctus est operator interior)

38 Hence, Gerhard sequences his *Schola pietatis* (1622) such that volume three treats the Christian’s relation with God and volumes four and five deal with that same Christian’s relation to his or her neighbor.

these studies are preliminary and, therefore, lay outside of the study of *theologia*. This makes sense since such preparatory studies would fall in what one would call today the undergraduate liberal arts studies,³⁹ while theology held its preeminent place, as the queen of the sciences (*Methodus*, part 3, intro., p. 138), in what one would call today graduate studies. Of course, the ancient languages and philosophy are to be used throughout the study process, but we can say that, strictly speaking, they are not part of Gerhard's concept of *theologia*.

The third part lays out the five-year course of theological study and Gerhard surely considers the knowledge procured through this course of study to be that of *theologia*. Earlier in the *Methodus*, he had emphasized the importance for the theologian that Luther had placed on reading and meditating on Scripture and had mentioned that such 'meditation truly pertains to the third part' of the *Methodus* (part 1, intro, p. 14). *Meditatio*, for Luther, constituted the substantive center of any pursuit of *theologia* and so it also does for Gerhard who reminds the reader that it is the 'inner sanctuary of theology' (*interius Theologiae sanctuarium*) (part 3, intro, p. 138).

But, here again, we must be careful of an oversimplified interpretation of even this third part. The Jena professor's advice regarding what he apparently deemed to be two of the primary tasks of the professional theologian – preaching and disputations – is steeped in references to rhetoric and logic (e.g., part 3, sect., 2, ch. 3, p. 189; part 3, sect. 4, ch. 2, p. 207), and one would be hard-pressed to show that Gerhard would consider these two branches of knowledge to be part of the *nature* of *theologia*. On the contrary, they clearly fall in the realm of philosophy (part 2, sect. 2, ch. 1; cf. Preus 1970:122–128) and, as he has already pointed out in part two, philosophy and *theologia* are not identical. In the *Prooemium de natura theologiae*, Gerhard assigns them to entirely different genera (§§ 8, 23–24; cf. *Methodus*, part 2, sect. 2, ch. 2). Philological and philosophical knowledge play a ministerial role in service to *theologia* (*Methodus*, part 2, sect. 2, ch. 2, pp. 96–97). This is salutary and necessary since *theologia* is acquired, according to Gerhard, in an ordinary, not extraordinary, way (*Methodus*, Pref., p. 10; *Prooemium*, § 17). Its study requires these tools. And, for that matter, the pursuit of *theologia* on any level requires certain tools (e.g., grammatical knowledge is required to read the biblical text on even the most basic level). Notwithstanding, although *useful* and *necessary* in the study of *theologia* and in the application of *theologia* to others, it is important for our purposes here to note that Gerhard does not consider them an *essential* and *constitutive* part of *theologia*.

They are similar to and different than the *requisita*. Both the *requisita* and the required philological and philosophical knowledge are referred to in passing as *adminicula* (aids, auxiliaries) (part 1, intro., p. 14; part 3, intro., p. 40). In this respect they both accompany *theologia* throughout its study without forming an

39 See ch. 2, fn. 1.

essential part of *theologia*. Nonetheless, they do so in distinctively different ways. Philological and philosophical knowledge and the accompanying skills are only an *accidental* part of the *theologiae studium* (i.e., *theologia* viewed phenomenologically) that are necessary when *theologia* is pursued in an ordinary way (part 2, intro., p. 39; cf. *Prooemium*, § 17). By contrast, the *requisita* concern the necessary ‘transfer’ and are therefore an *essential* and *constitutive* part of the *theologiae studium* (see Figure 2). This is evident in that they are the necessary ‘marks’ of *theologia* whenever and wherever it is experienced on any *level* and in any *way* (ordinary or extraordinary).

That the *Methodus* purports to instruct in professional and academic *theologia* can be clearly discerned from the scholarly level of the five-year course of study. Nonetheless, even for the purposes of the *Methodus*, just as for the unlearned, *theologia* remains nothing more than *mysteriorum divinorum cognitio* (‘knowledge of divine mysteries’) and only differs from that of every Christian in that it is *accuratior et perfectior* (‘more accurate and complete’) (Pref., p. 10). Consequently, strictly speaking, such philological and philosophical knowledge and even the accompanying homiletic and disputational skills would not fall even in the outer circle of our diagram of *theologia* (see ch. 5, Figure 3). The modern mindset may tend to view certain knowledge, skills and abilities necessary for the professional ministerial office as actually part of *theologia*, a result of what Farley ([1983] 2001:84–88, 110–116, 127–135) has bemoaned as the triumph of the ‘clerical paradigm’ in modern theological education. In any case, care must be taken to not inadvertently impose this mindset on Gerhard, for it seems that it is not at all what he had in mind when he penned part three of the *Methodus* (cf. Muller 2003:120; see ch. 4).

We have emphasized the point here because a *habitus* that purports to be the ‘suitability’ of the human mind bestowed upon it to understand the divine mysteries revealed in Scripture *must* be about the proper handling and interpretation of those very Scriptures on every level (for layperson, minister, and academic theologian). That theological *habitus* could not really be at the same time a *habitus* of teaching, preaching, or disputations. Of course, such activities may result from the theological *habitus* (and should when it comes to the academic and professional theologian), but they would not constitute the *habitus*, per se, nor its actualizations as Gerhard has defined them (*instruitur* and *redditur*; see ch. 5, Figure 1).

We should then expect to see interpreting and understanding Scripture as central to the *theologiae studium* here in the *Methodus*. And, in fact, there are striking parallels between the *Methodus* (treating the *theologiae studium*) and the *Tractatus* (treating the interpretation of Scripture). For example, they contain similar vocabulary, parallel discussions of the uses and abuses of philosophy, and a common use of Luther’s *Trias*.⁴⁰

40 As far as I know, no significant research exists that has analyzed on a deeper level the striking parallels between these two works and the implications thereof. Unfortunately, such an analysis lies outside the parameters of the current study.

But what about his description of *meditatio* proposed here in part three of the *Methodus*? In view of the relatively broad and wide sweeping scope of the course of study that Gerhard proposes (at least when compared to Luther), what role does scriptural interpretation play? If one views the five-year curriculum synoptically, one senses a certain progression in the course of instruction such that students focus especially on exegetical theology in the first year, systematic in the second, polemical in the third, homiletics (or pastoral) in the fourth, and historical in the fifth. Although perhaps helpful, this is also a gross oversimplification, if for no other reason than that these 'divisions of theology' did not yet exist in Gerhard's time. Moreover, a closer examination reveals that the 'diligent and constant reading of Holy Scripture' (*diligens & assidua Scripturae sacrae lectio*) forms what Steiger (1997:146; 2008:724) has called 'a red thread' throughout the entire five year course of instruction (part 3, ch. 1, p. 140). In fact, Nieden (2003:64) suggests that Gerhard probably equates *meditatio* with the *lectio Scripturae Sacrae* and the accompanying academic exercises are there expressly to support that *lectio*.⁴¹

Properly interpreting and understanding Scripture remains the substantive center of the entire course of study and all academic exercises thereof. The great emphasis Gerhard places on the preliminary learning of the ancient biblical languages attests to this, especially when one considers that other auxiliary dogmatic works were readily available in Latin. Evidently, these dogmatic works were *not* the center of the *theologiae studium*. In addition, in somewhat ironic contrast to modern efforts at curriculum revision, the *Methodus* does not even address the subject matter of the public lectures that were being offered at the university and that Gerhard strongly recommends (part 3, ch. 6, pp. 164–168). The large number of specifically biblical commentary lecture notes left unpublished before his death, seems to indicate that Gerhard lectured primarily (though certainly not exclusively) on the very books of the Bible (cf. Fischer [1723] 2000:350–360).

And, finally, even the expressly academic exercises recommended by Gerhard (e.g., creating *loci* notebooks, engaging in disputations, and reading church history) are largely centered on ascertaining the truth within Scripture. The *loci* exercises, as inherited from Melancthon who simply followed the common practice of his time (cf. Moss 1996), were specifically designed to help the future theologian arrange the 'celestial doctrine' of Scripture in an organized way. This was not just a cataloguing exercise to facilitate the future personal and professional use of the Bible. The *loci* method was meant to shape the budding theologian's mind so that he could more easily arrange the biblical truths and read Scripture with a more accurate and complete understanding (part 3, sect. 1, ch. 5, pp. 163–164).⁴² An inter-

41 See the use of '*mediteris*' in the quote from Luther (*Methodus*, part 1, intro., p. 13) and its connection to the reading of Scripture.

42 The passage reads: 'It is especially useful immediately in the first year of theological study to learn from some methodical book a certain organized and synoptic summary of all celestial doctrine (this is catechetical theology), fix it correctly in one's mind, memorize it, carry it around with him

pretation of Scripture based on the *regula fidei* as Gerhard proposed coincided well with the *loci* method. Knowledge arranged in such a way rendered the mind ‘suitable’ for understanding Scripture (see above, ch. 5; cf. comments regarding Hafenreffer’s use of *loci*, Håggglund 1998:24).⁴³ Disputations were also centered on Scripture. Although highly academic exercises, Gerhard insists that disputations should begin with prayers for the ‘illumination of the mind through the spirit’ because they discuss the ‘deepest mysteries of the faith’ (part 3, sect. 2, pp. 179–180). Since these ‘mysteries’ are revealed only in Scripture, the goal of all disputations should be the ‘seeking out and confirming of truth from the very sources of Holy Scripture’ and the disputed questions should be limited to those ‘defined in Scripture’ (part 3, sect. 2, pp. 186, 182). If they veer from this, they are no longer theological. With regard to church history, the first reason for studying the church fathers is because they ‘help us in interpreting Scripture,’ although in doing so ‘they are not gods [*Numina*], but bright lamps [*lumina*]’ (part 3, sect. 5, ch. 3, p. 256; cf. Mayes 2013:468–469). In Gerhard’s mind, the theologian’s task is one of ‘handling’ the Scriptural texts, but to do so the theologian must also carefully consult with other interpreters, not only contemporary, but ‘especially those venerable grey heads of the very early teachers of the church’ (*Tractatus*, § 216; cf. *Prooemium*, § 17).⁴⁴

in his heart, so that whatever one encounters later in his study of theology he may be able to refer it to its proper *sedes* and, so to speak, to its own place’ (*Maximopere confert, primo statim, Theologici studii anno quandam, συματοποίησιν ac σύννοσιν totius doctrinae coelestis ex libello quodam Methodico adiscere, (haec est Theologia catechetica) eandem animo probe infigere, memoria complecti & perpetuo in animo secum circumferre, ut quicquid postea in toto Theologici studii decursu occurrit ad sedem propriam & suum quasi locum referre quis possit*) (part 3, sect. 1, ch. 5, p. 163).

- 43 Applying the *loci* method to Scripture was, among other applications, a way of ‘suffering’ or ‘subduing’ the mind to the biblical truths in Scripture. Historians (e.g., Niden 2006:240) have argued that with the rise of confessionalization such *loci* exercises became less creatively based on Scripture and increasingly subjugated to approved model systems of *loci*. Niden (2003:67–68) alludes to a similar shift in the emphasis of *meditatio* between Luther and Gerhard indicating that Gerhard’s practice of *meditatio* in the *Methodus* carries a Melancthonian ‘doctrinal’ orientation. The difference between Gerhard and Luther in this regard is clearly evident. This notwithstanding, Luther’s *meditatio* in practice could also make use of compendiums of ‘biblical doctrine,’ such as, for example, the booklet written for his barber, Peter, entitled *A Simple Way to Pray*, in which Luther teaches a method of *meditatio* based on the *Small Catechism* (Kleinig 1986:151–154). Of course, the academic nature of Gerhard’s *meditatio* far exceeds Luther’s advice to his barber, but it may also be possible to trace its ‘doctrinal’ orientation back to Luther and his *Catechisms* just as to Melancthon and his *Loci communes*. This may explain why Gerhard refers to the *loci* method as ‘catechetical theology’ (*Methodus*, part 3, sect. 2, ch. 5, p. 163).
- 44 Even while he was still living and especially after his death, Luther’s biblical commentaries were regularly consulted by theological students. Johann Förster (1576–1613) was one of the first to recommend reading Luther along with the other ‘church fathers’ and to also suggest his doctrinal and polemical writings (Niden 2006:171). Gerhard follows suit, placing the reading of Luther in the fifth year especially along with church history and the early church fathers, but with a pointed warning about the ‘papist leaven’ of Luther’s early writings (part 3, sect. 5, ch. 2, pp. 241–244).

It is not surprising, then, to find that Gerhard has such a wide breadth of academic exercises in the part of the *Methodus* that he designates as *meditatio*. In his mind, such a *meditatio* remains fundamentally centered on Scripture and essentially and foundationally about the faith edification and pious *praxis* of the theologian, though certainly not divorced from that of the parishioner. The fascination with *meditatio* as the key to the ‘transfer’ from head to heart was wide-spread throughout all of Europe during Gerhard’s time (cf. Sträter 1995 & 2000) and Gerhard participates in this conversation in more than a few of his writings (e.g., *Schola pietatis*, vol. 2; *Meditationes sacrae*; cf. Steiger 2000:*passim*; Koch 1987:*passim*; Hägglund 1998:27–30). There was no fixed method of *meditatio* and Gerhard himself suggests several possible kinds of contemplation (*Schola pietatis*, vol. 2, part 1, ch. 7). As opposed to many modern mystical approaches to meditation, for Luther *meditatio* was inseparably bound up with the written word (Bayer 2007:50–59) and this continued for those who followed in his footsteps, including Gerhard (Steiger 1997:134–143; cf. comments above on *ruminatio*, ch. 5). The *meditatio* spoken of here in the *Methodus* is simply another kind of *meditatio*, but one that is intensely engaged in a deep study of the external written texts of Scripture (cf. Nieten 2003:64–65). Hägglund (1998:21–27) has shown that this ‘academic’ or ‘studious’ *meditatio* was a more common practice at this time than one might imagine (cf. Hafenreffer’s *Loci theologici*, 1603, p. 23). Despite the intense study of Scripture (which required knowledge of the languages), the goal remains that of being ‘drawn into connection with the text’ which effects the personal ‘transfer’ from head to heart and secondarily that of applying it in sermons, teaching, and other such professional tasks (Hägglund 1998:25).

This notwithstanding, Gerhard’s *meditatio* has evolved considerably (especially when compared to Luther’s original presentation of the *Trias*) and one senses a tension between *theologia* as faith and *theologia* as academic discipline. That he designates this section as *meditatio*, however, is significant and indicates what we have said above, that for Gerhard the *theologiae studium*, even on this academic level, remains ‘faith-knowledge’ that must undergo the ‘transfer’ to personal faith and piety (a movement that Gerhard addresses in the *coronis*, see below).

At the same time, the professional orientation of this third part is clearly evident. This poses no problem for Gerhard. Personal saving faith is never only for self, but always also for one’s neighbor and this is especially the case for those called into ministry. When *theologia* is experienced in the *theologiae studium*, the right intention of saving faith is always and immediately concerned for the salvation of the neighbor. The forgiven sinner cries out in prayer ‘for the needs of our neighbor, both for this life and for eternal life’ (Gerhard [1612] 2003:27; cf. *Exercitium pietatis quotidianum quadripartum*, [1612] 1653, *pars quarta*). It is part of the pious life awakened by the *theologiae studium*.

6. *Coronis de Tentatione*

The preface had specified the object of the student's pursuit – a more accurate and complete *mysteriorum divinatorum cognitio*. Part one had described the life of faith and faith-*praxis* in which the *theologiae studium* must be immersed as the student eagerly pursues that divine knowledge. Part two had set out the preliminary philological and philosophical studies that pertain directly to and, for that matter, make possible the academic exercises in the next part. As such, it served more as a supplemental addendum to the course of study than a part of the *theologiae studium*. Part three had laid out the course of the *theologiae studium* that the student should undertake to pursue that divine knowledge revealed in the written Scriptures. Now in the final *coronis* (end, conclusion), Gerhard adds an important final word about the 'complement, so to speak, and completion' (*complementum quasi & perfectionem*) of the student's theological pursuit of that knowledge of the divine mysteries (*coronis*, p. 321).

In the last sentence of the *Methodus*, the Jena professor assures the reader that in adopting this method the student will properly begin (*instituere*), properly continue (*continueret*), and properly complete (*pertere*) the *theologiae studium* and, by God's grace, appropriate that very knowledge of those divine mysteries (*coronis*, p. 328).⁴⁵ The first words of the introduction to part one (p. 13) reference Luther's famous *Trias* and reveal Gerhard's intention to structure his entire tract around it. It would seem that in this final concluding sentence of the *Methodus*, he is again referring to the *Trias*. Theological study is only carried out *recte* if it is engaged in that *Trias* from start to finish: *Oratio* (part 1), *meditatio* (part 3), and *tentatio* (*coronis*). The final *coronis*, then, treats the final element of the *Trias* – *tentatio*.⁴⁶ As part of the *Trias* it also forms an integral indispensable part of the *theologiae studium* and should not be interpreted as an optional annex. It is a 'complement,' but in such a way that theological study is not complete without it (cf. Steiger 1997:149–151).

Gerhard gives three meanings of *tentatio*: 1) *Spiritualis sensus & experientia* (spiritual sense & experience), 2) *in cruce patientia* (patience in the cross), and 3) *in studio pietatis perseverantia* (perseverance in the pursuit of piety). We will examine the first in some detail and then take up all three in drawing some connections to homiletical advice that Gerhard had previously given in the *Methodus*.

45 The final sentence of the *Methodus* reads: 'And these things have been said about the theological study begun properly, continued properly, completed properly. May the most kind God, the author of all good, cause it so that all things happen for the glory of his name and for the benefit of our studies. Amen.' (*Atque haec dicta sint de studio Theologico recte instituendo, recte continuando, recte pertexendo, faxit benignissimus Deus omnis boni autor, ut omnia cedant ad nominis sui gloriam & studiorum nostrorum emolumentum. Amen.*)

46 The word *tentatio* defies English translation. Attempts have been made (e.g., temptation, spiritual attack, persecution, testing, proving). The German equivalent is *Anfechtung*. In view of the inadequacies of the English translations, I have decided to forego the translation altogether.

6.1 *Tentatio* as the Necessary ‘Transfer’

It is somewhat strange that rather than designate the discussion of *tentatio* as a fourth part of the *Methodus*, Gerhard assigns it to the final *coronis*. His reasoning is that ‘*tentatio* consists in total *praxis*,’ alluding to the idea, then, that the *meditatio* of part three pertains to ‘theory’ (part 1, intro., p. 14).⁴⁷ As mentioned earlier, in a very similar way attesting to the affinity between the two tracts, Gerhard had already expounded on the *Trias* in his *Tractatus* of 1610. In that earlier work he had also defined *tentatio* as *praxis* (*Tractatus*, § 218). In both tracts he explains precisely what that means with a direct reference to the *Loci theologici* of the sainted Chemnitz (*Methodus, coronis*, p. 321; *Tractatus*, § 218). In the preface to his *Loci theologici*, Chemnitz had quoted a passage from the early church father, Epiphanius, who argued that a proper interpretation of Scripture required both θεωρία (theory) as well as αἴσθησις (perception) (Chemnitz 1989:25).⁴⁸ Gerhard then follows Chemnitz’s (rather dubious) interpretation of those words:

We take θεωρία to mean a consideration of the order and the distinction of the parts of the whole corpus of doctrine; but αἴσθησις means the sense and experience of the pious in the use of doctrine, in repentance, fear, faith, invocation, one’s own consolations, which we understand to be part of the exercises of piety. (*Methodus, coronis*, p. 321)⁴⁹

Theory, then, is basically concerned with the learning of the *loci* presentation of the doctrinal truths of Scripture, whereas αἴσθησις (sense-perception) involves the use of that biblical doctrine (*usus doctrinae*) in certain ‘exercises of piety’ (*exercitia pietatis*). According to Gerhard, such exercises of the pious life ‘teach one to not

47 The passage reads: ‘Because truly *meditatio* pertains to the third part, *tentatio* consists in total *praxis*, about which we will give some advice as a conclusion toward the end of this tract ... (*Quia vero meditatio ad partem tertiam pertinet, Tentatio in praxi tota consistit, de qua coronidis loco sub finem hujus Tractatus aliquid monebitur* ...).

48 The passage from Chemnitz’ *Loci theologici* reads: ‘There is a great deal of truth in this learned instruction [of Epiphanius], for in most instances we ought to retain the particular meaning of a passage which is called for by the grammatical sense or the nature and phraseology of the words. Yet he says that there is need for the theory [θεωρία] and the sense [αἴσθησις] in discerning the material. It seems to me that the term “theory” is used in consideration of the orderly sequence and the distinction of the members or parts in the whole body of doctrine, as the study of dialectics teaches definitions and differences and discerns false relationships from correct ones. But the feeling [αἴσθησις] for this has to do with the experience of pious men in the use of the doctrine, in repentance, fear, faith, prayer, and their own private devotions. This aspect of the subject is understood in the practice of piety.’ In retrospect, Chemnitz’ interpretation of Epiphanius taken up also by Gerhard seems somewhat dubious (cf. Epiphanius 2013:121; *The Panarion of Epiphanius*, Book 2, Heresy 61); nonetheless, Gerhard uses it to support Luther’s use of *tentatio* and his concern that biblical interpretation be embedded in the pious life.

49 ... per θεωρία intelligitur consideratio ordinis & distinctio membrorum in toto corpore doctrinae, per αἴσθησιν vero sensus & experientia piorum in usu doctrinae, in poenitentia, timore, fide, invocatione, consolationibus propriis, quae pars in exercitiis pietatis intelligitur.

only know, but also to feel [*sentire*] and experience [*experiri*] the certainty, truthfulness, sweetness, efficacy, and consolation of the Word' (quoting Luther; *coronis*, p. 321).⁵⁰

A quote from one of his favorite medieval monastic theologians, Bernard of Clairvaux, allows him to roughly outline the flow of the *theologiae studium* as presented in the *Methodus*:

The reading [*lectio*] occurs first as a foundation [*fundamentum*] and once we have received the material it sends us to meditation. Meditation, however, seeks more diligently that for which we must hunger and, so to speak, digs up, finds, and reveals the treasure. However, since we are unable to obtain it of itself, meditation sends us to prayer. Prayer lifts itself up to the Lord with all its might and obtains as its desirable treasure the sweetness of contemplation and, when it comes, it rewards the labor of the aforementioned three by drenching the soul which is thirsting for the dew of heavenly sweetness. (*coronis*, p. 322–323)⁵¹

First, the αἵσθησις is never divorced from the *lectio continua*, which serves as the necessary *fundamentum* for the entire theological endeavor (*coronis*, pp. 322–323; cf. part 3, sect. 1, ch. 1–4).⁵² That is to say, the *tentatio perpetua* of the theologian's life is directly due to the ever present *lectio continua* and the legitimate interpretation thereof (Steiger 1997:148). That this same quote also appears word for word in the *Tractatus* (§ 218) attests once again to the close affinity in Gerhard's mind between the pursuit of *theologia* (*theologiae studium*) and the interpreting of Scripture (*Scripturae interpretatio*). Secondly, *meditatio* follows that *lectio continua* and diligently seeks out, digs up, and uncovers the heavenly treasure (cf. *Methodus*, part 3). Thirdly, alas, that treasure (i.e., divine mysteries) is beyond our understanding, so requires prayer that God might give true understanding (cf. *Tractatus*, §§ 48–53; *Methodus*, part 1, ch. 3, pp. 23–38). Fourthly, that prayer is, again, not separate from, but steeped in the *lectio continua* and, thereby, God grants 'as the desired treasure the sweetness of contemplation' (*coronis*,

50 *Tentatio* (inquit Lutherus) docet non solum scire, sed etiam sentire & experiri certitudinem, veritatem, suavitatem, efficaciam & consolationem verbi.

51 *Lectio quasi fundamentum primo occurrit & datam materiam mittit nos ad meditationem. Meditatio vero quid appetendum sit, diligentius inquit & q. effodiens thesaurum invenit & ostendit, sed cum per se obtinere non valeat, mittit nos ad orationem, oratio se totis viribus erigens ad Dominum impetrat desiderabilem thesaurum contemplationis suavitatem, haec autem adveniēns praedictorum trium laborem remunerat atque dum coelestis rore dulcedinis animam sitientem inebriat.*

52 As Nieden (2003:67) has pointed out, *tentatio* for Gerhard is concerned with the 'use of doctrine' (*usus doctrinae*) and, as such, reflects a melanchthonian approach to theology as *doctrina ecclesiae* and adapts Luther's original use of *tentatio* accordingly. This notwithstanding, it seems that in Gerhard's mind the difference is much less pronounced than one might think. For him, the study of doctrine and the study of Scripture go hand-in-hand, since the former was simply a way of shaping the mind to better understand the biblical truths (see above) and then apply them to self and others. To experience doctrine is, for Gerhard, to experience Scripture.

p. 323). Gerhard views this contemplation, again steeped in the Word, as the last 'step' or 'completion' of the *theologiae studium* and equates it with the *tentatio* (cf. *coronis*) that gives rise to the personal tasting of the sweetness of that Word.

It should be apparent by now that by the *coronis de tentatione* the former pastoral supervisor and now newly appointed professor wishes to treat the necessary 'transfer' from intellect to will, that is, what we have deemed the transfer from head to heart (see ch. 5, Figure 2; for similar interpretations, see Nieden 2003:66–68; Steiger 1997:151). This 'transfer' involves the personal application of God's Law and Gospel to oneself, such that one not only knows theoretically (*scire θεωρητικῶς*) God's justice and condemnation of the sinner and His mercy and forgiveness of the penitent, but one also senses it practically (*sentire πρακτικῶς*) in his exercises of repentance and in his exercises of faith and prayer (*coronis*, pp. 321–322).⁵³ The language Gerhard employs here calls to mind the distinction (not separation!) that he will later describe between the 'didactic' (*didacticum*) office of Scripture with its 'instructing' (*μαθήσεως*) role and the 'practical' (*practicum*) office of Scripture with its 'regenerative' (*γενέσεως*) role (see ch. 4; *Von der Natur*, quest. 1, § 35; [1628] 1671:212–213; cf. Steiger 2008:724).

The parallels with Gerhard's habitual definition in the *Prooemium* are obvious. The first actualization of the theological *habitus* (see the leftmost text of Part 1 of Figure 1 in ch. 5) coincides with what he here alludes to as the theoretical instruction (*instruitur*) in the divine mysteries. The student is to then *traducere* (transfer) what he now knows in the intellect theoretically into the affection of his heart so that he practically senses and experiences those truths personally for himself in the will (see the 'horizontal arrows' of Part 1 of Figure 1). The *tentatio* is what makes Gerhard's *theologia* mostly *practica* (see *Prooemium*, § 12). When the theological *habitus* is actualized at an advanced academic level, it also renders (*redditur*) the student apt and ready for the professional ministry. Nonetheless, even at such an advanced level (such as that of the *Methodus*), it remains essentially theoretical knowledge of the divine mysteries whose purpose/result is that such knowledge be 'transferred,' that is, practically 'sensed and experienced' first and foremost by the theologian himself. The *tentatio*, similar to the three *requisita* of part one of the *Methodus*, is explicitly focused on the personal faith edification of the theologian (*auto-praxis*), the difference being that the *tentatio*, it would seem, is concerned with effecting the 'transfer,' while

53 The passage reads: 'Therefore, it is not enough to know theoretically that God is just and accuses and condemns sin in the law, but one ought to also sense practically in his exercises of true repentance that God is seriously angry with sins. It is not enough for one to know theoretically that God is merciful and in the Gospel forgives the penitent their sins because of Christ, the mediator, but one must also sense practically in exercises of faith and prayer the goodness and mercy of God ...' (*Non igitur sufficit scire θεωρητικῶς Deum esse justum & in lege accusare ac damnare peccata, sed oportet etiam sentire πρακτικῶς in exercitio verae poenitentiae, Deum serio irasci peccatis. Non sufficit scire θεωρητικῶς Deum esse misericordem & in Evangelio propter Christum mediatorem peccata poenitentibus condonare, sed etiam sentire oportet πρακτικῶς in exercitiis fidei & invocationis Dei bonitatem ac misericordiam ...*).

the three *requisita* (right intention, piety, and prayer) describe the resulting life of piety in which the theological study is embedded.

6.2 Tentatio as 'Self-Application' of Theologia

As mentioned earlier, in addition to its first meaning as 'spiritual sense and experience' (*spiritualis sensus & experientia*), Gerhard gives two other meanings for *tentatio*. It is also 'testing' that requires 'patience in the cross' (*in cruce patientia*) as the theologian is tempted by adversaries and adversities from without (*coronis*, pp. 323–326).⁵⁴ This type of 'testing' happens from outside (*exterius*) of the theologian. There is also inward 'testing' as the theologian is assailed by temptations from within (*interius*).⁵⁵ Here, Gerhard recommends 'perseverance in the pursuit of piety' (*in studio pietatis perseverantia*) (*coronis*, pp. 326–328). This follows the pattern inherited from Hafenreffer's *Loci theologici* (1603:11, 16) and the similarity with Luther's *Anfechtungen* is obvious (cf. Nieden 2003:66–67). We will not delve into these two meanings except to explore a seeming parallel between Gerhard's three-fold meaning of *tentatio* and his homiletical advice regarding sermon application offered earlier in part three of the *Methodus*.⁵⁶

In the fourth year, the theological student is to begin preaching. For that, Gerhard writes what could be considered a small tract on homiletics. The preacher, he says, performs two offices – the interpretation of Scripture and its accommodation for salutary use (*Methodus*, part 3, sect. 4, ch. 2, pp. 206–207).⁵⁷ Whereas the

54 'Although a great many adversities happen to all of those who are truly godly in this world, above all theologians and faithful ministers of the church are exposed especially to the various darts of calamities because for some special reason they have the devil as their bitter enemy, upon whose kingdom they inflict ruin. For this reason the admonition of Sirach 2:1–2 applies: "My son, if you intend to serve the Lord, prepare your soul for testing [tentationem]. Direct your heart and be firm." (*Quamvis omnibus vere piis adversa plurima in hoc mundo obringant, cum primis tamen Theologi ac fideles Ecclesiae ministri variis calamitatum telis sunt expositi, cum peculiari quadam ratione Diabolum sibi habeant insensum, cuius regno cladem non mediocrem inferunt, hic ergo locum habet Siricidis admonitio, cap. 2, v. 1. Fili, si accesseris ad serviendum Domino, praepara animam tuam ad tentationem. v. 2. dirige cor tuum & sustine.*) (*coronis*, p. 323)

55 'The pious theologian is tempted [tentatur] and solicited not only outwardly through adversities, but also inwardly through corrupt suggestions to commit sins so that he is forced to experience the truth of that apostolic saying in 2 Cor 7:5: "Fears within, fights without." (*Non solum exterius per adversa, sed etiam interius per pravas suggestiones ad peccata tentatur & sollicitatur pius Theologus, ita ut Apostolici illius pronuntiati veritatem experiri cogatur 2 Corinth. 7. v. 5. Intus pavores, foris pugnae.*) (*coronis*, p. 326)

56 As far as I know, this apparent parallel has been largely overlooked in Gerhard research. Further study will have to be done to determine the delimitations of this parallel. I use it here simply to offer further precision regarding Gerhard's concept of *theologia* and to draw connections in Gerhard's thinking between the *auto-* and *allo-*orientations of that concept.

57 The passage reads: 'Furthermore, there are two offices of the preacher of the church, namely, the interpretation of Scripture and its accommodation for salutary use. The interpretation of Scripture includes both the searching out of the true and genuine meaning and the plain and clear telling of it ... The former belongs to the private study of the preacher, but the latter to his public office. We

former entails searching out and paraphrasing the true and genuine meaning of the text; the latter includes the gathering of doctrines from the text and the *application of those doctrines to the hearers*. It is this last function – application – that proves especially interesting for our purposes.

For this, Gerhard makes a suggestion that appears to have been somewhat normative for his own ministry, teaching, and writing. He bases that advice on a close reading of 2 Timothy 3:16–17 to which he also adds Romans 15:4 and enumerates a list of five uses of Scripture: Teaching (διδασκαλίαν), refuting (ἐλεγχον), correcting (ἐπανόρθωσιν), instructing (παιδείαν), and comforting (παράκλησιν) (for this and the following explanation, see *Methodus*, part 3, sect. 4, ch. 2, p. 217–219).⁵⁸ The first two (teaching and refuting) work together to provide the remedy for fallen sinners, who are not only blind and ignorant in regard to the knowledge of the truth, but also inclined toward error. ‘Teaching’ remedies the first and ‘refuting’ remedies the second, but both are concerned with knowing the truth. The second two (correcting and instructing) work together to provide the remedy for fallen sinners, who are not only remiss and lazy in doing good, but also inclined to do evil. ‘Instructing’ remedies the first and ‘correcting’ remedies the second, but both are concerned with doing good. Finally, the last (comforting) provides the remedy for fallen sinners, who are weak and impatient when it comes to tolerating evil. It is concerned with patient tolerance in the face of evil and adversity. Looked at in a positive way, Gerhard connects these uses of Scripture, now reduced to three, to the ‘cardinal and chief virtues’ of the Christian: Faith, love, and hope (cf. 1 Cor 13:13). Faith is concerned with the knowledge of the truth (teaching & refuting), love is concerned with doing good (instructing & correcting), and hope is concerned with the tolerance of evil (comforting).

explained the former and the aids and means with which he can obtain it in our treatise on the interpretation of Scripture ... The telling of the true meaning is nothing other than a paraphrastic explanation of the text. The accommodation for use of the found and told meaning is nothing other than the gathering of doctrines from the text and the application thereof to the salvation of the audience. We must connect the two in our preaching because one without the other is incomplete and fruitless. (*Caeterum Concionatoris Ecclesiastici dui sunt officia. Scripturae scilicet interpretatio, ejusdemque ad usum salutarem accommodatio. Interpretatio Scripturae complectitur tum veri & genuini sensus investigationem, tum ejusdem planam & perspicuam enarrationem Illud pertinet ad privatum concionatoris studium, nec vero ad publicum ipsius officium. Illud quibus adminiculis ac mediis obtineri possit, expositum est in tractatu de interpretatione Scripturae Enarratio veri sensus nihil aliud est, quam Paraphrastica textus explicatio: accommodatio sensus inventi & enarrati ad usum nihil aliud est, quam doctrinarum ex textu collectio & ad auditorum salutem applicatio. Utrumque in concionibus conjungendum, cum alterum absque altero sit imperfectum & infruiferum.*)

58 ‘All Scripture is breathed out by God and profitable for teaching (διδασκαλίαν), for reproof (ἐλεγχον), for correction (ἐπανόρθωσιν), and for training (παιδείαν) in righteousness, that the man of God may be complete, equipped for every good work’ (2 Tm 3:16–17, ESV). ‘For whatever was written in former days was written for our instruction, that through endurance and through the encouragement (παράκλησιν) of the Scriptures we might have hope’ (Rm 15:4, ESV).

Gerhard seems to have applied this application framework in a variety of venues attesting to its importance in his own thinking. For example, the same schema is reproduced (almost word for word) to describe the ‘intermediate’ use of Scripture ‘with respect to us’ (cf. *applicatio*) in the *locus* on Holy Scripture (*Exegesis* 1, *De scriptura sacra*, § 363). In addition, Gerhard often uses a variation of these applications at the end of his respective *Loci* (e.g., *Exegesis* 1, § 538; *Loci* 26, vol. 2, § 373). It would also seem that Gerhard’s various written works could be divided into those that are dogmatic/doctrinal (knowing truth; e.g. *Loci theologici*), those that are concerned with growth in piety (doing good; e.g., *Schola pietatis*), and those that are consolatory (fostering patient tolerance; e.g., *Enchiridion consolatorium*).⁵⁹

In any case, it would seem that in the *Coronis* Gerhard has utilized this same method of application, applying an adapted form of it to the theologian himself. *Tentatio* as *spiritualis sensus & experientia* is about sensing and experiencing the truth and thus corresponds to ‘faith’ (teaching and refuting); *tentatio* as *in cruce patientia* is about fostering tolerance in the face of evil and thus corresponds to ‘hope’ (comforting); and *tentatio* as *in studio pietatis perseverantia* is about doing good and thus corresponds to ‘love’ (instructing and correcting). Gerhard has probably placed ‘hope’ before ‘love’ to follow the biblical order (1 Cor 13:13), but also to heed Hafenreffer’s ordering of internal prior to external *tentatio* (cf. Hafenreffer’s *Loci theologici*, 1603:11–18).

The greatest discrepancy also reveals something about Gerhard’s understanding of *theologia*. That discrepancy lies in the first meaning of *tentatio*. ‘Teaching’ and ‘refuting’ are theoretical (*theoretica*) applications (*Methodus*, part 3, sect. 4, ch. 2, p. 219)⁶⁰ and Gerhard has expressly indicated that *tentatio* goes beyond theoretical knowing and becomes practical sensing and experiencing. But this discrepancy appears to be merely due to the fact that the application here (as personal *tentatio* versus professional sermon) is being applied to the theologian, that is, to the preacher himself. *Theologia*, strictly speaking as knowledge of divine mysteries, is assumed to have already happened (through teaching and refuting) and what

59 Of course, Gerhard also lectured, wrote, and published extensively in what we would today call the ‘exegetical’ field. This would seem to coincide with that office of the preacher focused on the *interpretation* of Scripture, whereas his other works would seem to fall in the office focused on the *accommodation* of Scripture for salutary use.

60 As opposed to the other three uses of Scripture which are ‘practical.’ The passage reads: ‘Those who take pleasure in dichotomies can proceed like this. The accommodation of Scripture is either theoretical or practical. Theoretical is about true knowledge, from which comes teaching, and about the refutation of falsehood, from which comes refuting. Practical is about doing good, from which comes training, and about evil of fault, from which comes correcting, and about tolerating the evil of punishment, from which comes comforting.’ (*Qui dichotomiis delectantur, sic possunt procedere. Accommodatio Scripturae est vel Theoretica vel practica. Theoretica versatur circa veri cognitionem, unde διδασκαλία & falsi refutationem, unde ἔλεγχον. Practica versatur circa bonum agendum, unde παιδεία circa malum culpaе fugiendum, unde ἐπανάρθωσις; & malum poenae tolerandum, unde παράκλησις.*)

remains (logically, not chronologically) is for such knowledge to be ‘transferred’ to the affections of the will. In this way it truly does bring about ‘faith.’ In retrospect, the discrepancy actually corroborates the contention that *theologia* is essentially faith-knowledge.

Finally, the parallel between the *auto*-oriented *tentatio* of the *coronis* and the *allo*-oriented advice on sermon application helps us to further elucidate Gerhard’s concept of *theologia*. He has seemingly relegated the practical aspect of the theological endeavor to the *coronis* and set it apart from the theoretical theological study. One could, then, analyze *theologia* logically as a mere concept and rightly conclude that Gerhard limits it to the personal *mysteriorum divinorum cognitio*. As such, it is a personal intellectual affair and, per our conclusion above (ch. 5), strictly speaking, can be distinguished from *pietas* and, for that matter, even from *fiducia*. Strictly speaking logically and conceptually, then, one could exclude from *theologia* the *auto*-oriented practical application to the theologian himself (reason for which *tentatio* is relegated to the *coronis*). In doing so, however, one would also exclude from *theologia* the *allo*-oriented practical application to the parishioners. From this analysis, it becomes neither faith-*praxis* nor professional *praxis*.

Of course, this sounds foreign to Gerhard’s concept of *theologia* precisely because it would only be a fitting description of his theological *habitus bare* (*nudus*) and *unqualified*. But, for Gerhard, the *Methodus* and, for that matter, the Christian life, are about the phenomenological implementation of *theologia*. *Theologia* cannot exist or happen apart from its implementation and it wishes especially to be examined in this context. And that is Gerhard’s primary concern and why he qualifies the theological *habitus* as θεόσδοτος which renders *theologia* mostly *practica*. When experienced in Christian life or in the academic *theologiae studium*, true *theologia* is always given by God and, as such, always practically results in the personal ‘transfer’ from the head to the heart, constituting the single faith-event and resulting in the life of piety. As we said earlier, the study of true *theologia* cannot and simply does not take place without the *tentatio* as its necessary ‘complement, so to speak, and completion’ (*complementum quasi & perfectionem*) (*Methodus, coronis*, p. 321). So, as we have concluded above (ch. 5; Figure 2), for Gerhard, *theologia* is inseparable from saving faith and *pietas*. For the academic professionalized theologian, that personal ‘transfer’ resulting in the life of piety also has a vocational and professional dimension and includes activities of service to neighbor such as ‘teaching’ (e.g., *informare*) and ‘refuting’ (e.g., *vindicare*) in order that they, too, might be led to salvation also glowing with true faith and good works.

7. Conclusion

A concluding word ought to be said about the order of the various elements involved in the implementation of *theologia* and the parts of the *Methodus*. First, the source and cause of a *habitus* and the actions resulting from it are one and same. As men-

tioned earlier, the appropriation of *theologia*, like any *habitus*, is therefore a helical process, whereby the theologian is constantly and repeatedly undergoing the God-worked cultivation or habituation, if you will, of *theologia*. Secondly, the *Methodus* is not meant as a systematic treatment of the doctrine of conversion nor for that matter is it meant as a formal logical treatment of *theologia* (see the *Loci* for both of these). *Theologia*, as portrayed in the *Methodus*, is expected to be carried out by those who already possess saving faith and, furthermore, live in *unio spiritualis* with Christ. It is not at all problematic, then, that requisites for *theologia* such as saving faith and piety be assumed necessary throughout the theological study and, at the same time, be the expected 'end' (*coronis*) of that same pursuit. In this regard it makes sense that, for Gerhard, the life of piety is both the 'starting point and goal' of the *theologiae studium* (cf. Steiger 2008:723). Finally, the order of the *Methodus* organized around Luther's *Trias* is not to be interpreted linearly or causally any more than Luther's original *Trias*.

This chapter invites further study of the *Methodus* and hopes to serve as an impetus for such future research. Nonetheless, the evidence does call for a tentative conclusion pending that further research. Discrepancies due to the conceptual versus phenomenological viewpoints aside, our investigation throughout this chapter has revealed significant corroboration between our interpretation of Gerhard's concept of *theologia* in the *Prooemium* and the study of that *theologia* as laid out in the *Methodus*. In conclusion, that high level of corroboration would seem to validate the conclusions drawn in the previous chapter regarding Gerhard's concept of *theologia*.

Conclusion

Gerhard is a difficult man to place. He is often interpreted differently depending on which ‘part’ of him the historian wishes to concentrate on. Some would tend to underscore his focus on faith and piety and interpret him as a ‘Proto-Pietist,’ while others tend to emphasize his concern for dogma and pure doctrine and interpret him as a ‘Dead Orthodoxist.’ And, in fact, these two approaches reflect to a certain extent a shift in Lutheran theological culture that existed during Gerhard’s own time, a part of which included a shift in the conceptualization of *theologia*. As with nearly all shifts in history, this one was also characterized by a certain tension that came to the fore in the controversy over the use of the Aristotelian concept of *habitus* to define *theologia*. The increasingly common practice among Lutheran theologians in the first decades of the seventeenth century to describe *theologia* as a theological *habitus* corresponded to the increasing academization and secularization¹ of the concept of *theologia* or, at least, that was the fear. And this was often accompanied by a professionalization of *theologia* that, in turn, exacerbated that fear of a despiritualized *theologia*. Hence, the shift was from a conceptualization of *theologia* that placed an emphasis on personal faith and faith-*praxis* to one that conceived of it as an academic discipline and focused on professional *praxis*.

We have intentionally used the language of ‘shift’ throughout this study realizing that earlier conceptualizations of theology were probably more professionally oriented and later theological studies more personally oriented than one might at first give them credit for. Nonetheless, it seems justified to speak of a gradual shift toward the professionalization of *theologia* and theological studies (as long as one does not fully equate this with the ‘professional studies’ offerings in the educational field today). Luther was very concerned with pastoral practice as evidenced in nearly all of his works, from the 95 Theses to his catechisms. Nonetheless, his original advice with regard to ‘the right way to study theology’ was especially oriented toward the private study and faith edification of the ordinary Christian and differs significantly from later proposals for theological study that were intentionally tied to the university and aimed at the training of the professional theologian.

In retrospect, we have seen that Gerhard’s theological *habitus* θεόσδοτος is an effort to navigate between the prevailing positions of his time and in it he includes elements from both the old and new. His is a position that seeks to heed and even solidify the legacy inherited from the reformers, but in a creative and innovative way that not only renders his concept of *theologia* quite unique, but also contradicts the common caricature of the ‘Age of Orthodoxy’ as unnecessarily stilted and unresponsive to a changing world. This being said, it seems that Gerhard is open to being interpreted in different ways precisely because he stands in the middle of this

1 See ch. 2, fn. 50, for an explanation of this term.

shift. Consequently, there is a need for clarification and precision with regard to Gerhard's theological thought, a need which this study has attempted to satisfy at least to a certain extent with regard to one aspect of his thinking. Our purpose, therefore, throughout the pages above has been to more closely analyze Gerhard's understanding of the nature of *theologia* and its consequent study to determine precisely how they reflect his transitional position in history.

Defining and delineating this precise profile of his particular conceptualization of *theologia* has, in many ways, been fraught with potential pitfalls. One such pitfall that we have attempted to avoid is that of unfairly caricaturing the views of other theologians in an effort to distinguish them from those of Gerhard. Doing so would lead to anachronistic and over-simplified interpretations of the very seventeenth century theologians whom this study has hoped to exonerate, at least in some small way.

One strategy of avoiding this has been the deep analysis of the writings (e.g., the definitions of *theologia*) from these other theologians. This has allowed us to draw certain conclusions that have sharpened Gerhard's profile and distinguished his particular contribution to the conversation about the nature of *theologia*. These analyses, as such, are necessarily focused on the *ideal* of *theologia* and therefore admittedly limited in scope. In other words, this study did not set out to analyze the actual day to day *practice* of *theologia*. Focused studies on the actual experience of studying theology during the aforementioned shift, as well as the historical and political factors that occasioned that shift, provide a helpful complement to the present study (among others, see Schorn-Schütte 1996; Tolley 1995; Kaufmann 1997; Burnett 2006; Strom 1999; Maag 1995; Appold 2004; 2008, Kolb 2008).

This notwithstanding, to separate so readily the ideal from the actual, that is, theory from practice and doctrine from life, would also seem to be anachronistically forcing somewhat of a modern phenomenon on those same seventeenth century theologians (see similar concerns of Appold 2004:6–8). They surely did not view their systematic works, including their definitions of *theologia*, as empty exercises disconnected from reality. For them, doctrine was never 'dead' as modern caricatures of the 'Age of Orthodoxy' would have us believe. Rather, they believed firmly that such works both shaped and reflected daily practice in very real ways. And they did. In the definitions of *theologia* proposed by the various theologians, we become privy to the 'self-perception' of the Protestant pastor as an emerging and developing social group within the larger German society at the time (see Nieten 2006:3, 8; Schorn-Schütte 1996). This self-perception of the Protestant pastors and theologians, that is, their perception of their own particular identity and role in society, had a normalizing effect on the development and eventual conventionalization of the pastoral profession within seventeenth century society. In this very real way, the ideal (i.e., definitions of *theologia*) both affected, as well as reflected, the actual (i.e., social status of the early modern Protestant pastor and theologian), though it was certainly not the only factor involved. In addition, the inter-university and even inter-confessional dialogue occasioned by the 'working out' of these statements of

faith played an important role in bridging any gap between doctrine and life. In this way, such doctrinal statements were, at least to a certain extent, 'social products' and their illocutionary force and perlocutionary effect should be considered alongside their locutionary role as simple statements (Appold 2004:7–8). This is especially evident, for example, in the definition of *theologia* proposed and defended by Evenius and Kotzebue and the *habitus* controversy that erupted as a direct result of it. Hence, there remains a need to understand more clearly such statements as Gerhard's carefully crafted definition of *theologia*, precisely because of its relation and connection to actual seventeenth century day to day life.

According to our analysis, Gerhard does indeed describe *theologia* as a *habitus* and, as such, he would seem to depict it as an academic pursuit. In fact, he seems to view the theological *habitus* as the mind's 'suitability' to understand the divine mysteries as revealed in Scripture. However, we have contended also, along with Wallmann (1961), that he equates this theological *habitus* with 'faith-knowledge' and, thus, an integral part of the single faith-event. Consequently, *theologia* is inseparable from saving faith. The relation between the two is not simply incidental, but essential and constitutive to any pursuit of *theologia*. Gerhard's concept of *theologia* cannot accommodate a *theologia non renatorum*.

Our analysis also clarifies the relation he posits between *theologia* and *pietas*. In response to inaccurate caricatures of Gerhard (and other 'orthodox' theologians) as dogmatists unduly preoccupied with doctrinal treatises and indifferent to the pastoral concerns of their parishioners, a great deal of current research is engaged in unveiling the pastoral nature of Gerhard's works (see, e.g., Steiger 1996b, 1997). This is an understandable and necessary corrective to previous inaccurate and wholly unfair depictions of seventeenth century theologians such as Gerhard. It is interesting to note, however, that this concern of modern historians tends to emphasize the pastoral and, hence, *professional* dimension of Gerhard's thinking. In a somewhat ironic twist, some (e.g., Cramer) during Gerhard's time were very concerned that a professionalized *theologia* focusing primarily on the pastoral needs of the parishioner (e.g., preaching, teaching, refuting) would inevitably result in the neglect of personal piety. As mentioned above, the fear was that a *professionalized theologia* would give rise to a *despiritualized theologia*. To what extent this fear was or was not realized in subsequent generations is another topic altogether and one worthy of continued research in light of false impressions about the 'Age of Orthodoxy.' But, the point here is that Gerhard's concept of *theologia* is responsive to this concern as well, and he connects personal *pietas* inseparably to his theological *habitus*. He does so, however, while attempting to preserve the integrity of the serious intellectual pursuit that *theologia* entails. Faith-knowledge and faith-praxis remain distinct and constitute two 'poles,' so to speak, of the Christian life. Notwithstanding, as the theological *habitus* is 'actualized' those poles are connected inseparably by *fiducia*, which stands between them as the 'end' of *theologia* and the 'font' of *pietas*.

Finally, our analysis has also clarified the relation between the personal and professional dimensions of *theologia*. The efforts of historians to destigmatize Gerhard of unfair caricatures are by all means commendable; nonetheless, such efforts may be open to underestimating the Jena professor's insistence on personal devotion and spirituality as the foundation for any and all professional application of *theologia*. Gerhard's theological *habitus* is not primarily the professional ability to effectively teach others, refute falsehood, or otherwise pastor a congregation. He certainly does not dismiss such professorial and pastoral skills. In fact, quite to the contrary, they form an important part of his final definition of *theologia*, but only insofar as they stem from the foundational and primary end of *theologia* which is none other than the edification of personal faith and faith-*praxis*. It would seem that even the study advice in the *Methodus* aimed explicitly at the development of the professional theologian supports this contention that, according to Gerhard, professional *praxis* is founded on personal faith-*praxis*. This is integral to what the Jena professor means when he qualifies *theologia* as *practica*.

In striking a path between the two conceptualizations of *theologia*, Gerhard's contribution remains unique. Of course, it goes without saying that in doing so his position also becomes rather precarious because the two prevailing positions were not just different, but in essence antithetical (especially in theory, but also in practice if one takes care to not so readily divorce the two – see comments above). In other words, they do not easily mix.

On the one hand, the pursuit of *theologia* as faith-*praxis* increasingly entailed exercises of piety, often mystical in nature (e.g., Johann Arndt's *Four Books On True Christianity*), that focused on personal faith development. It emphasized the will vis-à-vis the intellect. Such a scenario could give rise, as it did, to deemphasizing the value of theological knowledge and the serious intellectual pursuit of that knowledge. This was a matter of deep concern for theologians seeking to preserve a theological heritage while also fending off attacks from other confessions. Of course, there was also the firm conviction, held by many at this time, that a faith without a knowledge base would be quickly overrun. Additionally, such a *theologia* simply did not jibe well with an emerging and developing pastoral profession that was increasingly connected with specialized graduate level studies at the university. How then does one maintain *theologia* as a matter of faith without falling into the extreme of anti-intellectualism and rendering theology a mere ethical pursuit?

On the other hand, the pursuit of *theologia* as academic discipline entailed increasingly serious academic exercises and considerable effort and skill on the part of the student. It emphasized the intellect vis-à-vis the will. If one responded by depicting *theologia* simultaneously as faith, as Gerhard does, then one inevitably risked connecting such human effort and skill with saving faith. How then does one depict the theological endeavor as an intellectually serious pursuit and at the same time avoid the error of transforming it into a synergistic achievement? In retro-

spect, the 'safest' way to do so is to distance personal faith from that endeavor and make it a professional skill focused on the salvation of others.

But Gerhard refrains from doing so. That *theologia* is a *habitus* and, therefore, essentially a matter of knowledge distances him from any anti-intellectualism. His qualification of *theologia* as mostly *practica* renders any theological pursuit a matter of personal faith and faith *praxis*, which only secondarily gives rise to professional *praxis*. And his qualification of *theologia* as θεόδοτος, including both the source and the mental operation of *theologia*, attempts to belay the concern over synergism.

Has he succeeded in finding a feasible way to synthesize the two conceptualizations of *theologia*? What we know in retrospect is that, with only a few exceptions (e.g., Johann Hulsemann; see Nieden 2006:213–215), later Lutheran theologians decline to follow in Gerhard's footsteps, but increasingly treat *theologia* as an academic, professional discipline and shy away from depicting faith as an integral, inherent, and necessary part of the theological enterprise per se.

We must reiterate at this point what was said earlier. This should not be interpreted as a move toward the ossification of dogma at the expense of vibrant devotion and spirituality. Our intent here has not been to caricature unfairly Gerhard's contemporaries or the generations that followed. Of course, none of them would have viewed it as a good thing for a theologian to carry out his office without faith or without living a godly life. If subsequent generations of theologians remained open to the possibility, in theory, of a *theologia non renatorum*, they surely did not see it as ideal in any way and spent significant time and effort in creating study programs to avoid it. Notwithstanding, it remains true that faith and piety cease to be essential and necessary to their definitions and, hence, conceptualizations of *theologia* and the study thereof.

We might ask in conclusion why Gerhard's particular understanding of *theologia* as *habitus* θεόδοτος goes extinct. There are, no doubt, a multitude of reasons that we cannot explore here. One may be worth noting, however. As others (Nieden 2006:241–242; Sparr 1992:77–78) have pointed out, the professionalization of *theologia* was accompanied by a growing amount of doctrinal knowledge to be mastered by the advanced theological student. One notices this even in the Jena professor's advice for advanced theological study. It is difficult to imagine that the amount and level of academic work required to complete the 'course' of study in the *Methodus* could still be depicted as a mere passive receptive operation. Yet Gerhard's qualified *habitus* θεόδοτος would have it so, even if he must adjust it significantly to make it so. His particular concept of *habitus* then seems to have strayed significantly from the accepted philosophical definition. In order to embrace both the former tradition (*theologia* as faith) and the newer understanding (*theologia* as academic discipline), his definition becomes noticeably cumbersome and somewhat unwieldy when compared to those of other theologians. In fact, his concept of *habitus* may very well have become so loaded with foreign signification that it be-

comes virtually unrecognizable and is, therefore, set aside by later generations. In retrospect, it simply could not accommodate the changing status of the clergy as an increasingly educated and professionalized social group.

Nevertheless, his concept of *theologia* still provides the historian (and perhaps also the modern theologian) with an example of one seventeenth century theologian's attempt to reconcile the inherent tension within the theological endeavor between spirituality and scholarship and to bring together in a responsible and faithful way those two enduring aspects of theology – the monastic and the scholastic. In so doing, he seems to provide at least one possible solution for conflicting views of the 'Age of Orthodoxy.' Precisely in rendering the intellect and the will inseparable in the theological endeavor, Gerhard has succeeded in reuniting doctrine, faith, and piety. When applied to the self, as he insisted, and to the parishioner, as he would also have it, that then translates into a reuniting of Gerhard the 'dogmatician,' Gerhard the 'proto-pietist,' and Gerhard the 'spiritual caregiver,' a division that has plagued Gerhard studies for the last few centuries.

Zusammenfassung (Summary)

In seinem Geleitwort zu dieser historisch-theologischen Doktorarbeit macht Robert Kolb darauf aufmerksam, dass die Wittenberger Reformation eine Neubestimmung des Christseins an den Tag brachte: Gott kommt auf sündige Menschen zu und schafft sie durch sein Wort neu zu seinen Kindern. Im Zeitalter der Orthodoxie verbanden lutherische Theologen die wissenschaftlichen Maßstäbe und die Tagesordnung ihrer Zeit mit einem Glauben und einer Frömmigkeit, die die Theologie auf ihr eigentliches Ziel lenkte, die Betätigung des Glaubens und das kirchliche Dienstamt. Johann Gerhard schuf diese Verbindung, die seine Nachfolger aufgriffen.

Glenn Fluegge untersucht in seiner Doktorarbeit, die im Jahr 2015 von der Theologischen Fakultät der Universität Pretoria angenommen wurde, das Konzept und Programm von Theologie bzw. Theologiestudium oder „theologischer Ausbildung“, das Johann Gerhard (1582–1637), der Hauptvertreter der frühen lutherischen Orthodoxie, entwickelt hat. Sein Interesse erwuchs aus seinem eigenen Unterrichten an verschiedenen theologischen Ausbildungsstätten in Afrika und Nordamerika. Ihm ging es darum, für die heutige Zeit eine Grundlage für theologische Ausbildung zu beschreiben, in der der Reichtum an Einsichten der ersten drei Generationen reformatorischer Theologie Wittenberger Prägung aufgehoben und für künftige Konzeptualisierungen fruchtbar gemacht werden kann. Dabei gehören für den Verfasser das Wesen der Theologie („What is Theology?“, 21) und das Studium der Theologie unauflöslich zusammen. Der Frage, wie jemand zum Theologen wird, („How to make a Theologian“, Titel dieses Buches) ist deshalb die vorliegende Untersuchung in erster Linie gewidmet. Dass für den Gegenstand der Untersuchung die Wahl auf Johann Gerhard fiel, liegt an dessen prominenter Stellung in der Ahnenreihe hoch angesehener Vertreter lutherischer Theologie und Kirche.

Fluegge greift zu Problembeschreibung auf Oswald Bayers Feststellung zurück, dass Luthers Konzept von Theologie in der Spannung zwischen Glauben und Verstehen, Frömmigkeit und Wissenschaft steht, eine Spannung die nach Fluegge die Geschichte lutherischer Theologie und Kirche durchzieht (24). Die Befassung mit Johann Gerhard fungiert dabei als Fallstudie in mikrohistorischer Absicht, um die bestehende „Makrohistorien“ frühmodernen Luthertums und Protestantismus zu klären, abzugleichen und anzureichern (25). Dabei geht es um Korrekturen am Bild eines angeblich „erstarrten Dogmatismus“, um das Beieinander von Dogmatik, Seelsorge und Mystik im Bild Gerhards, und dies eben gerade an der Miteinander von „Glauben“ oder „Frömmigkeit“ und „Wissenschaftlichkeit“ im Theologiekonzept Gerhards selber (26f.). Dabei widmet sich der Verfasser besonders den Fragen, inwiefern Theologie als „habitus“ zu verstehen, wie das Verhältnis zwischen Theologie, Glaube und Frömmigkeit zu bestimmen sei und wie das Verständnis von Theologie sich in seinen Handlungsanweisungen für Theologen zeige (28).

Methodisch berücksichtigt Fluegge vier Zusammenhänge (30f.), die Textebene selbst („textual context“), andere Schriften Gerhards („literary context“), seine Zeitgenossenschaft („contemporary context“) und den größeren geschichtlichen Zusammenhang („historical context“). Zudem analysiert er sorgfältig die unterschiedlichen Dimensionen seiner Definition von „*theologia*“ (31f.), wenn Gerhard sie als „*habitus*“, und zwar „*θεόδοτος*“ und überdies „*practica*“ bestimmt, um schließlich eine Anwendung im „*Methodus studii theologici*“ zu untersuchen.

Einer Untersuchung der Verwendung des Begriffs „*habitus*“ im geschichtlichen Zusammenhang der Reformation ist der erste Hauptteil gewidmet (II *Habitus in the historical context of the Reformation*, 36–58). Dabei arbeitet Flueggé heraus, dass Gerhard auf aristotelische Konzepte zurückgreift, die über Melancthon in die zweite Generation lutherischer Theologie hinein vermittelt wurden (36–50). Im Blick auf die (lutherische) Reformation und ihre Vorgänger ergibt sich ein breiteres Bild, angefangen bei Augustin über Thomas zu Luther (50–58). Dabei ist bemerkenswert, dass Luthers Verwendung von „*habitus*“ „fast ausschließlich negativ“ ist (54), und zwar aufgrund seiner Ablehnung scholastischer Konzepte, in denen ein „*habitus*“ semi-pelagianischer Tendenzen verdächtig ist (56f.). Eine nächste Generation behielt, wie an Gerhard zu zeigen ist, die anti-synergistischen Impulse Luthers bei, konnte aber an Melancthons Verwendung der Sache anknüpfen (58).

Auf diesem Hintergrund erscheint auch die Wiedereinführung von Begriff und Sache des „*habitus*“ möglich (60–70), wenngleich dieser Prozess nicht konfliktfrei verlief, dies gilt besonders von Magdeburg (65–70): Es wurde befürchtet, dass die Verwendung des „*habitus*“-Paradigmas das reformatorische „*sola fide*“ untergraben könnte (68). In diesem Klima entwickelte Gerhard seine Vorstellung von Theologie, nicht ohne dabei notwendige Korrekturen an der Verwendung dieses Paradigmas vorzunehmen (69f.).

Dabei ist auch die kontroverstheologische Situation zu Beginn des 17. Jahrhunderts zu beachten. Gerhard findet sich in ständiger Auseinandersetzung mit Bellarmin. Im Horizont der Debatte um die reformatorische Auffassung von der Rechtfertigung bestreitet Gerhard, dass der Glaube einen „*habitus infusus*“ darstelle, denn dann würde der Glaube zu einer leeren Größe, die erst in der Liebe zur Gestalt käme (71f.). es erhebt sich freilich die Frage, inwieweit Gerhard dann „*habitus*“ als Bestimmungsgröße für Theologie verwenden konnte.

Die Antwort ergibt sich aus der wissenschaftstheoretischen Zeitgenossenschaft: Es waren die neo-aristotelischen Rahmenbedingungen des theologischen Diskurses seiner Zeit, die es nahelegten, sich dieser Begrifflichkeit zu bedienen. Als eine Art „Wissen“ oder „Weisheit“ konnte Gerhard Theologie also als „*habitus*“ bestimmen, weil er als Voraussetzung des Verstehens als existent angenommen werden konnte und musste (75–80). Daraus ergibt sich, dass eine solche Bestimmung die Entwicklung zur Verwissenschaftlichung der Theologie in Gerhards Zeit und Werk spiegelte (80f.).

Der zweite Hauptteil (III *Theologia as Habitus Theosdotos*, 83–111) befasst sich mit Gerhards Bestimmung der Theologie als „*habitus θεόσδοτος*“. Dabei ist die Entscheidung, ob es sich bei Theologie um „*scientia*“ oder „*sapientia*“ zu fällen. Gerhard optiert für ein – freilich notwendigerweise modifiziertes – sapientiales Verständnis von Theologie, muss es aber von einer rein philosophischen Definition abgrenzen, wenn und weil solcher „Wissenschaft“ oder auch „Weisheit“ im aristotelischen Sinn zu sehr natürliche menschliche Möglichkeiten als Voraussetzung dienen. Stattdessen bemüht Gerhard eine enge Beziehung zwischen Theologie und Glauben, und zwar eben mithilfe der Kategorie des „*habitus θεόσδοτος*“ (86). Dabei handelt es sich um eine terminologische und sachliche Neuschöpfung, die eben seinen Intentionen entspricht. Die Gott-Gegebenheit dieses „*habitus*“ weil Theologie in Gerhards Verständnis schrift-gegründet ist; die Schrift ist ihre ausschließliche Quelle und in der Tat selbst gott-gegeben. (86f.)

In dieses Konzept gehen nun auch erkenntnistheoretische Implikationen ein (89–104). Auch hierbei ist ein aristotelischer Hintergrund zu berücksichtigen (89–93). Mit dem Grundsatz, dass es die Heilige Schrift ist, die als eigentlich handelndes Subjekt die

Einsicht des Lesers bestimmt, findet Gerhard, indem er auf Scaligers Erkenntnistheorie zurückgreift, eine reformatorisch anschlussfähige Lösung. Demnach bewirkt Gott der Heilige Geist mittels der Schrift die für die Erkenntnis erforderliche „*adaequatio*“ zwischen den göttlichen Mysterien und dem menschlichen Verstand (97, 100). Auf diese Weise sichert Gerhard auch epistemologisch das „extra nos“. Freilich ist der menschliche Verstand bei diesem Vorgang, den Gerhard „Erleuchtung“ nennt, weder ausgeschaltet, noch wird er übergangen; allerdings verhält er sich rein passiv (101f.). Solche „Erleuchtung“ ist erforderlich, um „die ganze Schrift und alle ihre Teile in heilsamer Weise zu deuten“; Daher ist jede Art von Schriftinterpretation, die ohne den heiligen Geist vorgehen wollte, illegitim (103).

Die Schrift bzw. das Wort Gottes wird von Gerhard jedenfalls als „Gnadenmittel“ verstanden; diese Position hat Gerhard im Rahtmannschen Streit behauptet (104–110). Hier stellt er gegen den Dualismus von Geist und Schrift bzw. Wort bei dem Danziger Pfarrer die Untrennbarkeit von „innerem“ und „äußerem Wort“ fest, ohne beide schlankweg zu identifizieren (105). Die Schrift ist eben dasjenige Licht, das die Erleuchtung bringt. So ist der von Gerhard intendierte „*habitus*“ nicht Besitz des Menschen, sondern stellt sich ein bei und durch unentwegtes Lesen, Meditieren und Erforschen des Wortes Gottes begleitet vom Gebet um den heiligen Geist; er ergibt sich sozusagen „katabatisch“ (107f.). Auch fällt die Schrift nicht dichotomisch in eine Erkenntnisquelle und ein Gnadenmittel auseinander (108). Vielmehr eignet ihr sakramentale Art, in der ihre Wirksamkeit eingeschlossen ist (110). Die Gott-Gegebenheit des „*habitus*“ meint demnach sowohl eine geistige Erkenntnis als auch rechtfertigenden Glauben. Insofern ist er auch „praktisch“.

Der dritte Hauptteil (IV Theologia as Practica, 112–146) untersucht den Praxis-Aspekt im Gerhardschen Theologiebegriff. Dieser Praxis-Aspekt ist jedoch von modernem Pragmatismus-Verständnis deutlich zu unterscheiden, ebenso von einer Spaltung zwischen „Theorie“ und „Praxis“ (113f.). Der Praxis-Bezug in Gerhards Theologieverständnis liegt darin, dass sie ein Ziel außerhalb ihrer selbst verfolgt, nämlich die Rettung des Theologen selbst, oder derer, denen er dienend zugeordnet ist (114f.). Der Jenaer Professor steht hier auf den Schultern der ersten reformatorischen Generation, die ein rein kontemplatives oder spekulatives Theologieverständnis ablehnten (115–117).

So trägt Gerhards Theologieverständnis durchaus einen starken „Praxis“-Akzent: Ihr Ziel ist „*pietas*“, Frömmigkeit, nicht bloßes Wissen, die letztlich auf die Verehrung und somit Verherrlichung Gottes aus ist (117–124). Eine Näherbestimmung von Begriff und Sache der „*pietas*“ geht dahin, dass sie im Gehorsam gegen die erste wie die zweite Tafel des Gesetzes Gottes im Sinn von Liebe zu Gott und Dienst am Nächsten besteht. Gerhard bezieht sich hierbei auf den 1. Timotheusbrief und nimmt dabei augenscheinlich Bezug auf Luthers Erklärungen des Dekalogs im Kleinen und Großen Katechismus indem er Rechtfertigung und Heiligung unterscheidet, aber nicht voneinander scheidet. Frömmigkeit in Gerhards Verständnis ist also nicht bloß auf ein gutes Betragen frommes Verhalten bezogen; es schließt vielmehr die theo-logisch vorausgehenden inneren Herzensbewegungen mit ein. (124–128). Gleichwohl sind solche „Frömmigkeit“ und „Theologie“ nicht einfach identisch.

Während für Luther im Gegensatz zum herrschenden scholastischen Aristotelismus Theologie in der „*vita passiva*“ des Glaubenden gründete, scheint Gerhards Fassung von Theologie als „praxis-orientiert“ dem Wittenberger Reformator zu widersprechen (129). Fluege stellt jedoch einen Bedeutungswandel vom 16. Zum 17. Jahrhundert fest, inmitten dessen Gerhard sein Konzept von Theologie entwickelt (129f.) Zur Klärung des Sachver-

halts führt Fluegge die Differenzierungsbegriffe „Auto-praxis“ und „Allo-praxis“ ein (130f.). Gerhard bemüht dabei Analogien aus der Medizin, der es gleichfalls um Befreiung (von Krankheit) und Bewahrung (von Gesundheit) zu tun sei. So verbinden sich bei ihm Auto-praxis und Allo-praxis in der Weise, dass zunächst die Anwendung von „Theologie“ auf den Theologen selbst erfolgen muss, bevor er sie zu Anwendung für anderen nutzen kann (132). Dem entspricht Gerhards Bestreben, die theologische Arbeit in der Verfolgung eines persönlich frommen, christusgemäßen Lebens zu verankern (133). Damit stand Gerhard in seiner Zeit freilich nicht allein, wie das Beispiel Johann Arndts zeigt. Allerdings ist die Betonung des persönlichen Glaubenslebens des Theologen bei ihm besonders ausgeprägt (133), richtet sich eine derart verankerte Theologie immer auch auf die Gemeindeglieder (135). Ein rein auf Allo-praxis“ gerichtetes Verständnis von Theologie lehnt Gerhard hingegen ab; denn dann bestünde die Möglichkeit, wenn nicht Gefahr einer „*theologia non renatorum*“ (137). Schließlich zeigt sich, dass Gerhard in der Tat das Konzept des 16. Jahrhunderts, in dem das „Auto-praxis“-Motiv überwog, und das mehr auf „Allo-praxis“ gerichtet Konzept des 17. Jahrhunderts miteinander kombiniert (138).

Im Nachgang zu den Einsichten Luthers und Melancthons übernimmt Gerhard deren Ansätze in der Bestimmung des Wortes Gottes als performativer Größe (139f.). Durch die Schrift adressiert Gott seine Menschen, sodass über Gott und Mensch nur in relationalen Kategorien gesprochen werden kann. Da die Schrift als Wort Gottes Glauben schafft, muss dieser grundlegen alle theologischen Bemühungen durchdringen (142). Doch gilt auch, dass die Worte der Heiligen Schrift in Gesetz und Evangelium als „*signa exhibitiva*“ in sich die Macht zur Bekehrung haben, doch deren heilsame Wirkung nicht immer eintritt (143f.). Wo sich solche Wirkung aber findet, wirkt sie weit darüber hinaus in guten Werken und frommem Leben. Denn im Wort ist der Heilige Geist gegenwärtig und am Werk. Er bewirkt auch eine effektive Wandlung von Sinn und Wille des Menschen, die also so – von Gottes Geist! – gewandelte mit dem Heiligen Geist zusammenwirken im Tun des guten (144).

Solcher Praxis-Orientierung im Wirken des Geistes Gottes entspricht der „praktische Zweck“ – Frömmigkeit“ einer eben „*theologia practica*“. In dieser Bestimmung liegt die Einzigartigkeit des Gerhardschen Theologieverständnisses (145f.).

Im vierten Hauptteil (V Defining *Theologia*, 147–192) analysiert Fluegge Gerhards Definition von „*theologia*“, wie sie sich in seinem Prooemium § 31 findet (der lateinische Wortlaut 147). Zunächst wird eine Einordnung der Gerhardschen Definition im zeitgenössischen Kontext vorgenommen (148–152): Das Spezifikum seines Ansatzes liegt darin, dass er Theologie eben nicht nur als eine akademische Disziplin oder als die professionelle Tätigkeit des Theologen begreift, sondern sie nahe an den Glaubensbegriff heranrückt (151). Fluegge unternimmt es, gegen die divergierenden Interpretationen eine spannungsvolle Einheit in Gerhards Theologiebegriff zu erheben (152–192).

Fluegge untersucht dabei, wie Gerhard sich den Vorgang von „*theologia*“ im Theologen denkt. Zur Darstellung helfen ihm instruktive Schaubilder (153, 180, 186). Zunächst definiert Gerhard seinen „*habitus*“ als „Eignung des Geistes für Göttliches“ (154–158). Eben diese „Eignung“ besteht freilich in nicht anderem als im „Glauben“ (158f.). Der Jenenser Theologe greift dabei auf Luthers Glaubensbegriff zurück, indem er dessen grundsätzliche Bestimmung als Relation und Rezeptivität übernimmt (159–161).

Allerdings wird die akademische Eigenart von Theologie dabei nicht abgewertet. So gehört die professionelle Ausrichtung und Umsetzung von Theologie integral zu Begriff und Sache hinzu (165). Vorausgesetzt ist jedenfalls – auch und gerade für den akademisch arbeitenden Theologen –, dass er selbst einen heilsamen Umgang mit der Schrift pflegt

(166). Sodann folgt die „praktische“ Dimension, insofern „*theologia*“ ein Wissen umfasst, das sich in Glauben und guten Werken ausagiert (168). Gerhard schreibt dem Glauben drei Dimensionen zu: Vertrauen, das freilich Glaubenserkenntnis einschließt (171f.).

Demnach muss seine Auffassung von Theologie gegen drei „moderne Missverständnisse“ abgesichert werden (173–177). Das erste besteht in der grundsätzlichen Trennung zwischen Vertrauensglauben und Glaubenserkenntnis, das zweite in der Trennung von historischem und rechtfertigendem Glauben – da der Glaube eben nicht ableitbar ist von Vernunftprinzipien –, das dritte darin, „natürliches“ Wissen als „Sprungbrett“ im theologischen Verfahren aufzufassen. Damit einher geht die enge Verbindung, die Gerhard zwischen „reiner Lehre“ und „wahrer Frömmigkeit“ gegeben sieht (177–182). Für beide bildet der Glaube eine Schnittmenge (179, vgl. Figur 2, 180). Die Auswirkungen solch glaubens-gegründeter Theologie bestehen darin, dass das theologische Verstehen durch stetige Besinnung überführt wird in authentisches christliches Handeln (183f.).

Der dreifach aufgefächerte Theologiebegriff (184–189, vgl. Figur 3, 186) lässt dann zu, dass zunächst alle Christen als Theologen qualifiziert werden (187). Diese Sicht liegt darin begründet, dass für Gerhard die Grenzen zwischen dem „Theologen“, dem „Amtsträger“ und dem „Christen“ durchlässig sind, so dass alle drei grundsätzlich dasselbe theologische Verfahren befolgen (187). Zudem ist zu beachten, dass er die Eigen-Orientierung als grundlegend für die Fremd-Orientierung von Theologie ansieht (188). Schließlich gilt, dass auch das wissenschaftlich-theologische Verfahren des Akademikers immer eine Sache von Glaubenspraxis ist (189). Daraus folgt, dass für den Professor in Jena eben diese auf andere gerichteten Tätigkeiten als Ziel bzw. Ergebnis des theologischen Geschäfts erscheinen, die persönliche Aneignung des Glaubens aber immer den Mittelpunkt seiner Auffassung von Theologie als „*habitus*“ bildet (189f.). Insofern ist professionelles Vorgehen immer auch und zunächst integraler Bestandteil der Glaubenspraxis (192).

Im fünften Hauptteil (VI Implementation of *Theologia*, 193–227) erörtert Fluegge Gerhards Anschauungen über das Studium der Theologie. Dabei konzentriert er sich auf die „*Methodus studii theologici*“, die einer Vorlesungsreihe des jungen Jenenser Professors von 1617 entsprang (193). Fluegge sucht dabei Unterstützung für seine bisherige Darlegung von Gerhards Theologieverständnis (194). Die sachliche Übereinstimmung dieser frühen Ausführungen mit dem späteren, reflektierten Konzept von Theologie ist bemerkenswert. Theologie und Frömmigkeit können auch beim frühen Johann Gerhard nicht voneinander getrennt werden (199f.). Persönliches Wachstum im Glauben und frommes Handeln stehen an erster Stelle; doch geht damit zugleich eine fremd-orientierte, „professionelle“ Definition einher (200). Auch hier sind Parallelen zu seinen späteren Bestimmungen unübersehbar (201). Als „Glaubenserkenntnis“ stellt sich Theologie wohl als ein geistiges Bemühen dar, das jedoch nie von persönlichem Glauben getrennt werden kann. Und insofern sind die Theologie des „Laien“ und des „Akademikers“ im Wesentlichen gleich (202).

Für das Studium der Theologie benennt Gerhard drei unabdingbare Voraussetzungen: Die rechte Intention, das aufrichtige Bemühen um Frömmigkeit und andächtiges Gebet (204). Gerhard schließt hier an Luthers berühmte Trias von „*oratio, meditatio, tentatio*“ an, die er als konstitutiv für die theologische Existenz ansieht (205). Das Gebet fungiert als Eingeständnis der eigenen Ungeeignetheit und als Bitte um das göttliche Eingreifen (207), wodurch „Theologie“ als ein primär rezeptives Geschehen qualifiziert wird (208). Die rechte Intention wiederum besteht darin, die Ehre Gottes, die Erbauung der Kirche und das eigene sowie das Heil anderer zu suchen (209f.). Das aufrichtige Bemühen um

Frömmigkeit nun stellt nicht eine Voraussetzung für das Studium der Theologie dar, sondern erweist sich als Merkmal des Theologen (211–213). Theologische Erkenntnis, innere Bewegungen und Taten der Frömmigkeit sind darin unauflöslich miteinander verknüpft; unmittelbar geht es hier also um die theologische Existenz des Theologen selbst, mittelbar freilich betrifft sie auch die Hörer bzw. Adressaten (212f.).

Der Gang des Studiums (213–218) enthält in fünf Jahren unterschiedliche Elemente und Stadien – exegetische, systematische, polemische, homiletische und pastorale, nicht zuletzt historische, auch wenn die Einteilung in Disziplinen so fest noch nicht vorliegt (216) – die Gerhard mit Luthers Begriff der „*meditatio*“ bündeln kann. Philosophische und philologische Kenntnisse haben darin nur eine dienende Funktion; so nützlich und notwendig sie auch sein mögen; eine konstitutive oder wesentliche Rolle spielen sie jedoch nicht; dasselbe gilt für homiletische Fertigkeiten oder Fähigkeiten in der Diskussion (214).

Gleichwohl – und trotz aller deutlicher Unterschiede zu modernen Zugangsweisen, bei denen die Techniken zu Begriff und Sache der Theologie zu gehören scheinen – geht es im „*Methodus*“ um die Ausbildung in professioneller, akademischer Theologie (215). Aber selbst die ausdrücklich akademischen Übungen dienen letztlich der Vergewisserung der Schriftwahrheit (216). Hier bildet „*meditatio*“ in einem breiten Verständnis grundlegend auf die Schrift bezogen und wesentlich auf die Erbauung des Glaubens und das fromme Handeln ausgerichtet. Die scheinbare Spannung zwischen „*theologia*“ als Glauben und als akademischer Disziplin besteht für Gerhard gerade nicht, weil es sich in ihr um „Glaubenserkenntnis“ handelt, die in persönlichen Glauben und Frömmigkeit überführt wird (218).

Schließlich behandelt Gerhard aus Luthers Trias auch die „*tentatio*“ (219–227). Dazu gehören geistliches empfinden und Erfahrung, Geduld im Kreuz und Beharrung im Bemühen um Frömmigkeit (219). Die Anfechtung leistet den erforderlichen Transfer vom „Verstehen“ zum „Wollen“, also zur „Verinnerlichung“ der Glaubenserkenntnis im Sinn einer Erbauung des Theologen (222); sie stellt somit eine Art Selbst-Anwendung von Theologie auf den Theologen dar (223f.), die ihn instand setzt, eine Anwendung auf die Hörer vorzunehmen; dies geschieht mittels Lehre, Zurechtweisung, Berichtigung, Unterweisung und Tröstung (224). Anfechtung geht jedenfalls über rein theoretische Einsichten hinaus und unterstreicht den prinzipiell „praktischen“ Charakter von Theologie (225f.). Insofern ist „*tentatio*“ eine notwendige Ergänzung, ja Vollendung des Studiums der Theologie (226).

Im Schlussteil (Conclusion, 228–233) betont Fluegge, dass Gerhards Verständnis von Theologie als „*habitus*“ einen Versuch darstellt, zwischen den auseinanderstrebenden Tendenzen seiner Zeit zu vermitteln und Ansätze des Reformationsjahrhunderts mit neuen Entwicklungen zu verbinden (228). Zugegebenermaßen handelt es sich im Ergebnis um ein Idealbild von Theologie, das aber geeignet ist, das Zerrbild von der „toten Orthodoxie“ zu korrigieren (229). Denn für Gerhard, wenn er denn exemplarisch für sein Zeitalter genommen werden kann, ist Theologie eine Funktion rettenden Glaubens, nämlich Glaubenserkenntnis als integraler Bestandteil des Glaubensvorgangs (230). Professionelle, akademische Theologie muss demnach nicht notwendigerweise ungeistlich sein.

Gerhards Beitrag zu diesem Komplex ist in gewisser Hinsicht eigen und einzigartig. Das Glaubensleben der Studenten gehört noch mit vermehrtem Bemühen um akademische Übungen und Fertigkeiten zusammen (231); eine Trennung beider Bereiche vollzieht der Jenenser Professor gerade nicht. Eben darin lag für nachfolgende Generationen eine Schwierigkeit, die sie nicht wirklich bewältigen konnten (232). Gleichwohl schlägt Flueg-

ge vor, den Ansatz Gerhards – nicht nur historisch – als Beispiel für die Integration von Spiritualität und Wissenschaftlichkeit zu betrachten (233). Dies stellt für unsere Zeit jedenfalls eine Horizonterweiterung dar, die Impulse für das Nachdenken über das Bilden von Theologen freisetzt (15f.).

Robert Kolb würdigt zu Recht, dass Glenn Fluegge mit seiner gründlichen Untersuchung zu Johann Gerhards Verständnis von Theologie ein Gespräch eröffnet hat, das weit über den Bereich der lutherischen Kirche hinaus, also auch ökumenisch, Impulse geben kann für das notwendige Nachdenken über Ausbildung und Arbeit von Pastoren im 21. Jahrhundert.

Prof. Dr. Werner Klän
Oberursel, 28.07.2017

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